

# THE TRANSFORMATION OF THE UPPER OHIO RIVER VALLEY

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## ABSTRACT

### **The Transformation of the Upper Ohio River Valley**

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European and white American conquest and settlement of the Upper Ohio River Valley during the second half of the eighteenth century transformed the region from Indian cultural domination to white American domination. The region's inhabitants, Lenapes, Shawnees, Senecas, and various other Indian nations, settled the Upper Ohio Valley during the first half of the century and brought their cultures to the region. White settlers soon followed. During this often violent period of frontier contact, whites borrowed from Indian culture to improve their frontier life, which created a hybrid, or frontier, culture. As the white population increased, they eventually displaced the region's Indian population. By 1810, the pervasiveness of white institutions completed the Upper Ohio River Valley's cultural transformation. White settlement, however, did not bring civilization to the Upper Ohio Valley, as Frederick Jackson Turner had asserted, because the Indians had already established a civilization. Instead, the Upper Ohio Valley frontier was a meeting place of different nations and cultures.

to everyone who inspired me

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## Note

Geographic dimensions of the Upper Ohio River Valley were an arbitrary decision and construct a parallelogram of sorts. The four corners, from east to west and south to north, are the vicinity of Bedford, Pennsylvania, the mouth of the Little Kanawha River (Parkersburg, WV), Cleveland, Ohio, and western New York state between the Finger Lakes and where the Allegheny River flows through New York.

Two technical issues should be addressed. Original spelling was retained from the original sources, with two exceptions. The antiquated English style of spelling “s” with “f” was changed to “[s]” for clarification. Additionally, when expedient, capitalization and tense were changed to fit the narrative without altering the author’s original intent. These changes are identified with brackets ([ ]). Secondly, dates were taken directly from the original sources, and were not altered in any form.

### Abbreviations used in Notes

CR - Colonial Records (Pennsylvania)

EJ - Executive Journals, Council of Colonial Virginia

EWT - Early Western Travels, 1748-1846

MPC - Minutes of the Provincial Council of Pennsylvania

PA - Pennsylvania Archives

PMHB - Pennsylvania Magazine of History and Biography

VMHB - Virginia Magazine of History and Biography

## Introduction

The frontier remains a topic of debate among historians. Americans traditionally viewed the frontier as the line that separated “civilization,” white culture, from the “savage wilderness,” Native American culture. Beginning with the first frontier along the Atlantic coast, the English settlers felt a cultural superiority toward the Indians that they encountered. Anglo-Americans continued to accept this belief as they expanded westward across the continent. Contemporary scholars, however, are in the process of revising this perception.

The term “frontier” has changed in meaning and in connotation over the course of the last two centuries. A modern dictionary included the traditional European definition as “a border between two countries.” A second, or American, definition for “frontier,” “a region that forms the margin of settled territory,” reflected the cultural bias that formed in the United States. The exact meaning of “frontier” and the question of its continued use is a source of debate among historians.<sup>1</sup>

Frederick Jackson Turner ignited the debate in 1893 with his monumental paper, “The Significance of the Frontier in American History,” where he proposed his frontier thesis. Turner defined the frontier as “the meeting point between savagery and civilization” and the “hither edge of free land,” where the conditions forced white men to remove “garments of civilization” and to act like Indians. He believed that white settlers slowly turned this “wilderness” into a civilized society. Turner used the accepted definitions of “civilization,” “a developed or advanced state of human society,” and “savagery,” “condition of being wild or uncivilized,” which made the two words antonyms.<sup>2</sup>



Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck followed Turner's thesis in their exhaustive examination of the western Pennsylvania frontier, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania. The Bucks told of this cultural transformation from the white perspective with a clear bias, believing, as the title suggests, that white Americans brought culture to the region. Historians, however, should not dismiss the Bucks' book since they provided a comprehensive look at daily frontier life for white Americans.

Turner's frontier thesis, with its innate prejudices and inbred tone of cultural superiority, was widely accepted and admired at the time. However, changing opinions caused questioning of the thesis shortly after publication.<sup>3</sup> After more than one hundred years, revisionist historians continue to attack Turner and his definition of frontier and what constituted a civilization. They contend that the frontier involved two civilizations, one white and one Indian, using a less value-oriented definition of "civilization," "the culture characteristic of a time or place." Indians had well-established cultures long before the Europeans arrived and were active participants economically and politically on the frontier. Revisionists also dismiss Turner's assumption that the frontier was male-dominated and claim that women, blacks, and other minorities played a significant role. The inclusion of these often ignored groups provides a more realistic portrayal of the frontier.<sup>4</sup>

Groundbreaking community studies redefined the understanding of the frontier and the role of Indians. John Mack Faragher, in Sugar Creek: Life on the Illinois Prairie, examined the cultural transformation of this region as whites replaced the Kickapoo Indians who had settled and exploited the same land. James Merrell's The Indians' New World described the impact of white settlement on the culture of the Catawba Indians and their ability to adapt to the changing

world around them. Another community study, R. Eugene Harper's The Transformation of Western Pennsylvania, focused specifically on the Upper Ohio River Valley. Harper studies the economic transformation of the region during just one generation of white settlement.

Other revisionist frontier scholarship includes The Legacy of Conquest by Patricia Limerick. Limerick emphasized that the Indians' side of the frontier was occupied and was not "free" for white settlement, and the results of the white conquest were not equitable for the conquered or for most of the settlers. Faragher's Women and Men on the Overland Trail described the daily lives of women as they made the westward journey. Annette Kolodny, in The Land before Her, discussed expansion and settlement from the distinct perspective of women.<sup>5</sup>

The Upper Ohio River Valley frontier of the late eighteenth century was a point of contact between Indian culture and white culture. Contrary to Turner's assertion that the land was "free" and a "wilderness," land taken by whites was inhabited and not free for settlement. The region had a settled population, although recently arrived, who had adapted to the environment. The Upper Ohio River Indians were not the uncultured savages of Turner's description, but had well-established cultures with their own customs and practices. Expanding European colonies brought whites into the Upper Ohio Valley. Whites eventually conquered and settled the Upper Ohio River Valley, which transformed the region from Native American culture to white American culture. This transformation was an evolutionary, not revolutionary, process. Whites gained control of the region only after a fifty-year struggle with the Indians, which opened the region to increased white settlement and the cultural transformation of the region.

Shawnees, Lenapes, and some Senecas abandoned their eastern territory because of

European pressure for land and to escape disease and settled in the Upper Ohio Valley. Once in the region, these Indian groups established a near traditional way of life. They farmed and exploited nature for food, clothing, shelter, and medicine. However, slight changes occurred over time, as is true in any society. Relocation to the Upper Ohio Valley eliminated territorial distinctions for the traditionally sovereign nations. The Ohio Indians also adopted elements of white ways, including clothing, alcohol consumption, and, for some, religion. Despite the changes in the Indians' way of life, the Europeans encountered an established culture when they arrived in the region.

Europeans quickly followed the displaced Indians into the Upper Ohio River Valley and initiated the process of cultural transformation. By the mid-eighteenth century, this region had become the focal point for British and French expansion. This quest for land dominated events during this period. The Europeans initially sparred for control and eventually went to war for possession. Important instruments in the English maneuvering were the frontiersmen, who formed the vanguard of English conquest of the Upper Ohio Valley. The frontiersmen, in their various roles as diplomats and land scouts, ultimately represented eastern interests who coveted the Ohio Valley. They learned to survive in the treacherous frontier environment, where a mistake could prove fatal economically or personally. Meanwhile, as the Europeans postured, the Indian nations fought to maintain their sovereignty.

The region's final transformation occurred during the three decades after the American Revolution. When treaties and wars forced the Indian population out of the Upper Ohio Valley, whites claimed their land and migrated into the region in large numbers. Although these settlers brought their world view, including acquisitiveness and an agrarian lifestyle, frontier conditions

prevented an immediate cultural transformation. Instead, white settlers initially were participants in a hybrid, or frontier, culture that blurred the cultural distinctions between whites and Indians. Settlers encountered an unimproved transportation system of Indian trails and often unnavigable waterways. White settlers then borrowed from the Indians, who unwittingly aided the region's cultural transformation and their own demise in the region, to improve their lives and survive. For example, they used Indian village sites to establish white towns and relied on Indian techniques to procure and preserve food. Additionally, whites lived close to nature. They hunted, fished, and foraged to supplement their diet and obtained herbal cures from nature.

The proximity of white settlers and Indian inhabitants did not improve relations between the two peoples, despite the similarities in how they lived their daily lives. The running battle for the Upper Ohio Valley that began with Lord Dunmore's War and increased during the American Revolution lasted for twenty years, creating an environment of fear, mistrust, and violence. This hostility easily overshadowed the moments of human civility and even kindness.

Gender, race, and ethnicity also contributed to the cultural transformation. The unique experiences of women during their journey was also a story of transformation. Women overcame hardships, both physical and emotional, which transformed an often bleak outlook to one of hope and security. Additionally, white settlers brought slavery to the Upper Ohio River Valley, which was a less savory, but common characteristic of American culture. Slavery remained a part of the region's fabric throughout the transformation. Free blacks, however, did not settle in the region. Lastly, America's ethnic diversity spread into the Upper Ohio Valley as well. Although the English remained the largest ethnic group, other nationalities that comprised the national population were present in the Upper Ohio Valley as well. The inclusion of women, blacks, and

ethnic minorities in the Upper Ohio Valley created a strong reflection of American culture.

Completion of the Upper Ohio Valley's transformation from Indian domination to white American domination came with refinement of the rugged frontier lifestyle and the pervasiveness of white material and intellectual institutions. With the Upper Ohio Indians removed or isolated on reservations, white Americans developed the region as they desired. They improved frontier conditions, including transportation and housing, which allowed the region to grow and prosper. Settlers also developed the region's manufacturing and commercial potential. Manufacturing and commerce increased and diversified in the early nineteenth century, which was a major step in the final cultural transformation. Inhabitants also wanted to establish eastern institutions, such as schools and a legal system, to make life similar to that in the East. By 1810, white culture had supplanted the existing culture of the Native Americans and gave whites clear cultural dominance of the Upper Ohio River Valley.

Whites who followed the Indians to the Upper Ohio River Valley did not throw off the "garments of civilization," either literally or figuratively. They brought their own cultural baggage and copied from another civilization, the Indians', to meet their needs and to survive. Frontiersmen, who were the first to represent white interests among the Indians, learned Indian culture and often adopted Indian-style dress while on the frontier to survive and to secure the demands of their eastern benefactors. Early white settlers, who followed the frontiersmen, also lived similarly to the Indians. They liberally copied Indian practices and relied heavily on nature for their survival, creating a blended, or frontier, culture. As with the frontiersmen who preceded them, white settlers remained firmly rooted in their own culture and only adopted parts of Indian

culture to improve frontier life.

Control of the land caused the violence and guerilla warfare that engulfed the Upper Ohio Valley frontier beginning with the French and Indian War and lasting through the mid-1790s. White settlers wanted to take the Indians' land, and the Indians wanted to keep their land. The violence, however, did not check the flood of white settlers, who perceived the Upper Ohio Valley's transformation as an occasion of great cultural purpose. Whites saw this battle for land, which often turned into a personal issue after the American Revolution, as a war between "civilized" whites and "savage" Indians. They used this cultural perception of the conflict to justify taking Indian land for the territorial expansion of the United States. Whites often used reverent terms to describe the building of communities on land that was recently a wilderness. This sense that they were pursuing a goal greater than themselves ultimately motivated white Americans in their western expansion.<sup>6</sup>

White settlers did not bring civilization to the Upper Ohio Valley, or indeed to any other American frontier. The Indians who settled there before the whites had already accomplished that process. White settlement was, in fact, eased by the previous presence of Indians, who had brought their own culture to the region. The Upper Ohio River Valley frontier, despite the ever-present violence, certainly was a meeting place of two cultures. Although these cultures were different, one was not superior to the other. The transformation of the Upper Ohio River Valley ultimately is the story of white culture replacing Indian culture, not the civilizing of the region by white settlers.

## Chapter 1

### The First Settlers: Indian Culture and Migration

Native Americans had well-established cultures and daily routines, both of which were closely tied to the natural world, prior to the Europeans' arrival. Most tribes claimed land that they occupied for generations. Within this territory, they exploited the abundant wildlife and heavy forests. By hunting, fishing, and foraging, the Indians had the necessities of life: food, clothing, and shelter. Nature also provided the ingredients of Indian folk medicines. Basic agriculture, with an emphasis on the Indian staples of corn, beans, and squash, supplemented their diets. This tie to nature extended beyond exploitation for survival. Indian religions and world views were also closely linked to nature. They had the basic understanding that they were part of, not separate from, nature.

Contact with Europeans and their subsequent territorial expansion caused some of the eastern woodland Indians to migrate to the Upper Ohio River Valley from their traditional territory along or near the seaboard during the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. They established initial Ohio Valley settlements in the Allegheny River Valley and near that river's juncture with the Monongahela River. Although uprooted from familiar surroundings, this forced relocation did not dramatically alter the daily lives of the tribes involved. They quickly adapted to their new environment, building villages and expanding the existing trail network. The new Ohio Valley residents continued to rely on nature for their basic needs. The woods contained an abundance of game, waterways supplied a variety of fish, wild fruits and nuts were plentiful, and the soil was fertile. Slight changes occurred to Indian dress, because many adopted

European manufactured garments to wear with their traditional clothing. Indians also augmented their medicines with items found in their new environment.

Relocation caused changes to the Indians' lives that were less visible. Traditional tribal relationships disappeared and new political relationships formed, both within the tribes and with other tribes. Historically autonomous tribes settled near each other or often in the same villages. Long term contact with whites caused a precipitous population decline among the Ohio Indians, which was common for all Indians. Additionally, white contact led to the continued conversion to Christianity for some Ohio Indians, a process which had begun in the East. For the Indians who settled the Ohio Valley during the eighteenth century, relocation slightly altered their cultures without causing them to change their basic ways of life.

Eries were the first recorded inhabitants of the Upper Ohio River Valley, as identified by contemporary Europeans. The three nations that comprised the Eries spoke an Iroquoian language and occupied the southeastern shore of Lake Erie. They were farmers who traded with the Susquehannas to the east and Neutrals in southern Ontario.<sup>1</sup>

The Eries were victims of a seventeenth-century struggle among Indian tribes that historians traditionally call the Beaver Wars. The Five Nations of the Iroquois League, Seneca, Cayuga, Onondaga, Oneida, and Mohawk nations, initiated the fighting.<sup>2</sup> The Iroquois, whose territory spanned present-day New York, confederated sometime in the late fifteenth or early sixteenth centuries to defend themselves against outsiders and to reduce the blood feuds among the five nations, which cost lives and took much of their time. League members elected the forty-nine members of the Onondaga Council, which was the confederacy's highest-ranking



political body. While the Council's decisions applied to all five nations because debated issues required unanimity, if any of the five nations disagreed, they could act independently as long as they did not injure the other nations of the confederacy.<sup>3</sup>

The intertribal warfare began in 1641 when the Iroquois attacked the Huron Confederacy, who inhabited southeastern Ontario between lakes Huron and Simcoe, to seek revenge against their ancient enemies for past injuries and for captives to replace lost loved ones who died from disease or warfare. The Iroquois Confederacy, whose goal was to monopolize the lucrative European fur trade, also needed to expand their territorial holdings because the animal population in Iroquoia had declined from their exploitation. Their ability to acquire more manufactured weapons than their enemies also influenced the Iroquois Confederacy's decision to act. After a long and brutal war, the Iroquois defeated the Hurons in 1649. They then turned their attention to other nearby Indian nations, which included the Petuns, Neutrals, and Eries. The Iroquois Confederacy viewed these nations as potential enemies because Huron refugees had incited opposition to the Iroquois. These tribes were also seen as obstacles to the Iroquois control of the fur trade. After the Iroquois defeated the Petuns in 1649 and the Neutrals in 1651, their conquest of the Eries followed in 1656. They assimilated part of the Erie population and forced the remainder to migrate to the Chesapeake Bay region.<sup>4</sup>

These seventeenth-century Indian wars decimated and dispersed many tribes from their traditional territories. After the relocation of the Eries, the area south of Lake Erie was reserved for hunting by nearby Indians. By the mid-seventeenth century, the region was relatively free of permanent inhabitants. Thus, Indians who migrated to the Upper Ohio Valley in the early eighteenth century came to settle, not to conquer.<sup>5</sup>

One such Indian nation who migrated to the Upper Ohio Valley during the eighteenth century was the Delaware, or Lenape.<sup>6</sup> The Lenapes' traditional territory at contact, known as Lenapehoking, encompassed a wide area.<sup>7</sup> Lenapes ranged from the Upper Delaware Valley in the north to the Leipsic River in Delaware in the south, and from the western tributaries of the Delaware River in the west through all of New Jersey to the Atlantic coast in the east. Lenapes eventually settled in the Ohio Valley because of white territorial expansion. The Pennsylvania colony, which was established in 1681, traded for the Lenapes' land. As the colonists increased their territorial demands on the Indians, the Lenapes ceded the territory rather than resorting to violence to keep their land. Those who gave up eventually migrated westward.<sup>8</sup>

Lenapes were not a single tribe at contact, but actually three distinct cultures: Munsees, Lenapes, and Unalachtigos.<sup>9</sup> Munsees occupied an area from the headwaters of the Delaware Valley, in southeastern New York, to the Lehigh River, in northeastern Pennsylvania. Lenapes inhabited the Delaware River Valley and the region surrounding the river's tributaries, south of the Lehigh River to the Leipsic River.<sup>10</sup> Unalachtigos lived along the Atlantic coast in southern New Jersey. The three tribes shared a common Algonquian root language but spoke different dialects.<sup>11</sup>

Lenapes had three totemic divisions: turkey, wolf, and turtle. Within each division, there were twelve kinship groups, with a total of thirty-six Lenape bands. These loosely-linked bands, which were the Lenapes' lowest level political organizations, were small, numbering between twenty-five and thirty people.<sup>12</sup> Their numbers were small to insure that everyone had enough food.<sup>13</sup>

The exact Lenape population at contact is unknown, and, at best, historians can only

estimate their numbers. The high estimates range from eight thousand to twelve thousand living in the area that became the state of New Jersey. Lenapehoking's mountainous regions were considered to be virtually uninhabited and used just for hunting. A revised estimate for the Lenapes is significantly lower. It ranges from 4,100 to 4,650, with the population never totaling more than five thousand for all of Lenapehoking.<sup>14</sup>

Shawnees migrated to the Ohio Valley at about the same time as the Lenapes.<sup>15</sup> The Shawnees who had settled in Pennsylvania also relocated because of the territorial expansion of the Pennsylvania colony. Intertribal conflict, particularly with the Iroquois Confederacy accelerated their westward migration.<sup>16</sup>

The Shawnees spoke an Algonquian dialect that was more closely related to the Miamis and Kickapoos than to the Lenapes. Their population at contact ranged from two thousand to four thousand.<sup>17</sup> Unlike the Lenapes, the Shawnees did not claim a clearly defined territory at contact. Because the Shawnees were nomadic, their settlements covered a wide area. By the early seventeenth century, Shawnee settlements were found in the northeastern Great Lakes area and further westward. After a mid-seventeenth century war with the Iroquois, most of the Shawnees' population migrated to the Ohio River Valley, primarily between the Muskingum and Wabash rivers. Others moved southward and established settlements along the Savannah and Cumberland rivers. By the early eighteenth century, Shawnee bands ranged into the Upper Ohio River Valley and then increasingly into the Upper Delaware Valley. Thus, the Shawnees inhabited portions of an area from the Delaware River to the Cumberland River, and probably to the Mississippi River, in the west, and to the Savannah River, in the south. This continual movement made identification of a traditional Shawnee homeland a difficult task.<sup>18</sup>

The Shawnees were organized politically into five divisions: Chillicothe, Hathawekela, Kispogogi, Mequachake, and Piqua.<sup>19</sup> Each division was a subculture, which included separate divisional lands and political independence. To bind the tribe together, each division had a specific responsibility. The Kispogogis were responsible for war, the Piquas for tribal rituals, and the Mequachakes for tribal medicine. The Chillicothe and Hathawekela divisions provided tribal political leaders. The next level of political importance below the division, and leading cultural organization, was the village. Each village had two chiefs, one peace and one war, who made important decisions for the village. Family groups were of less political importance, but they remained important socially to the Shawnees who emphasized the nuclear family.<sup>20</sup>

Shawnees employed totemic names at contact, although the exact number of names and whether they applied to clans or families is unclear. They employed six totemic names by the early twentieth century: turkey represented bird life; turtle represented aquatic life; rounded-feet represented carnivores; horse represented hoofed animals; raccoon represented animals with paws; rabbit represented a peaceful nature.<sup>21</sup> These names were significant to the Shawnees because children's names, which entered them into a totemic group, reflected their personalities. Individual totemic groups also performed specific tasks, such as the Turtle who carried the Shawnee sacred bundle. Specific totemic groups were also linked to perform certain functions for each other.<sup>22</sup>

The Senecas of the Iroquois Confederacy were the third major Indian nation to settle the Upper Ohio Valley. Some Senecas likewise migrated to the Upper Ohio River Valley because of British and French pressure for their territory. Continual warfare with southern tribes caused other Senecas to filter into the region and settle.<sup>23</sup>

Senecas were the westernmost and “most numerous” tribe of the Iroquois Confederacy, living in present-day western New York state. Their traditional territory extended from the headwaters of the Allegheny and Susquehanna rivers in the south to Lake Ontario in the north, and from Lake Erie in the west to their nearest Iroquois neighbors, the Cayuga, east of Seneca Lake. The mid-seventeenth century Seneca population ranged between three thousand and five thousand, with the high estimates as the most likely.<sup>24</sup>

The Senecas’ basic internal political organization was based on kinship. Several kinship groups related by blood formed another social level called ohwachiras. Ohwachiras then formed clans, which were associated with totemic symbols. Clan totems included turtle, wolf, bear, beaver, ball, heron, deer, snipe, and hawk. Approximately twelve clans constituted a Seneca village. The many villages made up the Seneca nation. Additionally, the Senecas had other responsibilities and rights as members of the Iroquois Confederacy. As the westernmost tribe, the Senecas were “‘the keepers of the western door’,” or protectors of the western route into the confederacy territory. They also elected eight of the forty-nine members of the Onondaga Council.<sup>25</sup>

The Senecas, Lenapes, and the Shawnees, lived close to nature, taking what they needed for survival, including food, shelter and clothing, through hunting, fishing, and foraging. They also procured other essentials, such as tools, weapons, and medicine from nature. Their continued reliance on nature even after contact with whites led William Penn in 1683 to remark, when he wrote of the Lenapes, that the “Woods and Rivers” were their “Larder.”<sup>26</sup>

The Lenapes’ main food source came from hunting the varied wildlife. Animals most coveted by the Lenapes were bears, which colonist Peter Lindestrom of New Sweden described

as “coal-black, large and grim,” and deer that were found “in abundance.” Other game in Lenapehoking were elk “as big as a small Ox,” raccoons, beavers, porcupines, skunks, and probably rabbits.<sup>27</sup> Buffaloes, which were “tolerably plenty” near Lenapehoking, possibly were part of their diet.<sup>28</sup> Lenapes ate some species of animals, such as squirrels, panthers, and wolves, only when they were starving. Birds, which were diverse and plentiful, were also parts of the Lenape diet, as English explorer Thomas Yong attested in 1634. He exclaimed that the “quantity of fowle” was “so great as can hardly be believed.” Types of fowl included “wild pidgeons,” of which the migratory passenger pigeon was a seasonal favorite, “Turkeyes” that reached “Forty and Fifty Pound weight,” as William Penn claimed, “Swans, wild geese, ducks,” and “Teales.” Turtles, frogs, and eggs were also eaten.<sup>29</sup>

The Lenapes’ primary hunting weapon was a bow, which they were quite adept at using. Peter Lindestrom wrote that “they are so perfect in shooting that they do not miss” and “able to shoot with a bow so far, that no gun can carry that far.” Lenapes also used traps or “snares” to capture game. Another hunting technique required many Lenapes, possibly more than one hundred, to cooperate. Hunters formed circles, then drove the animals to a river where others hunters, hidden in canoes, caught the animals with ropes and held their heads under water until they drowned. Smaller prey, such as birds were either shot, snared with a net, or caught by hand.<sup>30</sup>

Lenapes integrated fire into their hunting as well. They burned “the woods and thickets,” which colonists and Indians called “*bush burning*’.”<sup>31</sup> This technique removed fallen leaves, dead plants, and brush, which eased tracking and walking through the woods and reduced the noise made by stepping on dry plants or leaves. Lenapes also used fire to trap animals in circles,

from one to four miles in diameter, which made the animals easier targets. Peter Lindestrom described such a hunt in the early spring when the native grass was “as dry as hay.”

When now the sachem wants to arrange his hunt, then he commands his people close together in a circle of  $\frac{1}{2}$ , 1 or 2 miles, according to the number of people at his command. In the first place each one roots up the grass in the position, in the circumference, to the width of about 3 or 4 ells, so that the fire will not be able to run back, each one then beginning to set fire to the grass, which is mightily ignited, so that the fire travels away, in towards the center of the circle, which the Indians follow with great noise, and all the animals which are found within the circle, flee from the fire and cries of the Indians, traveling away, whereby the circle through its decreasing is more and more contracted towards the center.<sup>32</sup> When now the Indians have surrounded the center with a small circle, so that they mutually cannot do each other any harm, then they break loose with guns and bows on the animals.

This method enabled Lenape hunters to “get a great multitude of all kinds of animals which are found there.”<sup>33</sup>

Shawnees and Senecas also hunted continually. The Shawnees primarily relied on, and preferred, hunting. They pursued basically the same game as the Lenapes, favoring deer and turkey. With more buffalo in the western areas roamed by the Shawnees, they also relied on this animal. Other favored game included bears and mountain lions. The Senecas’s favorite prey was deer and elk, but they also hunted a variety of other game that included bear, moose, “mountain cats,” assorted small game, such as beavers and “black squirrels,” which Father Louis Hennepin of La Salle’s 1678-1679 expedition to Louisiana said were “very good to eat,” and turkeys and other fowl. Unlike Lenapes, however, Senecas did not exclude any type of game from their diet. They ate anything that they caught, including their totemic animals.<sup>34</sup>

Animals provided more than just food, with all animal parts utilized. Eastern Indians

used the bones for tools, weapons, and ornamentation; intestines and sinew for thread; paws, hooves, and teeth for ceremonies and ornamentation. Lenapes, for example, “ornamented” their clothes with “whales’ fins” or “whale-bones.” Late eighteenth-century Moravian missionary to Ohio, John Heckewelder, provided other examples. Lenapes traditionally used “the large rib bones of the elk and buffaloe” to scrape hair from animal hides, while the men removed their facial hair using “muscle shells, sharpened on a gritty stone.” An Iroquois “chief” possessed a “marten’s head with protruding teeth” as a probable representation of his clan.<sup>35</sup>

Animal furs were also the source for traditional clothing. Lenape women wore a wrap skirt, hanging from a belt at the waist, to just below the knees during warmer months. Men “wore only a cloth about the loins,” or a breechcloth, with a leather or snakeskin thong. For protection against the cold, women added a fur robe and leggings, while men added leggings and a cape that were made from available skins, including bears, wolves, and dogs. In the summer, Lenapes did not wear shoes or they wore moccasins “made of deer and buffalo skins” or shoes of “corn husks.” They wore moccasins in the winter as well, along with shoes made of bear skin. All Lenapes greased their bodies with animal fat, usually from raccoons or bears, for protection from the cold and from biting insects.<sup>36</sup>

Animals procured by Shawnee hunters also provided the needed furs for clothing. Shawnees particularly favored buffaloes not only for the meat but also because they turned their hides into winter robes. They also used deer hides to make clothing and for trade. All Shawnees wore moccasins, usually made of deer hides. During the winter, Shawnee clothing included leggings, a breechcloth, and a hat. Men added a “loose shirt” and women a “longer overblouse.” Men’s summer clothing included just a breechcloth and for women, a “loose overblouse.”<sup>37</sup>



Senecas likewise relied on animal furs for clothing, which was basically the same type as the Lenapes and Shawnees. Although they relied almost exclusively on deer hides, Senecas used other animal skins as well. Father Louis Hennepin, who traveled with La Salle to Louisiana, recounted that Seneca sachems wore “robes of beaver or wolf skins, and some in black squirrel skins.” Senecas likewise rubbed grease on their bodies for protection from the cold, lice, and stinging insects.<sup>38</sup>

Fishing was also an important activity for Indian survival. Lenapehoking waterways supplied a variety of fish, most of which were found in “prodigious quantities,” according to Englishman Gabriel Thomas. David De Vries of the Netherlands supported Thomas’s claim. His ship’s crew “caught in one draught as many as thirty men could eat of” Delaware Bay fish using seines. Types of fish found in the local waterways included “Shadds,” catfish, herring, smelts, sturgeon, cod, haddock, weakfish, bass, flounder, salmon, blackfish, trout, and “peararch.” Some Lenapes added lobsters, crabs, great cockles, “some as big as Stewing Oysters,” mussels, eels, and oysters that were “monstrous for their bigness” to their diet. Lenapes who lived closer to the shore were the ones likely to have consumed the shellfish, with an annual migration to shore by those Lenapes further inland unlikely, particularly since the rivers of Lenapehoking held freshwater mussels.<sup>39</sup>

Lenapes used several techniques to catch fish, depending on the type of fish and the size of the waterway. One technique, described by Peter Lindestrom, was the use of a fish weir, where Lenapes would “close in the kills right across, leaving only a little opening or entrance for the fish.” They closed the opening when the water rose. When the water level fell, the weirs trapped the fish, which allowed the Lenapes to “catch them with their hands” or to shoot them.

Fish weirs were used where smaller rivers and creeks entered the Delaware River and Bay.

Weirs were popular for eels and during the running of herring and shad. Basic forms of fishing included fish hooks and trot lines, which had multiple hooks on the same line. Spearing, with spears and bows and arrows, was another simple way to land fish, such as sturgeons. These methods produced a smaller catch, but were used all year and in all bodies of water. Other techniques increased the catch. Although Peter Lindestrom claimed that Lenapes did not use nets, they actually used nets made of hemp that were anchored with sinkers carved from local stones, which snared large numbers of fish at one time. Lenapes likely used nets, in addition to spearing, to catch sturgeons during their runs. The shellfishes were collected and stored until needed.<sup>40</sup>

Shawnees and Senecas also supplemented their diets by fishing and used basically the same techniques as the Lenapes to catch the fish. The “fish most commonly found” in Iroquoia were eels and salmon, which the Iroquois “caught from the Spring to the end of Autumn.” When fishing in lakes, the Iroquois speared fish “with a trident by the light of a bitummonous fire” from their canoes. They built “dams and sluices” in creeks and rivers, which enabled the Iroquois to “catch at the same time the Eels, that descend, and the Salmon, that always ascend.”<sup>41</sup>

Agriculture was a factor in the survival of these Eastern Indians, with all three groups involved in varying degrees. Although the Lenapes cultivated and relied on the Three Sisters, “Maze, or Indian Corn,” beans, and squash, as their primary crops, the three Lenape groups were at different agricultural stages at contact.<sup>42</sup> Munsees were the most advanced, having an agricultural base. Lenapes grew corn for summer use only and did not appear to store any for use during the winter and spring months. They only produced excess corn during the early years of

colonization to meet the demands of the colonists.<sup>43</sup>

Farming was a secondary form of subsistence for the Shawnees. They grew enough crops only for immediate use, not for consumption for the entire year. They relied primarily on the same basic crops as the Lenapes: beans, corn, and squash. Shawnees cultivated several types of corn, red, dark blue, and soft and hard white.<sup>44</sup> Gourds, pumpkins, and sunflowers completed the Shawnee planting.<sup>45</sup>

The Senecas relied heavily on agriculture, which was their primary source of food. Like the Lenapes and Shawnees, Senecas relied on the “Three Sisters,” particularly corn. Samuel de Champlain recorded in 1609 that his party captured “a great quantity of Indian corn” from the Iroquois after defeating them in battle. Iroquois also grew sunflowers, from which they extracted oil, and pumpkins. They usually cultivated enough of their staple crops during the summer to create a reserve for the winter and early spring months. When they were able, Senecas also preserved some of their harvests for years when crop yields were low. Harmen van den Bogaert found that the longhouses in a Mohawk village “were full of grain” and that “some held 300 or 400 skipplles” of corn.<sup>46</sup>

Foraging for fruits and nuts, found “in great plenty, which are common and free for any to gather,” completed the diet of the Lenapes. Wild nut trees included “Wallnuts, Chesnuts, Filberts, Heckery-Nuts.” Lenapes consumed apples, peaches, plums, crabapples and mulberries from the many types of fruit trees in Lenapehoking. Grapes, “white, red, brown and blue,” grew “in great abundance,” which led Adriaen van der Donck to claim that the Dutch did “not find a district or a nook of land without grape vines.”<sup>47</sup> Other wild fruits gathered by Lenapes were “(white and black) Rasberries, Strawberries, Cramberries,” and currants. Lenapes collected wild

vegetables, such as “wilde pease, which grew along the river.”<sup>48</sup>

Shawnees also gathered nuts, fruits, and vegetables to supplement their diets. However, they emphasized foraging only during food shortages. Wild plants and onions seasoned their food. Shawnees also gathered wild potatoes, berries, and nuts. Popular fruits that were gathered were pawpaw, cherries, grapes, and, occasionally, persimmons.<sup>49</sup>

Senecas likewise gathered food. They collected berries, such as strawberries, raspberries, huckleberries, and blackberries, “stoneless cherries,” and “apples as large as a goose’s egg.” Grapes and plums were also available to the Iroquois. The nuts that they gathered included hickory, walnut, beech, and chestnuts. The Senecas also foraged for wild onions, skunk cabbage, poke, milkweed, wild potatoes, and grasshoppers.<sup>50</sup>

Shawnees and Senecas exploited nature for food seasonings, as well. They made maple sugar and syrup from the abundant maple trees. Shawnee cooks mixed maple sugar in their corn bread; seasoned their meat; and added it to bear oil. They also liked to dip roasted venison in the syrup. Salt was available from the many salt springs, but it is not known if they exploited the salt. A Jesuit missionary, however, mentioned that the Iroquois used water from these springs “for salting and seasoning meat, and for making very good salt.” A 1652 French captive of the Mohawks, Pierre Esprit Radisson, received salt from his captors. Neither the priest nor Radisson recorded whether the Iroquois traditionally used salt or if the Europeans introduced the practice.<sup>51</sup>

Meals and food preparation were basic. Lenapes cooked meat and fish on a spit over an open fire or dried it for future consumption. Dishes that included corn were common. Corn was often ground into meal. Lenapes would first “rub the ears between their hands and brush off the kernels.” They then used a wooden pestle and mortar to grind the corn. Senecas and Shawnees

used the same basic technique to make cornmeal.<sup>52</sup>

Lenapes, when they cooked fresh meat or fish, “cut for themselves slender spits of wood, pass them through the meat or fish, stick the spits down into the ground, and turn the meat or the fish near the fire.” Cooks turned the food when the first side was “about half fried,” then grilled the other side to the same consistency. According to Peter Lindestrom, Lenapes ate the meat and fish with “blood still . . . in it,” which they thought the “most wholesome and best to eat.” Indians also dried fish or meat, which was sometimes “pounded fine” and boiled with cornmeal or dried beans. When eating, their “table and bench was the bare earth, their spoons were mussel-shells,” and “their plates were the leaves of the nearest tree.”<sup>53</sup>

Lenapes consumed a variety of dishes made from corn, when it was available. Cornmeal was “Boylde with water” to make “*Homine*” or “*mush*,” which, according to some Europeans, was “so common” that Lenapes “seldom” went “a day without it” (authors’ italics). They made several types of cornmeal bread or cakes. Lenapes, without “any other bake-oven than the embers,” baked one type of bread in “small loaves as large as a small cheese in which they use a kind of berry like currants” to add flavor. The resulting bread was “not unpleasant to eat,” in the words of one European. Lenapes also “roasted” ears of corn “in the Ashes” of a fire.<sup>54</sup>

Senecas likewise consumed a variety of corn dishes, with cornmeal used as a staple. They boiled corn to make mush or baked dumplings as a staple food and “roasted” corn in a fire. Additionally, boiled cornmeal, with any type of meat added, was a common dish. Iroquois also combined turkey grease with beans and maize. Adopted Iroquois Pierre Radisson described a similar dish that included boiled cornmeal and “bear’s grease.” He also recorded the preparation of another meal.

First, when the corn is green, they gather so much as need requireth, of which leaves they preserve the biggest leaves for the subject that follows. A dozen more-or-less old women meets together alike, of whom the greatest part wants teeth, and see-eth not a jot, and their cheeks hangs down like an old hunting dog, their eyes full of water and bloodshot. Each takes an ear of corn, and puts it in their mouths, which is properly as milk, chaws it, and when their mouths are full spits it out in their hands, which possibly they wash not once [in] one year. Their hands are white inside by reason of the grease that they put to their hair, and rubbing of it with the inside of their hands, which keeps them pretty clean, but the outside in the rinkness of their wrinkled hands, there is a quarter of an ounce of filth and stinking grease. So, their hands being full of that mince meat minced with their gums, [they] fill a dish. So, they chaw chestnuts; then they mingle this with bear's grease or oil of flower . . . with their hands. So, [having] made a mixture, they tie the leaves at one end, and make a hodgepot and cover it with the same leaves, and tie the upper end so that what is within those leaves becomes a round ball, which they boil in a kettle full of water or broth made of meat or fish.

Radisson believed that this dish was “the most delicious bit of the world.”<sup>55</sup>

Nature provided the natural resources for Lenape, Shawnee, and Seneca lodges. Lenape “wigwams” were circular or rectangular, which William Penn said were built in the “fashion of an English Barn.”<sup>56</sup> They placed wooden posts in the ground to which they attached poles “of young trees, twined, or bent, together.” The builders then added “bark of ash, chestnut, and other trees . . . in pieces of about six feet long” to “clothe and cover” the walls and part of the roof. They left the peak of the roof open “all along the house” for “smoke . . . to escape.” The length of the dwelling depended on the “multitude of people” intending to live in the lodge, ranging from “about 100, 200, or 300 ells in length.” The usual width was the length of two men, with a fireplace that ran the length of the lodge, “but never more than twenty feet wide.” Inhabitants slept between the wall and the fire for warmth. William Penn also recorded that the lodges were “hardly higher than a Man” in height.<sup>57</sup>

Senecas, like all Iroquois, lived in longhouses. Poles formed the frame of the structure,

which was covered with sheets of elm bark. Longhouses averaged between fifty and seventy-five feet in length, which was large enough to house sixty people, but could measure up to three hundred feet. In 1634 Dutch colonist Harmen Meynderts van den Bogaert described longhouses that he encountered in Mohawk villages, which typified all Iroquois longhouses. In one village, he recorded that they were “100, 90, or 80 steps long” and “22 or 23 feet high,” while in another village the longhouses measured “50, 60, 70, 80 steps long, and one of 16 steps.” Openings in the roof permitted smoke to escape and a door of “hewn boards” or a bearskin covered the one doorway. Senecas placed the mark of their clan over the door.<sup>58</sup>

Shawnee housing was a “we-gi-wa,” a permanent dwelling made primarily from elm and birch trees, which closely resembled the Iroquois longhouse. Poles made from trees provided the outline, with bark used as the roof and the walls. They were generally oblong and only large enough to house the family intending to live there. A description left by a captive placed the size at fourteen feet by twenty feet, with the roof at the “height of a man at the center.” Shawnees hastily built their lodging and soon abandoned them as they continued on their migrations.<sup>59</sup>

Indians used medicines found in nature, and their medical ability impressed some Europeans. New Sweden’s Peter Lindestrom concluded “that if it is not a fatal disease, they know a remedy for it immediately.” Gabriel Thomas concurred, believing that the “many curious and excellent Physical Wild Herbs, Roots, and Drugs” made the “Indians by the right application of them, as able Doctors and Surgeons as any in Europe, performing celebrated Cures.”<sup>60</sup>

Gladys Tantaquidgeon, in her examination of Lenape medical beliefs, explained that their medicine consisted of eighty-four herbal cures and sixteen “miscellaneous” cures. Lenapes used bark and fruit from numerous trees and plants, of which many would be called “weeds” by

modern society, as herbal cures for a wide variety of ailments that included coughs and colds, stomach problems, and numerous internal complaints. A rattlesnake bite, for example, required “a kind of grass roots, which are called snakegrass-roots.” A “medical doctor of the savages” chewed the root and then placed it on the bite. Some of the “miscellaneous” cures included the use of deer antlers to suck venom from snake bites and urine to soak muscle cramps. Peter Lindestrom recorded the use of a rattlesnake skin by pregnant Lenape women. When they tied the skin “around themselves,” it supposedly produced “an immediate and easy delivery.”<sup>61</sup>

The Iroquois also found many remedies in nature. Sassafras, which Jesuits called the “universal plant,” was considered a very powerful medicine. The leaves, “when pounded, heal in a short time wounds of all kinds.” Iroquois also adopted the use of sulphur, which they procured “from . . . foreign Indians.” They used the sulphur “for healing many illnesses, but principally for their legs when they became very sore from traveling and are very tired.” The Iroquois used rattlesnakes for medicine as well. They claimed that rattlesnake skins were “an excellent remedy for toothache” and the meat reduced fever.<sup>62</sup>

Indian religion was tightly linked to nature. They believed that humans were part of nature, not separate from it. All parts of the natural world had spirits that deserved the respect of humans. Some spirits, typically the sun and moon, were more powerful than others. Other elements, stones and insects, among others, had less power. Furthermore, all spirits were not good. Therefore, because all parts of nature could retaliate for any impropriety or to stave off evil spirits, Indians respected all parts of the natural world regardless of its position.<sup>63</sup>

Lenapes were religious people. They believed that their highest deity, Kishilemukong, gave “manetuwak,” or spirits, to all things on earth to aid Lenapes on a daily basis.<sup>64</sup> Lenapes



employed rituals, such as performing specific dances or songs, making sacrifices, or giving offerings to manetuwak, to show proper deference to these spirits. For example, after their “first hunt of the year,” Lenapes feasted on the catch and then made “a burnt offering to Manitto.” Peter Lindestrom explained that the Lenapes did this “believing that they thought this later will get in their hunt so much the greater blessing.” After making the offering, the Lenapes sang or cried, and danced for “so long a time, so that it reaches well over the forest.”<sup>65</sup>

Shawnee religion was also closely linked to nature. Their highest deity was “Cloud,” who the Shawnees usually called “Great Spirit,” “Creator,” or “Our Grandmother.” According to Shawnee beliefs, she created the earth, nature, the Shawnees, and other people, including whites. Shawnees were superior to all other people, particularly whites, who the “Great Spirit” hastily made of inferior quality. The “Great Spirit” also provided twelve laws to guide the Shawnees’ lives. Two laws defined the general characteristics of daily Shawnee life and the remaining ten laws focused on the Shawnees’ relationship with specific animals.<sup>66</sup> Shawnees kept a “sacred bundle,” which was invaluable because it contained tools used during their religious ceremonies. These ceremonies, feasts, dances, like those of the Lenapes, had a specific purpose, whether to placate a spirit or in gratitude for their bounty.<sup>67</sup>

The Senecas’ highest deity’s name was Tarachiawagon, the “Creator.” They, like the Lenapes and Shawnees, believed that all parts of the natural world had a spirit. However, the different elements of nature occupied ascending levels of importance. Humans, common parts of nature, such as trees, grass, water, crops, and game, occupied the lowest level. The next higher level included the wind and celestial bodies. The “Creator” and other important deities were on the highest level. Each element deserved respect regardless of their relative importance. Senecas

performed six rituals to recognize significant times of the year. These rituals, from the Mid-Winter Ceremony, which was the Senecas' New Year, early in the year, through the Harvest Festival in October, thanked the "Creator" for their past and current bounty and offered hope for future success.<sup>68</sup>

Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas shared other cultural characteristics. Passing seasons guided the lives of these Eastern Woodlands Indians. Warm weather indicated the beginning of the growing season and a chill in the air meant an increase in the hunting to prepare for the coming winter. Nuclear families were also quite important to these Indians, not only for political purposes, but also for socialization. Families taught children skills needed to survive along a strict division of labor based on gender. Men basically hunted and made war. Women farmed, with some help from men, foraged, and maintained the household.<sup>69</sup>

Women played a significant role in the political and social organization of the tribes. Shawnee women formed their own councils for war and peace, and their decisions were of equal importance to the men's decisions. Seneca women held even more power. They chose the men who sat on village and tribal councils, as well as their representatives to the Onondaga council. Seneca women also lobbied during councils and held the power to remove, or "dehorn," chiefs for continually resisting the wishes of the women who appointed them. Senecas and Lenapes traced their lineage matrilineally. For the Senecas, this led to the clan level. The eldest women were the heads of Seneca longhouses.<sup>70</sup>

Another characteristic common to all three tribes, and most Indians in general, was their communal nature. Colonists often commented that they willingly shared whatever they had with others. A Jesuit missionary admired Iroquois "kindness, humanity, and courtesy," which "not

only made them liberal with what they have, but cause them to possess hardly anything except in common.” Pierre Radisson experienced Iroquois generosity as well. A second group of Iroquois provided Radisson’s party with “dried fish and Indian corn” when they unexpectedly met.

Harmen van den Bogaert had the same type of experience at a Mohawk village. A chief invited Bogaert’s party to his lodge and “had a large fire started at once, and a fat haunch of venison cooked.” Gabriel Thomas, a resident of Pennsylvania and New Jersey, crudely but accurately explained that Lenapes were “very Charitable to one another, the Lame and the Blind (amongst them) living as well as the best.” Peter Lindestrom recorded how Lenapes valued treating guests properly. Lenape hosts wanted visitors “to sit down to rest” on their finest blankets. They then offered, and expected their guests to accept, “such food as they have.”<sup>71</sup>

Lenapes retained the same values fifty years after contact, which continued to astound Europeans. William Penn asserted that a present, when given to a Lenape, went through a “dousen hands” before someone kept it. Leaders only gave “themselves an equal share w<sup>th</sup> one of their subjects,” when presents were given to an entire community. The same was true when presents were given in payment for land, with all leaders who attended sharing equally, not just those whom Penn believed had owned the land.<sup>72</sup>

Westward expanding Europeans pushed many Lenapes and Shawnees, and some Senecas, from their traditional territories. They eventually settled in the Upper Ohio River Valley during the first quarter of the eighteenth century, where they established new communities and improved the trail network to and through the region. Initial relocation caused limited change to the daily lives of the Shawnees, Senecas, and Lenapes. Survival abilities, honed in the East for

generations, helped these Indians to survive in their new western homes. They continued to live close to nature, where they procured the basic needs of food, clothing, and shelter. Thus, the Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas adapted quite well to their new environs.

Despite the ability of the Senecas, Lenapes, and Shawnees to rebuild their daily lives in the West, they lost fundamental elements of their cultures. First, territorial distinctions disappeared. At contact, Senecas and Lenapes lived on well-defined tribal lands. After relocation in the Upper Ohio Valley, however, multiple tribes often lived in the same towns or individual tribes settled near each other. This forced the Indians to redefine how they viewed themselves and the other tribes. Other changes were even more basic. Lenapes changed their type of shelter. Additionally, the religions and medicine of these tribes changed slightly. The changes occurred because the Indians adopted new rituals and practices with the conditions they encountered in their new homes. Ultimately, relocation transformed the lives of these tribes as they settled in the West.

Tribal territorial distinctions were lost with relocation to the Upper Ohio River Valley. Multiple tribes often occupied the same communities. The once distinct Lenape groups became a single Delaware nation, without regard to traditional cultural differences.<sup>73</sup> The forced relocation to the West had led Europeans to misinterpret Lenape cultures.

As eastern Indians developed new communities in the Upper Ohio Valley, they did not claim distinctive tribal territory as they had in the East. As Indians were forced from their lands, they migrated to the West in small groups, not as whole tribes. This sporadic migration caused irregular settlement patterns in the West. These tribal fragments often settled in or near villages of different tribes. Although individual tribal villages existed, multiple tribes commonly lived in

the same villages. For example, the population of Logg's Town, which became the main site for treaty negotiations with the English during the late colonial era, included Lenapes, Senecas, Mingos, and Shawnees. Whites often noted the tribes encountered in villages. The village of "Beaver Creek," for example, had a population of "chiefly Delawares" with "the rest Mohocks."<sup>74</sup>

Once settled in the West, transportation was one immediate issue because men traveled great distances to hunt, trade, visit, and make war. Ohio Indians preferred overland travel, and since the Upper Ohio Valley was virtually uninhabited prior to their relocation, they eventually created a network of paths throughout western Pennsylvania.<sup>75</sup> Most trails were only wide enough for walking single, or Indian, file. Other trails were somewhat wider because the Indians used "buffalo traces," which simply were paths through the woods made by the large animals. Of the Indian-made trails, the Iroquois made the widest, allowing two people to walk abreast. These trails not only connected major Indian villages in Pennsylvania, but they also linked the Indians with other tribes as the trails were part of a much larger network that crisscrossed the entire continent.<sup>76</sup>

Topography influenced the location of the trails. Paul A. W. Wallace credited the Indians' ability in "*finding* the best ways to travel" (author's italics). They chose the easiest and shortest routes. Trails were usually level because they followed mountain passes to avoid unnecessary climbing. The Indians also avoided water when they could, and when they could not, their paths led to the best possible fords to cross creeks and rivers. Swampy ground and heavy undergrowth were other obstacles to be avoided by the pathmakers. Indian trails also avoided following the course of rivers, since they too often meandered or were made dangerous

by steep ravines.<sup>77</sup>

Numerous trails linked western Pennsylvania to the outside world. Paths into the Upper Ohio Valley from the east included the Shamokin Path that led from the Susquehanna River to the headwaters of its west branch; the Frankstown Path (Kittanning Trail) followed the Juniata River and led to Kittanning; the Raystown Path followed the Raystown branch of the Juniata River; the Nemacolin Trail led from the upper Potomac River and then followed the Youghiogheny River; and the Chinklacamoose Trail that connected the west branch of the Susquehanna River to the Upper Allegheny River. From the Upper Ohio Valley to the west went the Mahoning Trail that led into Ohio and followed the Ohio, Big Beaver, and Mahoning rivers; the Great Trail linked Logg's Town to Detroit; and the Mingo Trail crossed the Ohio River southwest of Logg's Town. Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas built these paths as part of an extensive network to support their mobile society.<sup>78</sup>

Baron Rosenthal's copious journal of William Crawford's 1782 expedition to Sandusky described the extent of the trail network in the Upper Ohio River Valley and the quality of the individual trails. He described one "road" as "not very difficult nor the passages from one ridge to the other exceedingly steep" while a second ran in a "strait path from Sandusky to Wheeling." Another trail crossed a creek at the "easiest ford." Rosenthal also commented on the characteristic narrowness of Indian trails. The men "traversed a Glade" along a creek and "came upon a miry place but a few yards wide" that was "passable by one man at a time only." They later encountered "a narrow path . . . only passable in an Indian File." Thus, this network of trails aided travelers through the Upper Ohio River Valley wilderness, including the Indians' enemies.<sup>79</sup>

Travel along the trails was not always easy, as only the most-used were periodically cleared of trees and brush. Baron Rosenthal made this point as the expedition neared Sandusky. The paths became more “frequent and larger,” which caused him to assume that they were approaching an “Indian Settlement.” Seldom used trails often had roadblocks of fallen trees that forced travelers to walk around them or to climb over them. Baron Rosenthal recorded that the expedition “was much impeded by fallen timber and thickets” encountered on one trail.<sup>80</sup>

To aid travelers, Lenapes built simple lean-tos and “a great Fire” along the trail for temporary shelter. Baggage was light for foot travelers, with only a pack carried by men and women that they “wrapt about them” for further protection while sleeping. The French captive Radisson described Iroquois traveling “cottages,” which he said “consisted only of some sticks.” Without these trailside accommodations, Indian travelers were exposed to all weather conditions, as Pierre Radisson realized, having endured a rainy night in the open “without any provisions.”<sup>81</sup>

These trails linked villages newly established by the recent Indian immigrants. As early as 1731, Europeans counted ten Indian towns (four Lenape; five Shawnee; and one Seneca) in an area that was virtually unpopulated a decade before. Initial settlements were north of the Ohio River and east of the Allegheny River, with land west of the Allegheny reserved for hunting. As Indian migration increased over the next decade, settled areas expanded to the west side of the Allegheny River, which whites called “Indian country.” By the end of the century, these Indians established and occupied more than sixty new towns in the Upper Ohio River Valley.<sup>82</sup>

The villages that dotted the rivers and valleys of the region became major political and population centers for the recent migrants. The Lenapes founded Kittanning, their largest western Pennsylvania settlement, on the Allegheny River north of the Kiskiminetas River. Other

Lenape towns were Kuskusky, at the junction of the Shenango and Mahoning rivers, Murdering Town, Punxsutawney, Shannopin's Town, and Loyalhanning.<sup>83</sup> Seneca settlements included their first, called Alliquippa's Town in honor of the village's matriarch, Conewango on the upper Allegheny, and Buckaloons. Shawnees established Chartier's Town, Shawnee Cabins, and Sewickley. Expanding Anglo-America forced more eastern Indians to move westward, which increased the population and the number of villages.<sup>84</sup>

Once settled in the Upper Ohio Valley, the Indians easily adapted to the environment and exploited nature as they had in the East. Indians continued to hunt. Quaker missionary Halliday Jackson said in 1798 that the Senecas had "deserted their villages and went into the wilderness to pursue and to kill the wild beasts of the Forrest." Game remained as a primary source of food and was "in abundance." Ohio Indians continued to prefer deer and bear because they provided both food and clothing. They also caught a wide variety of fish in the local waterways. Foraging provided an assortment of fruits, including a variety of berries, grapes, crab apples, and nuts. Indians made preserves from the berries and apples. They supplemented their diet with agriculture. Staple crops remained the Three Sisters: corn, beans, and squash. Potatoes, melons, and other vegetables were grown as some secondary crops. Thus, nature's bounty gave them diversity in food.<sup>85</sup>

Western Indians continued to prepare traditional meals as they had in the East. English traveler Nicholas Cresswell recorded that Indian women from undetermined tribes cooked meals of "dried Venison and Bear's Oil" without salt and "a sort of Dumplings made of Indian Meal and dried Huckleberries."<sup>86</sup>

John Heckewelder's extensive description of the Ohio Indians also included game that



Indians refused to eat. He described the Lenapes and Shawnees as “very particular in their choice of meat.” These Indians consumed horses, dogs, wild cats, panthers, foxes, muskrats, and wolves only from “the most pressing hunger.”<sup>87</sup>

Upper Ohio Valley Indians used natural seasonings for food. Maple sugar and syrup remained favorites, with Indians tapping the abundant sugar maple trees and boiling the sap. Baron Rosenthal said the members of the Crawford expedition “discovered several Sugar Camps” of the Indians. At one point, for a group of Senecas in 1791, making maple sugar was more important than meeting an emissary from the United States, who was required “to call for them at their sugar encampment.” Salt became a popular seasoning for the Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas. Salt springs, or salt licks, were important hunting areas at first because they attracted animals, but the Indians also exploited the salt springs in the area for salt. “D<sup>rs</sup> Town,” an Indian town on the Sandusky River, was “contiguous to a Lick.” As with maple sap, Indians boiled down saline which left the raw salt used by the Indians. Salt licks were abundant in the Upper Ohio Valley, but the salt was weak and required the Indians to roam extensively for a continuous salt supply.<sup>88</sup>

Indians continued to use all parts of the animals in their daily lives. English traveler Nicholas Cresswell recorded that for one ceremony, Lenape men wore “strings of Deer’s hoofs tied round their ankles and knees.” They also “coloured” porcupine quills and used them to ornament moccasins.<sup>89</sup>

Relocation caused little change to the Indians’ style of dress, with furs remaining a part of their dress. The most profound difference, which occurred prior to relocation, came from trade with whites. While still in their original homelands, Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas had

adopted manufactured clothing. European clothing continued to be worn in the West. John Heckewelder and Nicholas Cresswell described the “dress of the Indians” as a blend of traditional and European garments, which was very common among the Ohio Indians. Men wore “blankets” or “a matchcoat,” “plain or ruffled shirts” made of “white linen or calico,” a “breechclout,” and leggings. The women’s clothing consisted of “the same sort of shirts as men,” “a sort of short petticoat” that was “made of cloth, generally red, blue, or black,” and “leggings.” Men and women continued to wear “mocksens” on their feet.<sup>90</sup>

Ohio Indians maintained traditional religious beliefs, even incorporating new practices when they moved west.<sup>91</sup> Heckewelder again supplied information on the Ohio Indians. Lenapes continued to believe in a “Great Spirit,” who was their “supreme power,” so they sought “to find favor in his sight, and obtain his forgiveness for past errors or offences.” American emissary John Adlum recorded the same references when he met with the Seneca leader, Gyantwahia, in 1794. Gyantwahia referred to “the *Great spirit above*,” according to Adlum’s record of the translation, when negotiating with Adlum (author’s italics). Hau-chu-woot, a Seneca chief who accompanied Adlum, likewise praised “the *Great Spirit*” for calm traveling weather and an easy journey. Other “inferior *Mannittos*” continued as part of their belief system (author’s italics). Indians also continued to perform rituals to show respect for these spirits. Nicholas Cresswell noted that the Lenapes had “some particular dances at” certain times of the year. Heckewelder recorded that Indians burned tobacco when an owl called to acknowledge “his kindness to them and their ancestors.”<sup>92</sup> Halliday Jackson recorded in 1798 that the Senecas performed the Burned Dog ceremony as part of the Green Corn Festival to signal the beginning of Autumn. This was “a burnt offering and sacrifice” to their “Creator.”<sup>93</sup>

Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas added to their traditional medicines as they moved westward.<sup>94</sup> For example, Senecas found natural remedies in the west. They rubbed surface oil found in the fields of western Pennsylvania on muscles and joints in an attempt to cure rheumatism and muscle and joint strains.<sup>95</sup>

The Indians remained communal in the West. Nicholas Cresswell, who admitted that he did not fully understand the Indians' government, recorded the continuation of this basic Indian characteristic. Cresswell wrote that the Indian leaders had "no more honour or respect paid them than another man." A leader was also "obliged to hunt for his living as well as the rest."<sup>96</sup>

Despite the Upper Ohio Indians' ability to maintain a traditional lifestyle after the forced relocation, change was evident. The populations of the Lenapes, Shawnees, and Senecas declined after a century of contact with Europeans. European diseases, from common childhood illnesses to the plague and small pox, decimated all Indians because they had never encountered the Europeans' diseases and did not have immunity. Warfare, with other tribes and whites, and cultural disruption also contributed to the population decline.<sup>97</sup>

The three tribes lost population at varying rates. The Shawnees and Lenapes endured a serious population decline by the mid-eighteenth century. Frontiersman Conrad Weiser, in a letter to newspaper publisher Christopher Saur, included the totals of Shawnee and Lenape warriors by tribe, which he had "heard from a trustworthy Indian." Weiser recorded that Shawnees "on the River Ohio" and Lenapes "in Pennsylvania and Ohio" each had a total of two hundred warriors. Based on these estimates, the Lenapes and Shawnees had total populations that ranged from six hundred to one thousand people.<sup>98</sup> The Senecas, however, fared much

better than the Lenapes and Shawnees. Although the Seneca population declined after European contact, they adopted many non-Senecas into their tribe. By end of the eighteenth century, they continued to have a population of approximately four thousand people. Weiser's estimates for the "Sinicker," however, were slightly lower. The number of Seneca warriors was about "700 at home, or one far from home," which gave the Senecas a population ranging from approximately 2,100 to 3,500 people.<sup>99</sup>

A distinct Iroquois subculture also developed in the Upper Ohio River Valley during the eighteenth century. Europeans referred to this group as the Mingos. They were Senecas and Cayugas who had settled together initially near modern-day Cleveland and developed a distinct culture and language.<sup>100</sup> Mingos were also mostly independent of the Onondaga Council. Over time, Mingos spread to the Upper Ohio Valley, near Wheeling, West Virginia. White travelers often distinguished the Mingos as a separate political and cultural unit. Making this distinction was important for British and American diplomats who sought to win over all Ohio Indians.<sup>101</sup>

Lenape housing changed in Western Pennsylvania as well. By the late eighteenth century, Lenape shelter became a basic log cabin, resembling those built by Americans. The structure was small and rectangular with an earthen or moss roof. The Shawnees, however, continued to build "we-gi-was."<sup>102</sup>

A dramatic change in religion for some Lenapes was their conversion to Christianity by Moravian missionaries in the mid-eighteenth century. These Moravian Indians, as they were called, abandoned the traditional Lenape way of life and adopted a sedentary agricultural lifestyle and Moravian religious teachings. The first Moravian mission, called Gnadenhutten, was near Bethlehem, Pennsylvania, but frontier violence during the Seven Years' War destroyed the

village. Land cessions in the 1760s drove the “Moravians” to the West along with other Eastern Indians, where they established Schonbrunn on the Tuscarawas River in Ohio. A new Gnadenhutten, ten miles south of Schonbrunn, and Lichtenau, on the Muskingum River, were later founded by the Moravians.<sup>103</sup>

A Moravian Indian church service combined European and Lenape influences, which reflected frontier culture. Captain James Wood recorded a typical service in August 1775. Approximately 150 Indians attended the church service in “a Decent Square Log Building with Plank floars and Benches Ornamented with Several Pieces of German Scripture Paintings.” The church also had “a Small Cupola with a Bell and a very Indifferent Spinnet on which an Indian played.” However, because of the church’s diversity, the German minister “prayed in the Delaware Language Preached in the English and sung Psalms in the German in which the Indians Joined and Performed that part of Divine Service.” Nicholas Cresswell recorded a similar experience. “The parson . . . preached in English” and an “interpreter . . . explained it to the Indians by sentences.” The group also sang “in the Indian language.”<sup>104</sup>

The Eastern Indians’ migration to the Ohio Valley Indians during the eighteenth century affected their cultures. Continued white contact caused a severe population drop and led some Indians to adopt Christianity. Tribal distinctions were lost because traditionally autonomous tribes settled near or with each other. Ohio Indians also incorporated elements of white culture into traditional Indian practices. They wore European manufactured clothing, as they had in the East, while continuing to wear traditional clothing. Relocation to a new territory also exposed the Indians to other folk medicines, which they willingly incorporated into their customary

practices. Thus, parts of their cultures were clearly changed and parts were retained.

Despite these disruptions, the Ohio Indians continued to live close to nature and took what it provided. From the food they ate to the clothes they wore, these Indians exploited the natural resources of the region as in the East. They foraged for edible plants, nuts, and berries, hunted the abundant game, and took wood from the heavily-timbered region. Additionally, many Indians practiced traditional religions and used skins for clothing. Thus, the Ohio Indians' daily lives were not dramatically altered.

By settling the Upper Ohio River Valley, these Indians brought civilization to the region. The Upper Ohio Valley was virtually unoccupied until they arrived and rebuilt their ways of life. Thus, the region was not a wilderness in the late eighteenth century, but held a diverse population with established cultures.

## Chapter 2

### The European Quest for the Ohio Valley

The Indians who relocated to the Upper Ohio Valley during the eighteenth century faced continued pressure from the conflicting territorial claims of the British and French empires. The Europeans coveted the region despite the legitimate claims of, and occupation by, the Ohio Indians because they did not respect the Indians or their claims. At best, the British and French viewed the Indians as trading partners or allies in a vast contest for imperial supremacy. At worst, Indians were obstacles to expansion. While Britain and France benefited from and needed the Ohio Indians, they maneuvered for control of the Upper Ohio Valley regardless of the occupants' wishes.

Land motivated Europeans because land was a traditional source of wealth. Europeans needed land to achieve any kind of status. With available land quite scarce in Europe, many upwardly mobile men were without recourse, making America a realistic opportunity to achieve wealth and status. By the mid-eighteenth century, Europeans focused on the Upper Ohio River Valley as a source for land, which Britain and France fought to acquire.<sup>1</sup>

Indian trade also attracted European settlers. From the very beginning of colonization, British and French colonists established Indian contacts for trade. Indians provided furs that Europeans exchanged for basic manufactured goods such as metal weapons and pots, textiles, gunpowder, and liquor. As the frontier moved westward, Indian traders followed. By the mid-eighteenth century, Europeans competed to monopolize trade with the Upper Ohio River Valley Indians.<sup>2</sup>

The quest to control land and trade in the Ohio Valley governed events in America during the mid-eighteenth century. White settlement had advanced to the Upper Ohio Valley, which became the point of conflict. On an imperial level, Britain and France competed for control of the Ohio River from source to mouth, aware that the victor would dominate the interior of the continent. On a provincial level, Pennsylvania, Virginia, and other colonies wanted the region to expand their political boundaries and increase their Indian trade. Finally, on an individual level, speculators wanted to acquire large tracts of land for future sale to settlers. The possibility of great fortunes and world power led to fierce competition for the Ohio River Valley, which produced war among nations, near war between colonies, and a significant amount of unsavory behavior.<sup>3</sup>

Competition between Britain and France for the Upper Ohio River Valley reflected their continuing imperial battle that characterized the late seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. They fought the War of the Grand Alliance (1688-1697), War of the Spanish Succession (1702-1713), and the War of the Austrian Succession (1744-1748), known to the American colonists as King William's War, Queen Anne's War, and King George's War respectively, primarily for the dominance of Europe. America, and the fighting on that continent, was of secondary importance. Ink on the 1748 Treaty of Aix-la-Chapelle, which ended the War of the Austrian Succession, was scarcely dry when tensions renewed between Britain and France over territory in Europe and America. Britain claimed that the French were eager to pursue their goal of dominating, if not conquering, the European continent. The French likewise believed that Britain wanted to dominate Europe. A significant step for either to dominate Europe was gaining control of North America through the Ohio Valley.<sup>4</sup>



The British based their claim to the Upper Ohio River Valley on an interpretation of the Treaty of Utrecht, which they signed in 1713 to end the War of the Spanish Succession. In the treaty, France and Britain agreed that the Iroquois fell under British jurisdiction. Britain also asserted that because the Lenapes, Shawnees, and other Ohio Indian tribes were subordinate to the Iroquois, they came under the British dominion as well. Thus, the British believed that the political hierarchy of the region gave them sovereignty over the Upper Ohio River Valley.<sup>5</sup>

Britain wanted ownership and control of the Ohio River Valley because they needed an avenue for the westward expansion of the American colonies. The Appalachian Mountains were a formidable obstacle to expansion for over a century, but by 1750 greed and population pressures for land led to heightened British interest in the region. The British needed the Ohio Valley for their colonies, and empire, to continue to grow and produce.<sup>6</sup>

Preventing the French occupation of the Upper Ohio River Valley also influenced British foreign policy. By the early 1750s, British officials believed that France continued to have designs for expansion in Europe and America. The War of the Austrian Succession improved France's diplomatic and military position in Europe, which convinced the British of probable French aggression. The Earl of Halifax, president of the Board of Trade and chief administrator of the American colonies, was particularly concerned about possible French expansion. For three years, colonial governors fed Halifax's fear of French aggression by communicating to him their own concerns about French actions in America. By 1753, Halifax was well aware of French movement into the Upper Ohio Valley. He counted nine "principal Forts built and Settlements made by the French upon Lands indisputably belonging to Great Britain by every kind of Right which the Law of Nations has established."<sup>7</sup> Halifax feared that, with French forts in the Upper

Ohio Valley, France was in the process of “confining the English to their present Settlements.” A success in this endeavor would “secure . . . all the valuable and extensive lands” between the St. Lawrence and Mississippi rivers, giving the French an advantage in America. Thus, Britain also wanted the Upper Ohio Valley to obstruct French expansion in their imperial competition.<sup>8</sup>

The French also believed that the Ohio Valley was part of their empire, claiming the region by the right of discovery “by the Sieur de la Salle, who took possession of it in the name of the king” of France. Based on this right, France not only claimed the Ohio River Valley but also the river’s tributaries, which includes the Allegheny and Monongahela rivers. France’s interest in the Ohio Valley centered on the use of the Ohio as a link between Canada and Louisiana, their mainland colonies in North America. Without established roads, the Ohio River was vital “to maintain the communication” between these colonies.<sup>9</sup>

France likewise sought to deter British expansion into the Upper Ohio Valley and “their constant design to get possession of all the commerce of America.” Marquis de La Galissoniere was provisional governor of New France while the British held the actual governor, the Marquis de la Jonquiere, captive from 1747 to 1749. La Galissoniere advocated a strong policy to limit British expansion. The marquis, writing in 1751, recognized that defending Canada and Louisiana was an “expense” to the French government and they had an “uncertain” future within the French empire. He also realized that the “vast extent” between the colonies was a substantial limitation for “mutual assistance” in time of need. However, despite these disadvantages, France required the preservation of Canada as a “barrier” to America being “enslaved to English ambition.” La Galissoniere surmised that the possible British expansion to the “Spanish possessions in America, and above all of Mexico,” would “give them the upper hand in Europe”

as well. Thus, the French believed that preventing British expansion in America was vital to their national security in Europe.<sup>10</sup>

Both nations had the same basic motivation in their competition for the Ohio Valley. They would benefit and thwart the other by occupying the region. However, in their rivalry, Britain and France completely ignored the sovereignty of the Indian nations who already occupied the Ohio Valley and were clearly established in the region by the mid-eighteenth century. For the Europeans, this mattered little in their haste to expand their empires. Thus, with the British and French claims, the two European nations claimed land that was already occupied by several Indian nations.

European control of the Upper Ohio Valley remained in doubt at mid-century. Because one did not have an advantage over the other, they maneuvered politically and militarily for control. The Indian occupants of the Upper Ohio Valley did not want either nation to move into their territory, other than to send traders. They saw Britain and France as equal dangers to their own sovereignty. While the European powers battled for control of the region, the Iroquois Confederacy, Lenapes, and Shawnees fought equally hard to keep the Upper Ohio Valley free from European control.

France attempted to gain possession of the Upper Ohio Valley with a show of military force, which was in response to the region's changing political situation. They feared British trade hegemony in the region and increased cooperation between the British and Iroquois with the traditionally pro-French Miamis. In 1749, the French sent Celeron de Blainville on an extended expedition down through the Ohio Valley "with a detachment formed of a captain,

eight subaltern officers, six cadets, an armorer, twenty men of the troops, one hundred and eighty Canadians and nearly thirty” Iroquois and Abenaki Indians. Celeron’s campaign had multiple tasks. Their first responsibility was to claim the Ohio Valley physically for France by placing lead plates in the ground “as a monument of the renewal of possession which we have taken of the said river Ohio, and of those that therein empty; and of all the land on both sides to the source of the said river.”<sup>11</sup>

Celeron likewise intended to drive all British traders from the region. Whenever they encountered British traders, the size of Celeron’s force intimidated the British. For example, the expedition encountered “six Englishmen, with fifty horses and nearly one hundred and fifty packs of peltry” in an abandoned Shawnee village near the Kiskeminitas River. Celeron told the British traders to abandon the Ohio Country because the territory belonged to the king of France “and not to the king of England.” He promised “this time” to “treat them with humanity,” but “if they returned again they would be pillaged” by the French. The six men pledged not to return to the Ohio Valley and carried Celeron’s letter to Philadelphia. Celeron used the note to reaffirm his nation’s claim to the Ohio Valley and to “warn” British “merchants that they will themselves risk a great deal if” they traded in the Ohio Valley. The expedition encountered a second group of six British traders near the confluence of the Monongahela and Allegheny rivers. Celeron likewise forced them from the region with another note to Pennsylvania’s governor, James Hamilton.<sup>12</sup>

France also believed that the show of military force would compel the Ohio Indians to dissociate themselves from Britain. Celeron carried the Marquis de La Galissoniere’s message to the Ohio Indians, which he read during each council. The message bluntly stated that the Ohio

Valley was the possession of France and that British traders were trespassers. A hint at possible military violence provided further motivation for the Indians to avoid trade with Britain. The marquis also admonished the Ohio Indians to drive the British from the region, which then would permit them to live “always peaceable in” their villages.<sup>13</sup>

A council in a Seneca village was indicative of the French tone with the Indians during the expedition. Celeron opened the council by offering to the Senecas two strings of wampum. The first was for the Senecas to “hear well” what he had to say, and the second was for them to “see clearly the advantages” of allying with France. He then emphasized that the Senecas would “profit by” these words. After he read the Marquis de La Galissoniere’s message, Celeron concluded his speech by saying that it was an “outrage” that he saw “erected” in the Seneca village “a cabin destined to receive English traders.”<sup>14</sup>

Celeron’s threats did not stop British traders from venturing into the region and trading with the western Indians. Pennsylvania traders were well established in the Ohio Valley by this time, having followed the Indians as they migrated into the region during the first decades of the century. After King George’s War, both Pennsylvania and Virginia increased their trade with the Ohio Indians. Virginia merchants eventually established a trading post, which doubled as a fort, at the confluence of the Allegheny and Monongahela rivers in 1754. Thus, the British continued to ignore French claims to the Ohio Valley and became even more aggressive in their quest to dominate the region.<sup>15</sup>

The continued presence of British traders and Marquis La Galissoniere’s candid analysis of the situation caused France to act decisively to secure the Upper Ohio Valley. The French intended to build a string of forts from Lake Erie to the Forks of the Ohio in 1753.<sup>16</sup> Due to

uncooperative weather, disease, and incompetence, the French expedition advanced only to the mouth of French Creek. However, they successfully erected two forts during the summer and fall of that year: Presque Isle on the south shore of Lake Erie and LeBoeuf at the source of French Creek. The expedition also established an outpost, Venango, at the mouth of French Creek. In the following spring, the French force resumed their trek to the Forks of the Ohio where they ousted the British from their fort and established Fort Duquesne. The resulting attempt by Britain to force the French from the Ohio country ignited the ongoing imperial feud between the two world powers into the Seven Years' War.<sup>17</sup>

Ironically, the British knew little of the land that they coveted and went to war to acquire. John St. Clair, Deputy Quartermaster General of the British army in America, requested maps of the region from the colonial governors in 1755, but they offered little assistance. New York governor James DeLancey replied that "As to Maps of this Country, we have none" but promised that one "will soon be published." DeLancey provided a written description of the geography from New York City to Niagara Falls, which he believed was "perhaps the most important pa[s]s in all N<sup>o</sup>. America, the french Forces pa[s]s this way going to the Ohio." However, the governor confessed that he did not know the distances from Lake Erie "to Monongahela" and that St. Clair was "better inform'd" than DeLancey. Governor DeLancey made this comment despite St. Clair's previous admission that he was "an entire Stranger to the ground in America." Robert Morris of Pennsylvania eventually supplied a map "including part of the Lake Erie and of the River Ohio a Considerable way below the Monongahela."<sup>18</sup>

Finding guides well versed in the region's geography was an equally difficult task. St. Clair, in a 1755 letter to Major General Edward Braddock, complained that he had "only been

able to find one Woodsman who can give me any distinct Account” of the Upper Ohio Valley. This situation changed over time. Records for the 1758 Forbes expedition indicated that the army found thirteen guides to lead them to the Upper Ohio River Valley.<sup>19</sup>

With a dearth of information about the Upper Ohio Valley, the military often used informal sources to supplement the information gathered by professionals. John Hart, who was an Indian trader from Pennsylvania, provided a piece of the western puzzle in 1757. He claimed that the French army “allowed Generally a month in Somer Time” to communicate between Fort Duquesne and Montreal.<sup>20</sup> John Hochstattler’s 1758 escape from Shawnee and Lenape captivity also contributed valuable information about western travel. He claimed that the distance from the Ohio River to Shamokin, on the Susquehanna River, was a fifteen-day journey.<sup>21</sup>

While the imperial conflict between Great Britain and France raged, British colonies also competed to be the first to settle the Upper Ohio Valley. Pennsylvania and Virginia were at the forefront of this provincial struggle. Both colonies had charters that established their rights to the Upper Ohio River Valley, which they used as justification for sending representatives to treat with the Indians. Without an exact policy from the Crown, and with both colonies believing that they had rightful claims to the Upper Ohio Valley, British settlement of the region was an uncoordinated, confusing dash.<sup>22</sup>

Virginia’s charter provided the colony’s primary claim to the Ohio Valley. In the original charter of 10 April 1606, James I provided a vast, if indeterminate, amount of territory for the colony. The grant included “the main Land between” thirty-four and forty-five degrees north latitude. The amended charter of 12 March 1611 was slightly more specific than the original.

The new grant of land extended “from the Point of Land called Cape or Point Comfort all along the Sea Coasts to the Northward two hundred Miles; and from the said Point of Cape Comfort all along the Sea Coast to the Southward two hundred Miles; and all that Space and Circuit of Land lying from the Sea Coast . . . up into the Land throughout from Sea to Sea West and North-west.”<sup>23</sup> This immense tract of land, if the charter was implemented exactly, would have covered the northern half of the United States from the Atlantic Ocean to the Pacific Ocean, which included the Upper Ohio River Valley.

Virginia also used the Treaty of Lancaster of 1744, which Britain negotiated during King George’s War to extend their sovereignty over the region. This treaty was meant to create “stricter Amity and peace” between the British colonies of Virginia, Pennsylvania, Maryland and the Iroquois Confederacy. The terms were sufficiently vague, which actually helped Virginia’s claim to the Upper Ohio Valley. The Indians acknowledged the British king’s title to “all the land within the said Colony as it is now or hereafter may be peopled and bounded” by that king and his heirs. The treaty was also a “Disclaimer and Renunciation” by the Iroquois of “all their land in the said Colony of Virginia.” The Virginians, however, did not tell the Iroquois that Virginia’s charter gave the colony land from “sea to sea,” which, of course, included the Ohio River Valley.<sup>24</sup>

Virginia aggressively pursued the organization and settlement of the Ohio Valley before they had clear claim, either from the Indians, France, or the British Crown. At a 1749 meeting, Virginia’s Council “Ordered, That an Advertisement be inserted in the next Virginia Gazette, signifying that Surveyors are now at Liberty to proceed in surveying any Lands beyond the great Mountains.” This was an obvious attempt to organize the territory for future settlement under the



control of Virginia.<sup>25</sup>

Virginia's Thomas Lee ardently supported his colony's right to the Upper Ohio River Valley. In several letters to Conrad Weiser, Lee reminded the frontiersman that "by the treaty of Lancaster the frontiers of Virginia were to be expanded at the Kings pleasure." However, for the colony to occupy the territory, Virginia had "to gain the Indians by good usage in trade and every other way." Having the Indians "agreeable" to white settlement in the Ohio Valley was a critical issue to both Lee and the Virginia colony because the governor had extended the "Frontier by large grants of land as far as Ohio," with Lee "concerned in one."<sup>26</sup>

Winning the Indians' approval was only part of the Virginians' dilemma for securing the Ohio River Valley. Lee also recognized the keen competition for the region from other British colonies. As principal economic rivals, Pennsylvania's "rascally" traders were obstacles to Virginia's, and Lee's, plans of expansion. However, their presence not only hindered Virginia's economic prospects but, according to Lee, also threatened British imperial designs on the Ohio Valley. He felt that the Pennsylvanians' "lyes & treachery" could drive the Indians from the British and "give the french posession of the trade" with the Ohio Indians. Other competition for the Upper Ohio Valley came from Thomas Cresap of Maryland. Lee was "concerned with Coll<sup>e</sup> Cry[s]sup in a Company to settle, by Grants from the King," on lands in the region. To make matters worse for Lee, Cresap was doing so "with the consent of the Indians" as well. Therefore, to increase his acceptance by the Ohio Indians, Lee wanted Weiser to "recommend" Lee's company to the Indians, who Lee called Weiser's "friends."<sup>27</sup>

Virginia Governor Robert Dinwiddie also criticized his colonial competition. Dinwiddie elaborated on this topic in his instructions to the colony's representatives to the 1752 Logg's

Town council. The governor feared that “bad impressions the Indians may have rec<sup>d</sup> from the Pennsylvania Traders” had damaged British relations with the Ohio Indians. To remedy the situation in his favor, Dinwiddie wanted the Indians to understand that the “chief point” of a British presence in the region was only “to carry on a Trade to the mutual benefit of them & the inhabitants” of Virginia. The governor also emphasized that a proposed Virginia “settlement” in the Ohio country would “preserve” the Indians and Virginia “from any Injuries from the French in case of a future War.”<sup>28</sup>

Lee’s allegation of “treachery” by Pennsylvania’s traders came after he proposed a rather duplicitous arrangement with Conrad Weiser, Pennsylvania’s official emissary to a 1748 council with the Ohio Indians. He proposed that Weiser should secretly secure the Six Nations’ allegiance to Virginia. Although Virginia had a representative at the council, Lee wanted the more experienced Weiser to assist in purchasing gifts that would interest the Iroquois and encourage them to “protect, & not disturb” Virginia’s “back Settlements.” Weiser was also to remind their “friends” of Virginia’s “Union with them” and to “shew” that the gifts, which Weiser should “di[s]tinguish” from those of Pennsylvania, were to demonstrate Virginia’s affection of the Iroquois. To entice Weiser to take the proposition, Lee said that he was “directed by the Governour” to make Weiser aware that he was to be “rewarded to” his “satisfaction for the Service” to Virginia. Weiser, however, refused Lee’s offer and remained loyal to Pennsylvania.<sup>29</sup>

Governor Robert Dinwiddie used the deteriorating political situation between Britain and France to advance his colony’s claim to the Ohio Valley, making policy decisions for the region independently of the Crown. In October 1753, Dinwiddie dispatched George Washington on his now famous journey carrying the message that ordered the French from British soil. Dinwiddie

emphasized to Washington that he was acting in the best interest of the British crown, because the French actions were “contrary to the Peace & Dignity of” George II. The governor did not elaborate on how the circumstances affected Virginia’s colonial or his personal interests in the Upper River Ohio Valley.<sup>30</sup>

Dinwiddie later received justification for his actions from the British government. The Earl of Holdernessee, British Secretary of State of the Southern Department, in November 1753 sent instructions to the provincial governors that outlined the British response to the French occupation of the Allegheny River Valley. He ordered the governors “to resist any Hostile attempts that may be made upon any Parts of his Majestie’s Dominions within your Government.” The provincial governments were to respond first with a warning and then with force when “any Foreign Prince or State” actually occupied British soil. In a separate letter to Dinwiddie, Holdernessee emphasized the importance of stopping French encroachment, both to king and Virginia. Holdernessee also authorized Dinwiddie to build forts to stop the aggressors, although Virginia did not have clear claim to the Upper Ohio Valley.<sup>31</sup>

As the conflict between France and Britain escalated toward war in early 1754, Dinwiddie exercised authority given to him by Holdernessee’s instructions, general and individual, to protect British interests and to expand his colony’s claim to the Upper Ohio Valley. The governor issued a proclamation on 19 February 1754 in which he “determined that a Fort be immediately built on the River Ohio, at the Fork of Monongahela.” The fort’s purpose was quite clear. It was for empire and colony. First, the fort was “to oppose any further Encroachments or hostile Attempts of the French” on British soil. Dinwiddie also intended the fort to aid the “Indians in their Interest, & for the Security and Protection of his Majesty’s Subjects in this Colony.”<sup>32</sup>

Governor Dinwiddie used the 1754 proclamation to offer a bonus to encourage enlistment in the Virginia militia. The militia would also strengthen his colony's potential hold on the Upper Ohio Valley since he granted "200000 Acres of his Majesty the King of Great Britain's Lands, on the East Side of the River Ohio" to "be divided . . . immediately after the Performance of the said Service for volunteers." The Virginia recruits, after serving George II, would likely take advantage of the governor's offer of frontier land. Thus, the overwhelming number of Virginia settlers would strengthen that colony's hold on the Upper Ohio River Valley.<sup>33</sup>

Pennsylvania also claimed the Upper Ohio River Valley. Like Virginia, Pennsylvania believed that the region fell within their provincial boundaries based on their charter. King Charles II's 1681 grant of land to William Penn defined the western boundary as "Five degrees in longitude," or three hundred miles, from the Delaware River. A strict interpretation of the charter included the Upper Ohio River Valley as part of Pennsylvania.<sup>34</sup>

During the early stages of the French and Indian War, Pennsylvania was not sure of the colony's western boundary and hesitantly confirmed that the Upper Ohio River Valley belonged to Pennsylvania. While Virginia's Dinwiddie responded to the Earl of Holderness's orders with action, political factions stymied the Pennsylvania government. Quaker opposition first wanted to determine if the French forts were actually on Pennsylvania soil. They resisted Governor James Hamilton's request for action until the government calculated the province's exact western boundary. Then they would determine if the French forts were located in Pennsylvania. After an exhausting inquiry, the governor concluded that Pennsylvania's western boundary extended past the confluence of the Allegheny and Monongahela rivers.<sup>35</sup>

British provincial ownership of the Upper Ohio River Valley remained as clouded as the

imperial title to the region. Both Pennsylvania and Virginia claimed all or part of the Ohio Valley based on their colonial charters. Virginia's charter, which the Crown granted first, gave the colony legitimate claim to most of the region. Pennsylvania's charter, granted three-quarters of a century after Virginia's, also gave that province title to a portion of the Upper Ohio Valley. Lack of geographic knowledge of the continent's interior added to the confusion. This debate between Pennsylvania and Virginia over the territory where their claims overlapped lasted until the 1780s. When the colonies, and later the states, debated this issue, they assumed ownership while the Ohio Indians rightfully occupied the region.

A private force in the settling of the Ohio Valley were land companies, who added to already highly competitive nature of settling the land around the Upper Ohio River. These companies were formed by influential men, usually with well-placed political or social connections in the colonies and the government in England. Through these connections, land companies requested grants from the Crown that often amounted to tens or hundreds of thousands of acres. In exchange, they promised to expand the Crown's territory by populating the land with British settlers. The ultimate purpose of land companies, however, was to make a great deal of money for the participants.

Thomas Lee of Virginia led the first effort to partition the Ohio River Valley. In 1747, a dozen leading citizens of Virginia asked for 200,000 acres on the "main River of Alligany als. Ohio." When the Crown denied the initial request, they formed a land speculation company with twenty new partners. The newly-formed Ohio Company of Virginia requested a 500,000-acre grant. The Crown granted the company this request in March 1749, but the grant stipulated that

the company had to settle 100 families and build a fort for their protection within seven years of the grant. This new rival upset the previous balance in the valley. This competition between the Pennsylvania traders and the Ohio Company fueled the political chaos that eventually led to the Seven Years' War.<sup>36</sup>

The Ohio Company was also an example of how private groups and individuals often manipulated public policy for personal profit and blurred the line separating public and private interest groups. Thomas Lee, founder of the Ohio Company, was also president of Virginia's council, which created an apparent conflict of interest for Lee. Rather than separating himself from one of these pursuits, Lee instead focused his public and personal attention on the Ohio River Valley. Thus, Lee willingly used public office in pursuit of private interests.<sup>37</sup>

Lee revealed his duplicity in several mid-century letters to Conrad Weiser, where he shrouded his personal ambitions with those of the public. He genuinely complimented Weiser for his ability to negotiate with the Indians, telling him that "noe man" could "do soe much good in these matters." Virginia's, and Lee's, future relied on Weiser's ability. Lee told Weiser that the colony wanted a "Settlement at the Mouth of Mohongala," which was the same territory previously granted to the Ohio Company. However, he professed to have the "public good and the Kings service . . . chiefly in View" by encouraging expansion. To possess the Upper Ohio Valley meant that Britain could "make a strong settlement and carry on a fair and extensive trade . . . to gain the Indians to Brittish interest." Thus, as a member of the Ohio Company and Virginia's government, which was part of the British empire, British expansion into the Upper Ohio Valley would serve king and colony, as well as Thomas Lee.<sup>38</sup>

Governor Robert Dinwiddie of Virginia also mixed public and private concerns. He took

personal interest in the success of the Ohio Company when he became a partner in March 1750. He bought a share of the 500,000 acres granted to the company three years earlier. His actions to secure the Ohio River Valley for king, country, and colony by authorizing the building of the fort in 1749 also helped his private interests. Dinwiddie's support of the Treaty of Logg's Town of 1752 with the Ohio Indians as an "Inducement for them to protect, and secure a peaceable Possession to the Ohio Company," also tacitly assisted his personal investment. The French fortification of the Upper Ohio Valley posed a threat to these plans. In a letter submitted to Virginia's council in the fall of 1753, William Trent relayed that the Iroquois were leaning toward the French and "doubts all the Settlers on the Ohio Company's Lands will be obliged to move off if the Governor don't fall on some Method speedily to stop the progress of the French." When he sent George Washington to the French in the Allegheny Valley in late 1753, shortly after Trent's letter to the council was received, Dinwiddie used his official position as governor of Virginia to warn the French to leave the "Property of the Crown of Great Britain."<sup>39</sup>

Land companies, such as the Ohio Company, contributed to the confusion of colonial expansion. They also reflected the animosity between and greed among nations and colonies when it came to the grab for land. The Susquehannah Company of Connecticut was formed during a period of a renewed interest in expanding the territory of Connecticut. The movement started in May 1750 when a group asked the Connecticut assembly for a "Large Tract of Land Lying within the Bounds of this Colony as described in the Royal Charter Lying west of Hudsons River which is not Included in any of the Charters to any of the neighbouring Governments." This request was denied by the assembly, but it typified future petitions. They were based on a sufficiently vague charter that entitled Connecticut to territory to the "South Sea" and ignored

Pennsylvania's claim to the land. Most people, despite the charter, accepted the border with New York as the colony's western boundary.<sup>40</sup>

Connecticut's government did not approve requests like the first one, because it respected the traditional western border. Over the next several years as Connecticut's government reviewed more petitions for grants, opinions changed, which encouraged the expansion of the colony. At the forefront was the Susquehannah Company, which was founded in July 1753 to "Enlarge his Majesties English Settlements in North America and further to Spread Christianity." They appointed a committee to negotiate with the Indians for land along the Susquehanna River. The company approached Connecticut Governor Roger Wolcott in January 1754, and received his support of the company's actions. He felt it would stop French expansion and keep the Indians allied with the British while increasing "English Possessions of the Countrey."<sup>41</sup>

The government of Pennsylvania, however, was not happy with the prospects of another colony expanding into territory that they claimed. On 4 March 1754, Lieutenant Governor James Hamilton sent letters to Wolcott and his deputy, Thomas Fitch, in which he clearly defined his government's position. Hamilton said that the company did not have authority to move onto land that was within the borders of Pennsylvania. He also reminded Wolcott that crown policy prohibited private citizens from purchasing land directly from Indians. Hamilton suggested that if anyone from Connecticut wanted to move, Pennsylvania and Virginia had "vacant" lands within their borders that were farther to the west. Hamilton was not against western settlement, but he was not willing to give up land to another colony.<sup>42</sup>

Hamilton noted in his letters about the French incursions into the Ohio River Valley and compared that to Connecticut's actions in north central Pennsylvania. He said it was "very



probable” that the two colonies would be “engaged in a War to repel the French, who have actually invaded this Province.” By the same token, Connecticut would possibly “raise a Civil War in the Province” by expanding into territory claimed by Pennsylvania. Although the threats may have been rhetorical, the government of Pennsylvania wanted to maintain the integrity of its borders.<sup>43</sup>

The Connecticut settlement in the Upper Susquehanna Valley also concerned Hamilton and the Pennsylvania government because of the possibility that it could disturb the colony’s relative peace with their Indians. Pennsylvania’s government “by their Treaties with those Indians” were bound “not to permit any Persons to settle upon Lands within the Bounds of the Province that has not been purchased from them.” The Iroquois Confederacy owned the land that the Connecticut settlers desired, and was “used by them for their hunting Ground.” Attorney General Tench Francis feared that the Six Nations “may interpret such a Settlement a Violation of our Treaties-and may be induced to commit Hostilities that would be attended with Consequences most dangerous at this Juncture.” Francis concluded that government should arrest those who proposed the plan or actually settled Pennsylvania lands outside of the province’s laws.<sup>44</sup>

Governor James Hamilton also intervened on behalf of the Iroquois Confederacy to keep peace in Pennsylvania. Initially, he wanted a representative, Conrad Weiser, to travel to Onondaga, the diplomatic center of the Iroquois Confederacy, “to put the Indians on their Guard against” the settlement of their land by people from Connecticut. Weiser persuaded Governor Hamilton to follow proper channels. Instead, Hamilton wrote a letter to William Johnson, Superintendent of Indian Affairs for the North Department, who had a close relationship with the

Iroquois Confederacy. In his letter, Hamilton explained how the Connecticut settlers probably would upset Pennsylvania's treaties with the Indians within the province. He also asked Johnson "to put the Indians upon their Guard . . . against the attempts" of the people from Connecticut. The governor surmised that the Connecticut settlement "might not only alienate the affections of the Six Nations . . . , but might also draw on a civil War within this Province." He believed that both results would "prove particularly hurtful to the general Interest at this time, when the French have actually invaded this Province" and war was likely. Thus, Hamilton concluded again that the best interests of all, country and colony, would be served by stopping the Connecticut settlement.<sup>45</sup>

Both Britain and France perceived that they were in competition mainly with each other, not with the Indians, for control of the Upper Ohio River Valley. To the Europeans, the Ohio Indians remained obstacles in their race to occupy the region. The British and French justified their perceptions and exploitation of the Indians with the belief that they were culturally superior, even after more than a century of contact between the peoples. Despite this considerable condescension, Europeans also realized that they needed an Indian alliance to defeat rivals for the region.<sup>46</sup>

The Earl of Halifax's comments on the situation revealed the basic and long-standing British premise in their relationship with the Iroquois, who they saw in a dependent role. Halifax said that the forts were "clearly not only within the Territory of the Six Nations, but also within someone or other of the British Provinces." Although he made a political distinction between British and Iroquois territory, Halifax viewed the French occupation of Iroquois land as an

occupation of British land, because the British saw the Iroquois as dependent nations, subjects of Great Britain.<sup>47</sup>

Robert Dinwiddie's August 1753 orders gave him "the Means . . . recommended to be taken towards checking the Designs of the French on the Ohio, and for the Maintenanc[ce] of his Majesty's Rights, and the Interests and Security of his Subjects in America." At the forefront of British plans was the scheme to build and arm forts "on the River Ohio." The British government also ordered the governor of Virginia "to represent the Injustice" to the offending party if "any foreign Prince or State should presume to make any Incroachments on the Limits of his Majestys Dominion." The governor was also ordered to resort to arms if the offenders did not retreat. Thus, Britain ignored Indian political sovereignty in their race with France for control of the Ohio Valley.<sup>48</sup>

French efforts to stop British aggression in the Upper Ohio River Valley also ignored Iroquois autonomy, as illustrated by Celeron's 1749 expedition when he told the Indians to stop trading with the British. The later building of the forts in the area in 1753 likewise showed that the French ignored the Indians' claim to the region.<sup>49</sup>

Europeans either did not trust the Indians or had little regard for their ability as warriors. Celeron's 1749 expedition to the Ohio country again provided examples. Near Fort Frontenac, representatives of the Miamis arrived and offered their services to the French.<sup>50</sup> Celeron saw the Miami warriors as a threat to his plans because he "did not rely much on the disposition of these savages." While meeting with Iroquois and Shawnees later in the trip, Celeron comments on the unreliability of the Ohio Indians reflected French fears about the Ohio Valley. He said that "there is little dependence to be placed on the promises of such people" particularly when "their

interest engages them to look with favor on the English.” Sir John St. Clair, deputy quartermaster of the British army, likewise discounted the Six Nations’ strength in a 1755 letter. St. Clair erroneously observed that France had won the Iroquois, who actually attempted to steer a course of neutrality, as allies. This perceived loss of the Iroquois to the French did not appear to upset St. Clair. He concluded that the Iroquois “way of fighting” was not “formidable” and their only “use to” the British was “Supplying . . . Provisions in the Season.” British Colonel Henry Bouquet held “the most contemptible Opinion of” the Indians’ “Courage and Intellects,” because he believed that the Indians “blundered so much in not attempting to surprise” the British forts in the early day of Pontiac’s Rebellion.<sup>51</sup>

Despite the patronizing attitude of some Europeans, many British and French recognized the value of Indian allies in their quest to claim the Upper Ohio River Valley. Although the populations of the Iroquois, Lenapes, and Shawnees declined from contact with the Europeans, they continued to be formidable military forces, much feared as enemies and sought as allies by colonists. Indians also remained superior fighters in the woods than were the Europeans. Thus, in the contested region that had an Indian majority and a geography that favored Indian style of fighting, the French and British spent much time and money to secure the Ohio Indians as allies.

Thomas Lee of Virginia saw the need for Indian allies. In a 1746 letter to Conrad Weiser, Lee valued peace between the Six Nations and the Catawbias because it would benefit Britain. Peace would “leave both at more liberty & they will be stronger to a[s]sist y<sup>e</sup> Kings subjects on both Frontiers.” He later wrote to Weiser that “It is very good news that the Six Nations are not to be debauched from us.” Lee wanted Weiser to encourage the Iroquois to “Attack the French and furnish them with the means.” Governor Robert Dinwiddie recommended the use of Indian

allies for economic purposes. He told the earl of Holderness in a 1754 letter “that a real F’dship and true Understand’g with the different Nations of Ind’s is the most eligible Method to secure and settle the interior Parts of this Cont’t, and the Skin and Furr Trade is to be conducted there to great Advantage.” Celeron de Blainville eventually changed his mind and accepted the Miamis as allies in 1749 after he discovered the strength of the Miami nation. However, even then Celeron only permitted the Miami to accompany him as long as they did “not delay his departure.”<sup>52</sup>

The political situation of the upper Ohio Indians was quite unsettled by mid-century. The British viewed the Iroquois as the sovereigns of the region and together the two nations subdued the Lenape, forcing them into a subordinate role without rights to negotiate treaties. The Iroquois also claimed dominion over the Shawnee although the Shawnee seldom followed Iroquois orders and did as they pleased. The local Iroquois representative, or “Half King,” was the Seneca chief Tanaghrisson, who lived in the Lenape village of Logg’s Town. The complexity of Indian politics in the Ohio Valley increased during the 1750s, as the European interest groups struggled for domination.<sup>53</sup>

While the various European factions maneuvered into position to claim the Upper Ohio Valley, the Ohio Indians worked equally hard to hold on to their land and their authority over other Indians. The Indians recognized that they were already in a precarious situation and the signs were ominous for further loss of autonomy and land from British or French expansion into the area. Increasing numbers of British traders already encroached on Indian land, which Indians saw from past experience meant later white settlement. The French military presence through

their Allegheny Valley forts threatened to dislocate the Indians or make them vassals to the French. Trouble brewed among the Ohio tribes as Shawnees and Lenapes defied Iroquois rule. The Iroquois were in a precarious position as they attempted to uphold their interests while steering a neutral course between England and France.

As the European presence in the Ohio River Valley escalated, Tanaghrisson met with representatives from both Britain and France in late 1753, emphasizing to both nations that the region was Indian territory. He ventured first to Fort Presque Isle to meet with Sieur de Marin, the commander of French forces in the Allegheny Valley. Tanaghrisson told Marin that the Indians had not sold the land to the French and that he was troubled by their presence. He also impressed upon the French commander that the Indians had told the British to leave the region, which, according to Tanaghrisson, they did. The half-king encouraged the French to do the same, or the Indians would attack.<sup>54</sup>

The French commander “receiv’d” the half-king “in a very stern Manner” and “ask’d him very abruptly” for the purpose of the meeting. Tanaghrisson then accused the French of causing tension on the frontier, calling them “the Disturber in this Land.” He also stated that the Ohio country was “a Place of residence for” Indians who kept the French and British “at Arm’s length” as a “Tryal” for the two nations to see which respected Indian sovereignty. Marin replied that he was “not affraid of Flies or Musquito’s; for Indians are such as those” and that he would use force if the Indians tried to block his way. Tanaghrisson later engaged George Washington, who stopped at Logg’s Town while on his journey to the French forts with Dinwiddie’s letters, to discuss his recent meeting with Marin. During their council, Tanaghrisson stressed Marin’s contempt of and open hostility toward the Indians and their claim to the Ohio Valley.<sup>55</sup>

Tanaghrisson addressed three concerns during the two meetings. First, he reminded both Marin and Washington that the Senecas and other Indians claimed the Upper Ohio River Valley and would oppose any trespassers, British or French. Secondly, he portrayed the French as aggressors, who threatened to occupy Indian land and disturb peace in the Ohio Valley. Finally, the half-king expressed his continued preference for the British. Thus, Tanaghrisson sought to maintain the Iroquois-British alliance while he protected Iroquois sovereignty in the Ohio Valley.

As this frontier conflict evolved into the French and Indian War, the Ohio Indians wanted to remain neutral. They were most concerned with keeping Britain and France out of the Ohio River Valley and avoiding involvement in another European conflict. However, with the building of Fort Duquesne and the crushing defeat of Braddock's expedition, France became the dominant European power in the Upper Ohio Valley. Many Ohio Indians, who believed that France was more likely to win the conflict and had longstanding grievances with Britain changed their diplomatic stance. Most members of the Iroquois Confederacy plied a neutral course during the war, but the Senecas fought with France.<sup>56</sup> The Ohio Valley Shawnees and Lenapes likewise allied with France. Thus, during the early phases of the war, the balance of power in the Ohio Valley shifted to France.<sup>57</sup>

Events during the course of the war again caused the Senecas and other Ohio Indians to change their diplomatic positions. By 1758, the British navy controlled the seas, which reduced the quantity of French supplies that reached America and eventually the Indians. This alienated the Ohio Indians who relied on French supplies. British duplicity also led some Ohio Indians to change sides when the British promised they would not settle in the Ohio Valley after the war.

The Indians were convinced the British would win after the arrival of a formidable force commanded by General John Forbes. When Forbes captured Fort Duquesne, many Ohio Indians changed their allegiance to the British, which made the British the dominant European force in the Ohio Valley.<sup>58</sup>

An unidentified Indian messenger explained the changing Indian diplomatic position at a May 1758 meeting between the western Indians and the French. The French sent envoys to invite the Iroquois to a feast. Instead, the Indians threw down the belts of wampum, thereby rejecting the symbolic invitation to join the French against the British. The Indian messenger noted that the Iroquois were “not much longer” going to “observe a Neutrality.” They wanted to “take up the Hatchet against the French, as soon as they could prevail on their Allies, to whom they had sent Me[s]sengers to come in” to a council. Thus, the Iroquois attempted to create the image that they were noncombatants who opposed the French and wanted to ally with the British.<sup>59</sup>

The 1763 French cession of “Canada, with all its dependencies,” at the end of the Seven Years’ War left the British as the dominant European force in America. Although Indians still occupied the Upper Ohio River Valley, the loss of the French as leverage against the British endangered their territorial holdings in the region because the British no longer feared an Indian alliance with their ancient enemies. The British treated the Ohio Indians with contempt as they ignored Indian sovereignty and mistreated the Indians. Settlers swarmed over the mountains and “Setled . . . in y<sup>e</sup> hart of” Indian “Cuntrey & on y<sup>e</sup> Warrers Road,” while the army maintained forts in the region after promising to abandon them. Additionally, the British did not provide the Indians with “powder Lead & Such Nesisarys as they may Want,” which had “been allways Don



by boath y<sup>e</sup> English & french.” The British promised these supplies in their effort to encourage the Ohio Indians to “abandon y<sup>e</sup> french” during the Seven Years’ War. This surge of British aggression angered the Ohio Indians leading to Pontiac’s Rebellion in 1763. Their attempt to drive the British east of the Alleghenies, or even from America, ultimately failed. However, the Indians had a victory of sorts. The rebellion led King George III to issue the Proclamation of 1763. The proclamation barred British settlement west of the Alleghenies, which gave the Ohio Indians a temporary reprieve from losing their land to British settlers.<sup>60</sup>

The European quest for the Upper Ohio River Valley reflected their perception of cultural superiority over the Ohio Indians, who were the region’s rightful owners. Although the Indians frequently aided the Europeans, Europeans did not perceive their relationship as equal. Instead, they saw the Indian nations as subordinate or inferior to Europeans and as obstacles to their conquest of the region. Once the French were gone, Britain treated the Indians as they pleased, which served to anger the Indians. The British Crown limited the British presence in the Upper Ohio Valley only after a short, but bloody, war for Indian independence.

Interest in the Upper Ohio River Valley came from many quarters. On the national level, France and Britain wanted possession of the region for imperial reasons. The American colonies sought to expand into the region to increase their power and wealth. Private individuals and companies also competed for the area, which added to the chaos and competition. The Ohio Indians, who were not mere British or French pawns, used their considerable diplomatic and military skills to maintain their autonomy in the region before, during, and after the Seven Years’ War. Their loss of the Upper Ohio Valley only occurred after a protracted war, first with Britain then the United States, that lasted for three decades.

## Chapter 3

### Frontiersmen: Vanguard of Conquest

The responsibility of upholding British interests amid the chaos of imperial expansion and colonial animosity fell to a group of men commonly known as frontiersmen. That term, however, is too vague and romantic to describe their lives and activities. Their activities took them well beyond the frontier, requiring them to move equally well in English and Indian worlds. They negotiated with other nations, European or Indian, and traded with the Indians. These men also surveyed and speculated on land, and some attempted to spread Christianity. But most of all, they were opportunists who wanted to increase their own wealth through trade or land acquisition. They were representatives of English culture whose ultimate purpose was to uphold and extend English interests in the West.

Representatives of English interests on the frontier had to be adept at many different tasks. The skills needed included knowing how to survive while on the frontier to being versed in the intricacies of frontier diplomacy. Frontiersmen were also opportunists who did not see a conflict of interest if they made a profit while on official public business for country or colony. These men reflected the values of their time. They were not heroes or villains but simply human.

Frontiersmen were not James Axtell's "white Indians," who rejected white society and willingly remained with the Indians, adopting their culture. Frontiersmen entered Indian society fully intending to return to white society or to remain as representatives of white society. They used their knowledge of Indian culture and practices accumulated on the frontier to survive,

whether this meant wearing Indian-style clothing or learning Indian protocol, customs, or language. These practices were used to accomplish their ultimate goal of expanding eastern interests in the West, not to assimilate into a new culture.<sup>1</sup>

Men typically went to the frontier because they lacked economic opportunities in the East or had recently emigrated from Europe. They were not wealthy, a status they coveted, and their best chance for success was on the frontier. George Croghan migrated from Ireland in 1741 to escape the potato famine. Conrad Weiser immigrated to America from Wurttemberg with his family as a boy of thirteen in 1710. The Weisers were part of New York Governor Robert Hunter's naval stores project, after being driven out of Germany by the War of the Spanish Succession. Thomas Cresap likewise was an immigrant. Originally from Yorkshire, England, Cresap arrived in America in 1715 as a young man and settled first on the Susquehanna. He pushed farther westward, where he applied, according to his biographer, Kenneth Bailey, his "innate ability to work." The New World offered much to men like these.<sup>2</sup>

Native born men also pursued economic opportunity on the frontier that was denied them in the more settled East. Christopher Gist came from Baltimore, where he had run his own business. At age forty, following a string of failures as a merchant, Gist sold out to his creditors. He moved his family to the Yadkin River valley on the Carolina frontier. Lack of a sizeable inheritance forced George Washington to look for economic opportunity in the West since most of his father's estate went to his oldest brother, Lawrence. Young George inherited only a small, unproductive farm and some other minor acreage. Washington, like so many other men, looked to the frontier for economic opportunity.<sup>3</sup>

Military life also drew men to the Ohio River Valley frontier. Harry Gordon, captain and engineer in the British army, traveled to the West in 1766 on orders from the commander-in-chief of the British forces in America, Thomas Gage. Colonel Jehu Eyre relocated to Fort Pitt in 1760 to build boats for the exploration of the Ohio River drainage area. Captain Thomas Hutchins, a military geographer, described the newly conquered land as he traveled between Fort Pitt and Lake Erie in 1760.<sup>4</sup>

Christian Frederick Post exemplified another category of men who worked on the frontier. Post was a clergyman who often traveled to the frontier as a missionary. On occasion, colonial governments used Post's knowledge of the Indians and his reputation as an honorable man by hiring him to negotiate with the Indians. Charles Beatty also endured frontier conditions to spread Christianity among westerners in the Upper Ohio valley in the late colonial era.

Regardless of motivation, once on the frontier, survival depended on skill because the Upper Ohio River Valley was still sparsely populated by Europeans. When they exhausted their supplies, men lived off the land and killed their own food or relied on Indians to provide for them. Game, such as deer, bear, turkey, elk, and buffalo, was abundant. Hunters with Frederick Post killed a "large buck," and Christopher Gist in his journal mentioned killing a "young Bear," a "fat bear," or "12 Turkeys." Other entries mentioned the killing of a "Buck Elk" and "2 Buffaloes." Gist particularly coveted the tongues of these animals, noting that his party "took out their Tongues."<sup>5</sup> On one venture to the Ohio, Gist and his party "killed Plenty of Bear Deer & Elk and . . . lived very well." James Glen, of the Forbes expedition of 1758, described a meal that included meat from a "300" pound "Bear and Deer, Cubbs and Fawns," plus "young

Turkeys. His party had such a feast that they “could hardly find room upon his Table.”<sup>6</sup>

Fish were also plentiful and prodigious in size. James Glen relayed the variety of fish caught by one his party. Included on his list were “Catfish, white salmon, Buffalo Fish, Carp and Crawfish.” The man assured Glen that the “fish of all sorts” were caught “on one afternoon.” Jehu Eyre’s shipbuilding party caught one catfish “that was four foot long, and 10 ½ inches across his eyes,” and another “that weighed 94 ½ pounds.”<sup>7</sup>

Shelter was also a pressing concern for Europeans, and not always easy to find. If no shelter was available, then frontiersmen were forced to sleep in the open or in a tent if they had packed one. Experienced frontiersmen knew where shelter could be found. Conrad Weiser, while traveling to treat with the Indians in 1748, mentioned arriving at the “Sleeping Place called the Black Log,” and the Shawonese Cabbins.”<sup>8</sup> Christopher Gist “stay’d” in an “old Indian Cabbin” and in the “Camp” of an Indian from “Shannopini Town.”<sup>9</sup> These men sometimes were disappointed in their search. Later, in his 1748 trip, when Weiser arrived at “Franks Town” he found “no Houses or Cabins” as he had anticipated.<sup>10</sup>

When raised shelter was not available, frontiersmen literally took what they could find. Shortly after Gist’s party had killed a bear, they “scared a Panther from under a rock where there was Room enough” for them to camp. They stayed here for several days, dining on bear meat, because of a heavy snowfall. On another occasion, they camped in a cave that “had been much used by Buffaloes & Elks.” Thus, the environment often provided shelter, as well as food, when it was needed.<sup>11</sup>

To better protect themselves against frontier conditions, the English in the West commonly adopted the clothing style of Indians. For men, this typically included breeches and a

knee-length tunic cinched at the waist with a belt. George Washington, during his trip to the French forts in 1753, was described by his companion Christopher Gist as traveling in “Indian dress.” Frederick Post’s party, during his 1758 venture to the Ohio, also “Cloathed . . . in *Indian* dre[s]s” for the trip to the frontier (author’s italics).<sup>12</sup>

Weather was often a factor in survival. Heavy rains or snow often prevented travel and made life uncomfortable at best and dangerous at worst. On the way to “Wionming” to treat with the Indians, Frederick Post’s party met with a “Violent Gust of Rain” and since they had no shelter other than the “Heavens,” they slept in the downpour. The next day his party lost travel time because they “made a great fire” to dry their “Cloaths.” Rain delayed Conrad Weiser’s trip to Ohio when he and his party “were obliged to dry” their possessions after they “had a great Rain.” Christopher Gist and George Washington also endured rainy weather as they made their way to the French forts in late 1753. Later their dilemma worsened as the “Cold increased very fast; and the Roads were becoming much worse by a deep Snow, continually freezing.”<sup>13</sup>

Illness often followed exposure to inclement weather, resulting in slowed or halted travel or work. Four wagoners, who were carrying presents to the Ohio country for Conrad Weiser, “fell sick,” slowing Weiser’s trip to the West. The usually hardy Weiser became “very sick of the cholick” on the same trip, forcing him to remain in bed for two days. Jehu Eyre lost an entire day of work from building boats because he was ill.<sup>14</sup>

There were other unwelcome surprises on the frontier, as well as weather and health problems. Washington and Gist on their return trip from the French forts met with an Indian who fired at them.<sup>15</sup> The shot missed both men, but they were forced to walk all night to avoid being caught by other Indians. Later on the same trip in late December, Washington fell off a raft into

the freezing waters of the Allegheny River. He saved himself from drowning by “catching hold of one of the Raft Logs.” He and his party spent the night on an island in the middle of the river where the cold was so intense that Gist developed frostbite in his fingers.<sup>16</sup>

Charles Beatty described another harrowing experience during his missionary sojourn. While stopped to preach in a crowded home during a rainstorm, a rattlesnake surprised Beatty’s impromptu congregation. The snake entered by “creeping . . . under the logs of the hou[s]e.” Parishioners, however, killed the unwanted intruder before it struck anyone. Just as the people settled and the meeting resumed, another apparently venomous snake interrupted Beatty. Again, the viper was killed before striking.<sup>17</sup>

For the unfortunate or those unable to cope with frontier conditions, death came suddenly, although not unexpectedly. On one of his trips to the Ohio, Conrad Weiser found the corpse of a man who “had killed himself by Drinking too much Whisky.” Weiser’s party wanted to dig him a grave, but could not because the ground was “very stony.” Instead they covered him with “Stones & Wood” and then went on their way. They found the remains disturbed on their return trip, believing “bears had pulled him out and left nothing of him but a few naked bones and some old rags.” Colonel Jehu Eyre casually noted in his journal that his party “found a dead man close by the road” as they neared Pittsburgh, but stated nothing else about the discovery. While exploring the Monongahela River area, Eyre described another gruesome site. He found the site of Braddock’s defeat, where he “saw a great many men’s bones . . . so thick that one lies on top of another for about a half a mile in length, and about one hundred yards in breadth.” Death was ever present to travelers in the West.<sup>18</sup>

These men took great risks and endured terrible ordeals for imperial and personal reasons. As representatives of governments and land companies, it was their job to understand the frontier. Their sponsors depended upon their diplomatic skills to negotiate agreements with the Indians, often following Indian customs. They also used surveying skills to locate and recognize good land. It was often the skills of the frontiersmen that determined the success of eastern interests, public or private.

Knowledge of the symbolic and monetary use of wampum was key to success in frontier diplomacy. Wampum mainly signified agreement or an understanding of what was said, and at times was quite confusing to whites. Frederick Post received instructions prior to leaving for Ohio that emphasized wampum's importance. They emphasized that Post was to "enforce" his words "with proper Belts or Strings of Wampum." "All the Belts and Strings delivered" in past councils were included, which were "first Numbered" that "referred to the particulars with each Belt and String." To insure Post understood the significance of each piece, they were also labeled.<sup>19</sup>

Possessing wampum was clearly important. Pe[s]quitomen, Post's Indian escort on a trip to Ohio in 1758, not having any wampum, "begged . . . [s]ome *wampum*" from Post before he would speak with some Cherokee Indians encountered by the party, which Post supplied. Later on the same trip, Pe[s]quitomen again asked for more wampum so he could alert the Indians around Fort Duquesne of their presence.<sup>20</sup>

George Croghan understood the symbolic use of wampum. When he delivered Pennsylvania's present to the Ohio Indians at a meeting in Logg's Town in 1751, Croghan gave wampum to the Indians and told them the four strings were "to clear your Minds and open your



Eyes and Ears that you may see the Sun clear, and hear what your Brother is going to say to you.”<sup>21</sup> Then, to emphasize what he said, Croghan gave another string to the Indians. Croghan also used wampum to soften the blow of criticism. At Fort Pitt in 1765, Croghan presented a string after he pointedly told the Indians that because of their delays, he was “obliged to stay here [Fort Pitt] waiting . . . thirty days longer” than he had anticipated.<sup>22</sup>

Frontiersmen were also aware that wampum had a specific monetary value, which aided their efforts on the frontier. With his “Horses being all tyred” from carrying supplies overland, Conrad Weiser “Hired a canoe” to take him to Logg’s Town, paying one thousand “Black Wampum.” Once at Logg’s Town, Weiser paid another “String of Wampum” for a “Couple of Canoes to fetch down the Goods” intended for the Indians that remained at “Chartier’s old Town” because of the tired horses. Frederick Post also knew the monetary value of wampum. While at a council in 1758, he paid “an *Indian* three hundred wampum” to look for missing horses and then paid “four hundred and fifty wampum” for corn to feed the horses (author’s italics). On another occasion, Post “gave 300 wampums to the *Cayugas*” so they could buy feed for their horses (author’s italics).<sup>23</sup>

Wampum may have been used to symbolize an understanding or agreement, but the representatives also used other presents to secure Indian approval. Such presents included a “brass Kettle, Tobacco and some other Trifles.” Conrad Weiser at Logg’s Town gave “a Stroud, a Blanket, a Match coat, a Shirt, a Pair of Stockings, & a large twist of Tobacco” to a sachem. He also gave gifts to other leaders which included “a Piece of Strowd, an half Barrell of Pow[d]er, 100 lbs. of Lead, 10 Shirts, 6 Knives, and 1 lb. of Vermillion.” Weiser piled the gifts to the different nations in “5 different heaps . . . to strengthen the Chain of Friendship between

[us] the English & the several Nations of Indians.”<sup>24</sup>

Weapons were particularly coveted items, and often served a dual purpose for givers and receivers. During a 1748 council, George Croghan supplied “Powder, Lead, Vermillion, Knives, & Flints” among many other gifts. Croghan claimed that the gifts were specifically for hunting. Croghan’s words, however, concealed a probable ulterior purpose for the weapons. The meeting was scheduled to secure the continued alliance of the Iroquois who were “engag’d in a War against the French.” These weapons filled the basic necessity of providing food, but also could be used against England’s traditional enemy. Maintenance was also important. At the 1751 council, Croghan promised to repair the Indians’s “Guns, Kettles, and Hatchets” before he left so that they could “depart well satisfied.”<sup>25</sup>

Clothing was valued by Indians. While paying a call on an aging Shawnee leader in 1751, George Croghan presented “a Strowd Shirt, Match Coat, and a pair Stocking” to remind the chief of his “Attachment to the English Interest.” On another occasion, Croghan “cloathed” two Shawnees, which he believed was “Indian custom.” Then, on a journey into the Ohio country in 1759 to seal the alliance with the western Indians, Croghan gave a “Suit of Indian Cloaths to each,” a total of about 200 Indians. The Indians “in a very affectionate manner returned thanks for the Cloathing they had received.” When a group of Wyandots and Shawnees arrived and were “very naked,” to show English appreciation Croghan also “Cloathed them.” Croghan continued to supply clothing to all newly arrived Indians. He had to be generous because the French were still in the area with “a very large Quantity of Goods,” which they gave “very liberally” to the Indians. Thus, clothing and other goods often sealed the deals that wampum symbolized.<sup>26</sup>

As with wampum, not having gifts was seen as a detriment in forging an alliance with the Indians by the frontiersmen. In a letter to John St. Clair in 1758, Christopher Gist lamented that he did not have gifts to distribute to the Indians at a proposed council. Gist complained that he had “neither Guns, does leather, nor Vermillion, all which will be much wanted to equip these Indians.”<sup>27</sup>

Frontiersmen used liquor to win over the Indians during treaty negotiations and to seal new treaties. This was a common practice, which the British government condoned to keep the western Indians from allying with the French. Conrad Weiser “treated all Company” at Logg’s Town to a “Dram of Rum” before the start of the 1748 council, and “The King’s Health was drank by Indians & White men.” Later, during the same council, he again “treated” the Indians, this time to a quart of whiskey. George Croghan also delivered a “Cag of Rum” along with some food for an Indian “Feast” prior to his 1759 meeting.<sup>28</sup>

Despite using rum and whiskey during negotiations, frontiersmen recognized a problem of alcohol abuse among Indians. Conrad Weiser described the affects of alcohol on western Indians in his correspondence with Christopher Saur, reflecting a common belief held by colonists that Indians became “murderous drunks.”<sup>29</sup> Weiser believed that “sober Indians” seldom fought, and would only do so in extreme circumstances and were more likely to fight among themselves when drunk.<sup>30</sup> However, Indians exonerated participants in a drunken brawl, even if a person was killed or maimed, and blamed the liquor. This belief ended the dispute and prevented retribution and a long term feud. Regardless of the Indians’ response to the results, alcohol was still the source of the violence.<sup>31</sup>

Alcohol abuse created very real problems among the Indians. Frederick Post witnessed

an incident with the Lenapes, where “unhappily, a Woman had brought 5 Gallons of Rum . . . with which most of them [Indians] got drunk.” Two intoxicated Indians “Beat their Wives almost to Death.” Post thought “those who suffer such abuse must sigh and groan to God against those who sell them the Liquor.” On another occasion, George Croghan and Conrad Weiser “staved an 8 Gallon Cag of Liquor” when the owner, Henry Noland, “could not be prevail’d on to hide it” from the Indians because he intended to “sell it and get drunk himself.”<sup>32</sup> They destroyed the liquor because the previous day a “great many of the Indians got drunk” from “30 Gallons of Whiskey” provided by Noland.<sup>33</sup>

This English also found that alcohol affected diplomacy as well. George Croghan’s 1754 deliberations with the western Indians in Logg’s Town were complicated when he “found the Indians all drunk.” As the conflict over the Upper Ohio River Valley intensified, Croghan’s efforts to secure an Indian alliance came to “nothing” for over a week because of the “Indians being constantly drunk.” Post’s concern over Indian consumption of liquor went beyond the impact that it had on Indian society. The party was detained from their mission because “spirituous Liquours” were brought to the village and some of the Indian escorts refused to leave. Post also feared that the liquor would prevent Teedyuscung from performing his job during the negotiations.<sup>34</sup>

Controlling the liquor trade, an issue concerning western Indians since the 1720s, was often a topic of discussion during the councils. Conrad Weiser, during one meeting, said that although they tried, the colonial governments could not “stop it entirely” because the Indians “love it so well” that they continued to obtain it by trade. Weiser and George Croghan then told the Indians of Pennsylvania’s new policy, since the government had “taken much to heart” the

Indian's concern about alcohol. Despite the new policy, a speaker for the Iroquois requested liquor for newly arrived Indians who had "never tasted English Rum yet, but would be very glad to taste it" since they were now allies of the English.<sup>35</sup>

The colony apparently needed a strict policy because whites continued to provide liquor to the Indians. The previously mentioned Henry Noland furnished liquor to the Indians against the express wishes of Weiser and Croghan. The person who supplied the liquor to the Indians and slowed Post's progress was an example of the greedy or thoughtless whites who refused to limit their sale of liquor to the Indians. Post found the person, a "Bowman," who "acknowledged his having supplied . . . three or our Gallons" of liquor." When told of "the ill Consequences of selling the Indians strong Liquor & the Breach of the Law," Bowman "said he had made a Present of it & that he would do the same again & that nobody could prevent his doing what he pleased with his own."<sup>36</sup>

Deceit also was a common diplomatic tool. Virginia used the vague terms of the Treaty of Lancaster during negotiations for the 1752 Treaty of Logg's Town to expand their claim in the Ohio Valley. The Lancaster treaty stated Virginia had a right to land "as far as it was then peopled, or hereafter should be peopled." The British claimed they were honest in their dealing with the Indians and that they "had never any Intention of takeing" Indian lands. They wanted to buy the Indians' land, which would allow the Indians and English to live "together as one People." Virginia also warned the Indians that the French were dishonest and that they should not listen to the "empty, deceitful Speeches of ye french the peculiar Talent of that cunning people." In practice the British were no better than their claim about the French, who actually had a better record of their treatment of the Indians. British land deals were often accomplished

by using vague, legal terms.<sup>37</sup>

Frontiersmen also used deception when dealing with Indians on the frontier. Christopher Gist, acting for the Ohio Company, was assigned to the Ohio country in 1750 “to search out and discover the Lands upon the River Ohio.” Gist rightly feared that if the Indians suspected his aim was to buy their land for white settlers he would not “go Home again safe.” When confronted, Gist lied, saying that he had a message from the king and he needed to speak with the British interpreter Andrew Montour.<sup>38</sup> The Indians left him alone, but Gist temporarily abandoned Logg’s Town thinking he “preferred the Woods to such Company.”<sup>39</sup>

In the short term, deception helped the frontiersmen, but, in the long term, destroyed trust and created problems. Moses Titamy, who was sent as a messenger to the “Mini[s]ink Indians on” the Susquehanna River, encountered a potentially dangerous situation. One day, “about an hour before Sun Set,” Titamy’s party came upon an unknown “Company of Warriors.” The braves were suspicious of Titamy because of past experiences with whites:

At first they seemed to think us Spies and we were afraid of them, however, after talking with them we thought it best not to go past for fear they should take it ill, so we kindled a fire and sat down; then they came and sat with us and seemed pleased

Titamy’s group disclosed their peaceful purpose for traveling, which persuaded the Indians that the members of Titamy’s party “were not Enemies.” The two groups then went on to spend a peaceful time together. Thus, past English duplicity created a tense moment during a chance meeting.<sup>40</sup>

Political maneuvering between different tribes and communities complicated frontier

diplomacy. When he arrived at Logg's Town in 1748, Conrad Weiser saw friction between Iroquois of Logg's Town and the Iroquois and Wyandots of "Coscosky." The Kuskusky Indians wanted the council scheduled for Logg's Town to be held in their town instead. Unwilling to offend either community, Weiser applied his diplomatic skills. Since a previous council chose the site and his orders told him to travel only as far as Logg's Town, Weiser claimed that he could not move the meeting "without giving offence" to all parties. That seemed to settle the issue.<sup>41</sup>

The next day, however, the situation deteriorated. The Logg's Town people had heard of the Kuskusky residents' request and vehemently opposed moving the site of the council, without knowing that Weiser had previously decided in their favor. Making their pitch to Weiser, the Logg's Town leaders pointedly explained that the Kuskusky Indians "were no more Chiefs than" they were. Then, criticizing the hospitality of their rivals, the Logg's Town Indians remarked that Kuskusky failed to provide enough food when previous councils were held there and probably would not this time either. Attempting to prove their importance in the Ohio country, they said that Logg's Town had enough to feed the Miami and Shawnee representatives at the council. Weiser calmed the Indians by explaining that he had already sent a message to Kuskusky turning down their request, which seemed to make the Logg's Town Indians "content."<sup>42</sup>

Providing food for visitors was a significant concern of frontier diplomats. Although the Logg's Town Senecas promised to provide food for visitors during the council, "a great many of the Indians" left when "the People of the Town cou'd not find Provision enough" and Weiser's supplies were not yet available. Fearing a disaster before the council even began, Weiser sent

Indians to find his people and supplies and told them that they were “not to come back before they heard of or saw them.” Weiser survived this potential diplomatic catastrophe because the food arrived and the council continued.<sup>43</sup>

Frederick Post also encountered a potentially dangerous diplomatic situation during his 1758 trip to the Ohio. As the party neared an English military camp, Pe[s]quitomen, Post’s Lenape escort, expressed his displeasure at being unknowingly led to the camp. He warned Post that if anything happened to him or his companions, the blame would be Post’s, since Post had not told the Indians where he was headed. Post responded to this threat to his life and placed the blame on Indian leaders, because he “had informed the great men” of the Indians of his intentions before they departed.<sup>44</sup>

Frontiersmen were not all gifted diplomats like Conrad Weiser or Frederick Post. Washington’s unsuccessful journey to deliver Governor Dinwiddie’s letter to the French in the Allegheny Valley illustrated the need for experienced frontier envoys. The young Virginian had to deal with splintered Indian nations and more experienced French diplomats while conveying Dinwiddie’s order for the French to leave the region. On his way to the Ohio Valley the twenty-one year old was also to speak with the Iroquois “Half King” Tanaghrisson and obtain from the Indians a “sufficient Number of their Warriors” for an escort. Washington also “engag’d” Christopher Gist as his guide.<sup>45</sup>

Washington and Gist arrived at Logg’s Town on 26 November 1753 and met with Indian leaders, including Tanaghrisson, Scarouady, and Shingas.<sup>46</sup> Washington informed the chiefs about the contents of Dinwiddie’s letter and asked for a warrior escort, giving a string of wampum to “confirm” his speech. Tanaghrisson wanted to delay a decision for three days until



the warriors came back to the town, but promised “to send a Guard of Mingoes, Shawnesse, & Delawar’s” to show his friendship to the British. He also intended to use the three-day interval to collect French wampum so it could be returned to the French. However, Indian distrust of the British and fear of the nearby French army and disunity among the Ohio Indians limited Tanaghrisson’s ability to fulfill his promise. Lenapes and Shawnees did not return their wampum, nor did they send any representatives. The Indian escort was “still not ready” on 29 November, when Tanaghrisson finally promised to go with the Virginians himself if the warriors were not back the next day. Washington’s warrior escort never materialized and he settled for “the Half-King and two old men and one young warrior.” Thus, Washington’s small escort reflected his lack of experience and the reduced Iroquois political control over the Lenapes and Shawnees.<sup>47</sup>

As Washington continued on his way to the French forts in the Allegheny Valley where he delivered Dinwiddie’s message, he also maneuvered to keep his Indian escort. At Fort Venango, Tanaghrisson returned their wampum to the French. The French tried to persuade the Indians “to stay behind” but Gist “took all care” to have them continue. Then, at Fort LeBeouf, the French gave the Indians “several presents” in a private meeting. They also delayed Washington’s departure by persuading the Indians to stay with a promise of more “[p]resents, Rewards, and Every Thing which could be suggested” by the French. The Virginia delegation remained three more days before Tanaghrisson and the other three Indians agreed to return.<sup>48</sup>

Diplomacy and interaction with Indian society was a large part of the frontiersmen’s lives, but they also hunted for land. Christopher Gist, contrary to what he told the Indians, was

on the frontier looking for land for the Ohio Company. The company told him to “search out and discover the Lands upon the Ohio,” and his journal was full of notations concerning the quality of land he came across. Gist recorded where he saw the land and its qualities. He noted the “fine rich level Land, with large Meadows . . . & spacious Plains” near the Licking Creek, or the “very rich level and well timbered” land along the “Miamee River.” Gist described the vegetation in “beautiful natural Meadows” where he saw “wild rye, blue Grass and Clover”. He saw land “rich and well timbered with Oak, Walnut, Ash, Locust, and Sugar Trees.” Gist also commented on the waterways that were “fine Runs for Mills.” Thus, frontiersmen like Gist were businessmen as well as diplomats.<sup>49</sup>

Thomas Hutchins used his trained geographer’s eye to describe land during his trek from Fort Pitt to Lake Erie. He provided detail not only on the contour of the land but also on the quality of the land, clearly for the use of future white settlement. Hutchins noted on the first day a “Rich Fertile Bottom” and “several good Springes,” with other land described as “tolerably good.” His group passed a “fine, Rich, open” meadow with a “pretty little Brook” running through it. He also noted land of poor quality. Hutchins described several “Barrens” that had poor soil, and a “small, Dry, infertile Flatt” on a ridge. Hutchins also included the types of plants and trees growing along his path, or when they were lacking, including “Black and White Oaks” and “Pea-Vine and other Food.” Frederick Post even described the quality of land through which he passed. Near the Loyalhanna River, Post saw “rich fine bottom, land well timbered, good [s]pringes and [s]mall creeks.” A short time later Post encountered a “rich bottom, well timbered, good fine Engli[s]h gra[s]s, well watered.”<sup>50</sup>

While serving as representatives of the colonial governments, many frontiersmen

acquired land or offices. This was true of George Croghan. He became the Deputy Superintendent in the Northern District under Superintendent of Indian Affairs Sir William Johnson. Croghan also patented over 250,000 acres in Pennsylvania and New York, and wanted to patent 200,000 more around the head of the Ohio River. British authorities denied his several requests for the Ohio River lands. Christopher Gist profited from his experience as “Agent for the Ohio Company” when he was named Deputy Superintendent of the Southern Department in 1757.<sup>51</sup>

Despite their land grabbing techniques most frontiersmen died poor. George Croghan died in 1782, aged, infirm, and nearly penniless, still owing a ten-dollar debt. He lost all but 9,000 of the 250,000 acres he once owned, and that one tract went to his daughter and grandchildren. Conrad Weiser met much the same fate as Croghan after he fell out of favor with the people he represented. The settlers on the frontier did not trust Weiser because he supported Indian rights. The Indians, who once called Weiser one of their own, also turned on him after he took command of the forces that defended against Indian attack in the frontier area between the Susquehanna and Delaware rivers. Weiser never took possession of the large tracts of land owed him by Pennsylvania’s proprietors. Squatters refused to leave the land, and Weiser refused to use force to remove them. Weiser died on 13 July 1760, without taking possession, but he left the land to his children in his will.<sup>52</sup>

George Washington grew quite wealthy, but not from being a frontiersman. Washington inherited his father’s estate after the death of his older brother, Lawrence. He was also enriched by his marriage to the wealthy widow, Martha Dandridge Custis. As part of the eastern landed elite, Washington no longer had to look to the frontier for his only economic opportunity, but he

remained interested in obtaining western lands.<sup>53</sup>

Washington became a speculator and willingly used extra-legal means to obtain land. Despite the Royal Proclamation of 1763, which barred settlement west of the crest of the Alleghenies, Washington had William Crawford scout for land on the frontier. In September 1767, Washington told Crawford he wanted to “secure a good deal [of] land” and for his efforts Crawford would “come in for a very handsome quantity.” Washington wanted to “keep this whole matter a secret” and use “silent management” to obtain the land. He feared, that if caught, he would be “censured” for ignoring the proclamation, or that others might get the same idea, which would “overturn the whole.” After the Proclamation was repealed by the Treaty of Fort Stanwix in 1768, Washington eventually secured over 70,000 acres in the Ohio Valley.<sup>54</sup>

Washington and Crawford were just two of many provincials who sought western land. George Croghan recorded in a 1767 letter to General Thomas Gage the western Indians’ dissatisfaction with encroachment on their land. The Lenapes and Iroquois “earnestly remonstrated” to Croghan “That the Country westward of the Allegheny Mountains, was their property.” The Indians had never given up ownership of the land to anyone, not even “to their Father the King of Great Britain.” White settlers ignored the Proclamation of 1763 and took Indian land, which led to a “great dissatisfaction” among the Ohio Indians.<sup>55</sup>

Washington lost money on his land speculations. In a letter to Presley Neville in 1794, the then President Washington complained that his western investments were “more pregnant of perplexities than profit.” Washington wanted to sell all his lands “on the Western waters” as long as he received what they were worth. When no buyers were found, his will divided the land among his heirs.<sup>56</sup>

Several frontiersmen died while in service for their employers. William Crawford, Washington's land scout, was a commander in Ohio during the Revolution when he was captured and killed by the Indians. They slowly burned him to death, taking hours to accomplish the deed. Christopher Gist, Washington's guide on his misadventure to the French forts, continued to serve the Virginia colony. He died of small pox while working as an Indian agent and surveyor.<sup>57</sup>

Thomas Cresap was the exception. Cresap fared unusually well during his life on the frontier. When he died around 1790, Cresap was described by Kenneth Bailey as a "fairly wealthy man."<sup>58</sup> During his life, Cresap speculated on frontier land, including Wills' Creek, near Cumberland, Maryland and Red Stone Creek in what would become southwestern Pennsylvania. Both locations were "choice" because each was on a major pathway to the West, allowing Cresap to realize fairly substantial return. In addition to large tracts of land in Pennsylvania and Virginia, Cresap bequeathed over five hundred pounds to various family members and friends, a fairly large estate for the late eighteenth-century colonial frontier.<sup>59</sup>

European expansion into the Ohio Valley during the late colonial period utilized the skills of this unique group of frontiersmen. While on the frontier, these men developed specific survival skills which included adapting to the climatic and political environment. Practical skills were necessary to live on the frontier. They adjusted to the changing weather and survived by living off the land, but at any time death could suddenly take anyone. They also had to know how to negotiate with the Indians. Frontiersmen used whatever tools were necessary, including wampum, presents, and falsehoods, to get what they needed from the Indians. Christopher Gist of the Ohio Company lied when his life was threatened because he trespassed on Indian land.

The men who were ambassadors of Anglo-American culture were as opportunistic as the people they represented. They used their positions and frontier experience to promote their own interests as well as those of their patrons. Frontiersmen surveyed land for colonial governments and land companies, while at the same time they accumulated great tracts of land for themselves. Others found security as government employees, but most did not realize great fortunes from either land or office. Frontiersmen were used by their employers to promote the employer's own interests. The winners in the long run were the colonial governments, which increased their land holdings, and the white settlers who ultimately moved there. The losers were the Indians and the frontiersmen.

## Chapter 4

### Upper Ohio Valley Travel

White control of the Upper Ohio River Valley did not cause an immediate cultural change in the region. The first white settlers encountered travel conditions that reflected Indian culture more than white culture. The Ohio Indians' network of narrow trails, which usually followed the most efficient routes, met their needs, connecting remote villages inside and outside the Upper Ohio River Valley. White travelers, however, usually had difficulty following the trails, and they complained about their quality. Additionally, other than a few trailside shelters, few signs of human inhabitation were found between villages. The region's natural beauty often left people awestruck, but also concealed dangers that made the Upper Ohio River Valley an inhospitable place. This beautiful landscape, mountainous and cut by rivers and creeks, was also rugged, making travel very difficult. Weather extremes, from bitter cold with ice and snow during the winter to heat with high humidity and rain during the summer, frustrated travelers with delays and hardships. For most white travelers, late eighteenth-century travel to and through the Upper Ohio Valley remained an arduous journey.

The Upper Ohio River Valley remained sparsely populated during the last decades of the eighteenth century, often with many miles between homesteads and several days of travel between towns. As late as 1808, Joseph Boyd commented that at one point during his travels in the region, he passed "20 Miles without a house." These frontier conditions forced many travelers to rely on local citizens for food and shelter. Some relied on taverns and inns for meals and lodging during the entire trip. For others, however, frontier conditions forced them to turn to

the locals to repair broken wagons or to buy other essential supplies, or simply to have a roof over their heads. Accommodations and fare were usually far from elegant, but they were often the only ones to be had.<sup>1</sup>

The number of travelers to this area increased after the French defeat in the Seven Years' War, which gave Great Britain undisputed claim to the Upper Ohio River Valley. The Ohio Indians' opposition to English settlement of the region led to the Proclamation of 1763, which expressly prohibited white settlement west of the crest of the Allegheny Mountains. However, whites continued to migrate over the mountains regardless of the consequences. Immigration to this area increased after the signing of the first Treaty of Fort Stanwix in 1768, which whites viewed as a complete surrender of Indian territory south and east of the Ohio River. Frontier fighting during the American Revolution stemmed the flow of settlement. At the conclusion of the war, whites annexed more Indian land through pressure brought by the national and state governments and private business interests that either pushed the Ohio Indians farther westward or penned them on isolated reservations.

The Iroquois, under the harsh terms of the 1784 Treaty of Fort Stanwix, ceded territory west of New York and Pennsylvania, with the Ohio River acting as the border. A 1789 treaty confirmed this western boundary "as a division line between the lands of the said Six Nations and the territory of the United States, forever." Forever lasted about five years, when a third treaty established a new western boundary specifically for the Senecas. This new boundary basically followed the Niagara River and the southern shore of Lake Erie to the New York and Pennsylvania border. State governments and private enterprise then pressured the Senecas to sell their land, which cost the Senecas nearly all of their remaining territory. In 1788, they sold 2.6



million acres east of the Genesee River to Oliver Phelps and Nathaniel Gorham, who held rights to the land.<sup>2</sup> At this point, the Senecas only claimed territory west of the Genesee River to Lake Erie. Robert Morris organized the purchase of the balance, which culminated in the 1797 Treaty of Big Tree. He first bought one million acres of the Phelps-Gorham Purchase, which later became the Pulteney Purchase. Morris eventually purchased the rights to the remaining four million acres west of the Genesee and then negotiated with the Senecas using unscrupulous methods. His son bribed the Seneca warriors with whiskey and the Seneca chiefs with money to secure their support for the treaty.<sup>3</sup> The bribery worked because the Treaty of Big Tree transferred most of the Senecas' remaining land to Morris and other land speculators for one hundred thousand dollars. The Senecas retained small reservations that totaled 311 square miles of territory that traditionally extended from Seneca Lake to Lake Erie.<sup>4</sup>

Other Ohio Indians lost territory by treaties as well. Lenapes relinquished land in the Old Northwest Territory under the 1785 Treaty of Fort McIntosh and received a reservation in north central Ohio. Shawnees ceded territory east of the Great Miami River by the 1786 Treaty of Fort Finney and received a reservation adjacent to the Fort McIntosh reservation. Many Ohio Indians criticized these treaties and pursued war to protect their land. This decade of fighting culminated with the 1794 Battle of Fallen Timbers, which the United States saw as the climatic battle for control of the Upper Ohio River Valley. The subsequent 1795 Treaty of Greenville secured the region and forced a new frontier on all Ohio Indians, including the Lenapes and Shawnees. The revised boundary allocated the northeastern section of Ohio, from the Cuyahoga River eastward, and the southern half of modern Ohio to the United States.<sup>5</sup>

These treaties resulted from white movement into the Upper Ohio River Valley. Land drew these settlers, who assumed Indian land was free for white settlement. Whites believed that the settlement of the West was akin to a divine task. John Badollet recorded his thoughts on the transformation while in western Pennsylvania in 1793 to survey roads. After viewing a “new Iron works,” he marveled at the “spectacle of so much industry created” out of a wilderness. Eight years later, William Short described the settlement of the West in mystical terms, a distinct belief that this was something greater than themselves. In a letter to his brother in 1801, Short said that he had “no idea of any occupation more agreeable or honorable than this made of creating as it were a new country - for peopling an uncultivated forest, is a kind of creation.”<sup>6</sup>

Driven by such passions and sense of duty, whites flocked to the Upper Ohio Valley during the last decades of the eighteenth century. Many people commented on the inrush of settlers. Arthur Lee, a commissioner sent to negotiate the Fort McIntosh treaty with the western Indians, observed in 1784 that on the Ohio “Batteaux pass daily, with whole families, stock, and furniture.” Four years later, General Joseph Buell recorded the same conditions, stating that “Kentucky boats pass continually 10 or 12 Every day.” John May, also in 1788, concurred with General Buell’s assessment. May reported that “tis surprizing the number of” boats, probably two hundred, which went down the Ohio River just in the spring. A 1788 article in the Pennsylvania Gazette substantiated their comments. “Accounts from the city of Marietta say, that within twelve months past, more than 10,000 emigrants have passed that place” to points further west.<sup>7</sup>

The rate of migration to and through the Ohio River Valley continued to accelerate into the next century. The increasing amount of land available for settlement lured people to make

the difficult journey to the West. Peyton Short told his brother, William, in an 1804 letter, that he believed that migration was “progre[s]sing with inconceivable rapidity.” Writing a year later in Wheeling, Josiah Espy agreed with Short, regarding the rate of migration as “truly astonishing.” After he “consulted” with “some gentlemen” from the area, Espy calculated that “twenty thousand to thirty thousand souls” settled in Ohio “during the present year.”<sup>8</sup>

The actual enumeration proved that these assumptions were not exaggerated. Based on the national census, the population growth was even greater than the men believed. In 1790, the total regional population was 94,237, but over the next decade it soared to 180,768. The 86,531 new inhabitants was an increase of nearly ninety-two percent. The 1810 census showed that the increase continued unabated into the next century. A total of 139,130 new citizens swelled the population by over seventy-five percent to a total of 319,898 inhabitants. Thus, whites were moving westward and rapidly filling the land.<sup>9</sup>

The excitement felt by some toward westward migration and the many thousands who made the journey notwithstanding, other observers painted a more dismal scene. Thomas Ashe, an 1806 British traveler through the Ohio Valley, authored a pessimistic description of migrants and their journey. Ashe roomed in a tavern near Bedford that was “filled with emigrants who were in their passage to the Ohio.” He concluded that “a more painful picture of human calamity was seldom beheld.” Rather than seeing the westward migration as an opportunity, Ashe beheld “old men embarking in distant arduous undertakings, which they could never see realized: their children going to a climate destructive to youth; and the wives and mothers partaking of all these sufferings to become victims in their turn to the general calamity.” Ashe’s comments certainly reduced an experience that some perceived as mystical to one full of struggle and fruitless

labor.<sup>10</sup>

This settlement of the Upper Ohio River Valley required a transportation system to accommodate the massive influx of people, and transportation was one area where American borrowing from Indians was apparent. Indian paths were the basis for many American roads. Since these paths typically followed the most efficient routes, early settlers used them or built new roads that followed the same course as the paths. In the late eighteenth century, however, these roads were typically the same as those used at the time of the Seven Years' War, just trails through the woods, usually wide enough only for one wagon to pass. Settlers made attempts to improve the roads throughout the era, but most travelers still criticized the poor quality.

Whites exploited many Indian paths, which formed the foundation of the late eighteenth-century road system in the Upper Ohio Valley, for their journeys to the West.<sup>11</sup> General Edward Braddock's army widened the Nemaquin Trail on their ill-fated expedition to Fort Duquesne in 1755. The trail, renamed "Braddock's road," eventually became part of the National Road. The British army under General John Forbes, improved Raystown Path, which was called first the Forbes Road and then became part of the Pennsylvania Road. This route connected Bedford and Pittsburgh.<sup>12</sup> Frankstown Path became the eastern link of the Pennsylvania Road to Bedford, and the Glades Path became the "Glad Road," tying Bedford with Washington, Pennsylvania and points west.<sup>13</sup> Many other Indian paths became American roads by the early nineteenth century, including the Ebensburg-Butler Turnpike<sup>14</sup>, following the Kittanning Path, and the state-improved Chinklacamoose Trail. Thus, American settlers did not always "blaze" trails into the "wilderness," but they used the network of paths established by the Indians.<sup>15</sup>

The late eighteenth-century roads were often little more than paths, so finding and following the actual road was often a challenge. While traveling through the Upper Ohio River Valley in 1775 Nicholas Cresswell described the “by-roads” as “only small narrow paths through the woods and in some places not the least appearance of a road.” The passage of time did not improve roads either. In 1784, Israel Shreve remarked that a road near Pittsburgh was “difficult to find.” Four years later, John May’s party was “puzzled by innumerable paths, leading to the right and left as large as the one” they were trying to follow. Then, nearly two decades after Cresswell’s remarks, John Badollet in 1793 criticized the obscure roads over Laurel Mountain. Uncertainty over the direction of the road often forced his party “to explore the woods . . . in order to find a tolerable passage” because the road seemed to go in many directions. The many travelers who used this route seemed “at war with respect to this road, every one wanting to draw it here or there.” Lewis Condict in 1795 complained that much of the road was “but a very blind path, which winds about among the rocks, trees & logs, & in some places is so obscure as to be scarcely discernible.”<sup>16</sup>

With obscure paths running through heavy forest, loosely termed roads by their users, travelers became lost fairly often. Thomas Ridout went astray “five miles” because of a heavy snow, which made the road “difficult to find,” particularly “without any track” in the snow. Israel Shreve recorded that a companion, Daniel Harvey, while traveling over Chestnut Ridge “got out of the road it being very dark” and “could not find it again.” John May’s confusion over western roads abated little over the course of one year. While traveling near Redstone, May’s party “wandered for one hour” after losing the trail they were following. Samuel Maclay’s party, commissioners sent to survey a road in Northwestern Pennsylvania in 1790, also “Lost the path”

one night.<sup>17</sup>

Even when distinguishable from the surrounding countryside, most roads were still vastly unimproved throughout the period. Typical Upper Ohio Valley roads were narrow, with room enough for just one wagon to pass. Early roads also were uneven because of large stones and tree stumps that jolted riders, while fallen trees forced travelers to detour. Although roads normally led to the best fords across creeks and rivers, bridges were virtually non-existent forcing travelers to wade through water. Ferries, such as “McKee’s ferry on Monongahela” at a point “near 200 yards wide,” typically were available to assist travelers across larger rivers. During the summer, roads were dusty and in the winter snow covered, with mud and swamps common throughout the year.<sup>18</sup>

Roads of such poor quality and full of hardship were the source of chronic complaining by travelers. George Washington in 1784 declared that a road through the heart of the Allegheny Mountains was “exceedingly bad.” Later during the same journey, Washington complained of “Creek McCullochs path, which owes its origen to Buffaloes, being no other than their tracks from one lick to another and consequently crooked and not well chosen.” The same year, Arthur Lee criticized a road near Stony Creek as “miry and stony, and leads through a number of dismal swamps,” which he said, “put one in mind of Milton’s ‘Fogs, bogs, fens, dens, and shades of death.’” Four years later, Israel Shreve commented that a road near Bedford was “barony and bad” while another that descended Laurel Mountain went “over logs and stones enough to dash all to peaces.”<sup>19</sup>

Travelers also complimented the improved roads, however few there were, when found. During the same 1784 trip, George Washington described one road as “tolerably good” and

another as “not bad.” He later traveled on “an exceedingly good Waggon road” near “Dunkers bottom” which the builders elevated over swampy ground. Lewis Conduct actually commended a “new road” for being “cut” and “part of the logs” were “removed for 20 miles.” Increase Matthews even encountered “a road newly laid out by the marked trees” that made his “tour in the woods” near Marietta much easier to navigate. Matthews also traveled a road “on the Virginia side” of the Ohio River that was “cut out & very good” during his return trip to the East.<sup>20</sup>

Modes of overland travel were basic. Walking was probably the most common form, requiring the least investment. Another basic form of travel was by horse power, used both for riding and packing. Riding increased a traveler’s speed while still giving the individual a great deal of maneuverability along the trail. More importantly for many people, horses saved them from walking the entire journey, reducing fatigue and improving their dispositions. Wagons pulled by draft animals were equally vital in the transportation of goods and people to and from the West, with the famous Conestoga wagon as the favorite.<sup>21</sup>

Horses had their limitations, because, like humans, they eventually tire and require rest periods. To increase the endurance of his horses, George Washington in 1784 “hired three Pack horses” to lighten the load carried by his horses.<sup>22</sup> In 1786, John Mathews’s surveying party continually stopped to rest their horses. Horses also required routine maintenance, usually an unexpected expense and hindrance. Thomas Chapman, in 1795, delayed his departure from “Greensburgh” because his “Horse wanted four New Shoes put on,” and Israel Shreve “had one shoe put on one of” his “horseys” by a blacksmith who was conveniently located by the road. Three years later, Increase Matthews “Tore off one of my horses shoes in the mud” along the

Ohio River.<sup>23</sup>

Riding horses in the rugged west included potential danger. Colonel Thomas Proctor's horse "fell backward into the water" while crossing Oil Creek on a trip to council with the Indians in 1791. Proctor "happily disengaged" from the horse before it fell on him. Other than being "wet through all" his clothing, Proctor escaped unscathed. Another man, attempting to swim his horse across the Monongahela River, was not as lucky. After making it across the river, the bank proved too high for the horse to climb. In a panic, the man quickly turned his horse, which caused both horse and rider to drown.<sup>24</sup>

Horses were also capricious and at times unreliable. Forced to endure unusual cold and precipitation in mid-autumn, the horses of John Badollet's party were unwilling to leave the "warm dry spacious stables they were put in" and "fine hay & oats they had to eat." Badollet's "Bitch" wanted to stay "behind wherever" there was a "stove room & children to feed her," calling the horse "The little ungratefull" for her actions. John May's mount, while on the road to Washington, Pennsylvania, was also uncooperative, as he "beat bang'd Jurk'd bridle kick'd heel and swore" at the horse one entire day of travel. Horses also had a tendency to wander off during the night. Samuel Maclay's "horses were gone" one morning, which "obliged" the men to walk, carrying their bedding and "horse Furniture," for five miles to the party's destination. Increase Matthew's group spent a morning searching for their horses after they strayed during the night.<sup>25</sup>

Wagons also had their share of problems. Israel Shreve recorded that Daniel Harvey had a "broken waggon" that required "an axel tree put in." David Meade had a similar problem in 1796 while traveling through the Allegheny Mountains near the Maryland and Pennsylvania border. He complained that "one of the Iron axle trees gave way" on a wagon twice in two days,



requiring delays both times. His party also had a harrowing experience soon after they fixed the wagon, as another wagon “overset,” fortunately “without injury to any person or thing.”<sup>26</sup>

Overland routes were just one way to journey to the Upper Ohio Valley. River travel provided an alternative, with waterways such as the Ohio River, as popular avenues. Boats usually traveled faster, carried more weight, in people and cargo, and typically required less physical exertion from the travelers. As with overland travel, water travel offered several different modes. Flatboats, commonly referred to as “Kentucky boats,” were extremely popular. Averaging forty feet by twelve feet, flatboats were rafts with sides and a roof.<sup>27</sup> The roof varied in length, with some that covered only one end, for use as a cabin, to practically covering the entire length of the boat. The size of the boats enabled travelers to carry large quantities of supplies and the shape allowed for the transportation of livestock. Other types of vessels that allowed the carrying of heavy loads included keel boats, of Mike Fink legend, and bateau, a European river boat.<sup>28</sup>

Samuel Forman’s uncle purchased a boat in Pittsburgh that was a veritable yacht when compared to the other boats. The vessel was “a seventy feet keel-boat, decked over, with a cabin for lodging purposes” and “the insides lined with plank to prevent the Indians from penetrating through with their balls, should they attack.” Forman’s only complaint was that cabin was “too low to stand up erect.”<sup>29</sup>

All boats that traveled on western waters were not of this quality. Henri Marie Brackenridge described a boat which carried him up the Ohio River as a boy that was at the opposite end of the spectrum. For shelter, the boat only had “canvas drawn over hoops

something like those of a covered wagon” on one end that Brackenridge believed “was too narrow to shelter more than four or five persons.” During a rainstorm, young Brackenridge found himself “fairly crowded out” leaving him “exposed to the falling torrents of rain, accompanied with incessant thunder and lighting.”<sup>30</sup>

The military required flatboats that were larger than average. In a series of contracts made in late February 1792, Major Isaac Craig, “Quarter Master for the Port of Pittsburgh,” requested the construction of Kentucky boats. In a contract with Jacob Haymaker, Isaac Craig requested four boats between forty and sixty feet in length and fifteen feet wide. Craig asked that another contractor, James Marshel, build “Twenty Kentucky Boats,” with “Ten not le[s]s than fifty feet” long, and all boats “fifteen feet wide.” A third contractor, William Plummer, was to build two boats, with one “42 feet Long” and the other “of a greater Length.”<sup>31</sup>

Another popular water vehicle was the canoe, which carried fewer people and lighter loads but offered maneuverability and a lower price. Whites adopted canoes from the Indians, which were constructed using birch bark or dug out from trees for travel on western waters. Nicholas Cresswell described his recently purchased pair of canoes, which were probably typical, as “30 feet long and about 20 inches wide, made of Walnut trees, dug out something like a manger.” Surveyor John Adlum also used “a very large *Canoe*,” that carried Adlum, six other people, “three barrels of flour, some bacon two quarter casks of powder and lead equivalent, with some calicoes, blankets and various other things.”<sup>32</sup>

Without a direct east-west water route through the Allegheny Mountains, water travelers were forced to wait until they crossed the mountains to either purchase their boats or have them built. They based this choice mostly on cost, with flatboats typically costing about two hundred

shillings. Nicholas Cresswell decided to have his canoes built several days ride from Fort Pitt because the supplies purchased there were “cheaper than at Fort Pitt.”<sup>33</sup>

Although large boats, such as the flatboats and keelboats, were intended to give travelers more space to carry people and supplies, they were, at times, quite crowded. The cargo in Thomas Ridout’s boat included “in all about twenty persons and sixteen horses,” plus their baggage. Although John May’s boat was “42 feet long and twelve wide,” space was still at a premium, because the cargo included “27 men on board - 2 cows - 2 calves - 7 hogs -and 9 dogs, besides 8 tons of baggage.” The cargo on the “flat or skowe” hired by Henry Summers’s caused problems because the boat, “when loaded would not hold more persons than were sufficient to navigate her.” They divided the party, with some walking on the river bank and others riding in the boat. Lewis Condict had a similar experience in 1795, with “10 men & 2 women; having likewise 7 horses” loaded on one boat. The boat “stuck fast” on several occasions because of low water and the weight of the cargo, forcing the crew “to jump overboard & pry her off.”<sup>34</sup>

Another benefit of boat travel was the speed of the craft. Thomas Ridout recorded in 1788 that his boat reached “the rate of about five miles an hour” on the Ohio River with the oars and sail little used. John May also claimed in 1788 that his boat, when “committed . . . to the current of the Ohio . . . went more than 5 miles an hour,” traveling forty-two miles in eight hours. Samuel Forman had similar results one year later. He reported that while traveling down the Ohio River, the oars of his keelboat were “seldom used” except for steering since “the current was perhaps eight or nine miles an hour.” River currents significantly influenced the rate of travel as Ebenezer Denny attested. In 1786, a trip “in a light boat” from Fort Harmar, up the Ohio River, to Fort Pitt required one week.<sup>35</sup> The return voyage, down the Ohio River, took only

three days. John May had a similar experience. His boat “went up the river at the rate of 4 Miles an hour” and “came back 8.”<sup>36</sup>

Travel on the waterways had its benefits, but it often was cumbersome. Low water made travel by boat a chore. As Nicholas Cresswell’s party “Proceeded down the Yaughagany River” in 1775, he recorded one day that they had “to push the Canoes over the shoals for two miles together.” Erkuries Beatty’s crew “was obliged to tow . . . up one or two ripples” while traveling up the Ohio River in 1786. Henry Summers also lamented that his party “were seldom a day without being hours in the water heaving the boat off the shoals.”<sup>37</sup>

River travel was at times dangerous, or even deadly, with falls and rapids a main concern among travelers. Cresswell’s party found the Youghiogheny River “Full of dangerous rapids.” Henry Summers told of “making hairbreadth escapes” during his boat trip down the Ohio River.<sup>38</sup>

Sinking or overturning were other concerns. Cresswell’s canoes were “so loaded that” his party feared “oversetting,” with “the water . . . within three inches of the gunnel.” While traveling the Ohio River in late November 1789, Samuel Forman recorded a frightening incident when his party attempted to stop for the night. When the “anchor fastened to the river bottom,” it “gave a little lurch or side motion” that nearly threw some passengers into the river. James Elliot suffered through a harrowing experience in 1794 while traveling with the army to suppress the Whiskey Rebellion. The canoe in which Elliot and two companions were traveling on the Monongahela River “overset” putting the three “in the middle of the stream.” They made “an almost miraculous and truly providential escape from drowning” by clinging to the overturned canoe until a ferry rescued the men. A ferry hired by John May gave him cause for alarm. When loaded with his possessions, an anxious May commented that “there was not more than 2 inches

of the scow above water.” Although “concerned” for his property, May took the apparent safer route and went overland. He “waited impatiently for the boat” to appear, which they immediately unloaded because it “leak’d so bad.”<sup>39</sup>

Some travelers did not fare as well on the western rivers. The Pennsylvania Gazette reported that “As three men were going down the Ohio,” their canoe capsized. Apparently they were “much in want of provisions,” so they shot and wounded a bear “swimming across the river.” The bear then attacked the canoe and “overset it.” One man drowned and the other two successfully swam to shore, but then endured four days without food. In 1789, “A large keel boat . . . laden with coal, coming down the Monongahela river . . . unfortunately sunk.” Four men drowned, but the owner “had a very narrow escape . . . and reached the shore.” Ebenezer Denny described an unfortunate end for a “Judge Parsons” who was “cast out” from his canoe while “attempting to pass the Falls” of “Beaver creek” and “drowned, with one man who accompanied him.” John May recorded the death of “one Frederick Bossman” who “unfortunately fell out of a scow” near Pittsburgh “and was drown’d.” In an unusual occurrence, three boats on the Ohio River were sunk by “a whirlwind” that hit so quickly that “the commanders of the boats had not time to get them to shore before they were overtaken by the gust.” Lake travel was equally as dangerous as river travel. The Pennsylvania Gazette reported that “One of the Vessels on Lake Erie” was “supposed to be lost on the Passage from Detroit to Little Niagara.” The probable losses included “17 Passengers, and about 120 Packs of Beaver &c.”<sup>40</sup>

Boat travelers typically avoided tying their boats to the shore, particularly as they advanced beyond Wheeling and the likelihood of Indian attacks increased. While traveling

downstream the current carried boats with or without human intervention. However, stopping was unavoidable at times, particularly when travelers wanted or needed to rest, find food, or were traveling upstream. Stopping often was filled with danger, with sudden Indian attacks and other unwanted intruders. Samuel Forman's boats "seldom ventured to land . . . for fear of lurking Indians." Members of Nicholas Cresswell's group met with a near tragedy while tied to the bank of the Ohio River, west of the Kentucky River. They stopped "at a place where the Buffaloes cross the River," and during the night a herd did just that. Buffalos wrecked one canoe and destroyed some of the travelers' provisions. One individual narrowly escaped a certain death. The buffalo jumped over the canoe in which he was sleeping and landed in the one next to him.<sup>41</sup>

Regardless of the mode, traveling to the Upper Ohio River Valley was a difficult experience, and whites often looked to others for help along the trail, frequently stopping at houses or taverns for shelter. Travelers left numerous accounts telling of the amount and the diverse quality of shelter available. On many occasions, travelers deemed the accommodations as satisfactory. Samuel Vaughan found "Ryans an excellent tavern" and "Skinners" to be the "best Inn on the Road." John May stayed with a Major Cornish in Washington, Pennsylvania, who had "an excellent house," and the following year May proclaimed that he stayed at a "Very good taveron" in Taunery Hills. John Badollet also found acceptable accommodations in a house that was exceptionally clean. On other occasions, no matter the filth, Badollet was satisfied simply to sleep in a warm room. Henry Summers believed that he was lucky because his party "happened fortunately at an Inn where none of those sprites resorted that were waiting for their passage to Elesium and upbraiding old Charon with delay," while staying near Pittsburgh.<sup>42</sup>

The poor quality of many taverns and inns found along the trail also left travelers dissatisfied much of the time. In 1788, Thomas Ridout suffered through a night “at a Dutchman’s house” near the Monongahela River, where a “great quantity” from a snowfall of “near two feet” blanketed his bed. A year later, John May “breckfasted” at a house that he called a “hogstie,” being the “worst house” that he had encountered. John Badollet stayed in the house of a “middling able Dutch farmer” in November 1793 that was as dirty as his previous choice had been clean. The air in the “abominable stove room” they slept in “had not been changed perhaps for six months, & stunk in a very disgusting degree.” Samuel Vaughan complained of “poor accomodations” at “Sotlers publick house.” Thomas Chapman disapproved of “a small Log House Tavern” outside of “Sty Town.” The whole “House consisted of only one Room wch served as Kitchen, Parlour, Bed Chamber, &c<sup>a</sup>.” The new century brought little improvement to trailside accommodations. Thomas Rodney “fed at” a tavern while traveling from Somerset to Mount Pleasant in 1803 that was “durtier looking” than any others he previously encountered. He lamented that this was common for most taverns “on this road,” since his party “seldom met with a decent one.”<sup>43</sup>

Western hospitality, however, had its limitations as the Henry Summers party realized. They planned to go up the Little Kanawha River, but found that it was too shallow. They had to proceed overland to their new homestead. The leaders of the group decided it was “best to leave the women and children with those families that were most convenient,” while the men continued alone to the site of the new farm to build cabins. When the men returned several weeks later for supplies, they discovered one of the farmers had “packed off” the women because he “had been long complaining of the trouble and inconvenience which he suffered by their

continuence with him in his small house.” The women apparently over stayed their welcome.<sup>44</sup>

Privacy in most cases was nonexistent. Arthur Lee stopped at a Mr. Elliot’s, and when it was time for bed, he and his host, their “servants, several wagoners, his [Elliot’s] wife, and eight children, and a young daughter, all undressed and went to bed on the floor together.” John May complained of a “young Hell” when he stayed in a house with a man and his “one daughter of eighteen two hired women a Little older - three hired men and a number of children, beside a Bear and 5 Doggs.” John Badollet stopped on Laurel Mountain at a “hermit’s hut” that contained “two rooms each about 6 or 7 feet square with a bed . . . in each.” Forty people stayed the night, with “waggoners & packers & having stretched themselves upon the floor, man and woman promiscuously, covered every possible inch of it.” The family cats had “no place to play upon,” so they “displayed their agility” on the faces of the travelers. Thomas Chapman also spent a night in close quarters in a one-room “Log House Tavern,” where, “with Travellers and the Family, there was no less than 15 Persons” in one room with “only three Beds.”<sup>45</sup> Francis Baily faced a similar situation in 1796 as his party was “obliged to spend the night amidst the whole family and some other travelers, all scattered about in the same room,” while Increase Matthews was forced to “sleep three in a bed” at an inn in 1798.<sup>46</sup>

Many times travelers were satisfied simply to find shelter, but they were often at the mercy of homeowners when inns and taverns were not readily available or already overcrowded. The refusal of “one Byerly a Dutchman” to give shelter to David McClure’s party in 1772 forced them to beg admittance from “one Tegart” who only begrudgingly allowed the men to spend the night. With “no tavern on the road for some distance,” Francis Baily wrote, he was “under the necessity of begging a lodging” from some locals, “which was granted . . . with the greatest



reluctance.” After Thomas Ridout lost his way in the woods, he “expected to be reduced to the necessity of roving in the woods all the night,” but happily discovered a house for shelter. Lewis Condict’s party “found most of the taverns full,” when they reached Pittsburgh in late spring 1795, causing them some concern. Condict, however, reported that they located accommodations “at Murphy’s at the sign of Gen’l Butler.”<sup>47</sup>

Lodging was not always available to travelers, as George Washington realized in 1784. Near “Dunkers bottom,” a lack of shelter forced Washington to camp with only his “cloak” for protection from the elements. Unfortunately for Washington, “a heavy shower of Rain” passed through the area that night. Daniel Harvey, after he became separated from Israel Shreve’s group, was “forsed to take up his lodging in the woods” while the rest spent the night in Jean Bonnet’s tavern near Bedford. Samuel Forman’s party “encamped one night in the woods.” They “kindled a fire, and turned the tails of the wagons all inward, thus forming a circle around the fire” in an attempt to protect themselves from the cold. Samuel Maclay’s group, after becoming lost, regretfully had to “go to sleep” along the trail without a camp. Like Washington’s experience, “a heavy rain came on,” forcing the exposed travelers “to take it as it came.” Darkness overcame Quaker missionary Halliday Jackson while he was on the trail, which caused him to sleep in the woods “without fire” because of snow and a “great rain.”<sup>48</sup>

Travelers often relied on homeowners and taverns found along the trail to provide them meals, as well as shelter. The quality of meals varied considerably, depending on the house or inn at which travelers stopped. Francis Baily described a hearty “American breakfast” of “coffee, and buck-wheat cakes, and some fried venison or broiled chicken.” John Badollet often extolled

the meals that he consumed while lodging in a home or inn. One “hearty breakfast” consisted of “Coffee, beef stakes butter & honey,” while another included “coffee & bears & deer’s meat.” Badollet’s “excellent supper,” which was quite similar to his breakfast,” included “beef stakes butter & coffee.” John May likewise enjoyed hearty meals along the trail. Near Bedford, he “Dined at Martins on veal Cuttleetts and Trout.” Then, while “put up at Simmerills” he ate a “breckfast of Coffee, Bacon Mackrill Bread and Butter” and “Buckweat cake.”<sup>49</sup>

Other times, however, meals were less satisfactory. Francis Baily, at the house where he begged for a place to sleep, “was witness to a kind of meal . . . never before experienced.”

First of all, some sour milk was warmed up and placed on the table . . . , we devoured it very soon; particularly as the whole family (of which there were seven or eight) partook of it likewise; all of us sitting round *one* large bowl, and dipping our spoons in one after another. When this was finished a dish of stewed pork was served up, accompanied with some hot pickled cabbage, called in this part of the country “warm slaw.” This was devoured . . . , every one trying to help himself first, and two or three eating off the same plate, and all in the midst of filth and dirt. After this was removed, a large bowl of cold milk and bread was put on the table, which we partook of in the same manner as the first dish, and in the same disorder. The spoons were immediately taken out of the greasy pork dish, and (having been just cleaned by passing through the *mouth*) were put into the milk . . . (author’s italics).

Baily failed to elaborate on whether it was the quality of the meal or the dining etiquette that was “never before experienced.”<sup>50</sup>

Other travelers did not rely on inns and taverns. Instead, they carried their own food, usually basics such as bacon and flour, preparing meals over camp fires along the trail. Henry Summers party dined in the wild. Summers described what he thought was a “really laughable” scene as his party ate their evening meal along the trail. They stood around their “Pot and Pail

the one filled with potatoes and the other with buttermilk every man with his pint tin in his hand, some sitting on the bare ground and some on stumps and logs before a large fire which served us both for heat and light.” Israel Shreve also recorded that his party ate along the trail as they “breakfasted at a run of water.”<sup>51</sup>

Travelers sometimes resorted to hunting and foraging to add variety to their diet, when their supplies ran low, or they did not have the means to purchase food. A hunter with John Badollet “killed a fine spike buck.” Some hunters with John May’s party pursued “wild turkies” near Pittsburgh, while others crossed the “Allagahana” and “brought home a quantity of wild asparagus.” Francis Baily’s party “went a little way into the woods, and killed some squirrels” which they promptly made into soup.<sup>52</sup>

Despite the plentiful game in the Upper Ohio Valley, hunters sometimes failed to bag their game. John Badollet reported that a man “dispatched . . . on a deer chace,” had returned to the party “having seen many signs of deers & bears & killed none.” The next day saw little different because he “came back with as little luck, though he had seen 5 deers.” Turkey hunters with John May likewise were unsuccessful. Although “they saw near 20,” the hunters “returnd without any.”<sup>53</sup>

Travelers with the means also purchased supplies from local inhabitants. David Meade’s party in 1796 spent several hours in Pittsburgh “employed in procuring stores” for their boat trip “down the Ohio.” The following year, John Reynolds and his father, also “bought in Pittsburg oats, bread and dried venision” for their journey to Franklin, Pennsylvania. Once in Franklin, they had a “delay of a day or two” while “laying in supplies” for the time when they “left Franklin for the woods” to survey land.<sup>54</sup>

Western inhabitants, however, were not grocers who could furnish travelers with an unlimited quantity of goods. They obliged only when they were willing or able to cooperate. Some travelers, therefore, failed in their attempts to find local inhabitants who were willing to sell them supplies. Samuel Maclay's party wanted "to procure some fresh Provisions . . . from the Inhabitants along the" Allegheny River, but were "unsucksesful." After a day of searching, they were "Luckay enough" to find a man who sold them "half of a veal," but "in order to procure some flour" a member of their party had to travel to a mill "eight miles up Loyalhanning creek."<sup>55</sup>

Weather proved to be a never ending source of suffering and complaints for travelers. Snowstorms often prevented travel or made it treacherous. John Badollet, with the "weather continuing so horribly snow & rainy," remained idle "till the weather would better." Brutal cold also tormented travelers. Arthur Lee complained that it was so cold at Fort Pitt from the "room being accessible to the four winds of heaven," that he could not keep warm with four blankets. While traveling during the spring of 1788, John May claimed to have only eight days of "Fair weather" since he "left Boston," a period of forty days.<sup>56</sup>

Rain, too much or too little, affected travel. In 1785 Major Ebenezer Denny reported that "the water being exceedingly low" caused one of the boats in his company "to run aground in the night." Samuel Forman's group "tarried" in Pittsburgh "about a month," during a dry spell, while "awaiting the rise of the Ohio." Lewis Condict also "found the water" of the Ohio River "quite low & falling very fast," which delayed his departure in 1795. Henry Summers recorded a similar circumstance while leading a party to the Little Kanawha River in 1798. The water was

so low that the boats were “strewed like wrecks on the shore” like a “similar scene described in Virgil whose pen is necessary to depict the gloom and wretchedness it presented.” When the party reached Wheeling in November 1798, the Ohio River was too low for “Kentucky boats,” so they loaded their goods on a “flat or skowe.” The Little Kanawha River proved to be “extremely low,” as well, so the party had to “store” their supplies and “proceed by land . . . to the place of destination” up the river. Lack of water also affected overland travel. Summers also recorded that “waggoners could scarcely get enough water for their horses” during the same drought.<sup>57</sup>

Excessive rain, however, also slowed travel and aggravated travelers. John May lamented that too much rain put the roads in poor shape and caused a river to rise so high it nearly swept him away. Israel Shreve likewise recorded that after a “Hard rain” on Chestnut Ridge, the road became “so mirey as to sink the waggons to the hub in many places.”<sup>58</sup>

Other forces of nature frustrated travel as well. A “thick fog” and “Hazy Weather” conditions delayed Thomas Chapman’s trip down the Ohio River for two consecutive days because of potential hazards hidden by the fog. A heavy fog also slowed the boat in which Increase Matthews was riding on the Ohio River. Tornadoes likewise created problems for travelers. Nicholas Cresswell told of the aftermath of a gigantic tornado near Great Meadows that left “Trees . . . either torn up the roots or broke of near the ground.” Cresswell reported that the tornado’s path extended for “100 Miles in a west course and about a mile broad.” John May also had to detour around many fallen trees from a tornado that made it “allmost Impossible” for his party to “gitt along.”<sup>59</sup>

Ice was a particular problem for boaters. Arthur Lee observed, after a day and half of snow at Fort “Mackintosh,” that the Ohio River “was floating ice.” Other commissioners

appointed along with Lee to treat with the Indians encountered a near hazardous situation with the same ice. Their boat, “having run aground” was “nearly overwhelmed with ice” leaving the “crew almost frozen to death.” The men fortunately escaped their icy deaths. Employees of “Mr. Ohara,” a government contractor, however, were not as lucky. With their boat “frozen up,” the men were “frost-bitten,” with one destined to lose his legs.<sup>60</sup>

Thomas Ridout recorded that the breaking up of the ice was a spectacle, making a “tremendous noise, and the waters rose in the space of three days twenty feet perpendicular.” However, people ignored the hazards of “large masses” of ice and used the river anyway.<sup>61</sup>

Despite the hazards, ice was also beneficial, in the right circumstances. The ice, which “nearly overwhelmed” Arthur Lee’s fellow Indian commissioners, also saved their lives. Once “the ice became hard enough to bear them” the crew and commissioners quickly scrambled to shore and escaped their icy tomb. The ice also enabled the crew to unload the boat’s cargo, which the American representatives needed for the treaty negotiations at Fort McIntosh. Thomas Ridout also benefited from a frozen river. Ridout walked “again on the ice,” a distance of “about 500 yards,” to avoid another hazardous winter crossing of the river.<sup>62</sup>

The journey to the Upper Ohio Valley was long and physically demanding, forcing people to endure an average of two or three weeks of rugged travel through wilderness and over mountains with the uncertain conditions of living on the road. Reverend David Jones found that “The great Fatigue of this Journey” to the Upper Ohio River Valley in 1772 had “impaired” his “health very much.” After crossing “the long dreaded Allegheny mountain,” Lewis Conduct’s party soon stopped for the night, “being almost overcome by the fatigues of the day.” For George Washington, “Crossing the Mountains” in 1784 was a “tedious and fatiguing” experience.

Samuel Forman's party needed "near three weeks to journey from Monmouth to Pittsburgh," while Israel Shreve likewise condemned his trip from New Jersey to the Pittsburgh area in 1788 as "a very fateaging journey of 25 days."<sup>63</sup>

After surviving these hardships, people seldom returned to the East except under exceptional circumstances. To communicate with friends, family or business contacts, people relied on the postal service as an alternative to an arduous journey over the mountains. However, the reliability of the postal service was questionable throughout the period. Without a regular route and carrier until 1788, it remained inconsistent even after that date. Conveying mail from Philadelphia to Pittsburgh, at best, required one week, if it arrived at all. After arrival in Pittsburgh, individuals carried the mail to points westward. Thus, despite efforts by the national government to organize mail delivery in the West, it was still haphazard at best.<sup>64</sup>

William Short in 1797 described the problem of the postal service in the West in a letter to his brother. He related a story from a "Mon<sup>sr</sup>. Devilmont" who had recently passed through Fort Pitt. Short said that his friend "was convinced that there was ten to one against a letter getting safe to hand in Kentucky after it had arrived at Fort Pitt." According to Devilmont,

the letters there all piled in a heap in preparation as they arrived from Philadelphia - waiting there until they are claimed or taken up by some pa[s]senger - & thus exposed to be taken up by every body, & with all the chances of their being lost, forgotten . . . by the person who takes them

Thus, if this was common, then it was a small wonder that any mail reached its destination.<sup>65</sup>

A letter from a P. C. Lane in 1805 also illustrated the inconsistent delivery of mail in the

West. Lane complained to Bedford's postmaster that an intended recipient had not yet received a long overdue letter. He apparently knew of the post office's disarray, requesting that the postmaster search for the letter "among old papers." Then, in a desperate measure Lane asked the postmaster to locate "an entry in the Post Office Book regularly made of a Single letter being Sent from the office for Connelsville."<sup>66</sup>

Although the limited organization of the postal delivery system usually caused lost mail or delayed delivery, Indians captured and thieves stole the mail. Indians killed a "Postrider . . . in the Wilderness" and then "carried off the mail."<sup>67</sup>

The inefficiency and complaints notwithstanding, the postal service actually sought to improve mail delivery by shipping mail more frequently. Philadelphia's post office announced that the 1790 schedule for the "Western Mail," which included Bedford and Pittsburgh, "will close on Thursday . . . and afterwards on every second Thursday thro' the year, and will arrive on the next Thursday Morning." Two years later, delivery between Pittsburgh and Philadelphia increased to every week. This effort to maintain a mail delivery schedule continued as America expanded further west. Christian Schultz noted that "A mail stage arrives at Wheeling regularly twice a week from Philadelphia, and another line continues on to Lexington, the capital of Kentucky."<sup>68</sup>

Although mail delivery during this period was inefficient, some inhabitants believed that the postal service deserved praise. In an 1804 letter to Jacob Cist, John Heckewelder of Gnadenhutten commended the postmaster of "Brook. C. H.." The postmaster was "such an attentive Man to his Bu[s]sine[s]s, that" Heckewelder apparently received all of his correspondence. A situation much admired during any era.<sup>69</sup>



Travel through the Upper Ohio River Valley continued to be a test throughout the last years of the eighteenth century and the first years of the nineteenth. Although some roads were improved at the end of the eighteenth century, most were still little more than trails through the wilderness. Stumps and rocks frustrated travelers, trying their patience as they bounced over or traveled around these obstacles. Roads were often obscure, leading the migrants away from the true path. Although most days passed without incident with the journey often becoming monotonous, travelers were also wary of sudden mishaps which led to delays, injuries, or in some cases, death.

These frontier conditions and the length of the journey often led migrants to seek assistance from locals. Some planned on taking meals and seeking accommodations during their journey, while others infrequently sought help along the trail. Those with money found accommodations along the trail, while those without slept in the open. The quality of inns and private homes varied considerably. Travel journals were full of complaints when food and lodging were substandard, but also of praise when the quality met or exceeded the travelers' expectations. Local inhabitants along the trail also provided other services to travelers, such as shoeing horses, repairing wagons, and the purchasing of food. Journeys through the Upper Ohio River Valley during the late eighteenth century, even with assistance, was still physically and emotionally exhausting, as George Washington and others attested.

Despite the conditions endured by frontier travelers during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, the network of trails established by Indians actually eased the passage of white settlers. Whites recognized the value of these trails and quickly adopted them for their own use, with many serving as the basis for modern roads. Ironically, this fundamental Indian

influence on white frontier culture accelerated the erosion of Indian civilization in the Upper Ohio River Valley.

## Chapter 5

### White Settlement of the Upper Ohio Valley

White settlers of the Upper Ohio River Valley in the late eighteenth century did not throw off Frederick Jackson Turner's symbolic clothing of civilization for those of the "savage" on the frontier. Most whites who migrated to the Upper Ohio Valley went to improve their economic opportunities. Land was cheap and available to the average person, which was not the case in the East. The West gave many people an opportunity to fulfill the already established American ideal of the yeoman farmer.

The lure of land outweighed the often hazardous conditions endured by frontier settlers. With the Upper Ohio Valley lightly populated in the late eighteenth century, settlers cleared fields from primeval forests to establish their homesteads, and often lived miles from their nearest neighbors. This isolation forced the early settlers to rely on their own ability to survive, from building their homes and procuring food to facing unknown dangers and doctoring the infirm. Life on the frontier was a different world than most had known in the East.

Ohio River Valley settlers also lived close to nature, which provided many essentials of frontier life including material for shelter, clothing, and ingredients for folk medicine. Settlers also relied on nature for food. Although farming was the primary occupation of most settlers, whites hunted abundant game, caught a wide variety of fish, and gathered a cornucopia of wild fruits and nuts. Nature, however giving, was equally destructive. Inclement weather, an ancient complaint of civilizations, and wild animals were always concerns.

Despite the hardships encountered by American settlers, they had an advantage over the

Indians who had earlier migrated to the Ohio Valley from the East. They had someone to copy. To improve frontier life or to survive in their new homes, white settlers in the region adopted aspects of Indian life. The Iroquois, Lenapes, and Shawnees who settled the Upper Ohio River Valley also made the region habitable, building towns and clearing a network of trails. Indians found the best places to hunt and fish, the locations of salt springs and sugar maple stands to procure salt and maple sugar. Thus, by making the Upper Ohio Valley liveable for themselves, the Indians provided examples to whites of how to survive successfully in the region.

However, whites did not reproduce Indian society, but simply borrowed practices and ideas from the Indian nations who they once again evicted, just as they had in the East. As with the frontiersmen who preceded them decades before, late eighteenth-century settlers did not lose their cultural identity when they moved to the Upper Ohio Valley. They wanted the land in the West for economic motives, whether as an investment in speculation or as a family farm.

Whites, who used the same overland trails established by the Indians, also settled on many of the same Indian village sites linked by the trails. Throughout the region whites founded towns where Indians previously lived. Thus, whites did not always have to carve out new settlements to “civilize” the frontier, but often chose sites previously occupied by Indians.

In Pennsylvania, whites founded many communities on Indian village sites. The Lenape village of Kittanning became a white town of the same name. Pennsylvanians also established towns on old Iroquois sites, including Warren where Conawango stood; Irvineton replaced Buckaloons; and Kuskusky became New Castle. Lastly, the important Indian village of Logg’s Town, was eventually settled by whites and renamed Ambridge.<sup>1</sup>

While whites shared village locations with Indians, their style of housing differed. The first shelter for most settlers establishing a homestead was crude, usually providing little more than a roof over the settlers' heads. This was true for claimants of land not yet surveyed. They commonly erected a domicile by "driving four forked sticks in ground, and laying to poles across in front and rear of the forks and covered them with bark." Many settlers constructed a lean-to, a building that had one side open to the elements, until a more permanent structure could be built. They then replaced the lean-to with the typical American frontier house, the log cabin or house, chosen because trees were a handy resource.<sup>2</sup> Early settlers built one-room cabins made from round logs. Later, as settlement increased, log houses improved the rough features of the log cabins. Home builders squared the logs and took a greater interest in appearance. The elite, however, eventually built stone and brick frame houses that resembled the houses in the East.<sup>3</sup>

The experience of John Reynolds and his father, William, was typical for settlers in the late eighteenth century. On the first day at their new homestead, John and William "cut some small trees and put up three sides of a small cabin, leaving the front open" with a "fire on the outside." Eventually, when the weather turned cold, the two men "made an outside chimney of small logs and a rough stone back wall" to enclose their lean-to. They filled "the cracks between the logs . . . with moss gathered from old logs." Finally, they dug a ditch to divert running rain water in an attempt to keep the cabin dry. For their efforts, John and William had a "kitchen, parlor, bedroom and store room . . . within ten feet square," with the eaves of the cabin only at eye-level of the two men.<sup>4</sup>

The construction ability of settlers greatly affected the quality of the housing. In the case of John and William Reynolds, their lack of ability complicated the building of their cabin. The

making of clapboards left the two at their “wits’ end.” Not having any experience between the two in chopping down trees, they “mangled off a cut.” Reynolds and his father purchased the wrong tool to make clapboards and “found it was useless for the purpose intended.” The only things that they had to show for their labor were blistered hands. The next day they hired a man to make their clapboards.<sup>5</sup>

Repairs listed by Joseph Badger, an itinerant preacher, for his cabin in the Western Reserve described the quality of housing for newly arrived settlers. After living in the West for one year, Badger decided “that something should be done . . . to prepare for the increasing cold and winter’s frost.” His cabin “had only half a floor of split logs, and no chimney; cracks between the logs open, without plastering or mudding.” Badger had cause for concern to improve his home immediately. His hectic schedule would keep him away for prolonged periods and he wanted to make his family “comfortable” for the winter before he left on his travels.<sup>6</sup>

Travelers also told much about housing in the region, and their own intolerance of frontier conditions. John Badollet stayed at a house that “appeared very little furnished & promised but a scanty share of the luxuries of life.” He also encountered a family that lived in a “bark shelter . . . deprived of all the comforts of life.” John May painted an equally uncomplimentary picture of a house where the “Inhabitants had rather Live like hogs than take a little pains to Live otherwise.” Robert Wellford provided a condescending description of the quality of housing in western Pennsylvania. The “best house” in the region had “3 sleeping rooms & one eating room, with a large log fire, the kitchen under the same roof.” He concluded though, that “[i]f this was the best house, judge then of the others.” George Washington continued to be a critic of the settlers of the Ohio River Valley when he traveled to Bedford with

the army to suppress the Whiskey Rebellion in 1794. Although the culture was “well improved” since his previous trip, he found that the housing changed little over the last decade.<sup>7</sup>

Not all travelers were quite so critical, and not all of the housing had such a rustic appearance. The usually disparaging John Badollet found occasion to praise a “Colony of Germans” who created “one of the most lovely settlements of the back Country.” Their settlement was a middling community “equally remote from the excess of luxury & the self denials of wretchedness.” Joseph Boyd was complimentary of Washington, Pennsylvania, describing it as a “handsome little town.” James Elliott concurred with Boyd. While traveling with Washington’s army to suppress the Whiskey Rebellion, Elliott found Washington, Pennsylvania to be “very pleasing.” Itinerant minister Thomas Scott said that he was “not only comfortably but pleasantly accomodated in at least three-fourths of the houses where” he “preached.”<sup>8</sup>

The dense tree cover made clearing a homestead quite difficult. Trees were an abundant natural resource for a variety of things, including cabins, tools, and many household items. To clear a field by chopping down trees required exhausting labor and a significant amount of time, as John and William Reynolds quickly discovered. Westerners adopted the Indian technique of “girdling” trees to clear their land and “prevent their crops from being [s]haded.” Settlers girdled trees by removing the bark “about one foot and a half above the ground” to stop the flow of sap, which eventually killed the trees. This method of clearing fields not only saved the homesteaders time and energy, but also provided them with a supply of firewood.<sup>9</sup>

This labor-saving technique of clearing fields was important because farming was the primary occupation of American settlers on the frontier. The actual number of people involved

in agriculture is a source of debate. Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, writing more than sixty years ago, concluded that approximately ninety-five percent of the frontier population were associated in some form with agriculture, even if farming was not their primary occupation. Recent estimates significantly lowered the total number. R. Eugene Harper placed the number at slightly less than fifty-nine percent and Lee Soltow at approximately forty-two percent. Harper and Soltow included only people who identified primarily with farming. Regardless of the exact number, agriculture played an important role in the Upper Ohio River Valley during the frontier era.<sup>10</sup>

The average farm produced basic crops, including maize or corn, an American grain which all Europeans eagerly adopted, and other grains such as wheat, oats, barley, rye, and buckwheat. Essential crops included hemp and flax, which were processed for use by the settlers. Frontier settlers also tended vegetable gardens of turnips and cabbage. After settlement increased, livestock were also a common sight on frontier homesteads.<sup>11</sup>

A farmer's wealth influenced the variety and quantity of the crops produced. Alexander Henderson, who transported ten slaves to the Upper Ohio Valley, was a wealthy farmer.<sup>12</sup> The crops recorded in his 1799 diary reflected those planted by a wealthy farmer.<sup>13</sup> Corn was a staple on Henderson's farm. His slaves planted ten acres by 10 May, which they continued to sow the remainder of the month.<sup>14</sup> They also planted a diverse number of vegetables in the apparently sizeable gardens. Henderson's list included "Radish Early Cabbage Savoy e Spinage Parsley & Lettuce," as well as "Parsnips carrot, Red beat, black and white mustard . . . early Pease, early Kidney beans, cucumber." Potatoes also figured prominently in his list of crops. Henderson recorded that they "planted 250 early Potato hills" on 2 April and "150 hills Sweet Potatoes" on



13 April.<sup>15</sup> Henderson, originally from eastern Virginia, planted tobacco as well, which was the first crop to go in the ground in early March.<sup>16</sup>

As exhibited by the Henderson farm, potatoes also seemed to be a staple crop in the West. Henry Summers supported this idea with his comments while traveling to the Little Kanawha River with Henderson's slaves. With potatoes apparently the only food available to the travelers during a drought in 1798, Summers concluded that "potatoes" were the crop "for which the Alleganey is famed." John and William Reynolds, in the first spring at their new homestead, "planted about an acre of potatoes."<sup>17</sup>

Settlers also turned to the wild for food. They hunted deer and bear, both plentiful and highly desired. During the first year of Alexander Henderson's farm, he noted that the inhabitants "still relied on hunting for meat." He repeatedly mentioned that hunters "shot a small Cub Bear" or "Killed a Bear." Hunters also pursued small game. Turkey was both popular and plentiful. Henry Summers killed a "turkey for supper, and next morning was attended with the same good fortune in supplying the party with breakfast." As late as 1807 Christian Schultz marveled at the number and size of wild turkey in northwestern Pennsylvania, which he said were "very plentiful." Schultz had the "opportunity of shooting a great many" turkey with "many of them weighing from thirty to forty pounds."<sup>18</sup>

Fish were a popular source of food as well and filled creeks and rivers in the West. Travelers passing through the area often commented on the variety and quantity of fish provided by the western waterways. John May marveled at the diversity of fish in the Monongahela River, some of which included "Cat fish, Perch, Buffelow, Pike, Bass of two sorts, sturgeon's of two sorts." May was particularly taken with perch, which he said were "very handsome good fish

something resembling a haddock but much better eating.” The assortment of fish in “Connamaugh Creek” impressed Lewis Conduct, which he said “abounds in Salmon, Buffalo fish, Perch, Bass, Pike &c.”<sup>19</sup>

The fish sometimes were prodigious in size, which impressed travelers and settlers alike.<sup>20</sup> When Peter Muhlenberg arrived at Fort Pitt in 1784, he was anxious “to catch some Ohio fish, which according to report, are very large.” His desire to fish the western waters, however, was frustrated because the river was “still too full of ice.” The reputation of the size of fish in the western waters referred to by Muhlenberg was not exaggerated. Lewis Conduct recorded that one of the “Buffalo fish” that he caught was “as large as a common Shad,” while a “Cat fish” snared by Alexander Henderson on the Little Kanawha “was 27 lbs.” Samuel Maclay’s catfish, caught in the “Alegina,” weighed a mere ten and one-half pounds. John May’s party caught two perch near Pittsburgh that weighed forty pounds total, with others even larger, “weighing 24 lb” individually. The catch near Marietta was equally impressive, with a catfish that weighed nearly sixty pounds, a salmon that weighed fifteen pounds, and a “Pike that weigh’d 29 lb.” The next year, May recorded that “a Mr Niel . . . caught a Sturgeon 5 feet long” which, according to May’s estimate, probably weighed “60 lb.” David Meade in 1796 recorded that his party purchased a “20 lb” perch while stopped at Redstone.<sup>21</sup>

Ohio Valley settlers caught fish using techniques that were adopted from Indians. Nicholas Cresswell described a fish weir, which he called a “Fish pot,” on the Youghiogeny River that whites adapted to their methods.

These fish pots are made by throwing up the small stones and gravel something like a mill weir, beginning at the side of the River and proceeding in a diagonal

line, till they meet in the middle of the stream, where they fix a thing like the body of a cart, contracted where the water flows in just to admit the fish, but so contrived as to prevent their return or escape

The description was quite similar to ones left by Europeans when they first saw Indian fish weirs. This technique seemed to be quite common, because Alexander Henderson also recorded using a “fish pot” on the Little Kanawha River.<sup>22</sup>

The return from hunting and fishing sometimes proved to be quite rewarding. Alexander Henderson reported that “hunters returned with about 70 lb meat” from a single hunt. Their “fish pot,” after one night, “weighed 142 lbs.”<sup>23</sup>

Wild fruits and nuts, which nature provided in abundance, supplemented the diets of settlers. Nicholas Cresswell “Got plenty of Red plums,” which were “very well flavoured,” cherries that were “small and black, very sweet,” and some “Dewberries.”<sup>24</sup> Israel Shreve’s party found huckleberries “in many places . . . very plenty on the low green bushes.” Shreve marveled at the stands of chestnut trees because of their “size and hight” as did Lewis Conduct over how “Black walnut trees grow to an enormous size & height” in the West.<sup>25</sup>

Like the Indians before them, whites used natural food seasonings. Indians taught Europeans how to make maple sugar, and after they displaced the Indians, whites produced sugar from the same maple trees used by the Indians.<sup>26</sup> John Lincklaen in 1791 told of a John Jhones who “propose[d] to tap 2000 trees” the next spring. He also reported that an Ulrich Swingel “made last spring 200 lbs. of sugar.” As late as 1809, Joshua Gilpin said that maple sugar was popular and still produced in western Pennsylvania. It was available “very generally in the Stores” and “raised in sufficient quantities” from the “vast quantities” of sugar maple trees in the region.<sup>27</sup>

Salt was important to whites not only to season food but also to preserve it, and they frequented the same salt licks as the Indians had. Salt was of such importance that people sought land specifically with salt springs. Entrepreneurs took advantage of the salt springs. “Several gentlemen” near Pittsburgh discussed “forming a company for manufacturing salt from the licks which abound in some parts of this western country.” These businessmen were compelled “to undertake something of this nature” because “Imported salt” was “so extremely dear.” Joseph Badger mentioned that there “was one family employed in making salt” from salt springs near Canfield, Ohio. Whites, however, ran into the same problems as the Indians. Salt licks were readily available but the salt was of poor quality. Unlike the Indians, whites did not have to wander about for new sources of salt, but instead they created a trade network and imported it from New York. Entrepreneurs again attempted to fill the void. The Pennsylvania Gazette reported “that a gentleman of known enterprize” intended to import salt “by way of the lakes . . . to keep a supply of that necessary article adequate to the demand” of the Upper Ohio Valley.”<sup>28</sup>

When salt was not available to preserve food, whites again copied from the Indians. After a member of Nicholas Cresswell’s party killed a buffalo, they used what Cresswell labeled the “Indian method of preserving meat,” which he said was “jerking the meat.” The group first cut the meat from the buffalo “in thin slices like beefsteaks.” They then built a rack of “four forked sticks . . . stuck in the ground in a square form” with “small sticks laid on these forks in the form of a gridiron about three feet from the ground.” They laid the meat on the rack that had “a slow fire put under it.” Cresswell seemed fairly satisfied with the results. Although he believed the “lean parts eat very dry” and buffalo meat had a “ranker taste” than beef, Cresswell concluded that this method “answers very well, where salt is not to be had.”<sup>29</sup>

The types of beverages were also limited in the West. Liquor consumption was quite common, particularly whiskey distilled from the grains grown in the West. Other alcoholic drinks available on the frontier included beer, brandy, gin, and wine. Westerners consumed non-alcoholic drinks as well. When dairy cattle were available, drinking milk was common. Tea and coffee were other favorites, but often were too expensive for the average settler to drink regularly. When tea and coffee were not available, or unaffordable, settlers relied on nature for other seasonings in their hot drinks. John and William Reynolds improvised by boiling sassafras roots and wintergreen leaves to brew a tea alternative. Other common substitutes used by settlers included thyme, catnip, and boiled grains.<sup>30</sup>

Chocolate also seemed to be quite popular with western inhabitants. John Reynolds remarked that, along with the above mentioned teas, he and his father consistently drank chocolate with their meals. Samuel Maclay included chocolate in his diet while surveying in the West, particularly for breakfast. On several occasions, he noted that chocolate was part of his breakfast. For a breakfast, his group “made some Dumplings and Boiled them in . . . Chocolate, and made with the addition of a slice of Bacon, a very hearty Breakfast.” Henri Marie Brackenridge remembered consuming chocolate, although finding the drink “unpalatable” as it was prepared, while traveling down the Ohio River on a flatboat.<sup>31</sup>

Early frontier settler clothing closely resembled that of the Indians. Typically, American men wore a hunting shirt that flowed to the mid-thigh with a belt worn about the waist as “[t]heir habitual costume.” Unlike the Indians, the material was usually linsey, some of coarse linen they made from “nettle bark or buffalo wool,” and a “few . . . dressed deer skins.” Leggings and

moccasins made of buckskin completed the typical outfit. In cooler weather, a cape kept the men warm. Western women, like eastern women, wore dresses, which were made of linsey.<sup>32</sup>

In an era with an undeveloped, and at times harmful, medical practice, and with few legitimate doctors on the frontier, whites tried many things to cure their ailments and sometimes turned to the Indians for help. One Indian remedy used by whites was surface oil, which they called “Seneca oil” for the people from whom they learned its use. Samuel Maclay rubbed a “small quantity of oyl from a small oyl spring” on his sore back. He felt somewhat better the next morning, and thought to have more “oyl” rubbed on his back. Thaddeus Harris said that “*Seneca Indian Oil*” was a medicine for “external applications . . . [f]or chilblains and rheumatism” (author’s italics). Nicholas Cresswell described an antidote that was “good for the bite of a Rattle Snake” as it was explained to him by George Rogers Clark. A root, which the Indians called “pocoon,” was “mashed and applied to” the snake bite, while the victim consumed “a decoction made of the leaves.” Cresswell also [t]ook some Tea made of the Roots of a small shrub” for an unknown illness, which provided “almost immediate ease.”<sup>33</sup>

Whites used other natural cures that were similar to those used by Indians. John May described a “cure for worms in children” that used a “half-pint of live angle-worms” placed on the stomach of the afflicted child. A remedy for rheumatism, mentioned by May, bathed the soreness in the “bark of upland or red willow” boiled in a quart of water. Isaac Weld also described two cures for rheumatism. He explained that some people placed the “exuviae” of rattlesnakes on the “part afflicted, and fastened down with a bandage.” Others “dried” and “pulverised” the body of a rattlesnake and mixed it with a “certain portion of brandy” to alleviate the pain of rheumatism. Patients drank the concoction for several days, then they supposedly

recovered their strength.<sup>34</sup>

On occasion, whites relied directly on the ability of Indians for medical assistance. Samuel Vaughan reported that when a man was bitten by a rattlesnake, his “leg & thigh swelled almost as thick as his body & in 24 hours of the same colour as the Snake.” He was then taken to and “cured by an old Indian.”<sup>35</sup>

Despite providing the necessities to sustain life, nature also threatened settlers. Wild animals continued to be a nuisance and at times a deadly threat, particularly the abundant venomous snakes. For teen-ager John Reynolds, and probably most other settlers, “the rattling tenor” of the rattlesnake was his “habitual dread,” although he claimed that “[v]ery few persons were bitten.” Reynolds related stories about “hairbreadth escapes” from rattlesnakes “of immense size.” A blacksmith, who “made his lodging in his shop,” awoke one morning and found “a large rattlesnake . . . quietly in coil, within a few inches of his face.”<sup>36</sup> On another occasion, Reynolds said that some boys found a rattlesnake coiled around “a hen’s nest in a hollow stump.” Nicholas Cresswell also had an encounter with a rattlesnake. He shot one, which measured “about 4 feet long,” that apparently was going to strike his horse. Although John May believed that poisonous snakes were “not very plenty” near Marietta, he still killed two copperheads within a few days of his arrival. May had a close call with a “rattle snake of an enormous seize” that nearly bit him. He “sprung off” from the snake after failing to kill it with a stick. Alexander Henderson “[k]illed 3 Rattle Snakes” in one day in 1799.<sup>37</sup>

Avoiding venomous snake strikes was not always possible, as witnessed by the man described by Samuel Vaughan. John Reynolds knew five people who were struck by venomous

snakes during his life, with two dying from the toxin. John May recorded that when a copperhead bit a “young man,” he was quickly taken to a man who was “very skillful in curing the bites of these venomous reptiles.”<sup>38</sup> Alexander Henderson’s horses were less fortunate. While hunting, the horse carrying the meat was “bit by a Rattle Snake on his foreleg which for the first evening made him unable to travel.” For another of Henderson’s horses, however, a rattlesnake bite proved fatal. His “Bay Mare” was “bitten by a Rattle snake” and “swelled to an astonishing degree.” After suffering for two days, the horse died. When Henderson cut open the body, he “found the parts near the heart in many places rotten.”<sup>39</sup>

Other predators, such as mountain lions and wolves, were equally problematic.<sup>40</sup> While traveling to Fort Pitt, Cresswell’s party encountered “‘A Panther’ . . . in a tree about twenty yards from” Cresswell. After shooting the animal “through the neck,” they examined the mountain lion, which “measured five foot nine inches from Nose end to Tail end.” Johann David Schoepf noted the destruction by predators while at the “Turkey Creek Settlement” near Pittsburgh in 1783, recording that “Wolves and bears had within a few days done much damage in these parts among the calves, sheep, and hogs.” In 1798, “a panther made several screams near the cabin” of John Reynolds, frightening the teen-ager who was left alone in the cabin. Reynolds also claimed that the little creek valley in which his family built their homestead “was a favorite lair” of wolves to the point that the “stench was like that of a dog kennel.” Reverend Joseph Badger had an unwelcome companion while riding to a town on his circuit. Badger claimed that a wolf trailed him for “several miles.” Leonard Case also encountered aggressive wolves in eastern Ohio in the beginning of the nineteenth century. Case recounted that wolves took a heavy toll on livestock, and “would approach even within two rods of the cabin” in pursuit of their prey.<sup>41</sup>



Bears were a concern to westerners, as shown by the incident recorded by Johann David Schoepf. John Badollet reported that a “man had a fight with a wild bear,” and “had like to have been killed” until “his dog fought for him.” While the dog was distracting the bear, the man killed it with a rock. While traveling on his circuit, Reverend Badger came face to face with “a large bear.” Badger tried to scare the animal, which served only to anger the bear, who “raised his hair on end, and snapped his teeth violently.” After finding refuge in a tree, the continuing presence of the bear forced Reverend Badger to endure a rainy night in the tree.<sup>42</sup>

Bears also attacked livestock. John Reynolds claimed that “Bears were . . . numerous and troublesome, hogs of large size they wo<sup>d</sup> seize & drag away.” An incident on Alexander Henderson’s supported Reynolds’s remark. A “Bear had killed one Sow and had torn another almost in pieces” before the people on the farm could intervene. The attack caused quite a hardship because those “were the only two Sows” that Henderson owned.<sup>43</sup>

Much smaller nuisances plagued westerners as well. Joseph Boyd remarked, while traveling near Canton in 1808, that the “Musquetoos very Plenty here.” Alexander Henderson said that he was “almost terrified to death with the nats.” John May in 1788 was likewise “tormented beyond measure by myriads of gnats,” and the following year was “attack’d by a host of fleas” while staying at the “Coffy house” in Muskingum. John Reynolds recorded that gnats were so “troublesome . . . to the early settlers” that they were not able to work outside at certain times “without smoke, movable with the person.” Increase Matthews encountered the same circumstances, being “bitten by the fleas” while traveling near Marietta in 1798.<sup>44</sup>

Other natural threats came from the sky. Upper Ohio Valley inhabitants faced violent weather, as during any era, with heavy winds and tornadoes striking quickly and inflicting heavy

destruction. Dr. John Ewing described the results of the tornado that slowed John May's travels in 1784. Ewing estimated that the tornado was "about 80 Rods wide" and seemed quite powerful, because it "broke & tore up the Trees by the Roots many of them . . . three feet in Diameter, scarcely leaving a Tree standing whole in its Cour[s]e." An "Eye Witne[s]s" said that the "Limbs of Trees of prodigious Size were whipped thro the air like Leaves & carried to a great di[s]tance." Several houses "were left without their roofs," forcing some of the local citizenry to rebuild their homes.<sup>45</sup>

Alexander Henderson described a "violent storm of wind" that "blew down an immense number of trees" on and near his property in September 1801. Henderson and his brother, James, "were in the room over the Spring house when an old tree fell on the roof, which it knocked in, broke the rafters, destroyed a considerable part of the roof" while "the roofs of several of the Cabbins were blown partly off" as well. Despite the damage to property and crops, Henderson "happily" noted that he and his brother "received no bodily injury."<sup>46</sup>

Sudden injury and death were also frequent companions on the frontier. While he "was stooping for a bit of meat" during dinner one evening, Samuel Maclay apparently pulled a muscle in his back, which incapacitated him for several days. Maclay also endured three days of "a most violent Tooth ach" which made his "[f]ace much swelled." John May told of a man who "took off one of his nails and hurt the rest of his hand very much" while lifting wood during the construction of a house. Alexander Henderson had a similar experience. While "cutting down a small tree . . . the top of it was rotten and fell off and struck" Henderson on the head. His "left cheek, which recd such a deep wound" prevented him from working the rest of the day. John May also described the death of Joshua Cheever who fell from a Muskingum bridge, "a Distance

of 35 feet which Cracked his Scull in fact Jam'd him all into a lump." Then, in 1806, leading citizens in Ohio County gathered to examine and certify that "Patterson Ingledue" was probably "killed by accident by the falling of a tree."<sup>47</sup>

Illness was a major concern to the people of the Upper Ohio Valley who were not isolated from disease, whether common or epidemic. Routine ailments such as the common cold, which could quickly develop into pneumonia, diarrhea, or childhood diseases were viewed as serious, and often were. Diseases like the plague and small pox remained a perilous and continual threat to individuals and communities alike.

Illness struck without warning and often took a heavy toll in the eighteenth century. John Badollet awoke one morning to what seemed to be a mild case of food poisoning after a night dining on a "quantity of Deer's meat." The venison "operated as a purge," which made Badollet feel "weak & low spirited" and "rendered that day extremely fatiguing & painfull." Major Kinney of Lewis Condict's party suddenly "was taken very sick" also with an unnamed ailment, forcing the group "to be still an hour until he got somewhat better" while on the road to Redstone. John May also "was taken Violent sick in the Night which lasted till morning." Although unsure of the exact cause, May attributed his illness "to eating bread made of sick wheat." While traveling with the New Jersey troop to quell the Whiskey Rebellion in 1794, Captain David Ford described an unusual medical condition endured by "a poor child" near the "Juniatta" River. Ford said that the baby had a "head swelled to the circumference of three feet," which, Ford understated, was "an object of real distress." In 1803, Samuel Finney reported in a letter that he was seized with a "chill and shake which lasted near an hour and was succeeded by a high fever and every symptom of an Ague" soon after he retired for the night.<sup>48</sup>

Epidemics also hit the West. Polly Wilson described the impact of an epidemic caused by an unnamed illness which struck Morgantown, Virginia in 1807. Her slave was ill for three weeks “with a fever” that afflicted “great many” in the community. Wilson commented that although few died as of the writing of her letter, the ailment did take the life of “a stout young man two or three and twenty years of age,” who she said, was “cut down in the bloom of life.” Johann David Schoepf also described “a malignant pox” near Millerstown, Pennsylvania, which “carried off many young people.”<sup>49</sup>

Excessive use of the readily available alcoholic beverages, which whites usually attributed to Indians, was also a problem for whites in the West. Nicholas Cresswell “Agreed to take a Dram” of rum one foggy morning “to prevent . . . catching the Fever and the Ague.” However, he and his companion “drank rather too much and most stupidly forgot” their supplies of “two bottles of Rum, two loaves of Bread, and a Bacon Ham.” John Badollet described a “miserable waggoner, driving a most noble team so drunk that he fell from his horse & the waggon had like to roll over him.” Then, six days later, during an occasion when he was snowbound, Badollet, apparently with little else to do, “spent the day . . . merrily . . . treated with wine by a rich Swizer, drinking cherry bounce & beer in the intervals.” Thomas Ridout “met seven or eight men riding furiously, more than half drunk,” while Samuel Forman’s group “had a little trouble with a drunken justice of the peace” in Westmoreland County. Israel Shreve seemed disgusted by an experience “at a Poor Dutch Hut” because there was “No feed . . . nor anything else but whisky.” Johann David Schoepf likewise was disturbed by a tavern where the proprietors “had nothing except whiskey and cheese.” In 1790, John Pope described how alcohol was even included in a traveling ritual. An acquaintance of Pope’s named Shepherd “had made it

an invariable rule to take a hearty Drink of Grog” when he crossed the Eastern Continental Divide.<sup>50</sup>

An incident involving John Mathews in 1786 represented how westerners included alcohol into all aspects of their lives, both work and leisure. Mathews visited Harmon Greathouse’s home, a friend’s father, where he “found a number of the neibors Seated in Social Glee around a heap of corn.”<sup>51</sup> As they worked, “the in[s]piring Juce of rye had inlivened their Imaginations and given their Tongues Such an exact ballance that they moved with the greate[s]t alacrity while relating Scenes of Boxing Wre[s]tling Hunting &c.” When the men finished their work at nightfall, the “Company retired to the Hou[s]e where many of them took shuch Hearty draughts of the generous liquor as quite deprived them of the u[s]e of their limbs.” Later, those who “Could walk went home and left three or four round the fire hugging the whiskey Bottle and arguing very “ob[s]tanately on Religion.”<sup>52</sup>

The state of religion on the eighteenth-century frontier has been a point of contention among historians. The accepted belief held that the colonists were less religious than Europeans for a variety of reasons, including a lack of a church structure, whether community, minister, or community, or simply the desire. Then, for the same basic reasons, frontier settlers were even less religious than their eastern counterparts. In The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania, Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck concluded that only one-sixth of the population, more than half of the families, were church members. Richard Hofstadter, in America at Seventeen-Fifty, concurred with the Bucks, also placing the actual church affiliation of frontier settlers as low as one of six.<sup>53</sup>

Revisionists question these low numbers. They accept the fact that, because of few churches and a lack of clergy, religion in the colonies was not as formal and organized as in Europe. However, despite these conditions, religion was still a concern for colonists. Often without a formal church apparatus, religion became much more individualized and informal, with colonists relying on itinerant preachers, worshiping in private homes, or holding prayer meetings. America continued to be a haven for those individuals with unique perspectives on religion.<sup>54</sup>

Travelers passing through the region remarked about the apparent lack of overt religious activity on the frontier. Pittsburgh received considerable criticism on this matter. In 1772, Reverend David McClure criticized the people of Pittsburgh because they used Sunday for “recreation, drinking & profanity.” He claimed that some in the city “had not heard a sermon for 14 years.” While traveling through Pittsburgh the same year, Baptist minister David Jones did not find a “Chaplin for the army, nor was the Town Supplied with any Mini[s]ter.” Wanting “to say no wor[s]e,” Jones concluded that a “great Part of the inhabitants were of bad Morals.” Twelve years later, Arthur Lee also chided the inhabitants of Pittsburgh for their seeming lack of piety, fearing for their eternal souls. Although Lee counted four attorneys and two doctors, he saw “not a priest of any persuasion, nor church, nor chapel; so that they are likely to be damned, without *the benefit of clergy*” (author’s italics). Lewis Condict was another who sensed that the people of Pittsburgh were irreligious. While spending a Sunday in the town in 1795, he criticized the people as being not “overburdened with religion, nor even the appearance of devotion.”<sup>55</sup>

Travelers also criticized residents in other areas of the Upper Ohio River Valley because they apparently lacked a concern for religion. Surveyor John Adlum recorded that “[t]here had

been for some years but one Clergiman in *Westmoreland County*” (author’s italics). In 1801, Reverend Joseph Badger lamented that he saw “no house of worship nor gospel ordinances” in the Western Reserve.<sup>56</sup>

Unethical behavior also disturbed travelers. Lewis Conduct chastised the citizens of Pittsburgh for their irreligious appearance, believing that the worldly “motto of each individual” was “‘Keep what I’ve got, & get what I can’.” He felt likewise about the people of Wheeling who led “very loose lives” with “Drinking & gambling . . . the principal employments.” John Pope echoed Conduct’s sentiments while traveling through Pittsburgh in 1790. According to Pope, Pittsburgh was “inhabited with only [s]ome few Exceptions, by Mortals who act as if po[ss]e[ss]ed of a Charter of Exclu[s]ive Privilege to filch from, annoy and harra[s]s her Fellow Creatures, particularly the incautious and nece[ss]itous.” Pope believed that “many who have emigrated from various Parts to *Kentucky* can verify this Charge” (author’s italics). Pope found Uniontown, Pennsylvania equally repugnant. He claimed that his week in the town was spent “experiencing every Di[s]gu[s]t which Rooks and Harpies could excite.”<sup>57</sup>

Francois Andre Michaux’s experience while traveling to Pittsburgh in 1802 explained the probable motive for these indignant comments. Because the western stage route ended in Shippensburg, Michaux had to procure a horse if he did not want to travel by foot. Michaux discovered that this was an expensive proposition, but not because of a lack of availability of horses since “[t]here were always some to be disposed of.” The high cost came from the heavy demand. Michaux claimed that the “natives, taking advantage of travellers” would “make them pay more than double their value” for the horses. The situation only worsened in Pittsburgh, where the inhabitants bought the horses “for one half of what they cost.” Because of the cost,

Michaux was tempted to travel on foot, but another traveler convinced him to share in the purchase of a horse.<sup>58</sup>

Despite travelers' negative opinions concerning behavior and the state of religion in the Ohio River Valley, there was enough evidence to say that westerners had a religious spirit. David McClure, who criticized Pittsburghers for not observing the Sabbath, also reported that inhabitants of Ligonier "purchased a parsonage" and raised money for a "settled Clergyman." David Jones, another critic of Pittsburgh, later "preached to about 15 white People . . . in a Cabbin near a Creek called weeling." In 1803, Thomas Rodney reported the religious zeal of the inhabitants in the vicinity of Parkinsons Ferry, on the Monongahela River. Rodney saw "a wonderful spunk at this time in the religious way among the Presbeterians that they have got in the same frenzy of shouting and falling down that the Methodists have long been at and that the people assemble together from 20 or thirty miles." He also reported that there was a "Meeting . . . about 4 miles from the ferry on the west side of the river." Then, while laying over in Wheeling, Rodney recounted that "ten persons, Babtists, were to be babtised in the river" during a Sunday in September. Reverend Badger also described interest in religion by frontier settlers. Despite Badger's criticism of the lack of churches in the Western Reserve, he "[f]ound here and there professing Christians mourning the loss of their former privileges, and wondering why they had come to this wilderness."<sup>59</sup>

When they lacked sufficient formal structures, people on the frontier improvised to hold religious meetings. John May recorded that some citizens of Wheeling worshiped together weekly, with "preaching every Tuesday by sartain Methodis preacher who preach Damnable Doctrin and yell as tho' they wood splitt there throts." In Muskingum during the same year, May



also “Attended publik Worship” although he did not mention if the service was held in “church.” May also told of an innovative approach taken by people living between Wheeling and Washington, Pennsylvania to meet their religious needs. He “saw a little box” that was “something like a centry, but standing on four pillars.” When he asked about the structure, May was told that it was a “pulpit” where the “people went to worship the God of Jacob.” Thomas Rodney “went to the Court House to hear a Babtist minister” during his 1803 stay in Wheeling.<sup>60</sup>

Although few in number, frontier settlers certainly built churches. When he arrived in Bedford, Johann David Schoepf found “two houses of worship, for Lutherans and Presbyterians.” While passing through Alexander, “one half a mile from Virginia and Pensylvania line,” Thomas Rodney recorded a “Presbeterian Meeting” house built by the inhabitants.<sup>61</sup>

Schoepf and Rodney, however, revealed their elitism by their comments on the quality of the churches. Schoepf believed that “these cannot be called churches, being only wooden huts.” Rodney also criticized the church while scrutinizing the rustic nature of the town, recording that “even” the church was “a logged building.”<sup>62</sup>

Westerners also worshiped privately. Without a church nearby, John Badollet spent part of one Sunday reading from “German Divinity books,” while the next Sunday he observed the “decent but short family worship” of his host. John May also observed Sunday by reading. He had with him “Mr Appletons sarmon on the Death of Esqr Flint,” which he read apparently for his religious needs. After finding the site of their future homestead, John Reynolds and his father held a private service when the father “read a chapter of the Bible and prayed.”<sup>63</sup>

Westerners also acted with considerable charity toward their neighbors. Henri Marie Brackenridge described the generous character of Molly Murphy who kept the tavern The Sign of

General Butler in Pittsburgh. Although Brackenridge found her “as rough a Christian as” any he ever encountered, he felt “that a better Christian heart, one more generous and benevolent, as well as sturdy and fearless, never beat in a Christian heart.” Mrs. Murphy apparently aided many destitute and neglected people in their time of need.<sup>64</sup>

Westerners also relied on itinerant preachers when permanent clergy were unavailable. David McClure, while traveling through the West, apparently sensed a need for clergy, so he “engaged to preach in five” communities where he had previously given sermons. Reverend Thomas Scott rode the “circuit” as an itinerant Methodist minister in the Upper Ohio Valley during the late eighteenth century. In 1789, John May commented that “a Mr Jones, baptis preacher near Philadelphia” traveled to Wheeling and gave a sermon on an October Sunday.<sup>65</sup>

The experiences of Reverend Robert Ayres, an Episcopalian minister who rode circuit in southwestern Pennsylvania during the last decades of the eighteenth century, revealed the desire for religion by Westerners. Reverend Ayres repeatedly noted in his diary that he “preach'd . . . to a respectable” congregation in size or “to a very large audience.” Ayres also performed his duties outside of the weekly Sunday service. He even “had a large audience” that attended a Thursday meeting. Children’s baptisms were also a common occurrence. On different occasions Reverend Ayres baptized “several,” “9 or 10,” or “10 or 12” children during the same ceremony.<sup>66</sup>

An incident that involved Reverend Ayres again revealed the serious nature of frontier religion. He was originally a Methodist minister who later converted to the Episcopal Church. As he traveled through Western Maryland near Fort Cumberland, he “mist” his “way in the dusk of the evening” and had to spend the night in the house of local inhabitants. Ayres “was receiv’d somewhat coldly, by the People of the House” because they were “Methodists & prejudiced

against” the reverend “for” his “late departure from them.”<sup>67</sup>

John Adlum recorded a similar situation in 1794 after the arrival of a second minister in Westmoreland County. The new minister, who was born and trained in Scotland, criticized the old minister. He believed “that a person educated in *America* could not be an orthodox preacher” (author’s italics). That required an education in Scotland, “the only place where a clericman could receive that light necessary for a *Presbiterian Minister*” (author’s italics). The new minister then challenged the old one to a public debate. The stirred such an interest that “the whole Country for several miles round collected, and each too their sides.” Adlum did not record who won the debate. However, the incident reflected the interest of religious matters to the inhabitants of the Upper Ohio Valley.<sup>68</sup>

Religious nonconformists always considered America as a refuge, and late-eighteenth century Upper Ohio Valley continued that tradition. Harmon Husband was one with a unique and highly individual understanding of religion, as recorded by John Badollet.<sup>69</sup> Husband settled in the Allegheny Mountains, near Berlin, Pennsylvania, with his wife. Badollet described Husband as “a man of literature & otherwise good sense,” but he represented “a strong instance of the frailty of Genuis.” Husband thought that the “prophecies of the old Prophets & unintelligible dream of St. John” applied to the United States. He also believed that a part of the Alleghenies “was the Garden of Eden.”<sup>70</sup>

The religious spirit burned in the Upper Ohio Valley, but not as brightly or formally as critics desired. Attending services in an actual church was common for some inhabitants, but overall church attendance was a fraction of that in the East. Westerners found different ways to express their religious devotion, whether holding services in a courthouse or a private service in a

home, reading religious material or even putting religious teachings into practice, as in the case of Molly Murphy. British traveler Thomas Ashe aptly, although pejoratively, described the spirit and practice of 1806 western religion. Ashe recorded that “Happily for this place, religion is not extinct, though the professors of it are employing the best possible means for effecting its destruction.” He summed up the diverse religious practices with the comment that “religious worship is expressed here by every vagary that can enter into a disturbed mind.” Thus, as the revisionists have concluded, the frontier showed religious devotion, but just differently than the more settled regions.<sup>71</sup>

Criticism of frontier conditions helped to define the perception of frontier life in the Upper Ohio River Valley during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries. This criticism came from easterners who traveled through the region or were later settlers. These wayfarers commented on a wide range of subjects, from westerners’ housing to their clothing to their piety, or lack of it. Although frontier life certainly was different than that in the East, easterners believed that it was inferior. With a lifestyle somewhat similar to the Indians, who were seen as inferior to whites, and less refined than the East, white western settlers were also seen as “uncivilized.” It was assumed that frontier settlers removed their symbolic “civilized” clothing for the equally symbolic “uncivilized” clothing of the “savage” frontier.

The reality was much to the contrary. Whites settled the Upper Ohio Valley for their own specific purpose. They wanted to settle the land for farming, just as settlers did in the East. The western land coveted by whites was not “free” of inhabitants, and the culture of these occupants was not “savage.” Whites borrowed freely from this native culture to improve their own lives in

the West. After following the overland trails built by Indians, whites settled on sites of former Indian villages. They borrowed clothing styles, particularly the hunting shirt, and herbal cures from the Indians. Whites also copied Indian methods of fishing with weirs and preserving food by making jerky.

Like the Indians, white settlers also lived close to nature. Both groups ate the same foods yielded by nature and faced the same weather perils and numerous predators of the wilderness. Nature also provided wood and other natural materials used by both groups for shelter. Indians and whites also faced a cultural upheaval as both relocated in the Ohio Valley from their eastern homes. They had to adapt traditions, such as religion, and develop social organizations and communities in this new environment. Thus, contrary to Frederick Jackson Turner's assertion, the frontier was not "the meeting point between savagery and civilization" and the "hither edge of free land." The frontier in the Upper Ohio River Valley was closer to the European definition. It was a border between two established cultures who used similar methods of survival during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries.

## Chapter 6

### Neighbors

Frontier settlers' reliance on their Indian predecessors in the Upper Ohio River Valley in the late eighteenth century did not improve the relationship between the two peoples. Contact increased as the white population grew and spread across the region in the last quarter of the eighteenth century. Whites pressured the Lenapes, Shawnees, Senecas, and other nations for more land and violated the word and spirit of signed treaties by attacking Indians and squatting on their land. Ohio Indians viewed whites as trespassers. They were reluctant to cede more land to the United States because they needed land for survival and to maintain their sovereignty. Indians also held longstanding grievances against whites because of decades of ill treatment, first from the individual colonial governments and then by the United States government and frontier settlers.

The proximity of two belligerent peoples vying for the same land, one defending and one invading, resulted in a volatile and often violent environment. Some western Indians fought because they believed that treaties were useless. Whites responded with force. Thus, during the last two decades of the eighteenth century, land conflict produced a running battle between Indians and whites that kept tension high on the frontier.

The relationship between Indians and whites was not entirely antagonistic in the last decades of the eighteenth century. Some Indians hoped that treaties would settle frontier conflict and negotiated with the United States government, which also preferred a peaceful resolution to frontier crises. On an individual level, relations between Indians and whites were often quite

cordial. Both groups professed a desire for peace and even encouraged more interaction between their nations. Individuals also aided the other in time of need, such as illness, and they developed friendships and even intimate relationships. These times of personal civility were overshadowed and overwhelmed by the seemingly routine violence on the frontier.

Violence that permeated the Upper Ohio River Valley frontier during the last decades of the eighteenth century began during the Seven Years' War and Pontiac's 1763 Rebellion and escalated with Lord Dunmore's War in 1774. Frontier conflict increased with the American Revolution. Although initially unwilling to become involved in yet another war between whites, many Ohio Indians eventually allied with the British. Senecas, Cayugas, Onondagas, and Mohawks of the Iroquois Confederacy, joined with the British in 1777, after the rebels violated Iroquois neutrality by murdering and capturing Iroquois. Similar circumstances involved the Shawnees and Lenapes in the fighting. Shawnees also preferred neutrality, but rebel incursions by both the military and settlers into Shawnee territory incited many to side with the British in 1777. The divided Lenapes maintained their neutrality much longer despite the murder of the pro-rebel chief, Whites Eyes, the failure of the United States to provide promised trade, and an invasion of Lenape territory. After rebels burned the Lenapes' capital, Coshocton, and massacred the Gnadenhutten Lenape in 1780, most Lenapes joined the British. Once open warfare erupted, violence engulfed both sides of the Upper Ohio Valley frontier. Death and destruction became commonplace, which led to Colonel Daniel Brodhead's blunt summation of the situation while commanding Fort Pitt in 1780.<sup>1</sup> In a letter to Major General Nathaniel Greene, Brodhead stated simply that "The Savages sometimes kill our people & we in return kill some of them."<sup>2</sup>

The anger, fear, and mistrust, which resulted from the prolonged violence, and continued pressure for land by whites led the Ohio Indians who did not support negotiations to protect their land and sovereignty by force. They raided the Upper Ohio Valley in the 1780s and early 1790s. Groups of dissatisfied Ohio Indians suddenly attacked remote homesteads or isolated communities. These raids often resulted in the deaths or capture of settlers and the destruction of property. The suddenness and cruelty of these attacks generated hysteria in the white communities.

Indian raids were such a grave concern to frontier settlers that they were forced to be continually wary. In 1779, while watching two of his children work in a field, David Morgan “espied two Indians making towards” them. After he “called to his children to make their escape,” the Indians apparently turned and chased Morgan who fought his way to a fort for protection. Scouts also patrolled the frontier for a measure of protection. In 1790, President George Washington gave his consent to “4 Scouts in each of the Frontier Counties for the purpose of discovering the movements of the Indians & giving the alarm in case they are about.” Two years later, settlers near the Pittsburgh frontier employed “spies to watch the movements of the” Indians. In the fall of that year, the army under Major General Anthony Wayne established “Patroles from Pittsburgh & big beaver to fort Franklin.” Wayne also used “the spies of Guides of Ohio & Washington Counties” to scout “towards the head waters of Muskingum & the settlement of Marietta.” The local and army scouts covered most of the frontier from Pittsburgh to Marietta.<sup>3</sup>

These spies and scouts produced the “appearance of quiet and confidence” for frontier settlers, who returned to their normal routines “and began the cultivation of their farms.”



However, the spies and scouts provided mostly a false sense of security. Indians easily eluded the guards because of their superior ability to negotiate the vast wilderness. They continued to raid the Upper Ohio Valley and shattered the fragile calm.<sup>4</sup>

Indian attacks physically and emotionally devastated white families. Massy Harbison who settled “on the head waters of Chartier’s Creek” with her husband in 1789 recounted an attack on the extended family of Abraham Russ, who had gathered in one house for protection. On 22 March 1791, “seven Indians came into the house . . . in a friendly manner, leaving their rifles at the door,” which Harbison claimed was “a well known token of Indian friendship.” The Indians “solicited their supper” from the family, who apprehensively “complied with” the request. After dinner, the mood changed dramatically. One Indian “placed himself against the door, to prevent any of the family from escaping.” The other six killed and scalped “four men, old Mrs. Russ, the mother of Mr. Russ, and six children.” Mrs. Dary, a daughter of the elder Mrs. Russ, “succeeded in getting to the door, and in pulling it to pieces . . . made her escape.” Before her escape, however, Mrs. Dary saw her infant daughter’s head smashed against her mother’s, killing both with the single blow. Dary’s three daughters and ten other people also escaped. The Indians “then plundered what they pleased from the house, and burnt the dead bodies with the buildings.”<sup>5</sup>

In the spring of 1792, Mrs. Harbison personally experienced a devastating Indian attack. Indians broke into her house as she slept with her infant, and they “immediately began their work of plunder and devastation. What they were unable to carry with them, they destroyed.” When the Indians withdrew, they wanted to take Harbison and her three children as prisoners. One child refused to go and was killed in front of his mother. Along the trail, Harbison’s eldest son

“was still mourning and lamenting about his little brother” and “*was murdered*” (author’s italics). Although she survived the ordeal, Harbison at one point “had a full determination to make the savages kill me, thinking that death would be exceedingly welcome.” Harbison maintained a stolid demeanor while held by the Indians, but after her escape, she admitted that “the tears flowed freely.”<sup>6</sup>

Reverend John Corbly and his family also suffered a tragic attack. Corbly, his wife and their five children in May 1782 “set out . . . for public worship.” As Reverend Corbly “walked behind 200 yards” from his family “meditating,” he “was greatly alarmed with the frightful shrieks” of his family. He ran ahead and found Indians had attacked his family with hatchets and muskets. They killed his wife, two of his daughters, one being an infant, and his only son. The Indians scalped the family, including Corbly’s other two daughters who had survived the attack. Reverend Corbly lived through the ordeal by running and hiding from the attackers. He continued to grieve over his lost family members and “had . . . anxiety about” his surviving daughters when he recorded his narrative of the event in a letter three years later. Although his daughters continued to have physical problems, according to Corbly, they did “retain their senses.”<sup>7</sup>

Indian battles also filled journals of travelers to the Upper Ohio River Valley. On a trip to the Ohio River Valley in 1788, John May heard about an attack by Indians on an Ohio settlement in which Indians killed five whites and lost three of their own, and a second attack when Indians killed six more whites. John Heckewelder told of a similar event near Marietta in 1792 where Indians “killed and scalped a man” and wounded another. Three years later, Lewis Condict recorded that he heard “that the Indians were very troublesome on the river, having fired

upon several boats, & had attacked & defeated the packet boat as she came up the river, killing one man & wounding two men dangerously.”<sup>8</sup>

Frontier incidents sometimes were embellished as the story traveled to the East. In an October 1793 letter to Secretary of War Henry Knox, General Anthony Wayne reported that Indians had attacked an army convoy near Fort St. Clair, which he called “a little check.” General Wayne wanted Secretary Knox to have an accurate account of the incident because he feared that the affair “may probably be exaggerated into something serious” and would reach Knox “By the tongue of fame.”<sup>9</sup>

The army’s presence in the West to suppress the Whiskey Rebellion in 1794, which the residents continually demanded for protection from Indian raids, actually concerned the region’s inhabitants. Americans were still a people who opposed a standing army in their midst, and felt threatened by the possible loss of their civil authority to the army that remained near Pittsburgh in 1795. President George Washington’s then Secretary of State, Edmund Randolph, tried to sooth the fears of Washington, Pennsylvania resident, Alexander Addison. Randolph said that he was “confident that it is the wish of the President to prevent the military from incroaching on civil authority, and to render the Stay of the army, as acceptable as possible, to the western inhabitants.” Thus, Westerners wanted an army to fight Indians but not to take their liberty and civil government.<sup>10</sup>

The constant state of war and anxiety caused settlers to demand protection from the government. This public outcry over the loss of life and property on the frontier forced government action. The military was called on to suppress frontier violence and subdue the

Indians.

The military's primary responsibility in the West was to secure the frontier. A climatic victory was needed. Expeditions commanded by William Crawford in 1782, Josiah Harmar in 1790, and Arthur St. Clair in 1791 failed to inflict a final defeat on the western Indians as desired by settlers and the government. The Harmar and St. Clair debacles did just the opposite. They turned out to be humiliating losses, where the outnumbered Indians overwhelmed the American forces. Their victories encouraged the Indians to continue their harassment of settlers to the point that many settlers fled the region moving the frontier eastward.

Major General Anthony Wayne's campaign of 1794 finally allowed the United States to claim a major victory with the Battle of Fallen Timbers. With this defeat, the western Indians signed the Treaty of Greenville, forcing them to cede most of their land in the Upper Ohio River Valley to the United States and secured the Upper Ohio Valley for white settlement.<sup>11</sup>

General Wayne admitted to Secretary of Henry War Knox in October 1793 that there was an ulterior motive for the use of the military against western Indians. Wayne was concerned about the public perception of the army. He believed that "the reputation of the Legion" required aggressive frontier action. Furthermore, "the dignity & interest of the Nation all forbid, a retrograde Manoeuvre or giving up, one inch of ground." Once involved, the army had to prosecute the war "until the Enemy are compeled to sue for peace."<sup>12</sup>

Major military expeditions were the exceptions in frontier fighting. Most activity was local in nature, with a small number of combatants and few deaths and injuries. Individual communities responded to immediate threats of Indian attacks with their own militia, men aged

sixteen to sixty. Most militiamen usually picked up their guns only to hunt for food. Few of these men had actual military experience or training, with even fewer having experience fighting Indians. Their luck was little better than that of the armies on the major campaigns. They rarely found the Indians, let alone defeated them in battle.

Many campaigns resulted in the militia fruitlessly tracking Indians for several days, then returning to their homes. John Connell detailed such an incident with a group of Indians in the same letter to Archibald Woods. Settlers found a “trail of about 20 Indians between Beaver & Yellow Creek” and chased them for “parts of two days.” They returned to their settlement after losing the Indians’ trail “to alarm the Inhabitants.” John May recounted a similar story while he was in Wheeling. Two boys, “10 and 12 years of age,” were captured by “Two Indians in the Christian Dress with Beaver hatts etc..” While camped for the night, the boys made their escape and reported to the community that “40 warriors” were said to be “about 25 Miles off.” In response, “a number of the Bravest men” ventured out “to hunt Indians.” The “Brave men Returned” the next day after finding the two Indians injured by the boys when they made their escape, but without making contact with the other forty. Major Erkuries Beatty, an army paymaster, also recorded that “a scouting party” from Fort Harmar “pursued” but did not find a group of belligerent Indians.<sup>13</sup>

Indian fighting was dangerous and the “bravest” men of the community were not always willing to venture into the wilderness. Crawford’s ill-fated expedition illustrated the hesitation of men to fill the ranks. Organizers relied on incentives because apparently few men volunteered. For the first incentive, “Every man furnishing himself with a horse, a gun, and one month’s provisions” was “exempted from two tours of militia duty.” The second offer to

volunteers allowed them to recover lost possessions “plundered” by the Indians “if it could be found at their towns.” Some lost their resolve once the march began, regardless of the incentives to serve. After marching for ten days, several men wanted to return to their homes, “alleging that they had only five days’ provisions.”<sup>14</sup>

The volunteers’ competence as soldiers received criticism as well. Baron Rosenthal, a professional soldier, participated in William Crawford’s attack on Sandusky.<sup>15</sup> Rosenthal demonstrated typical professional bias against the militia with his remarks about the volunteers. Although “every Man allmost appears on Horseback,” Rosenthal believed that each man brought “the very worst horse he has upon his farm.” They also overburdened their horses with “provisions enough to maintain at least three Men on the campaign.” The men also limited their provisions to “Bread bacon & Whiskey.” The overburdened horses were also “obliged to carry a heavy rider . . . for he never alights.” With such burdens, the horses tired, prohibiting “rapid marches” against a foe who moved easily through the wilderness.<sup>16</sup>

Frontier violence and fear of the Indians intensified the negative opinion of Indians held by most whites. John May was typical of these settlers. During his 1788 trip to the Ohio Valley, May encountered Indians whom he described as “very friendly,” but he thought that usually Indians were “a set of creatures not to be trusted.” When he heard of Indian attacks, May exclaimed “those Devils will never be easy til they are extirpated.” Other people were like-minded. John Connell of West Liberty, Virginia, in 1792, reported in a letter to Archibald Woods that a local man desired an officer’s commission to seek revenge for his brother’s killing by Indians.<sup>17</sup>

A 1787 event involving a “white man named Ryan” illustrated the anti-Indian attitude of most whites in the Upper Ohio Valley during the late eighteenth century. According to Erkuries Beatty’s account, Ryan arbitrarily “murdered an Indian,” who apparently was a Seneca leader, “on the Indian [western] shore at Allegheny.” Authorities arrested Ryan, and held him “in heavy irons” pending his trial. Ryan’s incarceration, however, “enraged the people a good deal near here in Washington County.” They believed that it was “no crime to murder an Indian, and a rescue was talked of” until authorities moved the prisoner to Fort McIntosh. Ryan’s removal left the inhabitants “no way satisfied.” Hatred of Indians led many whites to believe that it was permissible to murder Indians.<sup>18</sup>

Trials of Indians accused of murder evoked equally hostile reactions from whites. A court in Westmoreland County, Pennsylvania tried Mamachtaga, a Lenape, for the murder of two white men and the wounding of two others. Whites also believed that Mamachtaga was involved in recent attacks on settlements in the region, which further hurt his cause. When Mamachtaga was given an opportunity to defend himself in court, local citizens resented the process. The people “made a great noise through the country” because of the competent attorney provided for the defendant, fearing that Mamachtaga “might be acquitted by *the crooks of the law*.” The possibility of acquittal created such a panic that the local inhabitants “talked of publickly to raise a party and come to town” to lynch the attorney and his interpreter. The interpreter took the threat seriously and retreated from the area, but the lawyer kept the case. Despite legal representation, Mamachtaga was found guilty and “hanged till he was dead.”<sup>19</sup>

Ohio River Valley Indians generated such fear, that the mere possibility of an Indian attack filled travelers and settlers with apprehension. Samuel Forman’s party in late 1789

equipped themselves to meet hostile Indians as they prepared to go down the Ohio River from Pittsburgh. Forman thought that the time of year was “Indian war time,” when “all boats descending that long river . . . were liable to be attacked,” so his group carried “rifles, pistols, etc.” A night “dismally dark & rainy, with much thunder & lightning” increased the travelers’ fear of an Indian attack as Lewis Conduct’s flotilla passed “the mouth of the Little Kanahua river.” To make matters worse for the group, passersby “confirmed the evil tidings of the Indians.”<sup>20</sup>

Whites disdained Indians because Indians were considered their cultural inferiors and routinely labeled Indians as “savages.” Ebenezer Denny classified “About four hundred of the Senecas, Delawares and Wyandots” who came to Fort Pitt to negotiate a treaty in 1785 as “savages.”<sup>21</sup> He also described them as “a very motley crew - an ugly set of devils all - very few handsome men or women.” His opinion had changed little three years later, when he described some Senecas near Fort Franklin as “indolent, dirty, inanimate creatures.” John Heckewelder called the Indian who scalped the American near Marietta a “savage.” He also said that the “troops in the field” were there to fight “savages.” John May likewise referred to the “savages of the wilderness” as the source of the constant state of alarm for the city of Pittsburgh. On another occasion, May described a group of Indians as “frightfully ugly, and a pack of thieves and beggars.”<sup>22</sup>

Cultural bias reflected an ignorance of Indian cultures and practices. Congregationalist minister David McClure witnessed, in McClure’s words, “an Indian submit to the barbarous operation of having his hair pulled out of his head, excepting the scalp on the crown, and likewise his ears cut.” McClure seemed impressed that the Indian “bore the operation with



wonderful fortitude,” only occasionally shouting “*Hocki*,” which McClure translated as “I am a great man.” The reverend’s final remarks on the episode reflected his cultural bias. McClure speculated that the “cold and phlegmatic constitution of the Indians, perhaps, makes them less susceptible of bodily pain, than the europeans.”<sup>23</sup>

McClure’s description of the Indians as different or less human than Europeans reflected a cultural bias, particularly when in similar circumstances white men were seen as heroic.

Doctor John Knight witnessed William Crawford’s death after the failed mission against the Ohio Indians in 1782. Lenapes scalped Crawford and repeatedly poked and prodded him with hot coals until he died. Crawford begged for assistance from Simon Girty and “besought the Almighty to have mercy on his soul.” After these outbursts, Knight said that Crawford then “bore his torments with the most manly fortitude.” Thus, Crawford’s conduct was seen as courageous while Indians who behaved similarly were characterized as emotionless.<sup>24</sup>

Colonel Adam Hubley discredited or misunderstood Indian culture. While marching with Major General John Sullivan against the Iroquois in western New York during the Revolution, Hubley recorded that on entering the town of *Kanadalaqua*, soldiers discovered that “a dog was hung up, with a string of Wampum round his neck, on a tree curiously decorated, and trim’d” (author’s italics).<sup>25</sup> They determined that this was a ritual offering by an Indian before he went into battle. Not understanding Iroquois religion and showing cultural bias, Hubley recorded that this was “a sacrafice to Mars the God of War.”<sup>26</sup>

Mississippian culture mounds left whites equally confused and exposed their sense of cultural superiority.<sup>27</sup> While the earthworks’ sheer size impressed whites, their intent left them bewildered. Arthur Lee was one who commented on the mounds as he traveled to treat with the

western Indians in 1784. Although not knowing why they were built or by whom, Lee still concluded that “They must have been formed by a people far more wise and powerful than the Indians.”<sup>28</sup> Other writers were equally impressed by the mounds and dismissive of the ability of contemporary Indian cultures to build the sizeable earthworks. An anonymous 1791 letter writer echoed Lee’s awe and prejudice. He admitted that he “participated fully in the surprise, with which all travellers are struck at the view of the remains of those immense fragments of Indian antiquity.” The author assumed “that nations must once have existed in the interior parts of America almost as superior to those we call the aboriginal Indians in the art of war, as were at the present day superior to the same people,” because “it is not natural to suppose that a nation, merely barbarous, erratic, and without the use of iron could have raised such prodigious structures as these.” He concluded that “a total extirpation of the civilized must have taken place; valour and skill must have been overpowered by numbers, and the Hyperborean barbarians, like an irresistible torrent must have carried all before them.” Two decades later, Christian Schultz described mounds near Marietta during his trip down the Ohio River. Schultz admitted to not knowing the purpose of the mounds, but he still seemed very impressed with them in his detailed description. However, like Lee, Schultz believed that a vanished but more advanced culture than contemporary Indians built the mounds. He supposed “that the ancient aborigines, like those of Asia, were more enlightened than their successors of a later period.”<sup>29</sup>

The lawyer who represented Mamachtaga during his murder trial also illustrated the white belief in cultural superiority. While being held for trial, Mamachtaga put “his mark” on a dispatch to deliver his cache of “raccoon or beaver” pelts to his lawyer in payment of legal fees. When he observed the mark, the lawyer described it as “something like a turkeys foot.” He then

proceeded to criticize the use of literal hieroglyphics by the Indians. Referring to the Indians as “these people,” the lawyer in a patronizing manner remarked that they did not have an “idea of an hieroglyphic merely abstract, as a strait line or a curve, but it must bear some resemblance to a thing in nature.”<sup>30</sup>

Arthur Lee was equally condescending in his description of the marriages of “Kiosolos,” an Indian who originally owned land near Pittsburgh. Lee thought that Kiosolos “was a very provident Indian” because he had owned land in a “most fertile valley.” He also admired Kiosolos because he had two wives. However, Lee disclaimed, in patronizing fashion, that having two wives was laudable for Kiosolos only because he was “a savage.”<sup>31</sup>

Captivity also affected white views on Indians. Indians frequently adopted captured whites into their families to replace lost loved ones, which offered to whites a different perspective of Indian life. Adopted family members received the same love and respect as did actual members. Once acculturated, adopted Indians often grew to love and admire life with the Indians, once they saw the tenderness and compassion Indians displayed for one another. However, most captives wanted to return to their white homes.

John Slover gained respect for Indians, and even adopted their lifestyle for periods in his life. Miami Indians captured Slover as a child of eight, and for the next twelve years he lived with the Indians, six years each with the Miamis and Shawnees. When returned to his white family under treaty in 1773, he “did so with some reluctance” because the Indian “manner of life had become natural” for Slover.<sup>32</sup>

Other captives were forced to stay, but wanted to return to their previous lives and tried to escape. John Slover was again captured by Indians, this time while he was with William

Crawford's ill-fated 1782 expedition against Sandusky.<sup>33</sup> Slover's opinion of living his life with the Indians had changed dramatically, which reflected adult prejudice absent when he was a child. Although he was "treated with some appearance of kindness," at first, Slover also saw a companion brutally beaten to death and the corpses of several others. Thus, when asked if he would like to remain with this group of Indians, Slover replied that he "intended to seize the first opportunity to take a scalp and run off." He also refused to participate in their "war dances," because he "believed these things to be the service of the Devil." Slover never lost his desire to escape, and eventually succeeded in making his way across the Ohio River.<sup>34</sup>

Doctor John Knight likewise sought to escape at the earliest possible moment. Lenapes also captured Knight during Crawford's 1782 expedition. While being held captive, Knight saw the Indians burn Crawford to death and was promised that the same would happen to him in two days. Knight escaped his captors by hitting them with two sticks and "a coal of fire" as they escorted him to another village. Massy Harbison "concluded it was time to escape" with her infant on the second morning of her captivity. She fled when her guard fell asleep "taking from a pillow case of plunder" only "a short gown, handkerchief, and child's frock." Harbison finally encountered some white men on the third day after her escape, who then escorted her back to her home.<sup>35</sup>

Thomas Ridout was captured and held prisoner by a group of western Indians, who included "Shawanese, Pottawatamies, Ottawas, and Cherokees, but chiefly of the first." They captured Ridout and his companions as they traveled down the Ohio River in a boat. Ridout feared for his life, but an adopted Indian told him that he was "in no danger." His captor, instead of hurting Ridout, planned to take him to Detroit where he would have an opportunity to be

ransomed. When his captors determined that Ridout was English and not American, he was freed and proceeded to Detroit. The ordeal left Ridout with mixed feelings about the Indians. He found that during captivity some Indians protected him and treated him “kindly,” while others wanted to kill him because they thought him a spy. Regardless of his opinion of the Indians Ridout was quite happy to gain his release.<sup>36</sup>

Cultural misunderstanding and frontier violence often led to a general mistrust of Indians by whites. The comments of S. Bayard in a letter to Major Isaac Craig reflected this situation. After learning of treaty negotiations in 1786, Bayard speculated on how long the treaty would last. Bayard held to the common white assumption that the Indians would not abide by the treaty. He concluded that treaty “may last probably like all other Indian Treatys, as long as their . . . Cunning Suggests,” thus implying that the Indians used treaties only to keep the peace to lull whites into a false sense of security.<sup>37</sup>

Indians reacted with violence to white encroachment. George Washington, while traveling to his western lands in 1784, surmised that “the late Murders, and general dissatisfaction of the Indians” occurred because whites settled on the Indian, or western, side of the Ohio. He also noted that Indians considered the lack of negotiations for a new treaty that guaranteed Indian territory to be “indicative of a hostile temper” by the United States. General Anthony Wayne in 1793 advised President Washington of the likelihood of continued violence. Wayne told Washington that in the “Opinion of Cornplanter’s Nephew . . . the hostile Indians will not consent to a peace so long as a white man remains on the NW side of the Ohio.” While surveying land in territory claimed by the Indians in 1786, John Mathews and company feared

that the Indians “Intended making a general attack on the Surveyors,” who heralded future white settlement. Even Thomas Ridout, a European captive of the Shawnees, believed that in the ongoing war between the Indians and United States the whites were “in general the aggressors.”<sup>38</sup>

White squatters on Indian land enraged the Indians and made difficult negotiations to annex Indian territory peacefully. Arthur Lee, one of the commissioners sent to negotiate with the western Indians, wanted to resolve this issue in the treaty he was drafting. Squatters, unless granted the privilege to settle in the West by the federal government, “shall be out of the protection of the United States, and the Indians may drive them away.”<sup>39</sup>

Personal injury also motivated Indians to attack whites. Just as Indian raids infuriated whites, white attacks enraged Indians. John May recorded an incident in 1789 where Indians crossed to the “east side of the Ohio River” to attack white settlements because “sum person had shott” an Indian friendly to whites.<sup>40</sup> Colonel Thomas Proctor, in the West to deliver messages of peace in 1791, recorded white outrages against the Lenapes. In response to the murder of “several of the Delaware Indians . . . by white people” near Pittsburgh, Indians “killed and wounded 17” whites. On another occasion, Lewis Condict described “that Flying Cloud, an Indian Chief had gone out with 20 warriors to avenge the death of one or two Indians lately killed by the whites up Alleg’h’y.” Archibald Woods in 1798 mentioned another possible raid by Indians near Wheeling. An attack seemed imminent because the Indians “are said to behave rude to the Inhabitants of Scioto since the Murder of the Indian at that place.”<sup>41</sup>

Thomas Ridout, the Shawnee captive, explained the reason for Indian activity against whites in 1788. As the Indians struggled through swampy ground, Ridout became fearful because the “Indians were exceedingly enraged, uttering their wrath against the Americans.”

However, the Indians explained to Ridout that “they were only enraged against the whites, who were, they said, the cause of their misfortunes.” A white force had attacked them “by surprise” and “destroyed their village and many of their people, their cattle, grain, and everything they could meet with,” during a “time of profound peace.” For this reason, “the hatchet was raised against” the whites.<sup>42</sup>

Seneca Gyantwahia’s address to Halliday Jackson, a Quaker missionary, clearly stated the basic cause of Indian anger and distrust of whites.<sup>43</sup> Gyantwahia said that the Indians “lived in ease and plenty” prior to the arrival of whites, who caused much suffering among Indians. “White People,” who had “not dealt honestly with” Indians, had “taken away” Indian lands and “drove” them “into the Wilderness.” He believed that “if the White inhabitants of the land had dealt honestly with” the Senecas, they “should have been very rich people” and their “minds would be easy.” Instead, the loss of their “inheritance” caused the Senecas to be poor and made their “minds uneasy.”<sup>44</sup>

Ohio Indians were themselves divided by questions of land cessions, white relations, and the use of force. Some Indians, including Gyantwahia, wanted to secure peace at any cost, including giving away land. They preferred negotiations rather than violence. Others sought to stop the flood of white settlers by any means possible including warfare, a traditional approach to protect territory against whites. The “hawks” ignored the appeals of those who wanted treaties rather than hatchets to settle disputes.<sup>45</sup>

Dissension and debate over policy were common among the Ohio Indians. Erkuries Beatty described the divisions within the Shawnees. Sovereign, a Shawnee representative, told Beatty that there were “two parties in the Shawness Nation,” one wanting peace and the other

wanting war. The belligerent faction had become more adamant. Sovereign admitted that the leader of the Shawnees, King Melunty, had “difficulty” preventing “the Chiefs and Warriors from fighting” against the whites.<sup>46</sup>

Turmoil defined the relationship between the Ohio Indians and the Iroquois during the 1780s, preventing their unification to oppose white expansion. The American government believed, or at least wanted to believe, that the Iroquois Confederacy spoke for the Ohio Indians. Major General Anthony Wayne in 1792 also continued to support this concept. As Wayne built a western army and hope dwindled for a peaceful resolution to the strife on the frontier, he relied on the Senecas in frontier diplomacy. Wayne believed that “for the hostile tribes to be acquainted with our pacific overtures must rest upon the Senecas.”<sup>47</sup>

The Iroquois Confederacy wanted to maintain their once dominant position over the Shawnees, Lenapes, and other western Indians, so they still claimed to speak for those tribes. When Colonel Proctor wanted to speak with “those misguided people on the Miamies and Wabash” in 1791, a local Seneca council served as intermediary between the United States government and western Indians. Council members “could not agree” to Proctor’s “request of going directly to the Miamies,” but referred it to a “full council of the Six Nations at Buffalo Creek.” Proctor finally received his permission from the Iroquois Confederacy over one month later. General Wayne recorded that Guyasuta, New Arrow “& others Indians of influence from” Gyantwahia’s reservation went with a formidable diplomatic entourage of “about Five Hundred Of the Senekas & Canada Indians to visit the Hostile Indians” in an attempt to bring peace to the frontier.<sup>48</sup>

Iroquois control actually had waned as western Indians became increasingly defiant of



Iroquois control. Arthur Lee detected a widening division when he traveled to the West after the signing of the 1784 Treaty of Fort Stanwix. The “western Indians were both discontented and angry with the Six Nations, for having made a treaty with” the United States “without consulting them.” General Wayne reported an even wider gap in September 1792. The Six Nations wanted to broker a peaceful settlement when Guyasuta and the five hundred Indians went to treat with the Ohio Indians. However, an agent told Wayne that Gyantwahia “was very uneasy” because war seemed near. He reported that “the first Messengers from the five Nations were put to Death, by the Delawares,” but the Seneca representatives, “or second Messengers, were saved, but had not returned.” Gyantwahia “said if any of his people were killed, he wou’d immediately go to War with the Hostile Indians.”<sup>49</sup>

Indians, after years of losing tribal land and hearing false promises, distrusted and resented whites. Thomas Ridout, recently captured by the Shawnees in 1788, saw that Indian children had a strong fear of whites. When he entered their lodges, Shawnee children recoiled in terror and shouted “Shamanthe.” Ridout learned later that this meant “Virginian, or the big knife.” Colonel Thomas Proctor encountered a similar situation on his 1791 peace mission. He reported that the Indians of “Tenachshegouchtongee,” a town in the Allegheny River Valley, supposedly went into hiding because they feared the intent of Proctor’s visit. In the spring of 1792, General James Wilkinson sent two representatives to conduct peace talks with the Miamis, but they “were taken prisoners” by the Indians. The agents explained that they “were a flag to the indian council” and their lives initially were spared. However, they asked too many questions about distances and place names as they traveled to the council site, so “their conductors concluded they were spies, and killed them.”<sup>50</sup>

John Adlum recorded an undignified encounter with a group of young Seneca in 1794, who appeared angry with whites. Adlum was in Western Pennsylvania to survey land and to deliver letters inviting the Senecas to a council. The lodge “was quite crowded” with dignitaries and spectators on the day of the council. After Adlum read the first paragraph of Secretary Knox’s letter and “interpreters, had finished translating,” some “young indians on the beams above” showed their displeasure. They “saluted” Adlum “with an univer[sal] roar, *vulgarly called farting*” (author’s italics). Adlum received the same response after finishing the second paragraph. Gyantwahia and others admonished “the young men and boys” who “descended from their roosts, and sneaked off.” Adlum then finished reading the letter “without any further interruption.”<sup>51</sup>

Relations between whites and Indians were not entirely hostile, with violent conflict and racial prejudice only part of the relationship. Representatives from both sides expended a great deal of effort to keep the peace. Each side proclaimed their desire for peace and supported negotiations rather than violence to settle disputes. Indians and whites also used chance encounters to embrace peace. During official treaty councils, whites usually negotiated in earnest with the Indians. However, whites also wanted the treaties to be in their favor. General hatred of Indians and continued white encroachment on Indian land in violation of the terms of the treaties led to their downfall.

Despite their apparent willingness to use force, government leaders actually preferred negotiations over war to secure the frontier. President George Washington supported Secretary of War Henry Knox’s determination to make negotiations the main part of the nation’s Indian

policy. Both men recognized that treaty gifts and annuities cost less than a frontier war. Furthermore, public opinion favored negotiations, which would also build a better reputation for the United States. Thus, in an attempt to settle frontier differences peacefully, the United States sent agents to meet with the various Indian nations during the late 1780s and 1790s.<sup>52</sup>

Public opinion influenced the government's Indian policy in the Ohio Valley. Secretary of War Knox remained opposed to an Indian war, as he told Major General Anthony Wayne. Knox believed that "the sentiments of the great mass of the Citizens of the United States are adverse in the extreme to an Indian War." He said that the United States had to attend a "proposed Council at the Au Glaize" because the "public voice demands it." Although Knox found "it adviseable to embrace every expedient which may honorably terminate" the fighting on the frontier, he did not think that public support of peace was "a sufficient cause for the Government to conclude an infamous peace" or "a sacrifice of national character and national justice." Knox concluded that "public opinion will support the war in a more vigorous manner" only when a legitimate peace, from the government's perspective, was "unattainable."<sup>53</sup>

Secretary Knox also realized that America's reputation, then and for posterity, was at stake based on their treatment of the Indians. He feared the "extirpation and destruction of the Indian tribes" would become "inevitable" if the fighting continued, an unacceptable result. Annihilation of the Indians would harm "the honor and future reputation of the Country," said Knox, because "The favorable opinion and pity of the world is excited in favor of the oppressed." Knox believed a relentless prosecution of war against the Ohio Indians would generate foreign support for the Indians at the expense of America's reputation.<sup>54</sup>

The high cost of an Indian war influenced the decision to negotiate as well. Knox

claimed that “the mass of Citizens from Maryland Eastward,” who were themselves not threatened by the Ohio Indians, preferred “a reduction of the troops.” Instead, they wanted to replace the regular army with “Militia at an high rate of pay.” A Kentucky resident, George Nicholas, recognized “That the want of money” prohibited “the Government from doing many things which otherwise would be undertaken” to defeat the Indians. However, Nicholas still expected the government to act, believing that the government should get the required resources on credit.<sup>55</sup>

Some Indian leaders likewise pursued peace and initiated policies to avoid the possibility of war. Gyantwahia issued a proclamation to alleviate the fears of whites living in the Upper Ohio Valley. Apparently whites accused Senecas of “committing depredations on the frontier inhabitants near Pittsburgh.” Gyantwahia denied the accusation and reassured the whites that they were “entirely without foundation.” He also asserted that “they may rest perfectly secure from any danger from the Senecas residing on the Allegheny waters and that my people have been and still are friendly to the United States.”<sup>56</sup>

The best opportunities for harmony, if not equity, between whites and Indians on the frontier came during the many councils between the two peoples. Agents traveled to the West to negotiate with Indians as had the frontiersmen of the previous generation. In July 1786, Erkuries Beatty recorded a meeting with leaders of the Senecas, Wyandots, Lenapes, and Chippewas at Fort Pitt where each nation “expressed their friendship for” the United States. Colonel Thomas Proctor found the Senecas equally respectful at a 1791 council near Fort Franklin in 1791. Little Beard professed “great thanks” for a grant of land from the “Great Chief General Washington,” who the Senecas viewed “as a strong sun for protecting of the right of their lands to them

forever.” Several weeks later Red Jacket spoke to Proctor “as to a brother that has been absent a long time.” In 1794, Seneca women offered similar sentiments to John Adlum, who visited Gyantwahia’s village to deliver letters to the Senecas. A group of women “hoped that” Adlum “had brought them good news, **AND THAT THERE WOULD BE NO WAR**” between the Senecas and the United States (author’s emphasis).<sup>57</sup>

A threat of war was a constant specter at councils, despite a call for peace. Although Thomas Proctor encouraged peace when he met with the Senecas in 1791, he promised a war to “crush” the Miamis and other western nations unless they acceded to American demands for peace. Fish Carrier, a Cayuga at the 1791 Buffalo council, said that half of the council was “not for peace,” which emphasized the need for caution on the American side. Others at the council professed their desire for peace, but claimed that they were in a dilemma. Conyandocta, an Onondaga chief, wanted peace, yet “the enemy, the Messasagoes,” demanded that his followers join them otherwise they “won’t live long.” Bear’s Oil, “a Messasago chief belonging to the Six Nations,” also felt threatened. He alerted “white settlers at Coneyat and Cassawago” that some Indians “intended to murder them.” However, Bear’s Oil was told by these Indians that his life was in danger unless he joined them.<sup>58</sup>

The exchange of presents at treaty councils remained a complicated task. At the Fort Pitt council attended by Erkuries Beatty, Chippewa leaders “gave several belts and things” to the American agents and requested “clothes, guns, &c” because “they were very poor indeed.” After deliberating for a night, American representatives gave them “no clothes or arms” but “gave them a good deal of provisions to carry them home.” Representatives of the other nations “wanted a little provisions to carry them home,” which the government’s agents immediately

granted.<sup>59</sup>

Private individuals also fostered improved relations between Indians and whites. During his 1770 trip to the West, George Washington held a council with “White Mingo and other Chiefs of the 6 Nations.” The Iroquois professed “their wish to live in peace and harmy. with the white people.” Washington agreed, believing that “nothing was more wishd and desird by the People of Virginia than to live in the strictest friendship with” the Iroquois.<sup>60</sup>

Reservation Indians often lived in extreme poverty after the American Revolution, so they needed cordial relations with the United States to improve their economic status. When Samuel Maclay’s party surveyed land for a proposed road in Northwestern Pennsylvania, they encountered Gyantwahia’s Seneca village. Gyantwahia “appeared in good humor” when Maclay told them about the proposed road. The Senecas supported the road so that traders would come to the village with provisions, since game was scarce. Greater interaction between the nations would also create a “Good Correspondence” which would bring the Indians and whites together to “become one people.” Although many Indians disagreed with this policy, some not only accepted whites, but in some cases and to achieve certain ends, encouraged them to move to their villages.<sup>61</sup>

Nicholas Cresswell’s experiences while in close contact with Indians revealed that friendly relations between Indians and whites were possible on an individual level and increased his appreciation and understanding of Indians. Although apparently having very little contact with Indians prior to this trip to the West in 1775, he ventured into “*Indian Country*” for part of his journey (author’s italics). During one night, he lost his way, but met “three Indian women and a little boy” who helped him. They took care of his horse, fed him “a little hash of dried

Venison and Bear's Oil," and prepared his bedding for the night. On another occasion, a different Indian woman treated Cresswell when he became ill. She gave him a drink made from "a small brown root," then expectorated some of the same drink on his head and back. Despite his annoyance with the process, Cresswell believed that he "bore it with patience." However, Cresswell refused to swallow the medicine, expectorating the juice when the woman was not looking. When she left him, he took "a vomit," which "cured" his ailment. Although Cresswell discounted the Indian woman's methods as not being of any help, he appreciated her attention in his time of need.<sup>62</sup>

Intimate contact with Indian women influenced Cresswell's opinion as well. He had sexual relations with Indian women and even shared the company of one for an extended period. Cresswell initially declined intercourse. When he and his companion, John Anderson, encountered "three Indian Squaws," Cresswell feigned illness when one made a clear proposal to "sleep with" him. He soon changed his mind. Cresswell later accepted the "amorous design" of one of the three women who came to his rescue when he became lost. On another occasion, Cresswell and Anderson "Lodged at a Mohawk Indian's house," who "offered . . . his sister" to Cresswell and "his daughter" to Anderson. Apparently wanting to avoid insulting the host, Cresswell and his friend "were obliged to accept." Cresswell's new female friend traveled with him until he returned to Fort Pitt two weeks later.<sup>63</sup>

Mamachtaga's generosity, despite being held in jail pending his execution for murder, also illustrated kindness between Indians and whites on a personal level. Apparently a child of the "jailor" was ill. Mamachtaga "said he could cure" the child's ailment "if he had roots from the woods." The jailer escorted the prisoner to the woods where they found the necessary roots,

which supposedly helped the child to recover.<sup>64</sup> Even as adversaries, compassion for the other was still possible.<sup>65</sup>

John Heckewelder confirmed that the competition between Indians and whites was not always hostile, as he described in a letter to Jacob Cist. Apparently he approached “Indians” near Gnadenhutten for information on making dyes, but they were “not disposed to discover their methods . . . neither will they be enticed to show the Plants they make use of.” Rather than resorting to violence, Heckewelder unsuccessfully experimented with plants on his own and reported to Cist that he had “tryed several already, & shall try again,” but he was also going to rely on a Mr. Dencke, who was a botanist, for assistance.<sup>66</sup>

The relationship between Indians and whites was certainly a complicated issue. On a personal level, interaction and even competition on the frontier could be quite amicable, such as the experiences of John Heckewelder and Nicholas Cresswell. These individuals also encouraged peace between the United States and the western Indians. The same was true on the national level. Representatives from both sides tried to assure the other that they wanted to end the violence and to resolve conflict through peaceful means. The United States preferred negotiations to achieve their diplomatic goals rather than having to rely on the military. Some Indian leaders met with these American agents in an effort to settle frontier conflict. Thus, the whites and Ohio Indians had peaceful intentions.

Despite brief moments of frontier tranquility and diplomatic quests for peace, violent conflict was the central theme in the relationship between whites and Indians on the Upper Ohio River frontier. A running battle developed that lasted throughout most of the last quarter of the



eighteenth century. Some Ohio Indians believed that negotiations would fail because of distrust and a history of failed treaties. White attacks on Indians, past and present, also fueled their anger and caused them to seek revenge. Whites, who had an insatiable desire for western land, grew more hostile toward Indians because of the continual fighting on the frontier. These attacks and a conviction of cultural superiority led to a general hatred of the Indians. As a result of rising conflict, frontier settlers demanded and received military support from the government. This added to the frontier violence and anger.

Adoption of Indian practices by whites did not bring the two peoples closer together. Instead, whites and Indians were pushed further apart. White settlement of the region succeeded because of the widespread adaption by whites of Indian practices, encouraging further white migration. Indians faced a growing white population and the probability of losing more land to the whites. In an ironic twist, the Ohio Indians assisted in their own exploitation.

## Chapter 7

### Women in the Upper Ohio Valley

Until the recent past, white men dominated traditional accounts of America's westward expansion and frontier culture. The basic story was one of white men overcoming all obstacles, human, geographic, and environmental, to make the West safe for white habitation and civilization. Generations of historians supported this Turnerian view of frontier history. This story, however, was culturally biased and ignored large segments of the population, white and nonwhite. Contemporary historians are in the process of rewriting this history of the frontier. Certainly white men played a key role in the settlement of the west, whether that meant Pennsylvania or California, but they were not alone. Minorities, including African-Americans, Asians, Native Americans, Hispanics, and women of all races helped to mold life in the west, as elsewhere in America.

The role of women in American expansion and settlement of the west has been the focus of recent scholarship. John Mack Faragher in the ground breaking Women and Men on the Overland Trail focused on the role of women, showing that women were not passive, but were vital to the daily and overall success of western ventures. Instead of trying to exclude women, Faragher explained that men wanted and needed women in order to survive in the west. For the women, however, their vital role did not lead to an immediate democratization of the west. Gender roles and the legal status of women remained the same on the trail and in the west as they were in the east.<sup>1</sup>

Annette Kolodny expanded the study of the female experience in the westward migration.

In The Land before Her, Kolodny concluded that women had the same basic economic motivation as men in the west. Their image of the west, however, was that of an opportunity to create an “idealized domesticity,” of living in an idyllic, “cultivated garden.” Kolodny also focused on how the process of migration uniquely affected women before, during, and after the trip to the West, over several generations and new lines of settlement. Thus, westward migration provided a separate experience for women from those of men.<sup>2</sup>

Women’s experiences on the trail through Pennsylvania and the Upper Ohio River Valley during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries were usually negative. Female travelers shared common perils with men. Unsatisfactory roads led to chronic criticism of the roads and unforeseen dangers. Their accommodations were typically substandard, with travelers often willing to tolerate squalid conditions just for a roof over their heads. Women also encountered issues that had a greater impact on them than on men. The breaking of familial ties led many women almost to mourn their trip to the West. Once in the west, social isolation and separation from family made life very lonely for women.<sup>3</sup>

One other issue that has not yet been adequately addressed was elitism among female travelers.<sup>4</sup> White Americans in general wanted to “civilize” the West, but those who traveled through the region were dissatisfied with what they found. Once they left the comforts of the East, travel through the Upper Ohio River Valley forced people of all classes to endure austere, frontier conditions. Evidence shows that upper class women not only criticized the habits of the people in the West, but also the way in which they lived and how they spoke, whether in English or another language. Class bias, not just the living conditions, negatively influenced women’s perceptions of the West during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth-centuries.<sup>5</sup>

Despite the conditions endured by female travelers, they persevered with spirits intact. They wrote vivid descriptions of the scenery even while enduring inclement weather or endless days of travel. Then, upon their arrival at their final destination, these women looked to the future with optimism. Even then, loneliness, caused by the separation from loved ones, continued to be a problem.<sup>6</sup>

The catalyst for women's migration was usually the same. In an era when women had few legal rights, they had limited input in the family's decision to move west, and usually the woman's husband made the decision to move the family.<sup>7</sup> Elizabeth House Trist was typical of the women who relocated because of their husbands. In 1783 she left her home in Philadelphia to meet her husband, Nicholas, in Louisiana. Mary Dewees migrated to Kentucky from Philadelphia in 1787 with her husband and family. Lydia Bacon followed her husband, Josiah, to Vincennes, Indiana when he marched with the army in 1811 to their temporary post on the frontier.<sup>8</sup>

Other women migrated to the west when encouraged to do so by their extended families. In 1766 Salome Meurer migrated from Pennsylvania to a Moravian community in North Carolina. Then, nearly a half-century later, Margaret Dwight of New Haven, Connecticut moved to Warren, Ohio. Being single and without an immediate family to provide for her, Margaret left the east to be with family in the West.<sup>9</sup>

For most people, not just women, travel through Pennsylvania and the upper Ohio River Valley during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries was a negative experience. Life on the road was difficult at best and extremely dangerous and deadly at worst. Roads were

unimproved and varied greatly in quality, and the sheer ruggedness of the terrain made the trip treacherous, as did the creeks and rivers. Weather often influenced the emotions of travelers, with sunny weather allowing progress and helping to improve dispositions during the arduous trip. Inclement weather often frustrated and angered travelers because it slowed or halted progress. Accommodations were usually substandard for the travelers, who often shared dirty rooms with strangers. Travelers accepted these sleeping conditions simply because they had no other choice along the trail.<sup>10</sup>

Roads were a constant source of complaints and travelers heavily criticized them in their journals. Early in the Dewees trip to Kentucky, Mary's party used roads that she would later describe as "impassible." The roads were "better in places than . . . expected; tho' in others excessive Stony." Later, Dewees said the road was "so very stony that you can scarce see the earth between." The steepness of the mountains increased the difficulty of the trip. Dewees felt that her party was "but a parcel of goats climbing up some of the Welch Mountains" because the road was so steep.<sup>11</sup>

Modes of transportation were simple, people walked or rode in wagons or on a horse, but each carried its own set of problems. Wagons and stagecoaches were the only form of mass transit during this period, economically transporting people and baggage. Despite the relative economy of wagons, they were quite uncomfortable. The poor quality of the roads, and the absence of springs, made for a very bumpy ride and jostled passengers. Lydia Bacon's journal described such conditions while traveling through western Pennsylvania with her husband's troop to Vincennes, Indiana. To enjoy the vista, Bacon endured the following ordeal as she

described to her mother:

just imagine, to yourself, Lydia, seated on one side of stage, for the benefit of the view, holding on with both hands, exerting *every nerve* to maintain my Equilibrium, on one side of me, my neighbours elbow pushing in to my side, on the other, the side of the stage which was not stuffed, rubbing against me, till I was black & blue, & then bounce would go my poor head, against the top of the Stage, till my brains were ready to fly (author's italics).<sup>12</sup>

Bacon preferred the jostling to the alternative. In an apparent attempt to make a bumpy ride more comfortable, soldiers removed the seats from the stagecoach and scattered straw on the floor in their place. The situation apparently was rather undignified because, according to Bacon's description, the passengers were "stowed in, like baggage." To make matters worse, the openings in the stage were too high, so the passengers could not view the passing scenery. They remedied the situation by replacing the seats, so as not to deny themselves the "pleasure" of the scenery despite the "pounding" of the stage.<sup>13</sup>

Travelers also had to take precautions not to fall from the wagons or horses. Salome Meurer recounted several such episodes during her trip to North Carolina. Dorel Schitzin "fell off" the wagon in which she was riding as it was moving down a road. Salome was quick to point out, however, that Dorel had not been hurt in the mishap. On another occasion, while crossing a creek, fellow traveler Sister Katharina Berothin slipped off her horse and landed in mud. Sister Katharina must also have escaped injury, because Salome did not note this in her journal. Mary Dewees also described such occurrences. She feared that while climbing some of the mountains, horses were "ready to fall backwards." Elizabeth Trist's party "cou'd scarcely keep" in their defective saddles while climbing "almost perpendicular" hills.<sup>14</sup>

An incident on Tuscarora Mountain involving Elizabeth Trist was an example of the possible dangers associated with riding a horse in the winter. Trist's "saddle turn'd, making it very hard for her to stay on the horse. A male companion finally dismounted and walked through snow "up to his middle" to come to her aid. Trist believed that he saved her life. She felt positive that she could not have mounted the horse again or walked the "2 or 3 miles" through the heavy snow to her next stop. A "thicket" on one side of the road and a "precipice" on the other where "the cattle in the valley look'd no larger than dogs" made the situation even more hazardous.<sup>15</sup>

Walking was by far the most common mode of travel through the Pennsylvania mountains. From the above descriptions walking was probably the safest, and it also opened space for baggage and other essentials on the wagons, which cut costs and the burden pulled by the draft animals. Like the other modes of travel, walking also had its negative side.

Common complaints among those who walked were the pain of sore feet and exhaustion. After the first day of travel, the feet of the people in Salome Meurer's group were "so swelled up" that they could not wear their shoes forcing them to walk with bare feet. The next day the problems continued because "[s]everal girls had blisters on their feet." On one occasion, Margaret van Horn Dwight complained that "[i]t is not a little fatiguing to walk up a long mountain" near "Jennyauter" in the midst of the Alleghenies. She also complained several times of being "lame." Outside of "Fannitsburg," even after a "good nights rest," Margaret claimed to be "so lame" that she could "scarcely walk." Later in her trip, Dwight complained of being "so dreadfully lame that every step . . . almost brings tears" to her eyes. Dwight was concerned that her shoes had "worn out . . . almost entirely" and she still had to walk forty miles to Warren,

Ohio. An offer of riding horseback spared Margaret's shoes.<sup>16</sup>

Women endured mental stress as well as physical strain in travel. John Mack Faragher and Annette Kolodny emphasized that parting from friends and family in the East was traumatic for women. With a limited public role for women, family gave them an opportunity to socialize. While on the trail, women tried to maintain control over the one area traditionally reserved for women, the domestic sphere. Conditions on the trail, however, limited the women's success. Whether food, accommodations, or clean clothes, they had to accept what was available, even if it was not up to their standards.<sup>17</sup>

Departures from eastern homes were extremely traumatic for late-eighteenth century women who traveled westward. When Mary Dewees and her party left Philadelphia for Kentucky on 27 September 1787, she said that they "tore" themselves from their "dear friends" who were "assembled to take a last farewell." The parting was complicated by the fact that Dewees was "very sick," an illness perhaps brought about by her emotional parting from friends. The sickness continued the next day, "which was excessive" and forced her to bed soon after the party stopped for the night. By 29 September Mary still longed for Philadelphia, "that place which contains so many valued friends."<sup>18</sup>

Dewees regretted her illness on 30 September, because she had missed much of the excitement of the first days of the journey. Despite feeling well on 1 October, Mary was still "uneasie for fear" that her sickness would return as they traveled further westward. A "beautiful prospect" brought a pang of anxiety onto Mary because she "long'd" for her friends so they could enjoy the scenery with her.<sup>19</sup>



Parting from newly made friends also caused anxiety for Dewees. During a brief stop in Pittsburgh, Mary quickly made friends with several leading women of the town. The “polite and friendly Entertainment” provided by the women in the frontier community demanded Dewees’s “utmost gratitude.” When Dewees’s party started down the river, she found that leaving these women was “not without regret.”<sup>20</sup>

Margaret Dwight echoed Mary Dewees’s sentiments as she parted company with friends in the East in 1810, over two decades later. Before her party even began their journey, Dwight expressed “pain” in parting with those she knew and spent an afternoon “in the most painful reflections & in almost total silence.” The pain of parting was increased for Margaret because of “a thousand things unsaid, a thousand kindnesses unpaid with thanks,” all of which gave Margaret “uneasy feelings” about the future. Dwight also found the pain of leaving a particularly close companion to be quite “distressing” and wished to return to her.<sup>21</sup>

The second day of Dwight’s journey was spent as an “unsociable ride” where all were “occupied in thinking of the friends we had left behind & of the distance, which was every moment increasing, between them & us.” Her reluctance to leave friends also prevented Margaret from enjoying the countryside. Her “very unpleasant tho’ not uncommon, companion . . . Pride . . . entirely prevented” her from “seeing the country.” Margaret felt that her “companion” would not leave her, and she surmised that it would probably “attend me to the mountains.” The prospects for a happy trip were not bright since Dwight was still in Connecticut when she wrote this.<sup>22</sup>

Parting was equally traumatic for teen-aged Salome Meurer who left friends in Bethlehem, Pennsylvania for a new home in North Carolina. Salome was part of a group of

nineteen Moravians, eighteen women and one man, who made the migration. When she and her traveling companions finally departed, they “bade a sad, tearful farewell” to those they were leaving behind. What troubled the migrants “greatly” was the understanding that this was possibly the last time that they would see these friends. The male escort, Brother Etwein, attempted to “comfort” the women by encouraging them to sing and passing “silver” to those who were in need. Salome failed to mention if this satisfied the young women. However, a compliment on their singing from the “woman of the house” where they spent their first night made the travelers “feel good.” The warm feeling did not last long. After several days on the road, the young migrants were still “very homesick” for Bethlehem. About a week later, Salome was glad to report that the women continued their travels “cheerfully and in good spirits.”<sup>23</sup>

Lydia Bacon, while stopped at Newport, Kentucky, reflected on being separated from her mother. Her thoughts were often on her mother and sisters, wishing that again she could be near her family. Later, while on board a boat floating down the Ohio, Bacon again focused on her mother. Despite the activity on the boat, Lydia wistfully thought of her mother, hoping that neither “time nor place” would reduce her love for her mother.<sup>24</sup>

Female travelers also faced a problem that apparently was common, but seldom discussed: the unwanted attention of men on the trail. Margaret Dwight again elaborated on the trials of dealing with men that they encountered on the road and in her own party. While staying overnight in Hanover, Pennsylvania, Dwight feared that she would “soon be pulled up to dance” by one of a “set of dutchmen talking singin & laughing.” The thought alarmed her to the point that she was unable to write at length in her journal, as she normally did before retiring for the night. Her second night in the tavern was equally anxious, with Margaret unwilling to “undress

at all” for bed because she “expected dutchmen in every moment.” Margaret’s worst expectations were fulfilled when “three dutchmen, who were in search of a bed” tried to enter her room. Only through the intervention of a male companion did the men leave the room. The next morning, before the women were able to dress for the day’s journey, the same “men were at the door-which could not fasten, looking” at the women.<sup>25</sup>

Another frightening encounter took place later in the trip during a stay at a tavern in the Allegheny Mountains. Margaret intended to share a bed with another woman, but shortly after retiring for the night, a wagoner entered the room and “lay down by” Margaret “on the outside of the bed.” She “was frighten’d almost to death & clung to” her companion who, for her own reasons, “did not appear to mind.” Margaret “lay for a quarter of an hour crying, & scolding & trembling, begging of him to leave.” Eventually the man relented explaining that he “intended no harm & only wish’d to become acquainted with” Margaret.<sup>26</sup>

Soon after Margaret reorganized the sleeping arrangements by moving to “another part of the bed where none of them could come near” her, the night again was interrupted. Two women from her group burst into the room “crying, & as much frighten’d as” Margaret because “one of the creatures had been into their room, & they could scarcely get him out.” A man soon followed the women, and only departed when the women threatened to call the leader of their party. This threat seemed to work since all but one wagoner was quieted for the night. Unfortunately for Margaret and her companions, the conflict with the wagoners continued the next day, when the two groups continued their separate journeys. The wagoners departed first and intentionally slowed the progress of Dwight’s party on the narrow road. Dwight’s party shared another inn with the wagoners the next night, and were again frightened because the men asked where the

women were sleeping. Although nothing came of the inquiries, Margaret and the others spent a restless night.<sup>27</sup>

Strangers were not the only source of irritation for Dwight and her female friends. The mother of a male companion apparently viewed Margaret or her friend as a potential wife for her son. Dwight initially was “very well disposed toward the young man,” but had not considered “*making a bargain* with him” (author’s italics). Marrying him would be a step down for Margaret, in her words “from a judge to a blacksmith,” because it seemed that Margaret had two suitors who were judges. A second nuisance was a young doctor who later joined Margaret’s party. The doctor became “‘nothing but a pester’” because he paid her more attention than she desired. Although not as threatening as the wagoners, Margaret “took a great deal of pains to go either before or behind to get rid of his company.” Her timeless tactics did not work because he either waited for Margaret if she dallied or increased his speed to keep pace if she hurried. When she finally stopped for the night, Margaret felt that she had successfully avoided the young man, until he walked into the tavern. Her spirits soared, however, when the man departed to return to his family. His departure completed what Margaret described as a “pleasant” night.<sup>28</sup>

The sixteen women and girls in Salome Meurer’s party also faced unwanted and threatening attention from men. When two women entered a barn to make beds for the party to sleep on the first night of their venture, a “drunk sprang upon them.” A shout to a male companion frightened the “drunk” and quickly ended this incident. Regardless, many in the party were “scared” to sleep in the barn. The next night in another community was equally exhausting. Some locals “were drunk and were yelling and whistling until two in the morning.” The noise was “very unpleasant to hear” and required the intervention of Brother Etwein to “quiet them

down.”<sup>29</sup>

Although Elizabeth House Trist avoided confrontations with the men that she encountered, she was quite dissatisfied with the intimate sleeping arrangements. Trist felt that men and women sleeping in the same room, which she said was “so customary” in the West, was inappropriate. Other women, however, were more liberal about the issue. When she spoke with another woman about the subject, the woman told Trist that anyone who questioned the situation must be “affected” and “insecure in herself.” Trist’s companion felt that there was “nothing indelicate” in those circumstances, believing that most men would not “take a liberty with a woman” unless she had sought “to encourage him.” She had more faith in frontier men than the above incidents recommended. Regardless of the woman’s comments, Mrs. Trist “made it a rule” to rise before the others so she would not see others get dressed or they see her.<sup>30</sup>

Physical and emotional strains of travel during this period influenced the attitudes of the women. The cultural elitism of the women who recorded their thoughts while traveling receives little emphasis from historians. They were accustomed to the more refined surroundings of the east than those they found in the west. Houses in the west usually were temporary shelters, erected to fill an immediate need much like those of the first colonial settlers. By the end of the eighteenth century, the continuing use of temporary buildings in the east was a sign of that the occupants were poor. When easterners saw the quality of homes in the west, they judged them with eastern values, believing the inhabitants to be quite poor. Thus, class bias contributed to their rather bleak outlook on the West.<sup>31</sup>

Female travelers often used demeaning terms when describing the inhabitants of the

West. Upper class women who ventured westward usually viewed the inhabitants as vulgar and drunk, and as socially and intellectually inferior, as did many others who described life in the West. These newcomers were condescending despite the fact that the westerners filled their needs, providing food and shelter.<sup>32</sup>

From the very beginning of her trip, before she even reached the mountains of Pennsylvania, Margaret Dwight used the harshest terms to describe countryfolk. While staying at Cook's Inn, West Chester County, Dwight described the landlady as a "fat, dirty, ugly looking creature" with a "suspicious countenance" that made Margaret fear the woman. At another stop, Dwight thought the landlady was "such a disgusting object" that she could not "bear to see her again." Traveling further into Pennsylvania did not dull Dwight's criticisms. While stopped at a "dutch tavern," Margaret thought that the other customers were "wicked wretches," words often used by Margaret. She preferred traveling on Sunday to spending more time with the locals. Her elitism surfaced yet again at a tavern near Harrisburg. When only the servants would look at Dwight's party, Margaret smugly wrote that "When I am with such people, my proud spirit rises & I feel superior to them all."<sup>33</sup>

Margaret's response to an incident at an inn in Harrisburg, was characteristic of her attitude toward westerners. While eating breakfast, a young black servant accused someone in Dwight's party of stealing her money. The owner of the inn ignored her plea and asked the party not to be offended by the accusation. Dwight, however, "never felt so queerly" in her life, being "suspected of theft was so new & unexpected," and "was wholly unprepar'd for" such an allegation. Margaret believed that the landlord's sister stole the money, although she also denied the charge. Dwight still considered the sister, or "her ladyship" as she derisively labeled the

woman, to be “so worthless a character in every respect” and believed she had stolen the money.<sup>34</sup>

Margaret Dwight was not the only critic of westerners. Mary Dewees repeatedly chastised the people she encountered for a variety of reasons. On several occasions, she recorded in her journal that the people were usually kind, but “surprisingly” or “amazing[ly] dirty.” At one house, however, Dewees felt that the people in her party “were not made very welcome.” Their experiences taught them “to pass a few sour looks unnoticed.” She made this remark without specifying whether the party was there by invitation or if the owners were accustomed to putting up lodgers for the night. If not, then this was probably a natural reaction by the owners to the unexpected and perhaps unwelcome guests. Mary’s class bias and bigotry were apparent when her party stopped at “a little hut” in the “Alleghany Mountains.” Her family “prefferred” to spend the night in their wagon rather than “be crowded with Frenchmen and negroes” who also were lodgers at the house.<sup>35</sup>

Mary Dewees’s elitism also influenced her socializing in the West. While waiting in Pittsburgh for the river to rise, several townspeople invited Dewees for a visit. Her family declined the offer because they were in their “travelling dress” and not properly attired. Only after repeated requests did the Dewees party decide to socialize with the leading families of Pittsburgh. Several days after this visit, the family again received an invitation. The commander of the fort invited them to a “Ball held at Col. Butler’s where thirty ladys and gentlemen were to assemble for that purpose.” Again, they declined because they would not be suitably dressed for the occasion. Mary Dewees still attempted to apply eastern standards while she traveled westward, an environment that typically did not support such standards.<sup>36</sup>

Lydia Bacon, usually quite positive in tone, was somewhat critical of the customs of people they passed. While traveling between Philadelphia and Chambersburg, Bacon described the beautiful scenery and quality of the farms. According to Bacon, however, “what particularly attracted” the notice of her party were the “Hogs up to their backs feeding in rich clover, & Dutch Girls working in the fields performing the labour of Men.” Bacon apparently disapproved, because she concluded that of the young women and the hogs, the “Hogs appear’d the most favour’d.” Bacon was amazed by what she saw because she “had often heard the remarks of Pigs in Clover,” but this was the first time that she “saw it, realized.”<sup>37</sup>

Shelter found along the road, taverns, inns, and private homes, was also a focal point for criticism. Finding shelter for the night or to wait out inclement weather was haphazard at best. They simply had to take what was available. Larger towns, which were few in the West, offered more options to the travelers, but finding any lodging at all usually was satisfactory. Quarters were usually cramped with many travelers and often were filthy, barely meeting their basic needs.

Margaret van Horn Dwight freely offered critical analysis of the dwellings in which her party slept, because they were “seldom favour’d with any more than the barroom.” One “curious place” near Carlisle was a “log hut built across the road from the tavern, for *movers* - that the landlord not be *bother’d* with them” (author’s italics). The establishment had a “good fire,” but the rest of the place did not meet Dwight’s standards. Included in the place was a “long dirty table, a few boards nailed up for a closet, a dozen long boards in one side & as many barrels in the other - 2 benches to sit on, two bottomless chairs, & and a floor containing dirt enough to plant potatoes.”<sup>38</sup>

Other stops equally disturbed Dwight and company. The next night they roomed “in an



old garret that had holes in the roof big enough to crawl through.” Her bed “was on the floor, harder it appear’d . . . than boards,” with a “dirty feather bed” as their only covering. Then, while staying at “Phelps’ Tavern” east of Bedford, the party was detained by rain. Margaret was “in despair” because the house where they lodged was “full of drunken prophane wretches,” and the landlady “cross as a witch.” The lodging perturbed Dwight even further. She had the choice of sleeping in her wagon or in a “little chamber with 3 squares of glass in it- with scarcely room to sit or stand.”<sup>39</sup>

Margaret Dwight was also clearly condescending in her ridicule of colloquialisms of the region. She criticized the inhabitants’ choice of words, believing that the “people here talk curiously.” Quite an ironic statement considering English was not yet standardized, with words spelled phonetically. Margaret mocked how people would “reckon instead of expect.” She also found the choice of words used by the local inhabitants in “measuring people” quite droll and equally perplexing. For example, the residents described the number of people migrating as a “*heap*,” and at other times used “*sight*” to describe quantity. Dwight bitingly concluded that her ignorance of the local vernacular made her “*apt* to think it was a *terrible* parcel, to use the language of the people around” her (author’s italics). Her worst condemnation was reserved for the use of “[y]ouns,” a word used frequently in western Pennsylvania.<sup>40</sup> Margaret did not know the definition, but still decided that it was “strangely” applied by the local inhabitants.<sup>41</sup>

Elizabeth House Trist was also dissatisfied with the social climate of the West. She stayed at one house with “every thing so dirty” that Elizabeth concluded that she “would rather have slept out of doors.” Elizabeth also believed that none of the children “had been washed since they were born,” and “one of the Girls was allmost a woman.” On another occasion, she

and a female companion shared one of “two dirty beds,” with Elizabeth’s bed “up in a dark corner surrounded by pickling tubs.” Trist noted that the vats “did not yield the most agreeable smell in the world.” She also slept with her “cloaths on” to protect herself “from the dirt off the bed cloaths.” When entering Pittsburgh for the first time, Trist thought that the log homes of the town were in a “very ruinous state.” Then at the end of her stay, Trist “left Pittsburg with as little regret as . . . any place.” If it had not been for the special attention she received from her hosts and the “several dances” she attended, Trist believed that she “shou’d certainly have been very miserable.”<sup>42</sup>

The basic division of labor along gender lines found in the east did not change on the trail, which contributed to the journey’s difficulty for women. Women’s primary responsibilities were inside the home, including care for children the multiple tasks in the preparation of meals. Cooking required women to build a fire as well as the cooking of the food and cleaning afterward. Men’s main responsibilities were outside the house, such as farming and caring for tools and farm animals. Travel required women to do the same job except in the open. Mary Dewees described a typical experience while stopped along the trail. The “men went to give refreshment to the Horses” and the women “had a good fire made up” and “set about preparing supper.”<sup>43</sup>

For some women, the emotional and physical strain of travel eroded their resolve. Nearing her final destination, Margaret Dwight was “so anxious to end” her trip, that she “lost all interest about the country” through which she traveled. The trip wore Dwight down to the point that she became “quite tir’d” of not only traveling but also keeping the journal that she had so energetically and faithfully maintained the entire trip.<sup>44</sup>

Other women, however, viewed the trip with great excitement and anticipation. Lydia Bacon was one. Despite the tedium and hardships, Bacon was usually positive in her description of her journey to Vincennes.<sup>45</sup> Instead of growing weaker spiritually, she seemed to grow stronger. While stopped at Newport, Kentucky, Bacon wrote in her journal that she “never . . . for a moment regretted accompanying” her husband to the West, believing it a “source of happiness” that they were together.<sup>46</sup>

Women travelers faced the added concern of caring for children. From the experiences of Mary Dewees, children apparently traveled well. Children in her party were “very hearty” and seemed to “bear the fatigue much better than” the adults. While covering “roads so very bad and so very steep,” the children were “Jumping and Skipping, sometimes quite out of sight, sometimes on horseback sometimes in the Waggon.” Dewees’s daughters also found less physical activities to fill their time during the long, monotonous days. Daughter Rachel “mostly passes half the day in Spelling, and Sally in Singing.” Sally also appeared to be an inquisitive child. At “every house” that they halted, “she inquires if it is not a Kentucky house, and seldom leaves it ‘till she informs them she is a Kentucky Lady.”<sup>47</sup>

Frontier travel, however, was not entirely fun and games for the children, nor for their parents. Injury, death, and separation from parents were constant concerns for adults. One day, Mary Dewees “lost” her children, but fortuitously “Inhabitants of this Country . . . were kind enough to give them” to another member of her family. Children also died along the trail. Israel Shreve noted that a child, Ann Beck, in his traveling party was “very sick” The child’s unnamed illness eventually took her life two days later “to the great graef of her parents.” The site of her death “being far distant from their former home” compounded the parents’ heartbreak.<sup>48</sup>

Not all was gloom and doom in the West for these women. Their extensive descriptions of the passing scenery often painted an idyllic, if not satisfied, image. As Annette Kolodny explained, despite perils and discomforts and the sense of loss at leaving their homes in the East, women were still able to describe the beauty of their surroundings. After decades of Indian and white settlement, Pennsylvania was very much a wilderness with virgin forests, plentiful game, and a still unexploited landscape. The mountains provided an inspiring panorama, unavailable to people living along the coast and below the fall line. Female travelers typically noted the natural beauty that they encountered.<sup>49</sup>

Mary Dewees painted an idyllic wilderness scene, although she was ill and complaining about the quality of the roads. During a noonday meal, she was “seated beneath the shade of intermingling trees, that grow reeling o’er the creek . . . whilst a fall of water at a little distance adds dignity to the scene and renders it quite romantic.” While again criticizing the roads later in the trip, Dewees softened her description by saying that the road was in “places beautifully watered by fine springs.” Then, in the midst of the Alleghenies while enduring a day of rainy traveling, Mary acknowledged “It was really awfully pleasing to behold the clouds arising between the mountains at a distance.” Dewees summed up her conflicting feelings about rugged passage through the mountains, at times insurmountable and at other times wondrous. She believed that she had seen “Nature display’d in her greatest undress, at other times we have seen her dress’d Beautiful, beyond expression.”<sup>50</sup>

Lydia Bacon was also quite poetic in her description of the contrasts of travel on unimproved roads through rugged mountains, which were both beautiful and dangerous. While traveling to Pittsburgh, Bacon found her journey “tedious” because of the “extreme roughness of

the road” yet it was also “rendered delightful” because of the “beauty of the surrounding landscap.” The passing sights were “a constant succession, of scenery, at once *grand, sublime, awful & sweet*” (author’s italics). At one breathtaking view, Lydia saw that “at a distance the Mountains would tower to the clouds” while overlooking “an awful precipice, at whose base a beautiful river, glided along.”<sup>51</sup>

Elizabeth House Trist was also impressed with her mountain surroundings, despite the perils associated with travel during the winter. The “beauty” of the Juniata River Valley, “shaded with evergreens . . . was much heighten’d at this season.” The ice which made travel so hazardous and caused Trist to fear for her life also added to the splendor of the mountains. A constant “mist” on the mountains, although deemed “unhealthy” by Trist, when frozen on the trees “add[ed] greatly to the beauty.” Later, when nearing Pittsburgh,” the “intence cold” did not prevent Elizabeth from being “pleased” with the “beauty” of the Allegheny River, which “had as Majestick an appearance as tho it was near the Ocean.” The Pittsburgh area appealed to Elizabeth during her extended stay in the town. She believed that if the land “was cleared” it “wou’d be beyond description beautifull.” Grants Hill particularly was a “delightful situation” which prompted Trist to believe she “wou’d give the preference for to live on” in Pittsburgh because of the natural beauty. If there had been “good Society” Mrs. Trist would have been “contented” to spend the rest of her life in Pittsburgh.<sup>52</sup>

The end of the journey naturally was a relief to all travelers. When finally arriving at her cousin’s home, Margaret Dwight even restrained, however slightly, her viperous pen. She believed that she would be “very happy & contented” in Warren, which was “pleasanter than . . .

expected.”<sup>53</sup>

Mary Dewees was also contented with her arrival at her new home in South Elkhorn, Kentucky. She was “much pleased” with the town where she would live in a “snug little Cabin . . . on a pretty ascent, surrounded by sugar trees.” Nearby was a “beautiful pond . . . with an excellent spring not far from the door.” Upon her arrival, Dewees experienced “more happiness” than she had for several years. The future also seemed quite bright for Dewees because she had her “little family together . . . in full expectations of seeing better days.” With this propitious statement, Mary Dewees concluded the journal of her trip to Kentucky.<sup>54</sup>

Salome Meurer was equally delighted upon her arrival in Bethabara. The last day of their journey so excited the travelers that they preferred to walk the remaining distance rather than ride, believing that they would reach their destination much more quickly. On her arrival, Salome expressed her joy through her spirituality. After she thanked God for the safe passage from Pennsylvania, Salome felt that, in retrospect, the journey was “very endearing” despite the hardships.<sup>55</sup>

The immense satisfaction felt by women upon their arrival at their new homes also reflected the impact of the overland trail on their perspectives of their new environment. They were happy that the trip was over, but the women were more resigned than delighted with their new station in life. This was particularly true for Mary Dewees and Margaret Dwight. Dewees and Dwight both began their trips convinced that they were not going to enjoy their new surroundings. Their detailed comments about leaving friends and family in the East and the hardships encountered along the trail reflected their negative attitudes. Reaching their destinations, which were much less refined than those abandoned in the East, they declared

themselves satisfied with their new surroundings. The difficult overland trail had lowered their resolve and standards, allowing the women to accept surroundings they would previously have termed unsatisfactory.

Arrival at their final destination was just the beginning of life in the West for these women. As Faragher showed in Women and Men on the Overland Trail, gender roles did not change along the trail or once settlers reached the West. Responsibilities remained the same, but their world had changed. They no longer had the close-knit support of family and intimate friends they had probably enjoyed in the east. Visits were few and far between and typically the only source of communication with distant friends or family was by letter.

Once the bustle of establishing a new home had passed, women often experienced loneliness because of the separation from loved ones and the often extreme solitude of frontier life. Although she had settled in northwestern Virginia with her own nuclear family, life still proved to be “very lonesome” for Polly Wilson. She greatly missed personal contact with members of her extended family. In a heart-wrenching letter to her sister, Ann Woods, Polly asked “Why don’t you write to me and tell me” more family information. Mrs. Wilson plaintively begged her sister “oh cant you never come to see us” in Morgantown.<sup>56</sup>

The passage of time did not ease the pain of separation and loneliness. Over a decade after her letter to Ann Woods beseeching a visit, Polly Wilson continued to lament the problems of separation. She leveled criticism at herself and her sister for the inactivity in their relationship, because “it is long since I have heard from you and long since I have written to you.” Wilson concluded that “it shows want of affection in us that we should live within two

days ride of other and not see one another for five years” or that Woods or her daughter, Betsey, “might write me often.” At the end of the letter, however, she declared her “great desire to see” Mrs. Woods and her children. Despite her wish to see her sister, Polly did “not know when I can go to see you.”<sup>57</sup>

For Polly Wilson, the reality of relocation represented the loss of intimate contact with her extended family. This was a common occurrence. Relationships forged over a lifetime ended abruptly and became casual, long distance affairs. As Mrs. Wilson lamented, day-to-day activities held priority over travel not critical to the survival of the family. Conditions met on the trail or on the frontier settlements also prevented family members living only two-days travel apart from meeting.

Frontier travel took a unique toll on the spirits of all women, but more so on upper class women who were not accustomed to deprivation and hardship. Bumpy roads, poor weather, and substandard food and shelter affected all travelers. The evidence shows that the grueling conditions certainly had a negative impact on women. The physical strain worsened an already bleak situation for most women. Relocation tore women from all that was familiar and placed them in foreign circumstances. Opportunities to renew family ties and friendships were few due to the rough nature of travel during the period.

Elite women were accustomed to the trappings of upper class society in the East, which were not available or extremely limited on the frontier. Homes that were considered impoverished in the East were standard in the West. In many homes, all people slept in one room, with the owners providing only bare essentials for guests. Customs, and even language,



were different than what these women were accustomed to in the East, as they frequently noted. Thus, for women traveling through Pennsylvania in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, the journey was difficult for all who undertook it.

## Chapter 8

### Ethnicity and Race

Ethnicity and race defined life in early America, including the Upper Ohio Valley. Many thousands of European and African immigrants joined the indigenous American population to create an ethnic and racial diversity not seen in the Old World.<sup>1</sup> Although primarily settled by the British, America drew immigrants from all parts of Europe throughout the colonial and early national eras. These European immigrants made the arduous journey seeking freedoms and economic opportunities not available in the Old World. American settlers soon adopted slavery, which caused the forced migration of Africans to America, before and after independence, to face generations of oppression. Although not by their choice, Africans contributed to the growing diversity in early America.

This flood of immigrants swept into the Upper Ohio Valley as white settlement expanded westward, which created a diversity similar to that of the national population. Although mainly settled by the English, the region also had a significant non-English population. Travelers and inhabitants placed importance on ethnic differences by often identifying people by their race or ethnicity. These references, which they typically aimed at non-English, were variously positive, neutral, or negative, and revealed the presence of ethnic prejudice in the region. White settlers brought slavery into the region, which made race relations in the Upper Ohio Valley clearly one-sided. The racism and oppression associated with the institution spread into the region as well, even in the northern states. Thus, despite the diversity of the Upper Ohio Valley's population, the region remained an area of English-dominated, white settlement.

European immigrants flocked to British America during the colonial era. Bernard Bailyn, in Voyagers to the West, estimated the total number of all migrants from 1607 to 1760 at 700,000. British immigrants numbered slightly fewer than 200,000. The next largest immigrant group was the Scots-Irish with approximately 100,000 to 150,000, while Germans totaled 65,000. Other European nationalities, such as Dutch and French, also inhabited British America, but with much smaller populations.<sup>2</sup>

Scots-Irish were a distinct population group that developed during the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. They were Scots who migrated from Scotland to expand the British presence in northern Ireland after the 1603 defeat of Ulster Irish. James I encouraged settlement in Ireland to make his Irish dominions profitable and subdue the frequently rebellious Catholic Irish, who refused to submit to the English Crown. Protestant Scots eagerly migrated to Ireland, which began in earnest in 1610, for land. Most migrants during the first fifty years made the move across the channel for economic opportunity because life was hard for many in Scotland with little hope for improvement. Presbyterians migrated during the last decades of the seventeenth century to avoid religious persecution at the hands of the English Crown, which wanted to discourage nonconformists.<sup>3</sup>

These expatriate Scots developed a unique cultural and national identity after more than a century of living in northern Ireland. The Scots-Irish felt that they were Irish and called Ireland home. However, they also believed that they were distinct from the ethnic Irish based on their cultural backgrounds, religion, and world view. In an era of bitter intolerance, religion divided the Roman Catholic Irish and Presbyterian Scots-Irish. The Scots-Irish settlers and ethnic Irish remained apart socially. Apparently the two groups did not intermarry, which reduced the

likelihood that the Scots-Irish adopted Irish culture on a wide scale. Additionally, after a century removed from Scotland, the Scots-Irish settlers forgot any meaningful part of their heritage and developed their own. Thus, the Scots-Irish who migrated to America during the eighteenth century were a distinct nationality.<sup>4</sup>

Germans comprised another large immigrant group. Non-Germans often inaccurately called them the Pennsylvania Dutch, which they probably derived from the German “Deutsch,” meaning folk or German. They were also referred to as “Palatine,” because some Germans emigrated from this region. Thus, native-born Americans often labeled anyone who traveled down the Rhine River Valley as a Palatine.<sup>5</sup>

Using the word “German” to identify this immigrant group is also slightly inadequate. Although Germans who migrated to America originally came from the states that eventually comprised Germany, including the Palatine, Alsace, Bavaria, Hesse, Bohemia, and the Rhine country, the modern nation-state of Germany did not exist in the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. However, language and ethnicity were common denominators for this immigrant group.<sup>6</sup>

Another way to identify Germans who migrated to America was by religious affiliation. Nearly all German immigrants during this period were Protestants who belonged to a variety of churches and sects. The German churches, so called because they built actual churches for their worship services, were Lutheran and Reformed. The sects used plain buildings for religious meetings. The largest of these sects were the Mennonites. Other German sects included the Brethren, commonly called Dunkers because of their technique of baptism, Moravians, Amish, and Schwenkfelders. German immigrants also included Catholics, although they were few in

number.<sup>7</sup>

Many emigrants fled Europe primarily because of the lack of economic opportunity. A large number of renters lost their land through new practices by their landlords. In England and Scotland, landlords enclosed their property, fencing in fields and commons, which had remained open for generations, as they moved toward commercial farming. Tenants' rent doubled in Britain during the eighteenth century. British landlords in Ulster applied the same practice, which they called rack-renting, beginning in the early eighteenth century. Enclosure and higher rent forced many people from the land and left them few options. They either stayed in Britain and hired themselves out as laborers in factories or on farms or sought their fortune in America.<sup>8</sup>

A second motivation for emigration was religious intolerance. Presbyterians, Quakers, Mennonites, Moravians, Schwenkfelders and other sects left their European homelands because of religious persecution. Many sects were not able to practice their faith openly without fear, or were persecuted, or forced to convert. The English, for example, repeatedly attempted to force the Church of England on the Presbyterian Scots.<sup>9</sup>

Political and military tyranny also drove Europeans to America. Many Germans migrated because of intolerable living conditions created by seventeenth-century wars that devastated the German states, particularly the lower and middle Rhine Valley. The Thirty Years' War, which ended in 1648, caused considerable loss of life and property among Germans. In regions where the fighting took place, estimates ranged from two-thirds to as high as three-fourths of the German population died. Livestock losses were also devastating, with at least two-thirds of the farm animals destroyed. The war ravaged towns, villages, and farms and left the local economies in shambles. Wars for the Grand Alliance and the Spanish Succession followed the devastation

of the Thirty Years' War, which hurt even more the group with the least amount to lose: the peasants. German nobles also conscripted these peasants to form the bulk of their armies, which contributed to the tyranny over the German people. Thus, wars' chaos and destruction, and the desire to avoid future wars, displaced many Germans and eventually led to their migration to America.<sup>10</sup>

Recruiters brought immigrants to America as well. Despite the large number of people who crossed the ocean, the population supply did not always meet the labor demand. Colonial governments, land companies, and private individuals held vast tracts of land, but colonies often had few settlers, which made the land worthless. This situation caused political and economic interests to encourage migration to America to populate the vacant lands and make them profitable. The Quaker William Penn virtually from the founding of Pennsylvania asked Mennonites to settle in his colony. Penn invited the Mennonites in part because their religious beliefs were similar to the Quakers, but also because he needed settlers for Pennsylvania to grow and prosper.<sup>11</sup>

The demand for labor also led to recruiting. In 1709, New York's Governor-General Robert Hunter envisioned German immigrants in England, displaced by the wars in the German states, producing naval stores in New York. German resettlement in New York was intended to reduce England's dependence on imports of Baltic naval stores and the number of poor in England. Hunter enacted his plan in 1710 with the immigration of nearly 3,000 Germans. This scheme to settle Germans in America also failed because the political winds in England changed and ended funding for the project before it became profitable, at a cost of twenty-one thousand pounds to Robert Hunter. New York also recruited Germans to populate that state a century later.

Participants in the Pulteney Purchase wanted settlers for their lands in western New York. Sir William Pulteney was one of three investors who purchased 1.2 million acres in and around the Genesee River Valley from Robert Morris in 1791. Company officials organized a plan to settle Germans on the largely unsettled land only recently purchased from the Six Nations in an attempt to make the purchase profitable. The company invested thirty thousand dollars in the passage and settlement of 210 Germans. This venture apparently lost considerable money in what turned out to be an ill-fated attempt to populate New York with the German recruits.<sup>12</sup>

Many factors pulled these migrants to America. From the very beginning of colonization, British America was the likely place to start again economically and a refuge for the persecuted. The founders of the New England colonies escaped persecution in England and relocated to America in a quest to establish a religious haven for themselves. William Penn provided religious toleration in Pennsylvania, which allowed nonconformist sects to worship as they pleased. The American colonies also had land in abundance, which economic opportunities for Europeans who were willing to take the chance to cross to America.

The 1790 census revealed the European ethnic diversity of the newly independent United States population of 3,893,874. Unfortunately, data for the 1790 census is incomplete because the results for New Jersey, Delaware, Virginia, and Georgia are not available, which creates a considerable obstacle in analyzing the census data. Additionally, many historians also dispute the 1790 census figures and offer revised totals. Traditionally historians accepted the 1931 revisions of Howard F. Barker and Marcus L. Hansen for the American Council of Learned Societies. Later historians criticized Barker's estimates and offered their own revisions, which

also received criticism.<sup>13</sup>

Based on estimates from Barker and later historians, English and Welsh had the largest European population in the United States with approximately 60 to 64 percent of the total. Scots and Scots-Irish, who did not have a distinct category, followed with between 14 and 16 percent. Germans were the third largest European nationality with 9 percent. The ethnic Irish were next with between 4 and 6 percent. The Dutch and French populations remained much lower than the other nationalities with 3 and 2 percent respectively. The 1790 census contained a catchall category, “Other,” for people not included in the specific nationalities. This group varies widely, ranging from less than 1 percent to 8 percent. The census included a category for the Jewish population, but the revisionists did not include the Jews specifically. However, with a count of 1,198 from the available data, they were the smallest of the specific groups identified by the census.<sup>14</sup>

A similar multiethnic European settlement pattern occurred in the Upper Ohio Valley for the region’s 92,647 inhabitants, as reflected in the 1790 census (Appendix A).<sup>15</sup> English and Welsh dominated the region with 69 percent of the region’s total population. Scots and Scots-Irish were the next largest group with 19 percent.<sup>16</sup> Germans comprised the third largest ethnic group with an 8 percent share of the population. Ethnic Irish, with 3 percent of the residents, were the last ethnic group with a significant regional population total. The region’s citizenry also included Dutch, French, Jewish, and “Other.” However, their aggregate share of the total was 1 percent.<sup>17</sup> Thus, based on the first national census, the general characteristics of the European ethnicity in the Upper Ohio Valley were similar to those of the nation.<sup>18</sup>

A clear majority of the nationalities settled mainly in the region’s Pennsylvania counties



(Appendix B). The Upper Ohio River Valley English were most likely to settle in Washington, Bedford, Fayette, and Westmoreland counties, where 81 percent lived in 1790. Westmoreland and Washington counties were the destinations for 59 percent of the region's Scots and Scots-Irish population. Seventy-one percent of the Irish population dispersed themselves in Westmoreland, Washington, and Fayette counties. A vast majority of the small Upper Ohio Valley Dutch and French populations, 80 and 84 percent respectively, inhabited the same three counties as the Irish. Eighty-two percent of the region's Germans settled in Westmoreland, Bedford, and Washington counties in Pennsylvania. The region's entire Jewish population of twenty-one lived in Pennsylvania's Bedford and Allegheny counties. One exception to this pattern was the distribution of the region's "Other" population. Thirty-one percent inhabited Pennsylvania's Washington County, while 29 percent settled in Maryland's Allegany County and 19 percent in Virginia's Harrison County.<sup>19</sup>

Ethnic identification occupied settlers and travelers through the region, who commonly recorded the nationalities of the people in the Upper Ohio River Valley. Some remarks casually recorded an individual's or group's ethnicity or were even complimentary. Other comments were prejudiced, with many stereotyping the inhabitants of the Upper Ohio Valley and reflecting the cultural superiority that many English felt toward the non-English. Although many non-English ethnic groups were targets of pejorative comments, most of the negative ethnic stereotyping was aimed at Germans and Irish.

Many references to ethnicity were neutral, with statements simply noting the nationality of the inhabitants without any further comment. In 1782, "a gentleman . . . from Washington county" reported to the Pennsylvania Gazette that his Indian captors "spoke good Dutch." When

Mary Dewees traveled through the region in 1787, she recorded that a French family joined her family for part of the trip. Israel Shreve noted during his 1788 journey that he “halted at a cabin tavern kept by a young Dutchman” and later roomed “at a Dunkers called Perleys.” Lewis Condict lodged “at the house of one, Keler, a dutchman” in 1795. The same year John Wall advertised for his runaway “German” apprentice and Charles H. Swanengle identified himself as a “German Doctor” to announce the opening of his practice in Greensburg. Reverend Robert Ayres encountered a “German Clergyman” while traveling through Bedford in 1795. In 1796, Francis Baily’s party “put ashore at a plantation which was inhabited by Mr. Daily, an Irishman.” Two years later, Increase Matthews received assistance variously from an “old Dutch woman” and “old Dutchman” as well as an “old Irish woman.”<sup>20</sup>

Travelers frequently criticized or stereotyped German inhabitants. The common practice of referring to Germans as “Dutch,” whether intending to be positive, neutral, or negative, did not show respect for the identity of the Germans. Other comments denounced individual Germans or the entire national character. Lewis Condict in 1795 criticized a “dutch man” for being “foolish” without providing an explanation for his comment. Margaret Dwight, when describing her preferences for marriage during her 1810 trip to Warren, Ohio, included “Dutchmen” on her “list of *cast offs*.” She also recorded the comments of a man named Smith, who claimed that “after every body & thing was created, . . . the *under Gods* . . . took some of the skum & stir’d it up,” after “Hell boil’d over” and the Pennsylvania Germans “came out.” Another traveler told Margaret that she should “learn hog latin,” which she interpreted as “German- or dutch.”<sup>21</sup>

An 1817 incident revealed that anti-German prejudice continued into the nineteenth century. Silas Chesebrough, while traveling through Pennsylvania, had a conflict with a German

“tavern keeper” near Somerset, who Chesebrough called “a very Corpulent, Savage Dutchman.” Hostilities developed when the owner reluctantly served Chesebrough dinner, after the latter insisted that he “would call for supper whenever” he “pleased” after his arrival at a “public house,” not when the owner decided. Chesebrough later threatened legal action if the owner did not “provide a bed for a traveller,” although the tavern was full. The tavern keeper then called Chesebrough “a little saucy Yankee,” to which Chesebrough responded by calling the owner “a big bellyed nasty Dutchman.”<sup>22</sup>

Robert Morris’s 1792 letter to Charles Williamson reflected his view that the Germans brought to the Pulteney Purchase were little more than a nuisance to tolerate or a commodity to exploit. Morris did not like “the idea of Mr. Bereze employing the Germans” because he believed that “it can not turn out well.” Morris concluded that the Germans “should either be put on farms for their own account as you last proposed or their Indentures should be sold to Farmers in whose service they would learn how to be come useful to themselves at the End of their servitude & under whose management their labor will be productive during the time but I fear Mr. Bereze will not be able to make them useful to himself, to the settlement or themselves.” Another correspondent of Williamson’s was also condescending toward the Germans. He noted that upon arrival, “The Germans are all in health and tolerably quiet” because they had the “expectation of Berezy coming back loaded w/ money - to provide them with every thing they want.” The writer then concluded that Bereze had “completely infatuated” the Germans.<sup>23</sup>

Irish were also subjected to stereotypes. Nicholas Cresswell said that he procured feed for his horse near Fort Pitt in 1775 “by acting the Irishman.” He later observed that a Miss Grimes had “too much of the Irish in her” after she “cried most abundantly” upon seeing him in

pain from an illness. Arthur Lee's 1784 comments denigrated both the Scots and Irish. Lee claimed that the "Scots and Irish" of Pittsburgh were "as dirty as in the north of Ireland, or even Scotland." Mary Dewees found the "Scotch-Irish" occupants of one house were "exceedingly kind but surprisingly dirty." A compliment paid to John Neil by Increase Matthews was also an implied criticism of the Irish in general. Matthews called Neil "the good irishman." Silas Chesebrough made a similar comment about the Irish in the vicinity of Pittsburgh. He claimed that "The Inhabitants here are generally Irish," but only "some of them are quite civil." A "Yanke" acquaintance of Chesebrough criticized the region's Irish population for being "indolent."<sup>24</sup>

John Adlum recorded ethnic friction during the 1794 religious debate in Westmoreland County. Adlum also emphasized nationality in his description of the incident. The situation developed when a recently arrived minister from "*Scotland*" criticized the current "*American*" preacher. The Scottish minister claimed "that a person educated in *America* could not be an orthodox preacher, and that to be so, he must have been educated in *Scotland*." Ethnic factions apparently formed because "about half the settlers at that time were foreigners, consisting mostly of those called *Scotch Irish*" who "generally joined in favour of the newly imported *Parson*." The inhabitants took the conflict seriously, but not violently, and held a public debate.<sup>25</sup> However, Adlum said that the debate did not settle the issue because "there did not appear any one convinced, so as to change the side he had taken."<sup>26</sup>

Despite the usual negative imagery of the non-English created by travelers, some comments were positive as well. Mary Dewees complimented "a Dutch house . . . where" members of her party were "kindly entertained." Lewis Condict likewise was "treated very

kindly by the family” on “an old Dunkard’s habitation” despite being “very poor.” Francis Bailly found “a pretty good tavern kept . . . by a Dutchwoman.” Nicholas Cresswell eventually changed his opinion of Miss Grimes. Several weeks after he criticized her, Cresswell found Grimes to be “A fine blooming Irish Girl” whereupon he confessed in his journal that the “The Flesh overcame the Spirit.” Even the usually caustic Margaret van Horn Dwight offered a begrudging compliment to “an Irish waggoner . . . who appears to be sensible, well inform’d man.”<sup>27</sup>

British traveler Thomas Ashe offered his opinion on the positive influence of the Irish in the Upper Ohio Valley. Ashe found that the “principal inhabitants of Pittsburgh are Irish, or of Irish origin,” which he believed was the reason “for the commercial spirit of the place, and the good breeding and hospitality which in general prevail throughout it.” Ashe also claimed that certain Irish men of Pittsburgh had “hindered the vicious propensities of the genuine American character, from establishing here the horrid dominion which they have assumed over the Atlantic states.”<sup>28</sup>

The English dominated the Upper Ohio Valley, both in population and culturally, after the American Revolution. Although the region’s inhabitants included migrants from other western European nations, the English remained the largest ethnic group in real numbers and as a share of the population. Ethnicity was an important issue to the people of the time, and the English perceived themselves as superior to the other ethnic groups. They often viewed non-English as outsiders, although the other nationalities inhabited America from the first settlements of the colonial era. Many travelers and inhabitants frequently emphasized an individual’s nationality with comments that were variously negative, neutral or positive. Despite the often negative ethnic stereotypes, the Upper Ohio River Valley’s diverse population was not like any in

the Old World.

The diversity of the United States included Africans, both free and enslaved. The United States Constitution of 1787 did not abolish slavery, which remained a states' rights issue. Each state contained a slave population when the states ratified the Constitution. The slave population in 1790 was 694,207, or 18 percent of the total population, which was the second largest demographic group behind only the English and Welsh. The 1790 census also enumerated free blacks in a category for all other free persons. However, this group was much smaller than the slave population, approximately as large as the French population, or 2 percent of the total.<sup>29</sup>

The Upper Ohio Valley population likewise included free and enslaved Africans. Slavery existed in every state of the region, except Ohio, through the early nineteenth century. New York and Pennsylvania slowly veered from the institution with their passage of gradual abolition laws. These laws contributed to a marked decline in the slave populations of both states, although each state had a slave population for decades. Maryland and Virginia remained slave states during the entire period and maintained the institution until the ratification of the Thirteenth Amendment at the end of the Civil War. Upper Ohio Valley slave population totals and distribution reflected slavery's decline in the region's northern states and expansion in the southern states. However, the proximity of slave states and free states and the slave population in the supposed free states also contributed to slavery remaining a part of daily life throughout the region. Pennsylvania and New York initially provided basic rights to black freemen, but, over time, the states slowly eliminated some of these rights. Thus, the region's northern and southern states clearly moved in opposite directions concerning slavery, despite New York and Pennsylvania taking away rights

from blacks later in the nineteenth century.

The late eighteenth-century Upper Ohio Valley slave population was small, both in real and relative numbers, when compared with the national totals. The 1790 census counted 1,648 slaves living in the region, which was 2 percent of the total regional population. Although the slave population increased to 2,005 in 1800, and then to 2,867 in 1810, the relative slave population actually decreased. Slaves accounted for 1 percent of the population in both 1800 and 1810.<sup>30</sup>

The apparent decline in slaveholding, however, misrepresented the dramatic increase in the number of Upper Ohio Valley slaves during that twenty-year period. The slave population increased by 22 percent from 1790 to 1800 and by 43 percent from 1800 to 1810, for an overall increase of 74 percent for the period. A considerable jump in the total population was the cause for the decline in the relative slave population. The total population increased by 92 percent between 1790 and 1800 and by 77 percent from 1800 to 1810, for an overall increase of 239 percent. Thus, slaveholding declined in the Upper Ohio Valley because the slave population increase did not match that of the burgeoning white population, which masked the expansion of slavery in the region.<sup>31</sup>

Slaveholding varied considerably, with the southern states having the higher rates and the northern states the lower rates (Appendix C).<sup>32</sup> Maryland had the highest rate of slaveholding in the Upper Ohio River Valley throughout the period, ranging from 5 percent in 1790 to 9 percent in 1810. Virginia's relative slave population remained constant, only rising from 4 percent in 1790 to 5 percent in 1810. Slaveholding in New York, on the other hand, declined steadily from 1 percent in 1790 to .3 percent by 1810. Pennsylvania had an even steeper decline than New

York. Slaves accounted for 1 percent of the total population in 1790, but only .1 percent by 1810.<sup>33</sup>

Despite being clearly higher than the other regional states, the relative slaveholding in the Upper Ohio Valley counties of Virginia and Maryland were much lower than the states' rates. Allegany County, Maryland's relative slave population averaged between one-fifth and one-third of Maryland's rate. Virginia's regional counties had an even smaller slaveholding rate than the rest of the state. The relative slave populations in Virginia's Upper Ohio Valley counties ranged between one-tenth and one-eighth of the state's rate, throughout the period. Upper Ohio Valley counties in New York and Pennsylvania remained consistent with the state's slaveholding rate. The only exception was 1790 New York, when the state's slaveholding rate was six times the Upper Ohio Valley rate.<sup>34</sup>

Several western Pennsylvania counties conflicted with the general movement away from slaveholding in both the commonwealth and the commonwealth's Upper Ohio Valley counties. The 1790 relative slave populations in Allegheny, Fayette, and Washington counties remained much higher than the overall commonwealth through the early nineteenth century. Fayette County's 1790 slave population was 2 percent of the total, which more than doubled the state's rate of 1 percent. Although the real and relative slave populations declined in 1800 to one-half percent and 1810 to two-tenths, slaveholding remained higher than average.<sup>35</sup>

The Upper Ohio River Valley had a small slave population because the northern states abolished slavery. Pennsylvania became the first state to abolish slavery with the passage of a gradual abolition law on 1 March 1780. This law stipulated that children born to slave women after that date were forced to serve the mothers' masters until they "shall attain unto the age of



twenty-eight years,” when masters were to emancipate those slaves. Another section of the law limited the introduction of new slaves, allowing only the slaves of the members of the national government, foreign dignitaries, and people traveling through the state, to enter the state. Slaves of people who sought permanent residency in Pennsylvania entered the state as “free men and free women.” Pennsylvania’s gradual abolition law, although radical for its time, did not free any slaves immediately and permitted slavery to exist in the commonwealth until 1847 when the legislature finally and totally abolished slavery. Additionally, slaves born before 1 March 1780 faced involuntary servitude for their entire lives unless the owners chose to manumit their slaves. However, the law established a foundation for future emancipation in Pennsylvania that began in 1808 and a precedent for the new United States and the world.<sup>36</sup>

Pennsylvania’s stringent law governing the importation of slaves into the commonwealth required slave owners to have documentation for travel through the commonwealth with slaves. Samuel Forman encountered such a situation when he led a party that included slaves through Pennsylvania in 1789. Pennsylvania authorities detained the travelers in Lancaster while a Judge Hubley reviewed the “necessary papers relating to the transportation of slaves through New Jersey and Pennsylvania.”<sup>37</sup>

New York abolished slavery in 1799. The state’s gradual abolition law stipulated that all children born to slave women after 4 July 1799 became free when men turned twenty-eight years old and women reached twenty-five. New York’s government amended this statute in 1817 and fully abolished slavery in the state. The new act freed all slaves born before 4 July 1799 on 4 July 1827. When applied together, the two laws emancipated all of New York’s slaves.<sup>38</sup>

Ohio did not have a slave population because of the Northwest Ordinance of 1787, which

organized “the Territory of the United States northwest of the River Ohio.” Congress eventually carved Ohio, which entered the Union in 1803, and several other states out of this territory.<sup>39</sup> The Ordinance of 1787 included a prohibition of slavery, with Article VI stipulating that “There shall be neither slavery nor involuntary servitude” in the Northwest Territory. Thus, the Northwest Ordinance of 1787 established the Ohio River as the boundary that separated a significant part of America’s population constrained in a life of slavery from living a free life.<sup>40</sup>

The 1802 Ohio state constitution reenforced the 1787 ordinance concerning slavery in the Northwest Territory. Ohio’s Bill of Rights provided the blanket confirmation “That all men [were] born equally free and independent.” They then specifically prohibited slavery with the succinct statement that “There shall be neither slavery nor involuntary servitude in this State.” Article VII eliminated the possibility of introducing slavery into the state at a later date with the declaration that “no alteration of this constitution shall ever take place, so as to introduce slavery or involuntary servitude into this State.”<sup>41</sup>

Gradual abolition of slavery by Pennsylvania and New York and population increases in Virginia and Maryland changed the Upper Ohio Valley’s county slave distribution between 1790 and 1810 (Appendix D).<sup>42</sup> In 1790, two-thirds of the region’s slaves lived in Pennsylvania’s Fayette and Washington counties, Virginia’s Ohio County, and Maryland’s Allegany County. A majority of the remaining slave population inhabited Allegheny and Westmoreland counties in Pennsylvania and Monongalia County, Virginia. A dramatic shift in distribution occurred by the next census. Nearly two-thirds of the region’s slaves populated Allegany County, Maryland and Virginia’s Brooke, Ohio, and Harrison counties. Most of the remaining slave population occupied Monongalia and Wood counties, Virginia, Ontario County, New York, and Allegheny,

Fayette, Westmoreland, and Washington counties, Pennsylvania. The 1810 census revealed an even greater shift. Ninety-three percent of the region's slaves inhabited Allegany County, Maryland and Virginia's five regional counties. Thus, the gulf that divided the North and South over slavery widened in the Upper Ohio Valley during the early nineteenth century.<sup>43</sup>

A corresponding change in regional slave distribution by state occurred during the same period (Appendix E). In 1790, 53 percent of the Upper Ohio Valley slaves lived in Pennsylvania, with 30 percent in Virginia, 16 percent in Maryland, and 1 percent in New York. Distribution of slaves in Virginia and Maryland rose abruptly in 1800 to 51 percent and 25 percent respectively. New York also held a larger share of the region's slaves with 3 percent. Pennsylvania's share, however, decreased to 22 percent. The 1810 census revealed a much larger shift in the regional slave distribution by state. Virginia's share increased again, to 71 percent. The other states' shares declined, with Maryland's at 22 percent, Pennsylvania's at 6 percent, and New York's at 1 percent.<sup>44</sup>

Other factors also caused a small regional slave population. Heavy white settlement of the region began only after the American Revolution. The population soared in the Upper Ohio River Valley during the late eighteenth century, but the region lagged behind the East in established population trends. Secondly, many frontier settlers were poor and did not own land. Thus, these settlers did not have the means to acquire slaves because they could not even afford land. Lastly, individual slaveholders voluntarily manumitted their slaves, particularly in the North and Upper South, because the ideals of the American Revolution conflicted with slavery. These slaveholders saw the hypocrisy in fighting for their own freedom only to enslave others.<sup>45</sup>

Slavery remained a part of daily life for Upper Ohio River Valley residents, although on

the periphery for most non-slaveholders, through the early nineteenth century, despite the small number of slaves in the region and the ending of slavery by the northern states. Maryland and Virginia remained slave states throughout the period. Additionally, the gradual abolition laws of Pennsylvania and New York allowed slavery to exist in those states into the nineteenth century. The proximity of slave states to the free states in the region also made slavery a frequent issue for Northerners. Notices that slave owners placed in newspapers for fugitive slaves and slave sales were commonplace throughout the region well after the slave populations of Pennsylvania and New York declined and the admission of Ohio as a free state. Free Africans also faced racial discrimination and the ever present threat of illegal capture and sale into the South by kidnappers working in the North. Enslaved Africans likewise faced racial discrimination and the continual oppression of the slavery system.

Upper Ohio Valley newspaper readers frequently encountered notices that slave owners placed in the Pittsburgh Gazette for the capture of escaped slaves. The notices usually provided descriptions of fugitive slaves that included physical characteristics, clothing, manual skills, and probable direction of travel, often after stating a reward in bold letters. Descriptions of slaves commonly included racist stereotypes. John Huston announced in March 1797, with the banner “Thirty Dollars Reward,” that “a Negro man named Essex, a lu[s]ty fellow” had escaped. His portraiture of Essex included that he was a “full 6 feet high, very large feet and hands, much marked with the [s]mall pox, thick lips, bold and ill looking.” The notice included a description of clothing that Essex “had on and took with” him and noted Essex’s claim that he was “a black[s]mith,” although Huston claimed that Essex did “not know much of that busine[s]s.” Huston also surmised that Essex probably went “towards Pre[s]quei[s]le or Niagara.”<sup>46</sup>

The slave trade operated in the Upper Ohio River Valley, in both the North and South. A January 1797 notice in the Pittsburgh Gazette announced that “A negro man, a [s]lave for life,” was available for purchase, apparently with the proceeds to pay the owner’s debts. An 1805 correspondent asked Archibald Woods to sell a slave “on the best terms you po[s]sibly can.” A sale of land in 1807 included “one Negro Man 32 years of age his wife 47 years of age and their Son 6 or 7 years of age” as part of the transaction. Two years later, George Hancock told Woods in a letter that he was “inclined” to accept five slaves from his debtors “rather than permit the debt to remain.” Hancock also enclosed “a list of 13, with their ages, and qualities as well as I am capable” and “the prices I gave for those whom I bought and expect not to loose by them” in his letter to Woods. Woods apparently requested later the same year, that another correspondent purchase several of his slaves.<sup>47</sup>

Upper Ohio Valley slaves endured other forms of oppression caused by slavery. The lack of space in a “kanou” forced one of Alexander Henderson’s pregnant slaves to walk “along the river side” in cold and inclement weather “with her child in her arms.” One Slave, Hannah, later worked as a field hand on Henderson’s northwestern Virginia estate until the moment that she went into labor. In March 1799, Henderson recorded that she “was taken in the field with the pains of childbirth, who made all haste possible to the house, and fifteen minutes after she came in was deliv<sup>d</sup> of a stout boy.” Upper Ohio Valley slaves also faced separation from their families. A proposed 1805 sale of a slave by Archibald Woods for a correspondent would separate a man from his wife.<sup>48</sup>

Pennsylvania and New York attempted to limit cruelties such as the separation of family members. The Pennsylvania assembly passed legislation in 1788 that fined anyone fifty pounds

who attempted to “separate or remove or cause to be separated or removed” permanently “a husband from his wife, a wife from her husband, a child from his or her parent or a parent from child . . . to a greater distance than ten miles.” Masters could legitimately disjoin slave families only through the consent of the adults or if the children were older than four years old. An 1809 New York law likewise protected slave spouses from separation.<sup>49</sup>

Slaves faced racist hostility from whites in Pennsylvania, beyond the institution itself. While authorities detained Samuel Forman’s group in Lancaster, some “females of the city came out of their houses and inquired of” the abilities of the slaves “and whether they were willing to go to the South.” The women then threatened the slaves with possible removal to the South, telling them that “if the authorities stopped” Forman’s party, “they could all soon have new homes.” When “they learned that” authorities did not detain the group, the women “seemed mortified.”<sup>50</sup>

Some Upper Ohio Valley inhabitants and travelers did not use the word slave, apparently unwilling to verbally acknowledge that the institution existed. They chose, instead, indirect but equally clear terms. Elizabeth House Trist, while passing through Pennsylvania in 1783, described an African-American woman as a “Negro wench,” although she did not elaborate on the status of the woman. Reverend Robert Ayres recorded that he “deliver’d a little preachment at the Funeral of 2 Blacks” and that “Negro girls came to hoe” his garden. Morgantown’s Polly Wilson referred to her slave, Queen, as “my black woman.” Alexander Henderson referred to his slaves as “the people.” On one Saturday in April 1799, Henderson said that he “gave the people nearly half the day to prepare their gardens” and then the next week “the people” had “one hours . . . to prepare their gardens.”<sup>51</sup>

The free black population in the Upper Ohio Valley's northern states received some basic civil rights denied to southern slaves.<sup>52</sup> Pennsylvania and New York, for example, enfranchised free black men. Although the constitutions of both states did not expressly grant the franchise to free black men, they did not exclude them either. The 1790 Pennsylvania constitution gave the vote to all taxpaying freemen who were at least twenty-one years old and were residents of the commonwealth for two years. New York's 1777 constitution also limited the vote to taxpaying men at least twenty-one years of age, who "personally resided" in the New York "for six months" and owned "a freehold of the value of twenty pounds . . . or have rented a tenement therein of the yearly value of forty shillings."<sup>53</sup> New York, however, while guaranteeing the people's right to the vote, also reserved the state's option to take away that right. The document stated "that no member of this State shall be disfranchised, or deprived of any the rights or privileges secured to the subjects of this State by this constitution, unless by the law of the land, or the judgment of his peers."<sup>54</sup>

Ohio's constitution explicitly reserved the vote for white men and withheld the franchise from free black men. Article IV, section 1 stated that "In all elections, all white male inhabitants above the age of twenty-one years, having resided in the State one year next preceding the election, and who have paid or are charged with a State or county tax, shall enjoy the right of an elector." Thus, Ohio offered physical freedom but not political equality.<sup>55</sup>

Free black men in Pennsylvania, Ohio, and New York also had the right to own property, according to the state constitutions. The Pennsylvania constitutions proclaimed "That all men are born equally free and independent" with the ownership of property described variously as one of their "natural, inherent and inalienable" or "inherent and indefeasible" rights. The Ohio state

constitution likewise affirmed that “all men,” without a racial exception, had “certain natural, inherent and unalienable rights,” which included “acquiring, possessing and protecting property.” New York went a step further and permitted slaves to own property as well. Some free blacks in the Upper Ohio Valley exercised their right to own property. An undated tax return for Franklin Township, Greene County listed the occupation of one Bezel Smith as “Freeman.”<sup>56</sup>

Another example of the basic rights that free blacks enjoyed was the equal application of the law. Pennsylvania’s gradual abolition law clearly stated that crimes committed by African-Americans, both free and enslaved, “shall be inquired of, adjudged, corrected and punished in like manner as the offenses and crimes of the other inhabitants of this state.” The only exception was “that a slave shall not be admitted to bear witness against a freeman.” New York prohibited blacks’ testimony against whites until 1813, when the legislature repealed that restriction. Thus, the same laws that protected and punished whites also theoretically protected and punished free blacks as well.<sup>57</sup>

Although free blacks in the North jeopardized their own status, they provided assistance to slaves in their escape attempts. Pennsylvania state law strictly prohibited the practice, with a penalty of serving “for four years” as a servant. Samuel Forman recorded during a 1789 journey through Pennsylvania that he “had a little trouble with . . . some free blacks” in Westmoreland County. According to Forman, free blacks provided two rebellious slaves “with old swords and pistols” for a probable escape attempt. Apparently “nothing serious grew out of” the situation because “a faithful old colored woman” reported the slaves’ actions to Forman.<sup>58</sup>

Emancipation in the northern states did not create equality for free blacks, who typically remained at or near the bottom economically. Gary Nash and Jean Soderlund in their study of



abolition in Pennsylvania, Freedom by Degrees, determined that only approximately 10 percent of the free black population succeeded in rising above the lowest economic levels. In agriculture, where free blacks worked, fewer than ten percent owned taxable land. The remainder either rented their land or hired themselves out as agricultural laborers. For the free black population not involved in agriculture, a vast majority of free blacks labored at the dirtiest, most dangerous, lowest paying jobs or they were indigent. Non-landholding blacks who succeeded had developed a skill while enslaved that earned them a position with a white master craftsman. The growing free black population in the urban areas contributed to their success by patronizing black artisans and businesses, while an expanding general population provided limited economic opportunities for black artisans and businesses.<sup>59</sup>

Free black men in the North faced legal obstacles when trying to exercise their franchise. As Nash and Soderlund explained, a small percentage of free black men actually owned property. Therefore, few met the minimum property requirements for the right to vote. White opposition to black freemen holding the vote caused the New York government to institute other restrictions during the first decades of the nineteenth century. An 1811 law required free black men to show proof that they were free and eligible for the vote through an elaborate and costly process. Few free men had resources needed to fulfill the government's demands, which caused a decline in the number of enfranchised black men. New York reduced that number again during the state constitutional convention of 1821. Many delegates wanted the vote explicitly limited to white freemen, but that amendment failed. However, the delegates ratified an amendment that placed higher property and longer residency requirements on blacks than those for whites.<sup>60</sup>

Freedom offered by northern states was incomplete. The policies of Pennsylvania, New

York, and Ohio toward blacks clearly represented the two sides of abolition that most whites in the North, including the Upper Ohio Valley, were not able to reconcile. Many white Northerners opposed slavery, but they did not believe in racial equality for free black Americans. Thus, they abolished slavery, but typically provided limited equality, both in scope and duration.

In conclusion, the Upper Ohio River Valley ultimately remained a place of opportunity for free, white homesteaders. Although slavery existed in the region throughout the period, the institution was never a major factor in the Upper Ohio Valley's settlement. The white population clearly surpassed in overwhelming numbers the increase in the slave population. Although the slave population increased by nearly 75 percent from 1790 to 1810, 1790 saw the highest rate of slavery at only 2 percent. The slave share of the population declined over the next two decades to 1 percent in 1810, with this slave population found increasingly in the region's southern states. The Upper Ohio Valley, however, did not appear to be a draw for the growing free black population in the North. Additionally, the proximity of free states to slave states in the region made the Upper Ohio River Valley a unique environment on the issue of slavery, with the institution remaining as a common issue in the increasingly free counties of the North. Thus, the sectional divergence over slavery that would engulf the nation in the mid-nineteenth century began in the Upper Ohio Valley at the beginning of the century.

The Upper Ohio River Valley's population was diverse for the era, although the majority was of European descent. The various European nationalities, including Scots, Scots-Irish, and Germans, joined the English majority in the settlement of the region. Travelers and inhabitants frequently noted people's ethnicity, which was an important issue. These comments were occasionally critical, but were often casual or positive as well. The free and enslaved African-

Americans and Indians remaining in the region provided a limited racial diversity in the region. This diverse population, despite the racial and ethnic iniquities, established a foundation for the “melting pot” of future generations.

## Conclusion

### Transformation Complete

The cultural transformation of the Upper Ohio Valley was complete by 1810. During this evolutionary process, which occurred over a seventy-year period, whites used heavy migration, treaties, and war to remove the region's Indian inhabitants. These Indians, who had only recently settled the region, again lost their territory to white settlement. As white inhabitants increased in number and the Indian population declined, white cultural institutions supplanted those of the Indians. Any Indians who remained in the area lived on reservations, where they lost their traditional way of life.

Transportation improvements to and through the Upper Ohio Valley were at the very core of the region's development, and were immediate concerns for white settlers. The narrow trails through the woods barely passed for roads and the actual passage remained an ordeal during most of the period. Roads typically linked only the larger communities. The rivers and streams were often impassable and treacherous in the best of circumstances. A growing population and an increasing number of communities demanded a transportation system that safely connected more communities. Furthermore, as the nation expanded, America needed the improved roads and waterways to develop the West commercially and to bind that region to the East politically and economically. Thus, settlers wanted to improve the Indian trails, which provided first access to the region, to ease travel and allow the region, and nation, to grow.<sup>1</sup>

A letter writer from Pittsburgh, with a bit of sarcasm, reflected on the need and desire for regional improvements. The author explained that "two large boats, with 100 barrels of flour,

and two waggon load of whiskey and beef on board, arrived” in Pittsburgh “from Cannonsburgh, down Chartiers creek, without sustaining the least damage,” as if that were a unique occasion. The correspondent concluded that “What a saving it would be to this country, if proper attention was paid by our legislature to the improvement of such streams, which by a small expence, could be made navigable throughout the year.”<sup>2</sup>

Petitioners from Ohio County also advocated transportation improvements for the Upper Ohio Valley. They believed that a ferry at the mouth of Short Creek in Ohio County would “be a publick good to the Inhabitants” of the county. The proposed ferry’s site was a practical choice because the county already planned to build a “wagon road” to the mouth of the creek, which was a “Very Convenient place to Cro[s]s” the Ohio River. Furthermore, the ferry would also enable future expansion because “a road nearly opposite to the mouth of Said Creek that leads into the Indian Country . . . will be much u[s]ed when that Country is Inhabited.”<sup>3</sup>

Governments responded to the growing population’s demands and built many roads to and through the Upper Ohio Valley. A major undertaking was the construction of the National Road, part of which would go through the Upper Ohio Valley, that Congress authorized in 1806. The building of roads also involved local governments. Butler County, Pennsylvania represented the widespread road building in the early nineteenth century.<sup>4</sup> Although the initial requests for the county roads were not as detailed as the requirements for the National Road, they typically offered clear beginning and ending points. A proposed road linked Butler, the county seat, “to the Village of Freeport on the Allegheny River.” Many other routes were not as exact. The county approved one road that ran from Butler “to the line of Armstrong County in a Direction to the mouth of Bear Creek.” Another route went “From where the Beaver Road leaves the Mercer

Road to the place where Amberson's path cro[s]ses the Beaver road.”<sup>5</sup>

Transportation improvements embodied more than just the planning and building of roads in the Ohio Valley. Bridges and canals improved overland travel as well. Traveling through western New York in 1817, Thomas Stewardson crossed Cayuga Lake “on a good Bridge more than a Mile in length.” Stewardson also recorded that at “the Falls of Seneca River” the inhabitants of western New York had built “Three Canals and several Locks,” and that “the Canals continue for three Miles.”<sup>6</sup>

Housing improved by the early nineteenth century as well. Log houses, which included squared logs, wooden floors, shingles, glass windows, and stone chimneys, soon replaced the rough log cabins. These log houses remained common in the early nineteenth century, on which Silas Chesebrough commented in 1817. Chesebrough said that “The houses” that he passed were “all log houses.” The number of stone, brick, and frame houses, however, increased during the first decades of the nineteenth century when those materials became more available.<sup>7</sup>

Another sign that white Americans dominated the Upper Ohio Valley was the growth of manufacturing and commerce, which was a basic part of material culture. Many regional towns developed as the economic centers, with Pittsburgh the region's leading community by the early nineteenth century. An 1806 journey took Thomas Ashe to Pittsburgh, where he recorded that “Many valuable manufactories have been lately established,” including the manufacture of “glass, nails, hats, and tobacco.” Ashe added that Pittsburgh also “abounds with mechanics . . . and possesses upward of forty retail stores.” Pittsburgh's industry impressed Christian Schultz as well, who noted in 1807 that “Pittsburgh has . . . a considerable number of factories established already, among which may be enumerated distilleries, breweries, printing presses, an air furnace,

a glass house, and cotton factory.” Schultz recorded that Pittsburgh had “smaller establishments for the manufacture of nails, brushes, ropes, copper ware, tine ware and earthen war, with many others too tedious to mention.”<sup>8</sup>

Other regional communities became manufacturing and commercial centers as well, but not on Pittsburgh’s level. Thomas Ashe believed that Morgantown, Virginia was “a flourishing town” and Meadville, Pennsylvania had “a considerable trade.” Later in his journey, Christian Schultz described Wheeling, Virginia as having “a very considerable number of stores, with every kind of merchandise, suitable for the country” and that “Considerable boat building is likewise carried on at this place.” Silas Chesebrough believed that Bedford, Pennsylvania was “quite a handsome place, with some large stores,” while Steubenville, Ohio had “the appearance of a growing place.”<sup>9</sup>

Entrepreneurs often placed newspaper advertisements to announce the opening of their businesses, which attested to the region’s growing manufacturing base. The Pittsburgh Gazette carried many of these advertisements. John Moore placed a notice for the opening of his fulling mill in Ohio County, Virginia in 1793, and the following year John Arthurs announced in 1794 that he had “ju[s]t received . . . a machine” that allowed him “to manufacture hair powder equal to an imported.” A sustained and rapid industrial growth continued during the first decades of the nineteenth century. Owners of a textile mill “on the bank of the Monongahela” announced the mill’s opening on 4 September 1809. Technological advances also came to the Upper Ohio Valley at the turn of the century. George Evans opened a steam-powered flour mill in Pittsburgh on 12 September 1809 with the guarantee of “a constant supply of Wheat and rye Flour in all their different qualities.” Thus, as the population grew, business opportunities also increased.<sup>10</sup>

Settlers brought a desire for white intellectual culture to the Upper Ohio River Valley as well. An early goal for inhabitants was to establish schools. Private schools were common, such as Joseph Kane's "Evening School" and John McPherrin's "Grammar School" to be held "at his own hou[s]e" in Westmoreland County. Inhabitants demanded formal schools as well. Citizens of northwestern Virginia in 1788 wanted to establish an "Academy in some one of the Counties of Monongalia, Ohio, Harrison, or Randolph" which they said would be "great ble[s]sing" and a "great good work." Communities built many academies during this period. The Pennsylvania Gazette included the "Washington academy, in the town of Washington, in Washington county," "Pittsburg academy, Allegheny county," and "Canonsburg academy" in an 1800 list of schools in Pennsylvania. This interest in education accelerated in the nineteenth century, with western Pennsylvanians building twenty by 1816.<sup>11</sup>

Upper Ohio Valley settlers built other institutions that represented their culture. Various elements of the legal system appeared, with laws arriving with the first settlers, and courthouses and jails soon following. As early as 1775, records showed that western counties built jails for the incarceration of law breakers. Travelers also noted the presence of the buildings used for the administration and execution of the legal system. Reverend Robert Ayres stopped at Bedford's jail and courthouse in 1795. Christian Schultz noted that early nineteenth century Pittsburgh had "a number of public buildings, principally built of brick; among which you find a large and convenient gaol" and a courthouse. Silas Chesebrough noted in 1817 that among Pittsburgh's "public buildings" was a "court house," and New Philadelphia, Ohio had a "Penitentiary" and "Court house." While traveling through western New York the same year, Thomas Stewardson recorded that the town of Auburn was "building a State Prison."<sup>12</sup>



This cultural transformation of the Upper Ohio Valley signaled the final destruction of the Indians' traditional way of life in the region. Reservation life was a cultural shock for the eastern Indians. These small tracts of land, where game animals were scarce, limited their ability to hunt and pursue a traditional way of life. When hunters ventured off the reservations in search of food, they often faced violent reprisals from whites. Government policy also sought to destroy Indian culture and force white ways on the Indians, with an emphasis on white education for the children and men adopting agriculture as their primary occupation. Many Indians resisted these demands and continued to pursue traditional ways. Hunger then became routine because of game being scarce. Intrigue on the reservations and a turn away from their traditional world view accelerated the cultural decline. This foreign way of life on the reservations and a lost sense of purpose caused many Indians to become alcoholics. Ultimately, these factors created extreme poverty on the reservations, which Anthony F. C. Wallace described in the case of the Senecas, as "slums in the wilderness."<sup>13</sup>

The national government's demand that the Iroquois adopt an agrarian lifestyle and white education divided the Senecas and created discord. Gyantwahia was part of the Seneca faction that encouraged learning white ways. His response, which Quaker missionary Halliday Jackson recorded, to the government's request for the Senecas to "cease pursueing after the wild Beasts of the Forrest, and turn from the ways of our forefathers, to be tillers of Ground and keepers of flocks and herds" reflected the division.<sup>14</sup> Gyantwahia emphasized that Seneca "men of Sobriety" were "determined to follow your example, and do the things which you have told us." Gyantwahia also supported white education. He requested that the Quakers should "learn our Children to read, and write as you do, that they may become wise in their generation." His

interests aside, however, Gyantwahia admitted that “there are some among us will not hear your words, neither regard they your Counsel.”<sup>15</sup>

Another issue that concerned many Senecas was the loss of more land to speculators, particularly to Robert Morris, who Gyantwahia called “people of the Earth.” Morris, who orchestrated the purchase of much Seneca land, was a major concern for Gyantwahia in 1798. Although Gyantwahia hoped for fairness from Morris, he feared that Morris would not “deal honestly” with the Seneca and take all of their land. This situation disturbed Gyantwahia because he wanted to retain land for a “sufficient inheritance” for future generations of Senecas.<sup>16</sup>

For Indians who yielded to the government’s demands, farming did not provide economic security for the reservation Indians as whites insisted. During his 1817 journey through New York, Thomas Stewardson recorded that Indians resorted to “hunting as their Crops of Corn & other Grain last year were so much injured by the Frost they had nothing to subsist on at home” during the late summer. They returned to their homes only because “the Corn was now getting ripe” that they had planted for that year.<sup>17</sup>

Reservation life left many Indians destitute and caused them to resort to any means for survival. Thomas Stewardson recorded results of this assault. Stewardson commented that some Brotherton Indians were “in a poor situation they have permitted white people to settle on their lands” who “were introduced to work the Farms of the Indian widows that they & their children might have the means of subsistence.”<sup>18</sup> “Stockbridge Indians” lived “in much the same situation as the Brothertons.”<sup>19</sup> “At one Tavern” Stewardson encountered “the Daughter of the old Chief Schenedoa as a hired servant & at another an Indian woman in a similar station.” Other “Indians were on the road and loitering about the Taverns some begging for a little money in a very idle

manner.”<sup>20</sup>

The frequency of violence and intrigue increased on the reservations. Halliday Jackson recorded an incident that included witchcraft and murder. Senecas on Gyantwahia’s reservation claimed that a woman “had done much mischief by Pison and by Witchcraft.” When the woman “threatened to Slay” a child in Gyantwahia’s house, he ordered her murder. Gyantwahia’s sons “rose up against her and smote her” while she worked in the fields. They buried her without a ceremony. The council did not punish Gyantwahia or his sons, because they believed that the woman “was . . . worthy of Death.” Stewardson also reported disharmony. He commented on the family of John Tuhi, who “was a man of the greatest abilities & of very good conduct.” His sons, however, had “since his death been very profligate, one of them was lately executed for killing his brother.”<sup>21</sup>

The resultant degradation of Indian culture caused by life on the reservations confirmed the belief of most whites that they were culturally superior to the Indians. They used conditions found on reservations to justify the past and future seizure of Indian territory, with the belief that whites would better use the land. Whites, however, did not understand their role in the destruction of Indian culture. Most whites, including Quaker missionaries to the reservations, believed that the government’s policy to “civilize” the “savage” Indians would actually help the Indians. Thomas Stewardson, who had previously observed problems encountered by reservation Indians, also believed that exposure to white culture would help them. He concluded that the “improv<sup>ts</sup> of the white are very good and from any thing I could discover must be good examples as regards industry and Sobriety to the Indians.”<sup>22</sup>

The cultural transformation of the Upper Ohio River Valley was disastrous for the Ohio

Indians. After having reestablished their way of life in the region, they lost their land again and were forced either to relocate to the west or live on reservations. Pressure from whites continued even on the reservations, where Indians were forced to accept white ways, which stripped the Indians of more of their culture. The forced adoption of this foreign, and unwanted, way of life contributed to the final destruction of the Indians' traditional ways of life.

Whites physically dominated the Upper Ohio River Valley by the late 1790s because Indians no longer threatened their security. This conquest of the Indians' territory allowed white culture to expand and complete the transformation of the region. A process that began in earnest after the American Revolution, which was often driven by the white settlers' belief that they were accomplishing a goal greater than themselves, ended with the widespread commonality of white culture. The arrival of whites and their subsequent domination of the region did not bring civilization because the Indians had previously established a civilization. The Upper Ohio River Valley frontier was not a line separating the "wild or uncivilized" from the "developed or advanced." The frontier, instead, was a meeting place of different cultures. Thus, the cultural transformation of the region replaced one dominant culture, Native American, with a second, white American.

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<<http://www.paconstitution.duq.edu>>.

United States Historical Census Data Browser. Geospatial and Statistical Data Center.  
University of Virginia Library. Charlottesville, VA. <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/>>

## Appendix A - European Ethnic Population

### Upper Ohio River Valley

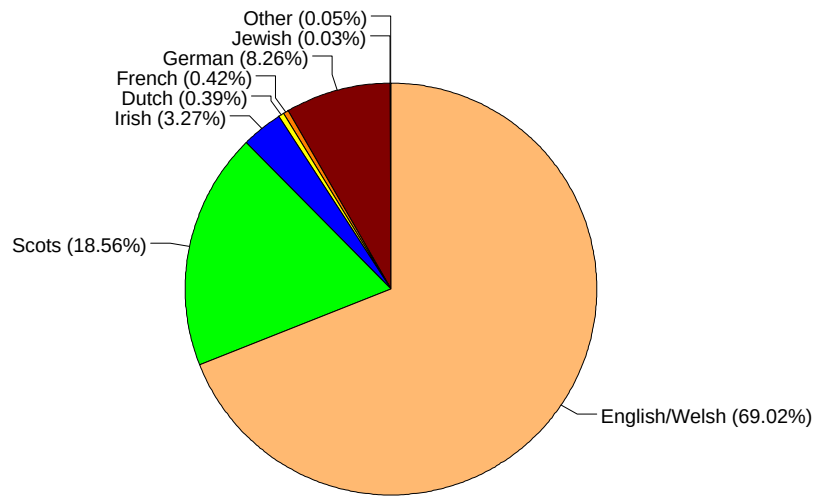


Figure 1

### Pennsylvania Counties

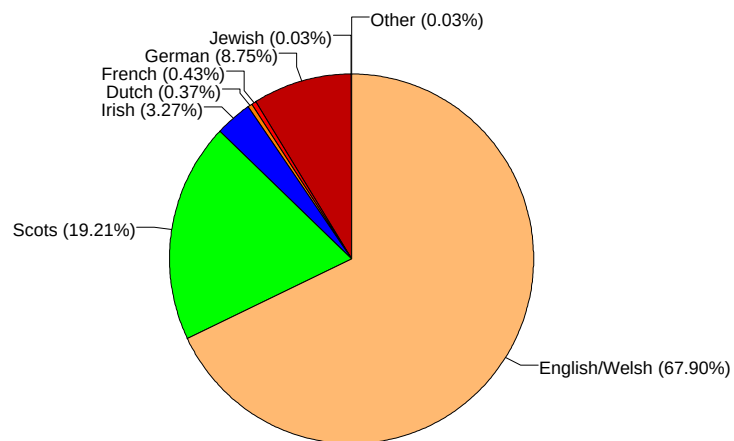
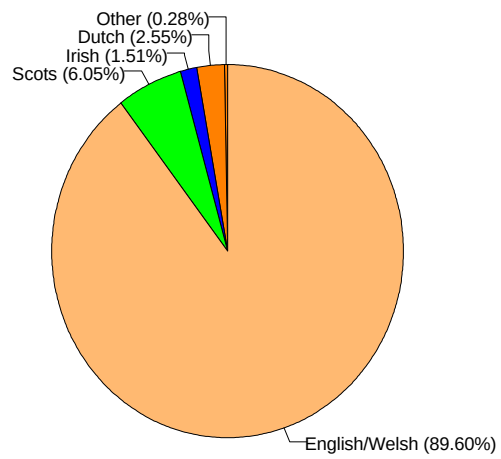


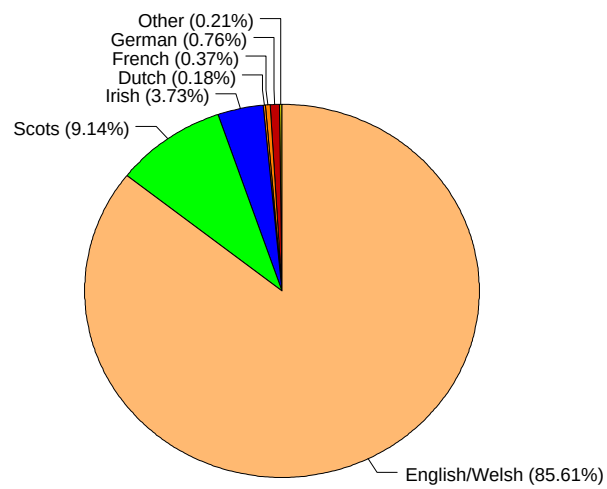
Figure 2

## New York Counties



**Figure 3**

## Virginia Counties



**Figure 4**

## Appendix B - Regional European Ethnic Distribution by County

### English and Welsh

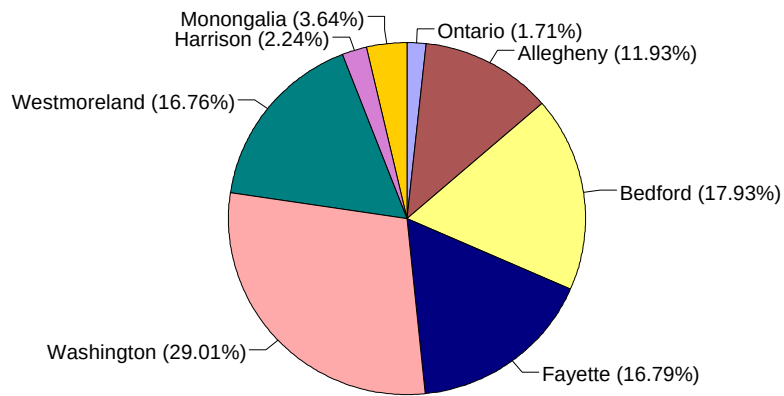


Figure 5

### Scots

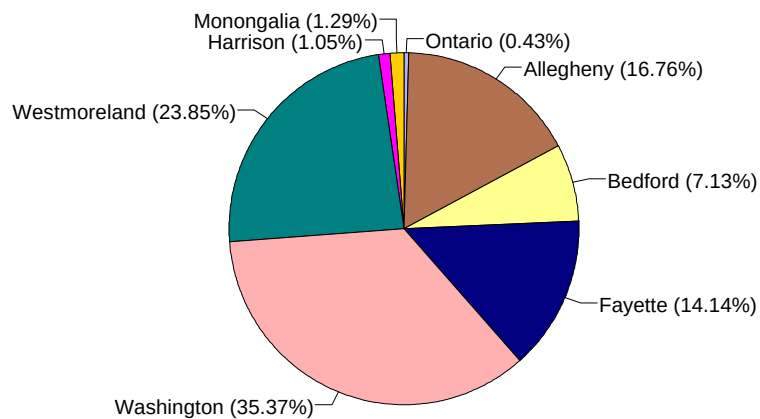
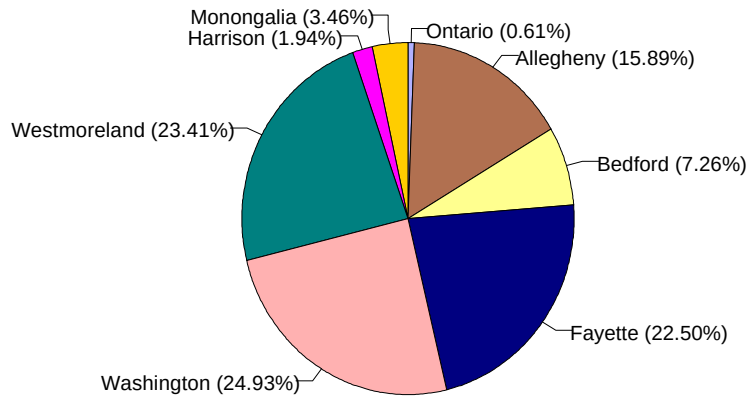


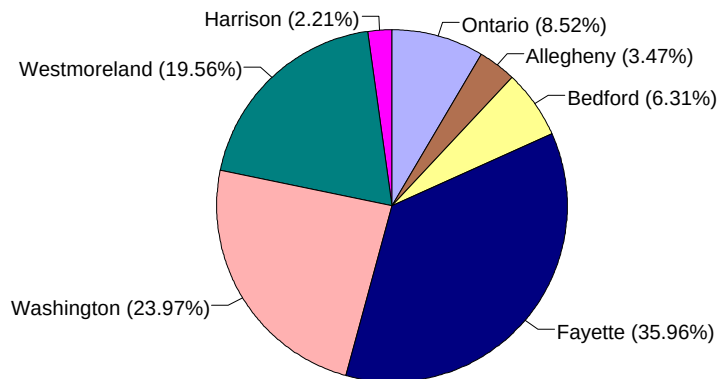
Figure 6

## Irish



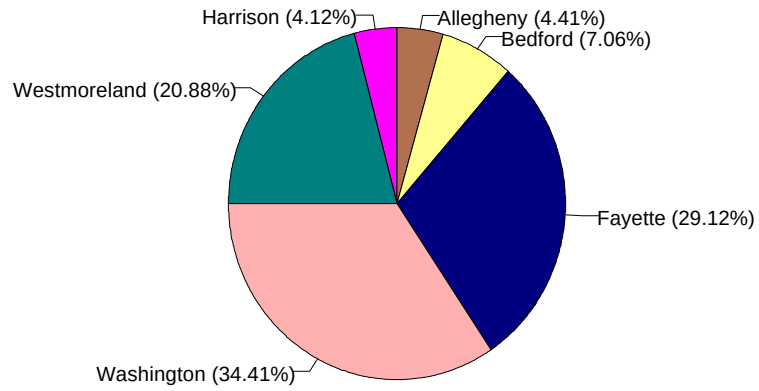
**Figure 7**

## Dutch



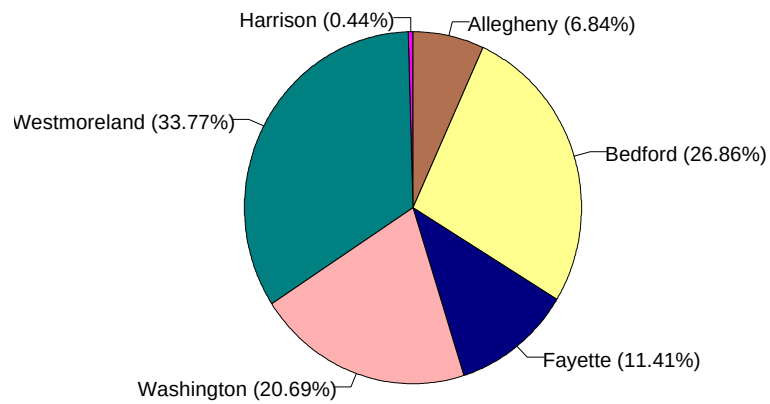
**Figure 8**

## French



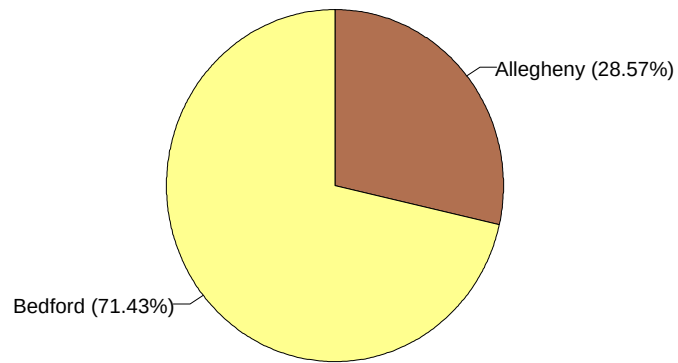
**Figure 9**

## German



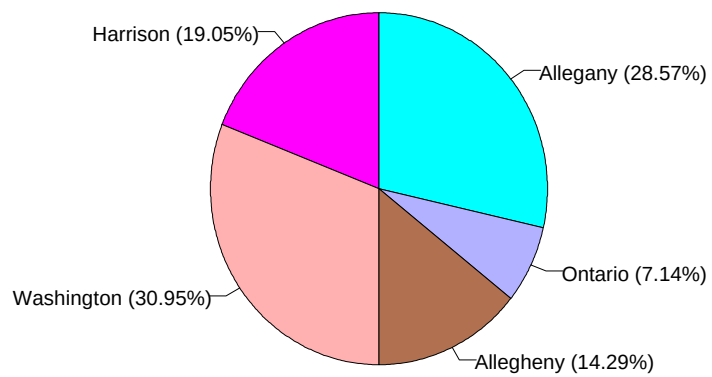
**Figure 10**

## Jewish



**Figure 11**

## Other



**Figure 12**



## Appendix C - Slave Population Share

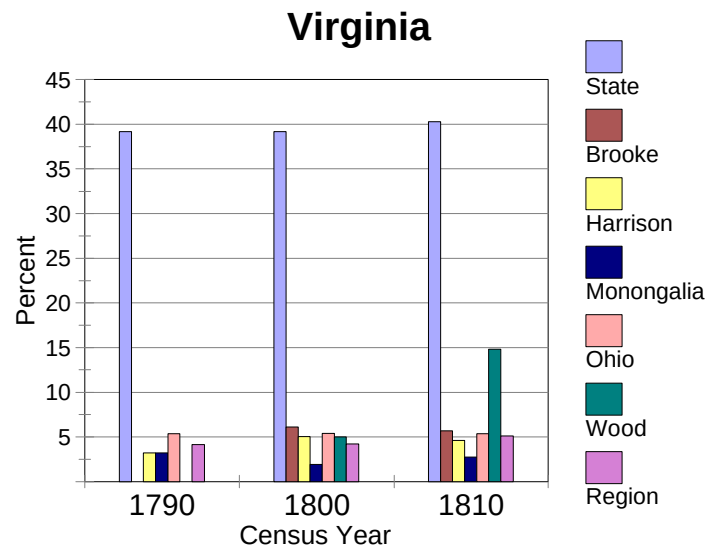


Figure 13

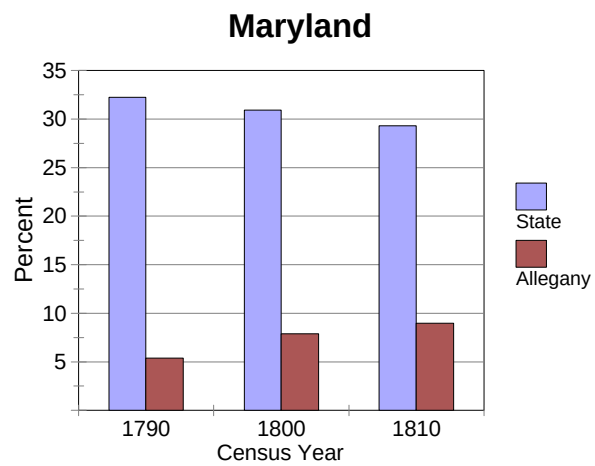


Figure 14

## Pennsylvania

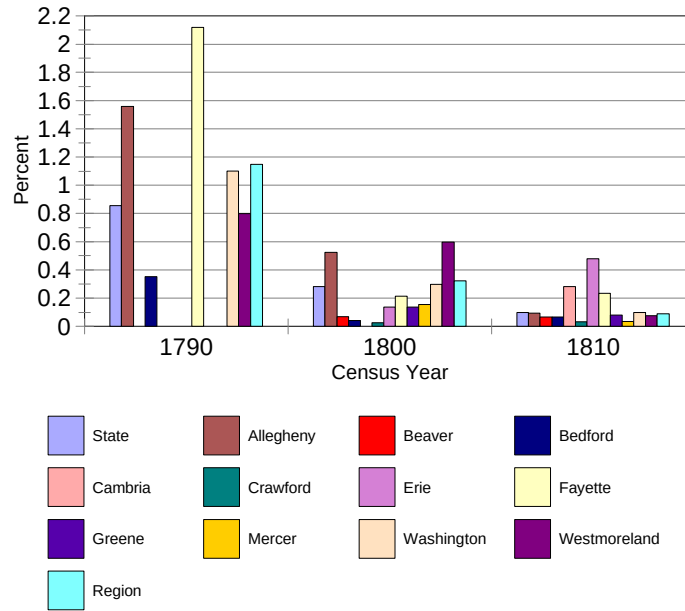


Figure 15

## New York

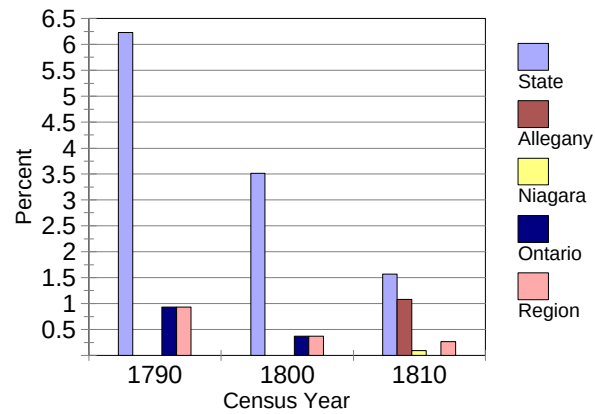
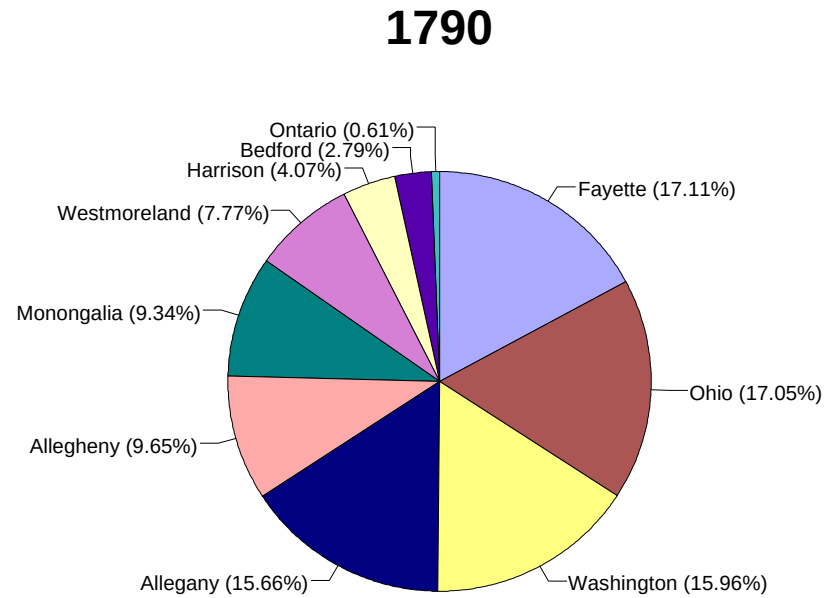


Figure 16

## Appendix D - Slave Distribution by County



**Figure 17**

1800

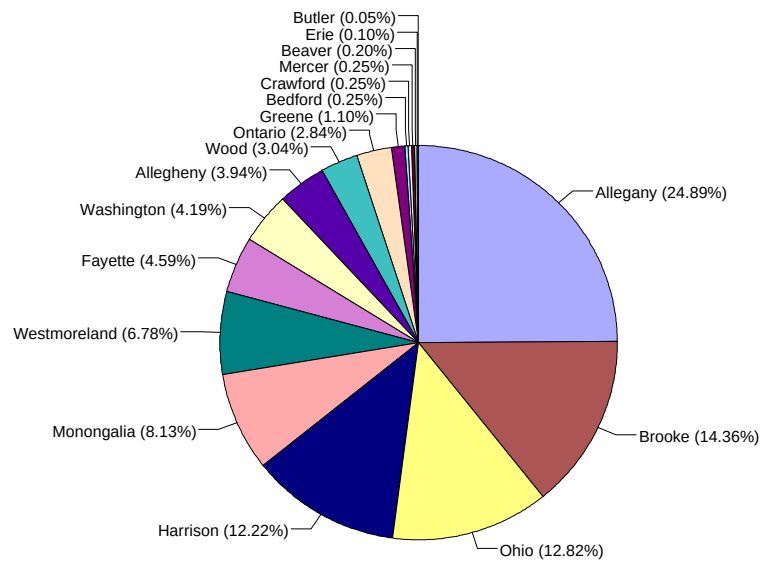


Figure 18

1810

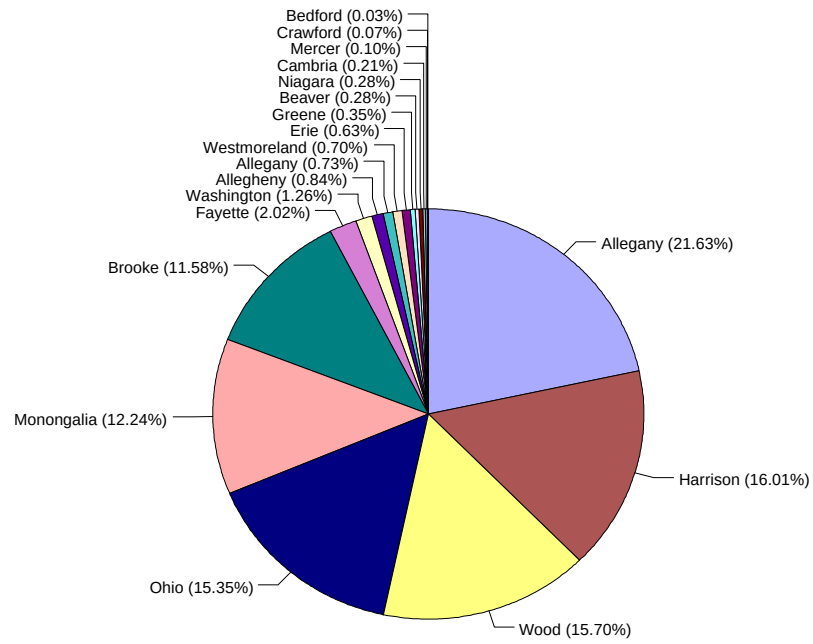
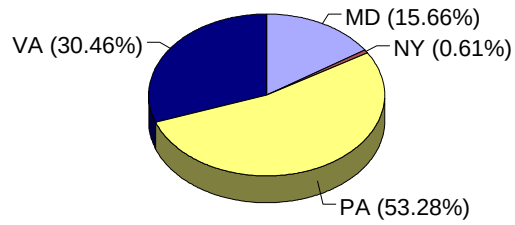


Figure 19

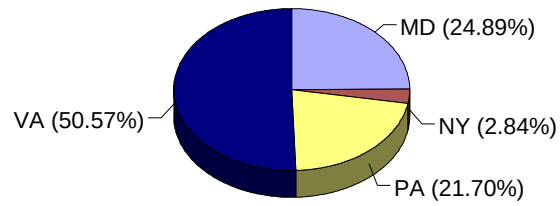
## Appendix E - Slave Distribution by State

**1790**



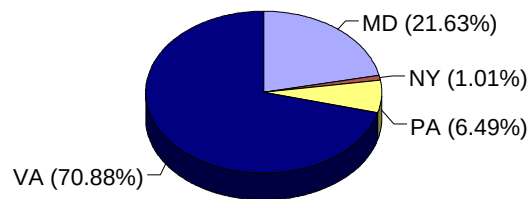
**Figure 20**

**1800**



**Figure 21**

**1810**



**Figure 22**

## ENDNOTES

### Endnotes for Introduction

1. The Merriam-Webster Dictionary, new ed. (Springfield, MA: Merriam-Webster, 1994), 305.
2. Frederick Jackson Turner, The Frontier in American History, with a foreword by Ray Allen Billington (New York: Holt, Rinehart and Winston, 1920; Huntington, NY: Robert E. Krieger Publishing Company, 1976), 2-4; Mary Ellen Jones, ed., The American Frontier: Opposing Viewpoints, American History Series, ed. Teresa O'Neill (San Diego: Greenhaven Press, 1994), 24; Oxford English Dictionary Online, Oxford University Press, 14 August 2001 <<http://dictionary.oed.com>>.
3. Early critics of Turner's thesis were prominent American historian, Charles Beard, and Marxist historian, Louis Hartz. Beard emphasized economic class conflict while Hartz argued that the greatest influence on America was the "longstanding 'liberal' consensus on the efficacy of political democracy and free-market capitalism." (Martin Ridge, "Turner the Historian: A Long Shadow," Journal of the Early Republic 13 [summer 1993]: 141; Lacy K. Ford, Jr. "Frontier Democracy: The Turner Thesis Revisited," Journal of the Early Republic 13 [summer 1993]: 144.)
4. The Merriam-Webster, 149.
5. John Mack Faragher, Sugar Creek: Life on the Illinois Prairie (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1986; reprint, New Haven: Yale University Press, 1986); Patricia Nelson Limerick, The Legacy of Conquest: The Unbroken Past of the American West (New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1987; reprint, New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1988); Annette Kolodny, The Land before Her: Fantasy and Experience of the American Frontiers, 1630-1860 (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1984; reprint, Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1984).
6. Jill Lepore, The Name of War: King Philip's War and the Origins of American Identity (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1998), xiv.

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1. Dean R. Snow, The Iroquois, The Peoples of America, ed. Alan Kolata and Dean Snow (Cambridge, MA: Blackwell Publishers, 1994; reprint, Cambridge, MA: Blackwell Publishers, 1996), 1, 88.

2. The Tuscaroras joined the Iroquois Confederacy in the early 1720s, which became the Six Nations (Francis Jennings, The Ambiguous Iroquois Empire [New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1984], 297).

3. Snow, The Iroquois, 1, 57-62; Gary B. Nash, Red, White, and Black: The Peoples of Early North, 4th ed. (Upper Saddle River, NJ: Prentice Hall, 2000), 16-17, Anthony F. C. Wallace, The Death and Rebirth of the Seneca (New York: Random House, 1969; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1972), 21, 40-41.

4. Snow, The Iroquois, 114-117; George T. Hunt, The Wars of the Iroquois: A Study in Intertribal Trade Relations (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1940; reprint, Madison: University of Wisconsin Press, 1967), 64-65, 94, 96-97, 101; Bruce G. Trigger, The Children of Aataentsic: A History of the Huron People to 1660, vol. 2 (Montreal: McGill-Queen's University Press, 1976), 797; Conrad E. Heidenreich, "Huron," in Handbook of North American Indians, ed. William C. Sturtevant, vol.15, Northeast, ed. Bruce G. Trigger (Washington, DC: Smithsonian Institution, 1978), 368-369; Daniel K. Richter, "War and Culture: The Iroquois Experience," William and Mary Quarterly 3d ser., 40 (October 1983): 537-538.

5. Michael N. McConnell, A Country Between: The Upper Ohio Valley and Its Peoples, 1724-1774 (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1992), 9; Francis Jennings, Empire of Fortune (New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1988; reprint, New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1990), 24.

6. An accepted name for the Delawares today is Lenape, when translated means a number of things: "'common', 'ordinary,' or 'real' people." Lenape also means "'a male of our kind,' 'our men,' 'men of the same nation.'" Some evidence suggests that the Lenapes had begun to settle the Upper Ohio Valley as early as the 1680s (Herbert C. Kraft, The Lenape: Archaeology, History, and Ethnography [Newark: New Jersey Historical Society, 1986], xvii; McConnell, A Country, 14).

7. The English translation of Lenapehoking is "'land of the Lenape'" (Kraft, The Lenape, xi).

8. McConnell, A Country, 12-13, 14; Marshall Joseph Becker, "A Summary of Lenape Socio-Political Organization and Settlement Pattern at the Time of European Contact: The Evidence for Collecting Bands," Journal of Middle Atlantic Archaeology 4 (1988): 81; Marshall Joseph Becker, "The Lenape and Other 'Delawarean' Peoples at the Time of European Contact: Population Estimates Derived from Archaeological and Historical Sources," Bulletin-New York State Archaeological Association (spring 1993): 17.

9. Scholars previously labeled the Unalachtigo as the "Jerseys" because they lacked evidence as to how this group identified themselves. The Munsees were also called the Minsis, "people who inhabited the Minisink." The Lenapes were also called the "'Unami'," or "down river people," by the Unalachtigo when the Unalachtigo moved to a location north of the Lenapes (Becker, "The Lenape," 17; Becker, "A Summary," 81).



10. The forks of the Delaware River appeared to be an unclaimed “buffer zone” between the territories claimed by the Munsees and Lenapes (Marshall J. Becker, “The Boundary between the Lenape and Munsee: The Forks of Delaware as a Buffer Zone,” Man in the Northeast [1983]: 14).

11. Marshall Joseph Becker, “Teedyuscung’s Youth and Hereditary Land Rights in New Jersey: The Identification of the Unalachtigo,” Bulletin, Archaeological Society of New Jersey 47 (1992): 37; Becker, “The Lenape,” 16-17; Becker, “A Summary,” 81; Kraft, The Lenape, xiii, xv.

12. Herbert Kraft estimated that the Lenapes averaged forty-five people per one hundred square miles (Kraft, The Lenape, 156).

13. Duane Champagne, “The Delaware Revitalization Movement of the Early 1760s: A Suggested Reinterpretation,” American Indian Quarterly 12 (spring 1988): 110; Becker, “The Lenape,” 20.

14. Kraft, The Lenape, 156; Becker, “The Lenape,” 18, 22.

15. The Shawnees were called approximately 150 different names by different people. Among these were “Sawana” by the Miami and “Shawunogi” by the Fox and Sauk, with the names roughly translating as “‘persons from the south’.” The Iroquois were more hostile by calling the Shawnees “‘Ontwaganha’,” which means “‘those who utter unintelligible speech’.” The Shawnee were called “Chaouanons” by the French and “Shawnee” by the English (Jerry E. Clark, The Shawnee [Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1977], 3; Bil Gilbert, God Gave Us This Country: Tekamthi and the First American Civil War [New York: Athenaeum, 1989], 39).

16. McConnell, A Country, 14-15.

17. A lack of a clear definition of who made up the Shawnee nation complicates the question of their origins. Some evidence suggests that the Shawnees were several distinct tribes who united or were the same tribe who split and settled in different areas, only to reunite later (Clark, The Shawnee, 8).

18. Clark, The Shawnee, 5-6, 10-13; Gilbert, God Gave, 44-45.

19. Paul A. W. Wallace in Indians of Pennsylvania lists the five divisions as “*The-we-gi-la* (Sewickley), *Cha-la-gaw-tha* (Chillicothe), *Pec-ku-we* (Pequea), *Kis-po-go*, and *May-ko-jay*” (author’s italics), (Paul A. W. Wallace, Indians in Pennsylvania, 2nd ed., revised by William A. Hunter, Anthropological Series, no. 5 [Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1981; reprint, Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1991], 119-120).

20. Clark, The Shawnee, 28-30, 32-34; Wallace, Indians, 120; Charles Callender, "Shawnee," in Handbook of North American Indians, ed. William C. Sturtevant, vol. 15, Northeast, ed. Bruce G. Trigger (Washington, DC: Smithsonian Institution, 1978), 623-624.

21. Evidence points to the possibility that the Shawnees had thirty-four totems in the early nineteenth century. Later in the same century, the number of totemic names fell to twelve. A century later, the Shawnees had only six totemic groups. Horse was elk prior to contact with, and the influence of, Europeans (Clark, The Shawnee, 28; Callender, "Shawnee," 626).

22. Clark, The Shawnee, 28-29.

23. McConnell, A Country, 16-18.

24. Wallace, The Death, 21; Jennings, The Ambiguous, 35; Reuben Gold Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit Relations and Allied Documents, vol. 43, Lower Canada, Iroquois: 1656-1657 (Cleveland: Burrows Brothers Company, 1899), 263.

25. Snow, The Iroquois, 55; Nash, Red, 18; Wallace, The Death, 21, 41.

26. Becker, "The Lenape," 21-22; William Penn, "A Letter from William Penn, Proprietary and Governour of Pennsylvania in America, to the Committee of the Free Society of Traders of that Province, residing in London," in Narratives of Early Pennsylvania, West New Jersey, and Delaware, 1630-1707, ed. Albert Cook Myers, Original Narratives of Early American History, ed. J. Franklin Jameson (n. c.: Charles Scribner's Sons, 1912; reprint, New York: Barnes and Noble, 1967), 232.

27. Archaeologists do not have concrete evidence that the Lenapes actually ate rabbits, but they assume that rabbits were part of the Lenape diet. However, written European evidence provides two possible theories as to why the Lenapes did not consume rabbits. In the first, the Lenapes feared that they would catch venereal disease from the rabbits. In the second, the Lenapes believed that they may be related to the rabbits (Kraft, The Lenape, 157-158).

28. New Netherlands' Adriaen van der Donck stated that the buffaloes "mostly keep towards the southwest, where few people go." Based on this statement, buffalo was not a common part of the Lenape diet (Adriaen van der Donck, "A Description of the New Netherlands," trans. Jeremiah Johnson, Collections of the New York Historical Society 2d ser., 1 (1841): 168).

29. Kraft, The Lenape, 154, 156-158; Thomas Yong, "A breife Relation of a Voyage lately made by me Captayne Thomas Yong," in Narratives, 48; Richard S. Dunn and Mary Maples Dunn, ed., The Papers of William Penn, vol. 2, 1680-1684 (n.c.: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1982), 417, 447; Penn, "A Letter," 228-229.

30. Kraft, The Lenape, 154, 156, 158; Peter Lindestrom, Geographia Americae with An Account of the Delaware Indians: Based on Surveys and Notes Made in 1654-1656, trans. and with an introduction by Amandus Johnson (Philadelphia: The Swedish Colonial Society, 1925), 215-216; Ives Goddard, "Delaware," in Handbook, vol. 15, Northeast, 215; Donck, "Description," 209.

31. Adriaen van der Donck referred to the sight of these fires as often "awful to behold." At times, the fire seemed to devour the whole forest. However, "green trees" only had their "outside bark . . . scorched three or four feet high." Occasionally the fires burned buildings and gardens or turned into forest fires when the fire spread to the tops of the trees. (Donck, "A Description, 150-151).

32. According to Charles T. Gehring and William A. Starna, an ell is equal to twenty-seven inches (A Journey into Mohawk and Oneida Country, 1634-1635: The Journal of Harmen Meynderts van den Bogaert, trans. and ed. Charles T. Gehring and William A. Starna [Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1988], 73n).

33. Kraft, The Lenape, 154, 156, 158; David De Vries, "From the 'Korte Historiae Ende Journaels Aenteyckeninge,'" in Narratives, 15; Donck, "A Description," 150; Lindestrom, Geographia, 213-214.

34. Clark, The Shawnee, 39-40, 57; Callender, "Shawnee," 624; Wallace, The Death, 23-24; William N. Fenton, "Northern Iroquoian Culture Patterns," in Handbook, vol. 15, Northeast, 298; A Journey, 4, 6; Arthur T. Adams, ed., The Explorations of Pierre Esprit Radisson (Minneapolis: Ross and Haines, 1961), 11, 13, 29; Louis Hennepin, A Description of Louisiana, trans. John Gilmary Shea, March of America Facsimile Series (1880; reprint, Ann Arbor: University Microfilms, 1966), 76.

35. Kraft, The Lenape, 129, 130, 143-145; Donck, "A Description," 194; John Heckewelder, History, Manners, and Customs of the Indian Nations who Once Inhabited Pennsylvania and the Neighboring States, 2nd ed., with an introduction by William C. Reichel, Memoirs of the Historical Society of Pennsylvania, vol. 12, The First American Frontier, ed. Dale Van Every (1876; reprint, New York: Arno Press and New York Times, 1971), 202, 205, A Journey, 5.

36. Kraft, The Lenape, 129, 130, 143-145; Lindestrom, Geographia, 199; Francis Daniel Pastorius, "Circumstantial Geographical Description of Pennsylvania," in Narratives, 384; Donck, "Description," 195-196.

37. Clark, The Shawnee, 39-40, 45-46.

38. Snow, The Iroquois, 92-93; Hennepin, A Description, 76-77.

39. Herbert C. Kraft, "Of Fish, Nets, and Sinkers," Bulletin, Archaeological Society of New Jersey 47 (1992): 11; Kraft, The Lenape, 151-152; Gabriel Thomas, "An Historical and Geographical Account of the Province and Country of Pensilvania; and of West-New-Jersey in America," in Narratives, 321; De Vries, "From," 25; Dunn and Dunn, ed., The Papers, vol. 2, 417.
40. Kraft, "Of Fish," 11-13; Lindestrom, Geographia, 219-220; Kraft, The Lenape, 152-153.
41. Clark, The Shawnee, 39-40, 57; Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit, vol. 43, 261.
42. Adriaen van der Donck of New Netherlands also referred to maize as "turkey-corn" (Donck, "Description," 208).
43. Becker, "The Lenape," 21-22; Penn, "A Letter," 232.
44. Hard white corn was also known as "'glass'" corn (Clark, The Shawnee, 40).
45. Clark, The Shawnee, 40, 57; Gilbert, God Gave, 5.
46. Trigger, The Children, vol. 1, 32; Wallace, The Death, 23-24; Fenton, "Northern," 299; W. L. Grant, ed., Voyages of Samuel de Champlain, 1604-1618, Original Narratives of Early American History, ed. J. Franklin Jameson (n.c.: Charles Scribner's Sons, 1907; reprint, New York: Barnes and Noble, 1959), 166; Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit, vol. 43, 257; A Journey, 4.
47. Lindestrom claimed that grapes grew so prolifically that he "found a grape-vine which was two ells thick" (Lindestrom, Geographia, 178).
48. Thomas, "An Historical," 322-323; Lindestrom, Geographia, 177-178; Israel Acrelius, "From the 'Account of the Swedish Churches in New Sweden,'" in Narratives, 73; Donck, "Description," 153.
49. Clark, The Shawnee, 41-42.
50. Fenton, "Northern," 298-299; Wallace, The Death, 24; Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit, vol. 43, 257, 259.
51. Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit, vol. 43, 259; Adams, ed., The Explorations, 6.
52. Wallace, The Death, 23.
53. Lindestrom, Geographia, 253-254; Pastorius, "Circumstantial," 384; Donck, "Description," 192-193.
54. Lindestrom, Geographia, 253-254; Penn, "A Letter," 232; Donck, "Description," 193.

55. Grant, ed., Voyages, 166; Lindestrom, Geographia, 253-254; Pastorius, "Circumstantial," 384; Donck, "Description," 192-193, "Narrative," 141-142; Adams, ed., The Explorations, 4, 12, 37, 69.
56. Peter Lindestrom claimed that the Lenapes did not use shelter during the summer months but would "sing with the rabbit," or sleep under a tree (Lindestrom, Geographia, 211, 211n).
57. C. A. Weslager, The Delaware Indians: A History (n.c.: n.p., 1972, reprint, New Brunswick: Rutgers University Press, 1989), 50; Lindestrom, Geographia, 211, 211n; Penn, "The Letter," 232; Pastorius, "Circumstantial," 384; Donck, "Description," 196.
58. Wallace, The Death, 22-23; Peter Nabokov and Dean Snow, "Farmers of the Woodlands," in America in 1492: The World of the Indian Peoples Before the Arrival of Columbus, ed. Alvin M. Josephy, Jr. (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1992), 129; A Journey, 4, 6.
59. Clark, The Shawnee, 42-45.
60. Gladys Tantaquidgeon, A Study of Delaware Indian Medicine Practice and Folk Beliefs (Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical Commission, 1942), 24-34; Virgil J. Vogel, American Indian Medicine (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1970; reprint, Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1982), 7-8; Lindestrom, Geographia, 186, 239-241; Thomas, "An Historical," 323.
61. Tantaquidgeon, A Study, 24-34; Lindestrom, Geographia, 186, 239-241.
62. Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit, vol. 43, 153, 259; A Journey, 6.
63. Kraft, The Lenape, 161, 163-165.
64. Kishilemukong translates as "'Our Creator' or 'He who creates us by his thoughts'" (Kraft, The Lenape, 162).
65. Kraft, The Lenape, 161, 163-166; Lindestrom, Geographia, 214-215.
66. The ten animals included deer, bear, dog, birds, wolf, buffalo, raccoon, turtle, turkey, and crow (Callender, "Shawnee," 628).
67. Gilbert, God Gave, 34-37, 49; Callender, "Shawnee," 628.
68. Wallace, The Death, 50-51, 58.
69. Clark, The Shawnee, 30-31, 38; Nash, Red, 18-21; Kraft, The Lenape, 131.
70. Clark, The Shawnee, 29-30, 36; Nash, Red, 18-19; Wallace, The Death, 29, 41; Kraft, The Lenape, 134.

71. Nash, Red, 23; Thwaites, ed., The Jesuit, vol. 43, 271; Adams, ed., The Explorations, 9; A Journey, 4; Thomas, "An Historical," 316; Lindestrom, Geographia, 234.

72. Dunn and Dunn, ed., The Papers, vol. 2, 450.

73. The same loss of cultural identity occurred to the Catawbas. (James H. Merrell, The Indians' New World: Catawbas and Their Neighbors from European Contact through the Era of Removal [n.c.: University of North Carolina Press, 1989, reprint, New York: W. W. Norton, 1991], 92, 94).

74. Barry C. Kent, Janet Rice, and Kakuko Ota, "A Map of 18th Century Indian Towns in Pennsylvania," Pennsylvania Archaeologist 51 (1981): 9; "The Journal of Conrad Weiser Esqr., Indian Interpreter to Ohio," in CR, vol. 5 (Harrisburg: Theo. Fenn and Company, 1851), 349.

75. The Iroquois and Lenapes did not completely ignore water routes, but the rivers did not meet their needs. The Susquehanna River was often too shallow for navigation, and the west branch of the Susquehanna and the Juniata River only allowed access to the Eastern Continental Divide. Once over the mountains they used the Ohio and Allegheny rivers (Wallace, Indians, 41).

76. Wallace, Indians, 42, 45.

77. Wallace, Indians, 42, 44; Clark, The Shawnee, 60-61.

78. J. E. Wright and Doris S. Corbett, Pioneer Life in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1940), 177-178; Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1939), 233-234.

79. Baron Rosenthal ("John Rose"), Journal of a Volunteer Expedition to Sandusky, Eyewitness Accounts of the American Revolution (1894; reprint, New York Times and Arno Press, 1969), 139, 142, 143, 144, 146.

80. Wallace, Indians, 30, 42, 44-45; Wright and Corbett, Pioneer Life, 176; Rosenthal, Journal, 140, 144.

81. Wallace, Indians, 30, 42, 44-45; William Penn, William Penn's Own Account of the Lenni Lenape or Delaware Indians, ed. and with an introduction by Albert Cook Myers, with a foreword by John E. Pomfret, rev. ed. (Somerset, NJ: Middle Atlantic Press, 1970), 27; Adams, ed., The Explorations, 3, 30.

82. Michael N. McConnell, "Kuskusky Towns and Early Western Pennsylvania Indian History, 1748-1778," PMHB 116 (January 1992): 34-35, 40; McConnell, A Country, 21-23; Kent et al., "A Map," 8-11.

83. Wyandots also built a Kuskusky town. Iroquois, presumably Senecas, also settled at Kuskusky (Kent et al., "A Map," 9; McConnell, "Kuskusky," 33-38).
84. McConnell, A Country, 5, 19, 22-23; Wallace, Indians, 2; Kent et al., "A Map," 8-11; Wallace, Indians, 173.
85. Wallace, Indians, 32-33, 36-37; Buck and Buck, The Planting, 33-35; Anthony F. C. Wallace, ed., "Halliday Jackson's Journal to the Seneca Indians," Pennsylvania History 19 (1952): 134; John Heckewelder, History, 193.
86. Nicholas Cresswell, The Journal of Nicholas Cresswell, 1774-1777 (New York: Dial Press, 1924), 105, 107.
87. Heckewelder, History, 196.
88. Wallace, Indians, 33-34; John Jakle, Salt and the Initial Settlement of the Ohio Valley (Ann Arbor, MI: University Microfilms, 1967), 70-72, 126, 212; Rosenthal, Journal, 140, 147; Thomas Proctor, "Col. Proctor's Journal," in PA, ed. John B. Linn and William H. Egle, 2d ser., vol. 4 (Harrisburg: E. K. Meyers, 1890), 474.
89. Cresswell, The Journal, 109.
90. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 32-33; Wallace, Indians, 21-22; Wallace, The Death, 152; Griffith Evans, "Notes and Documents: Journal of Griffith Evans, 1784-1785," PMHB 65 (1941): 231; Heckewelder, History, 202-203; Cresswell, The Journal, 120-121.
91. John Bierhorst, in Mythology of the Lenape, noted that despite the passing of three hundred years and being displaced a number of times, Lenapes retained fragments of their religion from their traditional home in the Delaware River Valley even today.
92. They felt an obligation to owls because an owl alerted a village of a sneak attack by an enemy during a war (Heckewelder, History, 212-213).
93. Heckewelder, History, 211-213; Cresswell, The Journal, 121; Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 (July 1960): 297, 299, 313; Wallace, The Death, 57-58; Wallace, ed., "Halliday," 135.
94. The Lenapes, who eventually settled in Oklahoma, used local vegetation from that region, such as cactus and prickly pear, as medicine. These plants provide another example of how Lenapes supplemented their existing system to meet new needs in their new environment as they moved westward (Glenn McCartlin and James Rementer, "Some Additional Lenape Indian Medicines," Bulletin-Archaeological Society of New Jersey, no. 40 [1986]: 18, 19).
95. John Bierhorst, Mythology of the Lenape: Guide and Texts (Tucson: University of Arizona Press, 1995), 5; Buck and Buck, The Planting, 14.

96. Cresswell, The Journal, 117.
97. Nash, Red, 29-31.
98. These numbers were consistent with another population total provided by Weiser in his journal of 1748. Weiser recorded 162 Shawnee warriors, giving them a population ranging from 486 to 810. The Lenapes had 163 warriors, with an estimated population of 489 to 815 ("The Journal," CR, vol. 5, 351).
99. Abraham H. Cassell, comp., "Notes on the Iroquois and Delaware Indians: Communications from Conrad Weiser to Christopher Saur," trans. Helen Bell, PMHB 1 (1877): 323; 2 (1878): 407; Wallace, The Death, 21.
100. Dean Snow referred to Mingos as Iroquois who lived in the Ohio Valley without distinguishing specific tribes (Snow, The Iroquois, 141).
101. Jennings, Empire, 26-27; "The Journal of Christian Frederick Post," in EWT, ed. Reuben Gold Thwaites, vol. 1, Journals of Conrad Weiser (1748), George Croghan (1750-1765), Christian Frederick Post (1758), and Thomas Morris (1764) (New York: AMS Press, 1966), 273.
102. Wallace, Indian, 29, 90, 124; Goddard, "Delaware," 229-230.
103. Weslager, The Delaware, 210-212, 285, 291.
104. James Wood, "Diary 1775," in The Revolution on the Upper Ohio, 1775-1777, ed. Reuben Gold Thwaites and Louise Phelps Kellogg, Kennikat American Bicentennial Series, ed. Ralph Adams Brown (n.c.: n.p., 1908; reprint, Port Washington, NY: Kennikat Press, 1970) 63-64; Cresswell, The Journal, 106-107.

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1. Douglas Edward Leach, The Northern Colonial Frontier, 1607-1763, Histories of the American Frontier, ed. Ray Allen Billington (New York: Holt, Rinehart and Winston, 1966), 163.
2. Gary B. Nash, Red, White, and Black: The Peoples of Early North America, 4th ed. (Upper Saddle River, NJ: Prentice Hall, 2000), 42, 76, 80, 85, 102, 131, 241; Randolph C. Downes, Council Fires on the Upper Ohio: A Narrative of Indian Affairs in the Upper Ohio Valley until 1795 (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1940; reprint, Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1989), 19-20.



3. Francis Jennings, Empire of Fortune (New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1988; reprint, New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1990), 23; Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1939), 55-57; Leach, The Northern, 163-164, 196-197; W. Stitt Robinson, The Southern Colonial Frontier, 1607-1763, Histories of the American Frontier, ed. Ray Allen Billington (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1979), 205.

4. Fred Anderson, Crucible of War: The Seven Years' War and the Fate of Empire in British North America, 1754-1766 (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 2000), 11-12, 24, 32, 36-37; Francis Jennings, The Ambiguous Iroquois Empire (New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1984), 195, 207; Benjamin W. Labaree, America's Nation-Time: 1607-1789 (n.c.: Allyn and Bacon, 1972; reprint, New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1976), 144-145; Nash, Red, 211, 226.

5. Jennings, The Ambiguous, 282-283; Donald H. Kent, The French Invasion of Western Pennsylvania, 1753 (Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1954; reprint, Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1991), 4.

6. Kent, The French, 4.

7. Halifax's list of forts included St. Joseph, St. Ignace, Detroit, Toronto, Cadaracqui, Chambli, Sorell, Niagara, and Crown Point ("Halifax on French Encroachments," 15 August 1753, in Anglo-French Boundary Disputes in the West, 1749-1763, ed. and with an introduction by Theodore Calvin Pease, French ser., vol. 2, Collections of the Illinois State Historical Library, vol. 27 [Springfield, IL: Illinois State Historical Library, 1936], 43).

8. "Halifax," 42-44; Jennings, Empire, 12; Anderson, Crucible, 32, 36-37.

9. Kent, The French, 3-4; M. Le Marquis de la Galissoniere, "Memoir of La Galissoniere," in Anglo-French, 6, 14.

10. Jennings, Empire, 17, 36; Kent, The French, 6; Nash, Red, 250; Galissoniere, "Memoir," 1, 5, 7-11.

11. Wallace, The Death, 113; Kent, The French, 6-7; "Canada-1749: Journal of the Campaign," in Fort Pitt and Letters from the Frontier, ed. Mary C. Darlington, The First American Frontier, ed. Dale Van Every, (1892; reprint, New York: Arno Press and New York Times, 1971), 9, 15.

12. "Canada-1749," 25, 25n, 26-28, 28n.

13. Kent, The French, 7-9; "Canada-1749," 18-19.

14. "Canada-1749," 18-19.

15. Downes, Council, 20-21, 64; Jennings, Empire, 14-15; “Minute on French Policy,” 28 September 1751, in Anglo-French, 21.

16. The forts included Presque Isle, Le Boeuf, and Venango. See Donald Kent’s The French Invasion of Western Pennsylvania for the details of building these forts.

17. Jennings, Empire, 17, 37, 53, 65; Kent, The French, 11, 13, 27, 53-54, 69, 81.

18. Sir John St. Clair to the Governours of the Respective Provinces, 14 January 1755; James Delancey, New York, to Sir John St. Clair, 3 February 1755; Rob<sup>t</sup>. H. Morris, Philadelphia, to Sir John St. Clair, 17 February 1755, Letterbook of Sir John St. Clair, Deputy Quartermaster General, 12 January 1755 - 28 December 1756, Box 1, John Forbes Papers, 1755-1759, Accession #10034, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA.

19. Sir John St. Clair, Williamsburgh, to Major General Braddock, 9 February 1755, Letterbook of Sir John St. Clair; John Fraser, “A List of Guides Employed in His Majesties Service,” Box 7, John Forbes Papers.

20. Celeron de Blainville’s 1749 expedition seemed to confirm Hart’s statement. They departed Lachine, near Montreal, on 15 June and did not reach the Chautauqua portage in western New York until 15 July (“Canada-1749,” 9-11).

21. “Intelligence from John Hart of Lancaster, of Indian Trade,” 25 May 1757, Box 1; “Intelligence received from John Hochstattler,” 5 May 1758, Box 3, John Forbes Papers.

22. Kent, The French, 4.

23. This charter reflected two basic issues of the time. Europeans had limited knowledge of America. James I also wanted to claim as much territory as he could before other European nations took action.

24. Jennings, Empire, 10; “The Treaty of Lancaster, 1744,” VMHB 13 (July 1905): 141-142.

25. “At a Council held November the Second 1749,” in EJ, vol. 5, November 1, 1739 - May 7, 1754, Wilmer L. Hall, ed. (Richmond: Virginia State Library, 1945), 306.

26. Thomas Lee, Stratford, to Conrad Weiser, at his hous in Lancaster County, 11 December 1748; Thomas Lee, Stratford, to Conrad Weiser, Heidelberg, 13 February 1747/8, Thomas Lee, Letters, 1744-1750, Accession #883, Special Collections Department, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA.

27. Lee to Weiser, 11 December 1748; Thomas Lee, Stratford, to Conrad Weiser, Hidelburg, 14 May 1748, Thomas Lee, Letters.

28. “The Treaty of Logg’s Town, 1752,” VMHB 13 (July 1905): 149.

29. Jennings, Empire, 14-15; Lee to Weiser, 14 May 1748, Thomas Lee, Letters.
30. Jennings, Empire, 60-64; "Instructions from Robert Dinwiddie," 30 October 1753, in The Papers of George Washington, eds. W. W. Abbot And Dorothy Twohig, Colonial ser., vol. 1, 1748 - August 1755 (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1983), 60-61.
31. Anderson, Crucible, 37-38; Downes, Council, 63; Holderness, Whitehall, to Governor Hamilton, 28 August 1753, in MPC, vol. 5 (Harrisburg: Theo. Fenn and Company, 1851), 689-690.
32. "By the Hon<sup>ble</sup> Robert Dinwiddie Esq<sup>r</sup>: A Proclamation," in EJ, vol. 5, 499-500.
33. *Ibid.*, 499-500.
34. "William Blathwayt's Draft of the Charter of Pennsylvania," in The Papers of William Penn, ed. Richard S. Dunn and Mary Maples Dunn, vol. 2, 1680-1684 (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1982), 64.
35. Jennings, Empire, 92-93.
36. Jennings, Empire, 10-13; "List of Early Land Patents and Grants," VMHB 5 (January 1898): 241; Lois Mulkearn, ed., George Mercer Papers Relating to the Ohio Company of Virginia (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1954), 1-3.
37. Alfred Procter James, The Ohio Company: Its Inner History (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1959), 17.
38. Lee to Weiser, 11 December 1748; Thomas Lee, Stratford, to Conrad Weiser, Hidelburg, 27 February 1749/50, Thomas Lee, Letters.
39. Mulkearn, ed., George Mercer, 5; "At a Council held March 3<sup>d</sup> 1752," "At a Council held October 27<sup>th</sup> 1753," in EJ, vol. 5, 376, 443; Donald Jackson and Dorothy Twohig, ed., The Diaries of George Washington, vol. 1, 1748-65 (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1976), 127n.
40. Julian P. Boyd, ed., The Susquehannah Company Papers, vol. 1, 1750-1755 (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1930; reprint, Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1962), lviii, 1.
41. *Ibid.*, lix-lxi, 28-29, 50-51.
42. "Governor Hamilton's Letter to the Governor of Connecticut, 4 March 1754," in CR, vol. 5 (Harrisburg: Theo. Fenn and Company, 1851), 768-771.
43. *Ibid.*, 768, 770.

44. Tench Francis, "Case for the Attorney General, 18th March, 1754," in MPC, vol. 5, 774-775.
45. "His Honour . . .," in MPC, vol. 5, 775; James Hamilton, Philadelphia, to William Johnson, Esquire, 20 March 1754, in MPC, vol. 5, 775-777.
46. James Axtell, Beyond 1492: Encounters in Colonial North America (New York: Oxford University Press, 1992), 31-32.
47. "Halifax," 43.
48. "At a Council held October 22<sup>d</sup> 1753," in EJ, vol. 5, 442-443.
49. Kent, The French, 6-10; "Canada-1749," 15.
50. Located at the western end of Lake Ontario ("Canada-1749," 10n.).
51. Wallace, The Death, 114; "Canada-1749," 10, 36; Sir John St. Clair, Williamsburgh, to Henry Fox, 11 February 1755, Letterbook of Sir John St. Clair, John Forbes Papers; 14 June 1763, "H. Bouquet, Philad<sup>a</sup>, to Cap<sup>t</sup> Ecuyer," in History of Col. Henry Bouquet and the Western Frontiers of Pennsylvania, 1747-1764, ed. Mary C. Darlington, *The First American Frontier*, ed. Dale Van Every (n.c.: n.p., 1920; reprint, Arno Press and New York Times, 1971), 159.
52. Thomas Lee, Williamsburg, to Conrad Weiser, Hidelburg, 22 April 1746; Thomas Lee, Stratford, to Conrad Weiser, Hidelburg, 6 June 1746, Thomas Lee, Letters; 12 March 1754, "Governor Dinwiddie to Lord Holderness," in The Official Records of Robert Dinwiddie, Lieutenant-Governor of the Colony of Virginia, 1751-1758, with an introduction by R. A. Brock, vol. 1 (1883; reprint; New York: AMS Press, 1971), 95; "Canada-1749," 10.
53. Jennings, The Ambiguous, 297; Jennings, Empire, 29-30; Michael N. McConnell, "Kuskusky Towns and Early Western Pennsylvania Indian History, 1748-1778," PMHB 66 (January 1992): 40.
54. Kent, The French, 47-49.
55. Jackson and Twohig, ed., The Diaries, vol. 1, 135-137.
56. While the Senecas fought with France in the West, the Mohawk nation of the Iroquois Confederacy fought with the British in New York (Wallace, The Death, 114).
57. Downes, Council, 75-78.
58. *Ibid.*, 88-92.
59. "Account of News delivered by a Indian," 6 May 1758, Box 3, John Forbes Papers.

60. Wallace, The Death, 114-117; McConnell, A Country, 161-163, 166-168, 171, 234; [Article] IV, The definitive Treaty of Peace and Friendship between his Britannick Majesty, the Most Christian King, and the King of Spain. Concluded at Paris the 10th day of February, 1763. To which the King of Portugal acceded on the same day, Major Documents Collection, The Avalon Project, Yale Law School, New Haven, CT, 1 June 2001 <<http://www.yale.edu/lawweb/avalon/paris763.htm>>; Nicholas B. Wainwright, ed., "George Croghan's Journal, 1759-1763," PMHB 71 (October 1947): 403.

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1. James Axtell, The Invasion Within: The Contest of Cultures in Colonial North America, The Cultural Origins of North America (New York: Oxford University Press, 1985; reprint, New York: Oxford University Press, 1986), 302-305.

2. Albert T. Volwiler, George Croghan and the Westward Movement, 1741-1782 (Cleveland: Arthur H. Clark Company, 1926), 23; Paul A. W. Wallace, Conrad Weiser: Friend of Colonist and Mohawk (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1945), 3-5, 10; Kenneth P. Bailey, Thomas Cresap, Maryland Frontiersman (Boston: Christopher Publishing House, 1944), 21, 26-30.

3. Kenneth P. Bailey, "Christopher Gist and the Trans-Allegheny Frontier: A Phase of the Westward Movement," Pacific Historical Review 14 (March 1945): 46-47; David B. Trimble, "Christopher Gist and Settlement on the Monongahela, 1752-1754," VMHB 63 (January 1955): 15; Douglas Southall Freeman, George Washington: A Biography, vol. 1, Young Washington (New York: Charles Scribner's Sons, 1948), 41, 46, 73-75.

4. Newton D. Mereness, ed., Travels in the American Colonies (New York: Macmillan Company, 1916), 457-458; Peter D. Keyser, ed., "Memorials of Col. Jehu Eyre," PMHB 3 (1879): 296-297; Thomas Hutchins, "Western Pennsylvania in 1760: A Journal of a March from Fort Pitt to Venango, and from Thence to Presqu' Isle," PMHB 2 (1878): 149.

5. Apparently at least the buffalo tongue was to be eaten on the move, since Gist said that it was cut out "to carry with Us."

6. "The Journal of Christian Frederick Post," in Early Western Travels, 1748-1846, ed. Reuben Gold Thwaites, vol. 1, Journals of Conrad Weiser (1748), George Croghan (1750-1765), Christian Frederick Post (1758), and Thomas Morris (1764) (New York: AMS Press, 1966), 248; William M. Darlington, ed. Christopher Gist's Journals (Pittsburgh: J. R. Weldin and Company, 1893), 33, 35, 60, 72; James Glen, Camp at Reas Town, to [Forbes], 8 August 1758, Box 6, John Forbes Papers, 1755-1759, Accession #10034, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA.

7. Glen to [Forbes], 8 August 1758, John Forbes Papers; Keyser, ed., "Memorials," 302, 303.

8. This was one of two established sites where the Shawnees built temporary shelter for travelers along the Raystown and Frankstown paths (George P. Donehoo, Indian Villages and Place Names in Pennsylvania [Harrisburg: Telegraph Press, 1928; reprint, Baltimore: Gateway Press, Inc. for Pine Creek Historian, 1995], 197-198.).

9. Shannopin's Town was located along the Allegheny River, near the confluence of the Allegheny and Monongahela rivers (Donehoo, Indian, 190).

10. "The Journal of Conrad Weiser Esqr., Indian Interpreter to Ohio," in CR, vol. 5 (Harrisburg: Theo. Fenn and Company, 1851), 348; "The Journal," vol. 1, 248; Darlington, ed. Christopher Gist's, 33.

11. Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 72-73, 76-77.

12. James H. Merrell, Into the American Woods (New York: W. W. Norton, 1999; reprint, New York: W. W. Norton, 2000), 128-129; Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 84; "The Journal," vol. 1, 248.

13. "Journal of Frederick Post's Journey from Philadelphia to Wioming, June the 20th, 1758," in CR, vol. 8 (Harrisburg: Theo. Fenn and Company, 1852), 142-143; "The Journal," vol. 5, 348; Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 80-82; John C. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Writings of George Washington, vol. 1, 1745-1756 (Washington: United States Government Printing Office, 1931), 28.

14. "The Journal," vol. 5, 348, 350; Keyser, ed., "Memorials," 301.

15. Gist's journal stated that they met "an Indian," while Washington's said that they met "a Party of French Indians." Since only one shot was taken, and a battle did not follow, there was probably only one Indian.

16. Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 84-86; Fitzpatrick, ed., The Writings, vol. 1, 29-30.

17. Beatty, The Journal, 18.

18. "The Journal," vol. 5, 348; "Conrad Weiser's Journal of a Tour to the Ohio, August 11 - October 2, 1748," in EWT, vol. 1, 44n; Keyser, ed., "Memorials," 300, 303.

19. "Minutes of the Provincial Council," "Instructions for Mr. Frederick Post," in CR, vol. 8, 148, 470; "The Journal of Christian Frederick Post, on a Message from the Governor of Pennsylvania, to the Indians on the Ohio, in the latter Part of the Same Year," in EWT, vol. 1, 239.

20. "The Journal," vol. 1, 234, 239, 249.

21. Logg's Town was located on the Ohio River, approximately eighteen miles from the confluence of the Allegheny and Monongahela rivers (Donehoo, Indian, 93).

22. "A Treaty with the Indians of the Six Nations, Delawares, Shawonese, Owendatts and Twightwees, 28 May 1751," in CR, vol. 5, 530-532; "George Croghan, Esq'rs. Journal of Transactions with the Indians at Fort Pitt," in CR, vol. 9 (Harrisburg: Theo. Fenn and Company, 1852), 257.

23. "The Journal," vol. 5, 348-349; "The Journal," vol. 1, 279, 280.

24. "Treaty of Logg's Town," 157; "The Journal," vol. 5, 351-352, 358.

25. "Mr. Croghan presented to the Board a Narrative of his proceedings at Ohio," in CR, vol. 5, 287-288; "An Account of the Proceedings of George Croghan, Esquire, and Mr. Andrew Montour at Ohio," in CR, vol. 5, 536.

26. Merrell, Into, 256-257; "An Account," vol. 5, 531; "Croghan's Journal, 1754," in EWT, vol. 1, 76; Nicholas B. Wainwright, ed., "George Croghan's Journal, 1759-1763," PMHB 71 (October 1947): 317, 323, 327, 329, 337.

27. Christopher Gist, Winchester, to John St. Clair, 1 July 1758, Box 5, John Forbes Papers.

28. Gary B. Nash, Red, White, and Black: The Peoples of Early North America, 4th ed. (Upper Saddle River, NJ: Prentice Hall, 2000), 242; Peter C. Mancall, Deadly Medicine: Indians and Alcohol in Early America (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1995), 48-49; "The Journal," vol. 5, 350-351; Wainwright, ed., "George Croghan's," 316.

29. In Deadly Medicine, Peter Mancall emphasized that alcohol abuse was common throughout the colonies for whites and Indians, so the problem was not isolated to the Indians. See the first chapter on drinking during the late colonial period, pages 11-28, and the "Prologue" for an examination of alcoholism among Indians, pages 1-9.

30. Weiser estimated that one could live among the Indians for thirty years and not see a fight. This was an exaggeration, but it did emphasize the negative impact of alcohol on Indian society (Abraham Cassell, comp., "Notes on the Iroquois and Delaware Indians: Communications from Conrad Weiser to Christopher Saur," trans. Helen Bell, PMHB 1 (1877): 322.).

31. Cassell, comp., "Notes," 322-323, Mancall, Deadly, 27; Nash, Red, 242-244.

32. This was just three days after Weiser supplied the Indians with liquor.

33. Anthony F. C. Wallace, The Death and Rebirth of the Seneca (New York: Random House, 1969; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1972), 199; "Journal," vol. 8, 144; "The Journal," vol. 5, 351-352.

34. "Croghan's Journal," vol. 1, 72-76; "Indian Intelligence, Mr. Thompson, Mr. Post." 16 June 1758, Box 4, John Forbes Papers.
35. Randolph C. Downes, Council Fires on the Upper Ohio: A Narrative of Indian Affairs in the Upper Ohio Valley until 1795 (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1940; reprint, Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1989), 21-22; Mancall, Deadly, 13; "The Journal," vol. 5, 357; "Mr. Croghan," vol. 5, 288-289.
36. "The Journal," vol. 5, 352; "Indian Intelligence," 16 June 1758, John Forbes Papers.
37. "Treaty of Logg's Town," 147-148, 160-161.
38. Montour was of Iroquois and French descent. He worked for Pennsylvania and Virginia (Francis Jennings, Empire of Fortune [New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1988; reprint, New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1990], 38.
39. Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 34-35.
40. "Journal of Moses Titamy," 1758, Jun. 27-July 14, Box 4, John Forbes Papers.
41. Michael N. McConnell, "Kuskusky Towns and Early Western Pennsylvania Indian History, 1748-1778," PMHB 116 (January 1992): 40-41; "The Journal," vol. 5, 349, 358.
42. "The Journal," vol. 5, 349-350.
43. *Ibid.*, 351-352.
44. Merrell, Into, 242; "Post's Journal," vol. 1, 240.
45. Jackson and Twohig, ed., The Diaries, vol. 1, 127-128, 130.
46. Scarouady, also known as Monacatoocha, was an Oneida chief who represented the Iroquois to the Shawnees. He became the half-king after the death of Tanaghrisson in 1754. Shingas was a Lenape chief (C. Hale Sipe, The Indian Chiefs of Pennsylvania, with an introduction by George P. Donehoo [Butler, PA: n.p., 1927; reprint, Lewisburg, PA: Wennawoods Publishing, 1997], 213, 218, 287).
47. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Writings, vol. 1, 24-26; Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 81; Jennings, Empire, 60-62; Jackson and Twohig, ed., The Diaries, vol. 1, 132-133, 140-143.
48. Darlington, ed., Christopher Gist's, 82-83; Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 1, 26-27.
49. Butterfield, ed., Christopher Gist's, 31, 36, 42, 55-56.
50. Hutchins, "Western," 149-152; "The Journal," vol. 1, 245-246.



51. Volwiler, George Croghan, 117-121, 236, 254-259, 283; David B. Trimble, "Christopher Gist and the Indian Service in Virginia," VMHB 64 (April 1956): 143-147.
52. Wainwright, George Croghan, 307; Volwiler, George Croghan, 332-333; Joseph S. Walton, Conrad Weiser and the Indian Policy of Colonial Pennsylvania (Philadelphia: George W. Jacobs and Company, 1900), 385-390; Wallace, Conrad Weiser, 572-573.
53. Douglas Southall Freeman, George Washington: A Biography, vol. 1, Young Washington (New York: Charles Scribner's Sons, 1948), 266; Freeman, George, vol. 3, Planter and Patriot, 1-2, 20-21; Roy Bird Cook, Washington's Western Lands (Strasburg, VA: Shenandoah Publishing House, Inc., 1930), 137-138.
54. C. W. Butterfield, ed., The Washington-Crawford Letters (Cincinnati: Robert Clarke and Company, 1877), 3-4; Cook, Washington's, 128.
55. "Croghan to General Gage, 3 June 1767, Fort Pitt," in George Croghan's Journal, 15-16.
56. "Washington to Presley Neville, 16 June 1794," in The Washington-Crawford Letters, 81-82; Cook, Washington's, 128.
57. Butterfield, ed., The Washington-Crawford, x-xi; Trimble, "Christopher Gist," 164-165.
58. The exact year of Cresap's death is also unknown (Bailey, Thomas Cresap, 27-28).
59. Bailey, Thomas Cresap, 94, 114-115, 163-164, "Last Will and Testament of Thomas Cresap," in Bailey, Thomas Cresap, 214-217.

#### Endnotes for Chapter 4

1. Jos. Boyd, Journal "on a Journey to the Westward," May 2 -June 30, 1808, Box 1, Manuscript Group Number 6, Diaries and Journals Collection, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg.
2. Phelps and Gorham received the right to negotiate with the Senecas from Massachusetts, after compromising with New York over ownership of the territory. Both states claimed the region based on their colonial charters. They solved the dilemma at the 1786 Hartford Convention. (Barbara A. Chernow, "Robert Morris: Genesee Land Speculator," New York History 58 [1977]: 198-199).

3. Morris continued under obligation to negotiate the terms with the Senecas. He needed funds to avoid debtors' prison, because of debt accumulated over land speculation. (Anthony F. C. Wallace, The Death and Rebirth of the Seneca [New York: Random House, 1969; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1972], 179-180).

4. Wallace, The Death, 153-154, 179-183; Chernow, "Robert," 199, 207; Art[icle] 1, Articles of a treaty made at Fort Harmar, the ninth day of January, in the year of our Lord one thousand seven hundred and eighty-nine, Major Documents Collection, The Avalon Project, Yale Law School, New Haven, CT, 16 June 2001 <<http://www.yale.edu/lawweb/avalon/major.htm>>; Article III, A Treaty between the United States of America, and the Tribes of Indians called the Six Nations, Major Documents Collection, The Avalon Project, Yale Law School, New Haven, CT, 16 June 2001 <<http://www.yale.edu/lawweb/avalon/major.htm>>.

5. Randolph C. Downes, Council Fires on the Upper Ohio: A Narrative of Indian Affairs in the Upper Ohio Valley until 1795 (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1940; reprint, Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1989), 294, 296-297, 336-337; Wallace, The Death, 154, 162; Art[icle] 3, Treaty of Greenville 1795, Major Documents Collection, The Avalon Project, Yale Law School, New Haven, CT, 18 June 2001 <<http://www.yale.edu/lawweb/avalon/major.htm>>.

6. William A. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's 'Journal of the time I spent in Stony creek glades,' 1793-1794," PMHB 104 (April 1980): 170; W. Short, Paris, to Peyton Short, Lexington, Kentucky, 19 December 1801, William and Peyton Short Papers, Manuscripts and Rare Books Department, Swem Library, The College of William and Mary in Virginia.

7. Rhys Isaac, The Transformation of Virginia, 1740-1790 (Chapel Hill: The University of North Carolina Press, 1982), 311; "Extracts from the Journal of Arthur Lee," in Richard Henry Lee, Life of Arthur Lee, vol. 2, Select Bibliographies Reprint Series (1829; reprint, Freeport, NY: Books for Libraries Press, 1969), 385-386; 2, 3, 4, 5 May 1788, Journal of Genl Joseph Buell, Ohio Historical Papers, Hildreth Collection, vol. 2 Columbus: Columbus Microfilm, 1956), West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries; Dwight L. Smith, ed., The Western Journals of John May (Cincinnati: Historical and Philosophical Society of Ohio, 1961), 39; The Pennsylvania Gazette 5 November 1788, Item #75307, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 9 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>.

8. R. Douglas Hurt, The Ohio Frontier: Crucible of the Old Northwest, 1720-1830 (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1996), 375; Peyton Short, Woodford County, to William Short, 15 Nov<sup>r</sup> 1804, William and Peyton Short Papers; Josiah Espy, "A Tour in Ohio, Kentucky and Indiana Territory, in 1805," in Miscellanies, Ohio Valley Historical Series, no. 7 (Cincinnati: Robert Clark and Company, 1871), 22-23.

9. "Historical, Social, Economic and Demographic Data: From the US Decennial Census," <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/cgi-local/censubin/census>> (12 July 2000).

10. Thomas Ashe, Travels in America, Performed in the Year 1806, for the Purpose of Exploring the Rivers Alleghany, Monongahela, Ohio, and Mississippi, and Ascertaining the Produce and Condition of Their Banks and Vicinity (London: for Richard Phillips by B. McMillan, 1809), 7.

11. Many modern road and highways follow the same basic routes established by Indian paths as well. Paul A. W. Wallace provided an in-depth description of this subject in Indian Paths of Pennsylvania, published by the Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission.

12. Both the Pennsylvania Turnpike (I-76) and US 30 followed the same basic course, at least in part, of the Pennsylvania Road west of Bedford, Pennsylvania.

13. This road is present-day Pennsylvania route 31.

14. This road became part of US 422.

15. J. E. Wright and Doris S. Corbett, Pioneer Life in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1940), 177-178; Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1939), 229-236.

16. Nicholas Cresswell, The Journal of Nicholas Cresswell, 1774-1777 (New York: Dial Press, 1924), 66; Israel Shreve, "Journal from Jersey to the Monongahala, August 11, 1788," PMHB 52 (1928): 201; Smith, ed., The Western, 72; William A. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's 'Journal of the time I spent in Stony creek glades,' 1793-1794," PMHB 104 (April 1980): 172; Lewis Condict, "Journal of a Trip to Kentucky in 1795," Proceedings of the New Jersey Historical Society new series, 4 (1919): 112.

17. Thomas Ridout, "An Account of My Capture by the Shawanese Indians," WPHM 12 (January 1929): 5; Shreve, "Journal," 200; Smith, ed., The Western, 99; John F. Meginness, ed., Journal of Samuel Maclay (Williamsport, PA: Gazette and Bulletin Printing House, 1887), 40.

18. Condict, "Journal," 113.

19. John C. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries of George Washington: 1748-1799, vol. 2 (Boston: Houghton Mifflin Company, 1925), 288, 306; "Extracts," vol. 2, 379; Shreve, "Journal," 198-200.

20. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 2, 287-288, 307; Condict, "Journal," 112; Increase Matthews, "Diary Kept by Dr. Increase Matthews on a Journey to the Ohio Country, 1798," ed. Willis Adams Bailey, New England Historical and Genealogical Register 86 (January 1932): 38, 42.

21. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 230-231, 239-240.

22. Washington's horses would tire quickly because, when conditions permitted, he tried to keep his pace at five miles per hour (Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 2, 289).

23. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 2, 285; 26 July 1786 - 27 July 1786, Journal of John Mathews, 1786, Ohio Historical Papers, Hildreth Collection, vol. 2; Thomas Chapman, "Journal of a Journey through the United States, 1795-6," Historical Magazine and Notes and Queries 2d ser., 5 (1869): 359; Shreve, "Journal," 199; Matthews, "Diary," 40.

24. Thomas Proctor, "Col. Proctor's Journal," in PA, ed. John B. Linn and William H. Egle, 2d ser., vol. 4 (Harrisburg: E. K. Meyers, 1890), 476; Smith, ed., The Western, 116.

25. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 172; Smith, ed., The Western, 125; Meginness, ed., Journal, 40; Matthews, "Diary," 38.

26. Shreve, "Journal," 200; Bayrd Still, ed., "The Westward Migration of a Planter," William and Mary College Quarterly Historical Magazine 2d ser., 21 (October 1941): 324.

27. Christian Schultz, a traveler through Pittsburgh in 1807, said that Kentucky boats varied "from twenty to fifty feet in length, and from ten to fourteen in breadth" (Christian Schultz, Jr., Travels on an Inland Voyage [reprint, Ridgewood, NJ: Gregg Press, 1968], 129).

28. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 244-245; Charles Henry Ambler, A History of Transportation in the Ohio Valley with Special Reference to its Waterways, Trade, and Commerce from the Earliest Period to the Present Time (Cincinnati: Arthur H. Clark, 1931; reprint, Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, Publishers, 1970), 25, 34; Lowell H. Harrison, "A Virginian Moves to Kentucky, 1793," William and Mary Quarterly 3d ser., 15 (April 1958): 210-211; National Park Service, The Evolution of Transportation in Western Pennsylvania (Denver: United States Department of the Interior, 1994), 43; Ebenezer Denny, Military Journal of Major Ebenezer Denny, Eyewitness Accounts of the American Revolution, 3d ser. (1859; reprint, New York: New York Times and Arno Press, 1971), 57; Cresswell, The Journal, 64, 68; Jack Weatherford, Indian Givers: How the Indians of the Americas Transformed the World (New York: Fawcett Columbine, 1988; reprint, New York: Fawcett Columbine, 1990), 237.

29. Samuel S. Forman, Narrative of a Journey Down the Ohio and Mississippi in 1789-1790, ed. Lyman C. Draper, The First American Frontier, ed. Dale Van Every (1888; reprint, Arno Press and New York Times, 1971), 23.

30. H. M. Brackenridge, Recollections of Persons and Places in the West, 2nd ed. (Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott and Company, 1868), 31-32.

31. Memorandum of an Agreement, Jacob Haymaker and Isaac Craig, 28 February 1792; Memorandum of Agreement, James Marshel and Isaac Craig, 28 February 1792; Articles of Agreement between Major Craig & W<sup>m</sup> Plummer, 25 February 1792, Isaac Craig Papers, Pennsylvania Department, Carnegie Library of Pittsburgh.

32. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 244; Weatherford, Indian Givers, 237; Charles Henry Ambler, A History of Transportation in the Ohio Valley with Special Reference to its Waterways, Trade, and Commerce from the Earliest Period to the Present Time (Cincinnati: Arthur H. Clark, 1931; reprint, Westport, CT: Greenwood Press, Publishers, 1970), 26-27; Cresswell, The Journal, 64, 68; Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 (July 1960): 296.

33. Harrison, "A Virginian," 210; Cresswell, The Journal, 64.

34. Ridout, "An Account," 5; Smith, ed., The Western, 45; A Journal Regarding the Settling Alexander Henderson's Land on the Little Kanawha, 1798-1803, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries; Condict, "Journal," 115.

35. This fort was located at the mouth of the Muskingum River.

36. Ridout, "An Account," 5; Smith, The Western, 42, 45; Forman, Narrative, 25; Denny, Military, 94.

37. Cresswell, The Journal, 68; Erkuries Beatty, "Original Documents: Diary of Major Erkuries Beatty," Magazine of American History 1 (1877): 237; A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.

38. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 251; Cresswell, The Journal, 68; A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.

39. Cresswell, The Journal, 69-70; Forman, Narrative, 19, 25; James Elliot, "Journal of James Elliot," in Crossroads, 173-174; Smith, ed., The Western, 36-37.

40. "Extract of a letter from Virginia, dated September 18," The Pennsylvania Gazette 6 October 1784, Item #70723, The Pennsylvania Gazette 4 March 1789, Item #75605, The Pennsylvania Gazette 5 July 1797, Item #81872, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 6 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>; Denny, Military, 135; Smith, ed., The Western, 38. The Pennsylvania Gazette 11 July 1771, Item #49138, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA 6 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>.

41. Forman, Narrative, 26.

42. Edward G. Williams, ed., "Samuel Vaughan's Journal," WPHM 44 (June 1961): 162-163; Smith, ed., The Western, 70, 97; Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 182, 185-186; A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.

43. Ridout, "An Account," 4; Smith, ed., The Western, 97; Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 185; Williams, ed., "Samuel Vaughan's," 164; Chapman, "Journal," 358; Dwight L. Smith and Ray Swick, ed., A Journey through the West: Thomas Rodney's 1803 Journal from Delaware to the Mississippi Territory (Athens: Ohio University Press, 1997), 39-40.
44. A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
45. Chapman mentioned that he "had the good Fortune to have one to my self" (Chapman, "Journal," 359).
46. "Extracts," 380; Smith, ed., The Western, 103; Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 176-177; Chapman, "Journal, 358-359; Francis Baily, Journal of a Tour in Unsettled Parts of North America in 1796 & 1797, ed. Jack D. L. Holmes, with a foreword by John Francis McDermott, Travels on the Western Waters, ed. John Francis McDermott (Carbondale: Southern Illinois University, 1969), 49; Matthews, "Diary," 36.
47. David McClure, "Diary of David McClure," in Crossroads, 118; Baily, Journal, 45; Ridout, "An Account," 4-5; Condict, "Journal," 113.
48. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 2, 306; Shreve, "Journal," 200; Forman, Narrative, 21; Meginness, ed., Journal, 40; Anthony F. C. Wallace, ed., "Halliday Jackson's Journal to the Seneca Indians," Pennsylvania History 19 (1952): 141.
49. Baily, Journal, 50; Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 170-171, 172, 177; Smith, ed., The Western, 95-97.
50. Baily, Journal, 45.
51. A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; Shreve, "Journal," 199.
52. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 186; Smith, ed., The Western, 39; Baily, Journal, 55.
53. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 183, Smith, ed., The Western, 39.
54. Still, "The Westward," 326; John Reynolds, "Autobiography of John Reynolds," in Crossroads, 221, 223.
55. Meginness, ed., Journal, 1887, 46
56. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 172; "Extracts," 394; Smith, ed., The Western, 44.
57. Denny, Military, 57; Forman, Narrative, 23-24; Condict, "Journal," 114-115; A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
58. Smith, ed., The Western, 34, 108, 126; Shreve, "Journal," 200.

59. Chapman, "Journal," 359; Matthews, "Diary," 37; Cresswell, The Journal, 63; Smith, ed., The Western, 34, 108, 126.

60. "Extracts," 386, 393, 395.

61. Ridout, "An Account," 5.

62. "Extracts," 393; Griffith Evans, "Notes and Documents: Journal of Griffith Evans, 1784-1785," PMHB 65 (1941): 228; Ridout, "An Account," 5.

63. David Jones, A Journal of Two Visits to Some Nations of Indians on the West Side of the River Ohio, in the Years 1772 and 1773 (Burlington: Isaac Collins, 1774), 25; Condict, "Journal," 112-113; Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 2, 289; Forman, Narrative, 23; Shreve, "Journal," 202.

64. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 256-258.

65. W. Short, France, to P. Short, Kentucky, 26 Dec. 1797, William and Peyton Short Papers.

66. P. C. Lane to Post Master, Bedford, Penns<sup>a</sup>., 18 January 1805, Box 1, John Tod Papers, 1783-1838, Manuscript Group Number 126, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg.

67. The Pennsylvania Gazette 24 April 1793, Item #78934, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 6 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>.

68. "Post Office, Philadelphia, December 30, 1789. Establishment of the Post Coaches for the year 1790," The Pennsylvania Gazette 13 January 1790, Item #76387, "Post Office, Philadelphia, January 9<sup>th</sup>, 1791. Establishment of the Mails for the year 1792," The Pennsylvania Gazette 18 January 1792, Item #78057, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA 6 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>; Schultz, Jr., Travels, 137.

69. John Heckewelder, Gnadenhutten, to Jacob Cist, Washington City, 15 October 1804, Item Number 107, Box 5, Pennsylvania Collection (Miscellaneous), Manuscript Group Number 8, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg.

#### Endnotes for Chapter 5

1. Michael N. McConnell, A Country Between: The Upper Ohio Valley and Its Peoples, 1724-1774 (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1992), 23, 25.

2. Probably copied from early Swedish settlers in America, not from the Indians (Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania [Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1939], 319).

3. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 319-321; Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 (July 1960): 288; Lee Soltow, Distribution of Wealth and Income in the United States in 1798, Pittsburgh Series in Social and Labor History (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1989), 90-91.

4. John Reynolds, "Autobiography of John Reynolds," in Crossroads: Descriptions of Western Pennsylvania, 1720-1829 (originally published as Pen Pictures of Early Western Pennsylvania), ed. John W. Harpster (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1938; reprint, Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, n.d.), 223-224.

5. *Ibid.*, 224.

6. "A Circuit-Riding Preacher in the Western Reserve: A Memoir of the Reverend Joseph Badger, 1801-1803 and After," in The Ohio Frontier: An Anthology of Early Writings, ed. Emily Foster, The Ohio River Valley Series, ed. Rita Kohn and William Lynwood Montell (Lexington: University Press of Kentucky, 1996), 105.

7. William A. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's 'Journal of the time I spent in Stony creek glades,' 1793-1794," PMHB 104 (April 1980): 187, 189; Dwight L. Smith, ed., The Western Journals of John May (Cincinnati: Historical and Philosophical Society of Ohio, 1961), 97; "A Diary Kept by Dr. Robert Wellford," William and Mary College Quarterly Historical Magazine 11 (July 1902): 16; John C. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries of George Washington: 1748-1799, vol. 4, 1789-1799 (Boston: for The Mount Vernon Ladies' Association of the Union by Houghton Mifflin Company, 1925), 222.

8. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 171; Jos. Boyd, Journal "on a Journey to the Westward," May 2 -June 30, 1808, Box 1, Manuscript Group Number 6, Diaries and Journals Collection, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg; James Elliott, "Journal of James Elliott," in Crossroads, 171; To the West, Thomas Scott Papers, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries.

9. Jack Weatherford, Indian Givers: How the Indians of the Americas Transformed the World (New York: Fawcett Columbine, 1988; reprint, New York: Fawcett Columbine, 1990), 84; Gilbert Imlay, A Topographical Description of the Western Territory of North America, 3d ed., Series in American Studies, ed. Joseph J. Kwiatt (1797; reprint, New York: Johnson Reprint Corporation, 1968), 131.

10. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 266; R. Eugene Harper, The Transformation of Western Pennsylvania, 1770-1800 (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1991), 108, 125; Soltow, Distribution, 92.



11. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 267, 332-334; Smith, ed., The Western, 37, 54-55.
12. Henderson sent ten slaves to establish his homestead in the Little Kanawha River Valley. Within two years after settlement, Henderson's slave population increased to at least twelve with the birth of three children. The number had previously declined with the drowning of one slave (The following are the names of the Slaves Sent by A lex<sup>d</sup> Henderson Esqr of Dumfries, with Henry Summers, for the purpose of affecting a settlement on the Little Kanawha, River, 1798-1803, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries).
13. Since Henderson was a slave owner, one can rightly assume that the slaves did the vast majority of the work.
14. This was a considerable amount of acreage available for sowing since the farm was less than one year old.
15. Another entry, without the year, mentioned the planting of "Red Blue and White Potatoes on the 14th of June." ([Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers).
16. 8 March, 18 March, 2 April 1799, [Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
17. A Journal Regarding the Settling Alexander Henderson's Land on the Little Kanawha, 1798-1803, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries; Reynolds, "Autobiography," 225.
18. 2 May, 6 May 1799, [Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; Christian Schultz, Jr., Travels on an Inland Voyage (reprint, Ridgewood, NJ: Gregg Press, 1968), 122.
19. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 332; Smith, ed., The Western, 37, 42-43; Lewis Condict, "Journal of a Trip to Kentucky in 1795," Proceedings of the New Jersey Historical Society new series, 4 (1919): 113; 27 May 1799, [Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
20. Fishing appeared to be dangerous for settlers. John May reported that someone caught a fish that they called an "alligator." It was "about 18 inches long, as large as a mans wrist, a large flat head; something like a bull frogs-four legg's the bigness of a grey squirrel, and a tail 5 inches long and near 2 inches wide-he was of a sickly ash colour, and as spiteful as the devil." In 1807 Christian Schultz corroborated May's fish story. His description of the size of the "Alleghany alligator fish," so named because of "its resemblance to the alligator" and the river in which it was found, was similar to May's. Schultz said that the fish never grew more than "eighteen inches or two feet in length." Although he did not see the "fish" for himself, Schultz was "well assured" of the fish's existence (Smith, ed., The Western, 36; Schultz, Travels,

123).

21. Peter Muhlenberg, "Journal of Peter Muhlenberg," in Crossroads, 141; Condict, "Journal," 113; 27 May 1799, [Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; John F. Meginness, ed., Journal of Samuel Maclay (Williamsport, PA: Gazette and Bulletin Printing House, 1887), 38-39; Smith, ed., The Western, 42, 54-55, 60, 98; Bayrd Still, ed., "The Westward Migration of a Planter," William and Mary College Quarterly Historical Magazine 2d ser., 21 (October 1941): 325.

22. Nicholas Cresswell, The Journal of Nicholas Cresswell, 1774-1777 (New York: Dial Press, 1924), 69; 27 May [n.y.], [Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.

23. 1 June 1799, [Alexander Henderson's [?] Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.

24. Cresswell described a dewberry as "a small berry something like a Gooseberry" (Cresswell, The Journal, 104).

25. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 332-333; Smith, ed., The Western, 37, 54-55; Cresswell, The Journal, 104; Israel Shreve, "Journal from Jersey to the Monongahala, August 11, 1788," PMHB 52 (1928): 199-201; Condict, "Journal," 112.

26. For more information on the history of maple sugar production, Paul A. W. Wallace recommended The Maple Sugar Book by Helen and Scott Nearing (New York, 1950).

27. Paul A. W. Wallace, Indians in Pennsylvania, 2nd ed., revised by William A. Hunter, Anthropological Series, no. 5 (Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1981; reprint, Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1991), 33; Joseph E. Walker, ed., Pleasure and Business in Western Pennsylvania: The Journal of Joshua Gilpin, 1809 (Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1975), 51; Helen Lincklaen Fairchild, ed., Journals of John Lincklaen (New York: G. P. Putnam's Sons, 1897), 42-44, 47.

28. John Jakle, Salt and the Initial Settlement of the Ohio Valley (Ann Arbor, MI: University Microfilms, 1967), 143; Archibald Woods, Ohio County, agreement with William McCulloch, 12 January 1796, re: land with a salt spring, Box 2, Archibald Woods Papers, Manuscripts and Rare Books Department, Swem Library, College of William and Mary; "Extract of a letter from Pittsburgh, February 27," The Pennsylvania Gazette 31 March 1790, Item #76600, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 9 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>; "A Circuit-Riding," in The Ohio, 104; Walker, ed., Pleasure, 51; The Pennsylvania Gazette 31 August 1796, Item #81351, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 6 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>.

29. Cresswell, The Journal, 75-76.
30. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 333-335, 370; Isaac Weld, Travels through the States of North America and the Provinces of Upper and Lower Canada, during the Years 1795, 1796, and 1797, vol. 2, 4th ed., *America Through European Eyes* (1807; reprint, New York: Augustus M. Kelley, Publishers, 1970), 331; Reynolds, "Autobiography," 224.
31. Reynolds, "Autobiography," 224; Meginness, ed., Journal, 23, 28; H. M. Brackenridge, Recollections of Persons and Places in the West, 2nd ed. (Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott & Co., 1868), 15.
32. Joseph Doddridge, "Notes on the Settlement and Indian Wars," in Crossroads, 205-206; Johann David Schoepf, "Travels of Johann David Schoepf," in Crossroads, 134; Buck and Buck, The Planting, 336.
33. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 338; Meginness, ed., Journal, 42-43; "Journal of Thaddeus M. Harris," in Crossroads, 244-245; Cresswell, The Journal, 71-72, 98.
34. Smith, ed., The Western, 41; Weld, Travels, vol. 2, 166.
35. Edward G. Williams, ed., "Samuel Vaughan's Journal," WPHM 44 (September 1961): 270.
36. Reynolds added that "Needless to say" for the blacksmith, his "shop was no longer his lodging place" (John Earle Reynolds, In French Creek Valley, [Meadville, PA: for Crawford County Historical Society by Tribune Publishing Company, 1938], 51).
37. Reynolds, In French, 46, 51; Cresswell, The Journal, 96; Smith, ed., The Western, 51, 70; 14 June 1799, [Alexander Henderson's (?) Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
38. May failed to report the success or failure of the boy's treatment. He recorded, however, that the snake was immediately killed (Smith, ed., The Western, 55).
39. Reynolds, In French, 51; Smith, ed., The Western, 55-56; 1 June 1799, 24-26 September 1800, [Alexander Henderson's (?) Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
40. Some wildlife proved to be as friendly as pets, so they were not always seen as a danger or a source of food. John May recorded that the people of Marietta had "four fawn's amongst" them who were "as tame as Cats." One was so tame that May said "it will run after me, climb upon me, lick my face - suck my ear etc" (Smith, ed., The Western, 53-54).
41. Cresswell, The Journal, 113; Schoepf, "Travels," 137; Reynolds, "Autobiography," 226-227; "A Circuit-Riding," in The Ohio, 104; "Work and Play in Trumbull County: Leonard Case's Memoir, 1800 and After," in The Ohio, 108-109.

42. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 186; "A Circuit-Riding," 105-105.
43. Reynolds, In French, 50; 7 August 1799, [Alexander Henderson's (?) Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; Smith, ed., The Western, 49.
44. Jos. Boyd, Journal "on a Journey to the Westward," May 2 -June 30, 1808, Box 1, Manuscript Group Number 6, Diaries and Journals Collection, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg; 21 May 1799, [Alexander Henderson's (?) Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; Smith, ed., The Western, 49, 122; Reynolds, In French, 51; Increase Matthews, "Diary Kept by Dr. Increase Matthews on a Journey to the Ohio Country, 1798," ed. Willis Adams Bailey, New England Historical and Genealogical Register 86 (January 1932): 40.
45. Dr. John Ewing, Memorandum Book, 1784, Box 1, Manuscript Group Number 6, Diaries and Journals Collection, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg.
46. 2 September 1801, [Alexander Henderson's (?) Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers.
47. Meginness, ed., Journal, 30, 41; Smith, ed., The Western, 57, 123; 10 April 1799, [Alexander Henderson's (?) Diary], Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; Certification of the accidental death of Patterson Ingledue, Ohio County, Va., signed by: Caleb Reeves, Henry Hoover, Jeams Cregg, John Sott(?), Alex<sup>r</sup> McConnell, James Patton, William Palmer, [No date] February 1806, Box 5, Archibald Woods Papers.
48. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 186-187; Condict, "Journal," 112; Smith, ed., The Western, 108; David Ford, "Journal of an Expedition Made in the Autumn of 1794, with a Detachment of New Jersey Troops, into Western Pennsylvania, to Aid in Suppressing the 'Whiskey Rebellion,'" ed. Franklin S. Hough, Proceedings of the New Jersey Historical Society 1<sup>st</sup> ser., 8 (1859): 87-88; Saml. Finney, Pittsburg, to John Tod [?], 26 July 1803, Box 1, John Tod Papers, 1783-1838, Manuscript Group Number 126, Diaries and Journals Collection, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg.
49. Letter to Mrs. Ann Woods, Wheeling, from Polly Wilson, Morgan Town, 19 September 1807, Re: "Fever" in area, Box 5, Folder 521, Archibald Woods Papers; Schoepf, "Travels," 135.
50. Cresswell, The Journal, 103; Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 181, 184; Thomas Ridout, "An Account of My Capture by the Shawanese Indians," WPHM 12 (January 1929): 4; Forman, Narrative, 21; Shreve, "Journal," 198; Schoepf, "Travels," 132; John Pope, A Tour through the Southern and Western Territories of the United States of North-America, with an introduction by J. Barton Starr, Bicentennial Floridiana Facsimile Series, ed. Samuel Proctor (1792; reprint, Gainesville: University Presses of Florida, 1979), 12.
51. Mathews failed to elaborate on whether the men were husking, shucking, or drinking the corn.

52. 11 November 1786, Journal of John Mathews, 1786, Ohio Historical Papers, Hildreth Collection, vol. 2, Columbus: Columbus Microfilm, Inc., 1956, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries.

53. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 428; Richard Hofstadter, America at 1750: A Social Portrait (n.c.: Alfred A. Knopf, 1971; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1973), 180-181.

54. Patricia U. Bonomi, Under the Cope of Heaven: Religion, Society, and Politics in Colonial America (New York: Oxford University Press, 1986), 7.

55. David McClure, "Diary of David McClure," in Crossroads, 119-120; David Jones, A Journal of Two Visits to Some Nations of Indians on the West Side of the River Ohio, in the Years 1772 and 1773 (Burlington: Isaac Collins, 1774), 14; Condict, "Journal," 114; "Extracts from the Journal of Arthur Lee," in Richard Henry Lee, Life of Arthur Lee, vol. 2, Select Bibliographies Reprint Series (1829; reprint, Freeport, NY: Books for Libraries Press, 1969), 385.

56. Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 (July 1960): 286; "A Circuit-Riding," 104.

57. Condict, "Journal," 114-115; Pope, A Tour, 12, 17.

58. Francois Andre Michaux, "A Traveller in the County, 1802," Cumberland County History 14 (winter 1997): 125.

59. McClure, "Diary," 117; Jones, A Journal, 23; Dwight L. Smith and Ray Swick, ed., A Journey through the West: Thomas Rodney's 1803 Journal from Delaware to the Mississippi Territory (Athens: Ohio University Press, 1997), 41, 54; "A Circuit-Riding," 104.

60. Smith, ed., The Western, 71, 123, 148-149; Smith and Swick, ed., A Journey, 58.

61. Schoepf, "Travels," 131; Smith and Swick, ed., A Journey, 43.

62. Schoepf, "Travels," 131; Smith and Swick, ed., A Journey, 43.

63. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 174-175, 180, Smith, ed., The Western, 109; Reynolds, "Autobiography," 223.

64. Brackenridge, Recollections, 66.

65. Thos. Scott Biog. Sketch, Thomas Scott Papers, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries; Smith, ed., The Western, 148.

66. An Ordination Letter, Sign'd, Seal'd, and Deliver'd, in the City of Philadelphia, on Trinity Sunday, 7 June 1789, Box 1, Robert Ayres Papers, Library and Archives Division, Western Pennsylvania Historical Society; 28 June 1789, 16 July 1789, 19 July 1789, 19 August 1789, [20 August 1789], Journal of the Rev. Rob<sup>t</sup> Ayres for the year A.D. 1789 Being the first year after his Ordination in the Episcopal Church, Box 1, Robert Ayres Papers.

67. 20 October 1789, Journal, Robert Ayres Papers.

68. Kent and Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum," 286-287.

69. Harmon Husband was also a lifelong rebel, participating in both the Regulator Revolt and the Whiskey Rebellion. During the Whiskey Rebellion, Husband had the distinction of being one of the first arrested by the army after their arrival in western Pennsylvania (Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 4, 223).

70. Hunter, ed., "John Badollet's," 172-175.

71. Thomas Ashe, Travels in America, Performed in the Year 1806, for the Purpose of Exploring the Rivers Alleghany, Monongahela, Ohio, and Mississippi, and Ascertaining the Produce and Condition of Their Banks and Vicinity (London: for Richard Phillips by B. McMillan, 1809), 21.

#### Endnotes for Chapter 6

1. Brodhead participated in Sullivan's 1779 raid into Iroquoia and led the Pittsburgh militia on their rampage against the Gnadenhutten Lenape in 1780 (Anthony F. C. Wallace, The Death and Rebirth of the Seneca [New York: Random House, 1969; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1972], 141-143, 147).

2. Wallace, The Death, 123-124, 128, 131-132, 141; Colin G. Calloway, The American Revolution in Indian Country: Crisis and Diversity in Native American Communities, Cambridge Studies in North American Indian History, ed. Frederick Hoxie and Neal Salisbury (New York: Cambridge University Press, 1995), 36-39, 163-168, 171-172; Daniel Brodhead, Fort Pitt, to Maj'r General N. Greene, 6 September 1780, Lawrence Woods Collection, [HSWP Archives Small Collections], Library and Archives Division, Western Pennsylvania Historical Society.

3. "Remarkable Encounter of a White Man with two Indians. In a Letter to a gentleman of Philadelphia," in A Selection of Narratives of Outrages Committed by the Indians in their Wars with the White People (originally published as A Selection of Some of the Most Interesting Narratives of Outrages Committed by the Indians in Their Wars with the White People), vol. 1, ed. Archibald Loudon, The Garland Library of Narratives of North American Indian Captivities, vols. 29-30 (1877; reprint, New York: Garland Publishing, Inc., 1977), 77-79; Donald Jackson and Dorothy Twohig, ed. The Diaries of George Washington, vol. 6, January 1790-December

1799 (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1979), 61; Massy Harbison, A Narrative of the Sufferings of Massy Harbison, 4th ed., The Garland Library of Narratives of North American Indian Captivities, vol. 42 (1825; reprint, New York: Garland Publishing, 1977), 33; Richard C. Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, A Name in Arms, Soldier, Diplomat, Defender of Expansion Westward of a Nation: The Wayne-Knox-Pickering-McHenry Correspondence (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1960), 145-146.

4. Harbison, A Narrative, 33.

5. Ibid., 15-18.

6. Ibid., 33-39, 48.

7. John Corbly, "Sufferings of the Rev. *John Corbly* and Family from the Indians. Related in a Letter to the Rev. *William Rogers*, late Pastor of the Baptist Church in Philadelphia," in A Selection, vol. 1, 74-75.

8. Dwight Smith, ed., The Western Journals of John May, (Cincinnati: Historical and Philosophical Society of Ohio, 1961), 48, 64; Don Heinrich Tolzmann, ed., The First Description of Cincinnati and Other Ohio Settlements: The Travel Report of Johann Heckewelder (1792), with an introduction by H. A. Rattermann (Lanham, MD: University Press of America, 1988), 29; Lewis Conduct, "Journal of a Trip to Kentucky in 1795," Proceedings of the New Jersey Historical Society new ser., 4 (1919): 114.

9. Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 279.

10. Edmund Randolph Letter, Dept. of State, to Alexander Addison, Washington, Pennsylvania, 25 March 1795, Accession 24871, Personal Papers Collection, Virginia State Library and Archives, Richmond, VA.

11. Randolph C. Downes, Council Fires on the Upper Ohio: A Narrative of Indian Affairs in the Upper Ohio Valley until 1795 (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1940; reprint, Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1989), 273-274, 314-316, 317-318, 332-336; Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 320.

12. Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 278-279.

13. Letter to Archibald Wood, Richmond, from John Connell, West Liberty, 24 September 1792, Re: protection from Indians, Box 1, Archibald Woods Papers, Manuscripts and Rare Books Department, Swem Library, College of William and Mary; Smith, ed., The Western, 150-151; Erkuries Beatty, "Original Documents: Diary of Major Erkuries Beatty," Magazine of American History 1 (1877): 383-384.

14. John Knight, "This Is Your Great Captain," in Captured by the Indians: 15 Firsthand Accounts, 1750-1870 (originally published as Scalps and Tomahawks: Narratives of Indian Captivity), ed. Frederick Drimmer (New York: Coward-McCann, 1961; reprint, Mineola, NY: Dover Publications, 1985), 120, 121.

15. Baron Rosenthal apparently was the successful party in a duel, which necessitated his removal from his native Russia to the American colonies. He changed his name to John Rose in an attempt to hide his true identity. Rosenthal fought for the colonies during the American Revolution and eventually became a staff officer of General William Irvine (William L. Stone, "John Rose," Journal of a Volunteer Expedition to Sandusky, Eyewitness Accounts of the American Revolution [1894; reprint, New York Times and Arno Press, 1969], 131-132).

16. Rosenthal, Journal, 295.

17. Smith, ed., The Western, 48, 64; Connell to Wood, 24 September 1792, Archibald Woods Papers.

18. Beatty, "Diary," 383.

19. "The Trial of *Mamachtaga*, an Indian, at a Court of Oyer and Terminer for the County of Westmoreland, in the year 1784-5," in A Selection, vol. 1, 49, 53-56, 58, 62-63.

20. John C. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries of George Washington: 1748-1799, vol. 2, 1771-1785 (Boston: Houghton Mifflin Company, 1925), 279; Samuel S. Forman, Narrative of a Journey Down the Ohio and Mississippi in 1789-1790, ed. Lyman C. Draper, The First American Frontier, ed. Dale Van Every (1888; reprint, New York: Arno Press and New York Times, 1971), 24; Condict, "Journal," 116.

21. The remnants of the Hurons and Petuns, who were both dislocated by the Iroquois during the seventeenth century "Fur Wars," comprised the Wyandots (Jennings, The Ambiguous, 101-102).

22. Ebenezer Denny, Military Journal of Major Ebenezer Denny, An Officer in the Revolutionary and Indian Wars (Philadelphia: for the Historical Society of Pennsylvania by J. B. Lippincott and Company, 1859), 55, 117; Tolzmann, ed., The First, 29-30; Smith, ed., The Western, 37, 38.

23. David McClure, "Diary of David McClure," in Crossroads: Descriptions of Western Pennsylvania, 1720-1829 (originally published as Pen Pictures of Early Western Pennsylvania) ed. John W. Harpster (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1938; reprint, Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, n.d.), 122.

24. Knight, "That," 126-127.



25. The Senecas probably hung the dog for the White Dog Ceremony of their Green Corn Festival, which signaled the coming of autumn and preceded the harvesting of crops. The dog was an offering to their creator. Sullivan's raid occurred when this festival typically was held (Wallace, The Death, 57-58).

26. John W. Jordan, ed., "Ad<sup>m</sup> Hubley, Jr., L<sup>t</sup> Colo. Com<sup>dt</sup> 11<sup>th</sup> Penna. Reg<sup>t</sup>, His Journal, Commencing at Wyoming, July 30th, 1779," PMHB 33 (1909): 130-131, 298.

27. The "Mississippian" cultures occupied the Mississippi River Valley and some of its tributaries prior to the arrival of Christopher Columbus. These Indians erected huge mounds for burials. Some of the easternmost mounds were found along the Ohio River near Wheeling, WV. These cultures mostly disappeared before 1492. The "Mississippian" cultures influenced the Natchez Indians of the Lower Mississippi Valley.

28. Nicholas Cresswell, while traveling down the Ohio in 1775 recorded the Indian understanding of the mounds. "The Indians' tradition is that there was a great Battle fought here and many great Warriors killed. These mounds were raised to perpetuate their memory" (Nicholas Cresswell, The Journal of Nicholas Cresswell, 1774-1777 [New York: Dial Press, 1924], 71).

29. "Extracts from the Journal of Arthur Lee," in Richard Henry Lee, Life of Arthur Lee, vol. 2, Select Bibliographies Reprint Series (1829; reprint, Freeport, NY: Books for Libraries Press, 1969), 397; "Extract of a letter from Pittsburgh, Nov. 18," The Pennsylvania Gazette 7 December 1791, Item #77983, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 6 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>.

30. "The Trial," 1, 50-51.

31. "Extracts," 381-382.

32. John Slover, "To Eat Fire Tomorrow," in Captured, 133-134.

33. Slover remembered seeing Mingos, Ottawas, Chippewas, Wyandots, Lenapes, Shawnees, and Cherokees in this village, where the Indians seemed to be holding a council (Slover, "To Eat," 137).

34. Slover, "To Eat," 135-141.

35. Knight, "That," 120-129; Harbison, A Narrative, 42-47.

36. Thomas Ridout, "An Account of My Capture by the Shawanese Indians," WPHM 12 (January 1929): 6-10, 21, 28-30.

37. S. Bayard to Isaac Craig, 15 March 1786, Isaac Craig Papers, Pennsylvania Department, Carnegie Library of Pittsburgh.

38. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 2, 279, 290; Dorothy Twohig, ed., The Journal of the Proceedings of the President, 1793-1797, The Papers of George Washington, ed. W. W. Abbot (Charlottesville: University Press of Virginia, 1981), 3; 18 September 1786, Journal of John Mathews, 1786, Ohio Historical Papers, Hildreth Collection, vol. 2 (Columbus: Columbus Microfilm, 1956), West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries; Ridout, "An Account," 13.

39. "Extracts," 386.

40. The actual identity of the murderer was unknown. Some blamed the Indians while others claimed the Wheeling militia killed the man (Smith, ed., The Western, 119n).

41. Thomas Proctor, "Col. Proctor's Journal," in PA, ed. John B. Linn and William H. Egle, 2d ser., vol. 4 (Harrisburg: E. K. Meyers, 1890), 466, 476; Condict, "Journal," 114; James Ross from Archibald Woods, Wheeling, 2 July 1798, Re: Trouble with Indians, Box 3, Archibald Woods Papers.

42. Ridout, "An Account," 22-23.

43. Whites knew him as "Cornplanter."

44. Anthony F. C. Wallace, ed., "Halliday Jackson's Journal to the Seneca Indians," Pennsylvania History 19 (1952): 132.

45. Anthony F. C. Wallace, The Death and Rebirth of the Seneca (New York: Random House, 1969; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1972), 161.

46. Beatty, "Diary," 178.

47. Wallace, The Death, 154; Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 59.

48. Proctor, "Col. Proctor's," 479, 504-506; Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 98.

49. "Extracts," 389; Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 98.

50. Ridout, "An Account," 17; Proctor, "Col. Proctor's," 477; Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 23.

51. Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 (July 1960): 302, 304-305.

52. Wallace, The Death, 160.

53. Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 148-149, 165.

54. *Ibid.*, 165.

55. Knopf, ed., Anthony Wayne, 165; John C. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries of George Washington: 1748-179, vol. 4 (Boston: Houghton Mifflin Company, 1925), 74, 77.
56. Cornplanter, "Extract of another letter, dated Fort Franklin, March 30, 1792," The Pennsylvania Gazette 18 April 1792, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 6 February 2001 <<http://accesible.palinet.org/>>.
57. Beatty, "Diary," 237; Proctor, "Col. Proctor's," 513, 516; Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 (July 1960): 303.
58. Proctor, "Col. Proctor's," 479, 517, 518.
59. Beatty, "Diary," 237.
60. Fitzpatrick, ed., The Diaries, vol. 1, 410-411.
61. Wallace, The Death, 184; John F. Meginnness, ed., Journal of Samuel Maclay (Williamsport, PA: Gazette and Bulletin Printing House, 1887), 31-34; Paul A. W. Wallace, Indians in Pennsylvania, 2nd ed., revised by William A. Hunter, Anthropological Series, no. 5 (Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1981; reprint, Harrisburg: Pennsylvania Historical and Museum Commission, 1991), 174.
62. Nicholas Cresswell, The Journal of Nicholas Cresswell, 1774-1777 (New York: Dial Press, 1924), 103-105, 111.
63. Ibid., 102-105, 108, 114.
64. Either the jailer's child must have been desperately ill or he trusted Mamachtaga because if Mamachtaga had escaped while in the woods, the jailer probably would have been hung in his place ("The Trial," 62).
65. "The Trial," 62.
66. John Heckewelder, Gnadenhutten, to Jacob Cist, Washington City, 15 October 1804, Box 5, Pennsylvania Collection (Miscellaneous), Manuscript Group Number 8, Pennsylvania State Archives, Harrisburg.

#### Endnotes for Chapter 7

1. John Mack Faragher, Women and Men on the Overland Trail (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1979), 52, 82-84, 110-112, 180-181, 187.
2. Annette Kolodny, The Land before Her: Fantasy and Experience of the American Frontiers, 1630-1860 (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1984; reprint, Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1984), xiii.

3. Faragher, Women, 164-165; Kolodny, The Land, 37-39.
4. Lester Cohen in his examination of frontier literature in the late eighteenth century believed that disappointment of the frontier not meeting the travelers' expectations led to their negative opinion of frontier life (Lester H. Cohen, "Eden's Constitution: The Paradisiacal Dream and Enlightenment Values in Late Eighteenth-Century Literature on the American Frontier," in The New American Nation, 1775-1820, ed. Peter S. Onuf, vol. 12, American Culture, 1776-1815, [Prospects 3 [1977]: 83-109; reprint, New York: Garland Publishing, Inc., 1991], 38).
5. Kolodny, The Land, 68.
6. Faragher, Women, 128-133; Kolodny, The Land, 39.
7. Written evidence and the law do not always tell the entire story of the decision to move. Very limited evidence exists that describe the politics within the family where the wife convinced the husband not to make the arduous journey to the West.
8. Mary Sumner Benson, Women in Eighteenth-Century: A Study of Opinion and Social Usage, A Kennikat Press Reissue of an American History Classic, ed. Ralph Adams Brown and William Tyrell (New York: Columbia University Press, 1935; reprint, Port Washington, NY: Kennikat Press, 1966), 100, 235, 239; Faragher, Women, 172; Kolodny, The Land, 35-38; Mary Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's Journal from Philadelphia to Kentucky, 1787-1788," PMHB 28 (1904): 182; Mary M. Crawford, ed., "Documents: Mrs. Lydia B. Bacon's Journal, 1811-1812," Indiana Magazine of History 40 (1944): 367.
9. Aaron S. Fogleman, ed., "Women on the Trail in Colonial America: A Travel Journal of German Moravians Migrating from Pennsylvania to North Carolina in 1766," Pennsylvania History 61 (April 1994): 206, 213; Max Farrand, ed., A Journey to Ohio in 1810: As Recorded in the Journal of Margaret van Horn Dwight, with an introduction by Jay Gitlin (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1913; reprint, Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1991), v-vi.
10. Thomas P. Slaughter, The Whiskey Rebellion: Frontier Epilogue to the American Revolution (New York: Oxford University Press, 1986; reprint, New York: Oxford University Press, 1988), 63-64.
11. Kolodny, The Land, 38; Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's," 183-184.
12. Crawford, ed., "Documents," 371.
13. Ibid., 371.
14. Fogleman, ed., "Women," 215-216; Trist Diary.
15. Trist Diary.
16. Fogleman, ed., "Women," 215-216; Farrand, ed., A Journey, 32, 33, 56, 61-63.

17. Faragher, Women, 172; Kolodny, The Land, 93.
18. Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's," 182.
19. Ibid., 182-183.
20. Ibid., 190.
21. Farrand, ed., A Journey, 1.
22. Ibid., 2-3.
23. Fogleman, ed., "Women," 206-207, 214-215, 217, 220.
24. Crawford, ed., "Documents," 377.
25. Fogleman, "Women," 210-211; Farrand, ed., A Journey, 15, 17-18.
26. Farrand, A Journey, 40.
27. Ibid., 40-43.
28. Ibid., 28-29, 54-55.
29. Fogleman, "Women," 215, 217.
30. Trist Diary.
31. Stephanie Grauman Wolf, As Various as Their Land: The Everyday Lives of Eighteenth-Century Americans, The Everyday Life in America Series, ed. Richard Balkin (New York: HarperCollins, 1993), 52-54.
32. Cohen, "Eden's," 51-52; Slaughter, The Whiskey, 64.
33. Farrand, ed., A Journey, 5, 7, 15, 28.
34. Ibid., 25-28.
35. Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's," 185-187.
36. Faragher, Women, 106-107; Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's," 189-190, 192.
37. Crawford, ed., "Documents," 371.
38. Farrand, ed., A Journey, 29-30.
39. Ibid., 31, 34-35.

40. This is a word that is still commonly used today in western Pennsylvania, much to the chagrin of English teachers in the region. It is a colloquialism for plural you, similar to the southern “y’all.”

41. Farrand, ed., A Journey, 37, 39.

42. Trist Diary.

43. Dewees, “Mrs. Mary Dewees’s,” 187.

44. Farrand, ed., A Journey, 62.

45. Bacon’s husband was an officer, which gave his family extra privileges. Thus, Lydia did not necessarily endure all of the physical hardships encountered by other women who traveled privately (Crawford, ed., “Documents,” 367).

46. Crawford, ed., “Documents,” 376-377.

47. Dewees, “Mrs. Mary Dewees’s,” 184, 185.

48. Dewees, “Mrs. Mary Dewees’s,” 185; Israel Shreve, “Journal from Jersey to the Monongahala, August 11, 1788,” PMHB 52 (1928): 198, 199.

49. Kolodny, The Land, 39.

50. Dewees, “Mrs. Mary Dewees’s,” 183-184, 186.

51. Crawford, ed., “Documents,” 371-372.

52. Trist Diary.

53. Farrand, ed., A Journey, 62, 64.

54. Dewees, “Mrs. Mary Dewees’s,” 198.

55. Fogleman, “Women,” 226-227.

56. Letter to Mrs. Ann Wood, Ohio, from P. Wilson, Morgantown, 12 November 1794, Box 2, Archibald Woods Papers, Manuscripts and Rare Books Department, Swem Library, College of William and Mary.

57. Letter to Mrs. Ann Woods, Wheeling, from Polly Wilson, Morgan Town, 19 September 1807, Re: “Fever” in area, Box 5, Archibald Woods Papers.

#### Endnotes for Chapter 8

1. Comparisons to twenty-first century America's ethnic and racial diversity certainly are not appropriate. For this period, America was much more diverse than other parts of the world. Thus, historians should view diversity as a relative term.

2. Bernard Bailyn, Voyagers to the West: A Passage in the Peopling of America on the Eve of the Revolution (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, Inc., 1986; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1986), 24-25.

3. James G. Leyburn, The Scotch-Irish: A Social History (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1962), 83-91, 99-105.

4. Ibid., 136-146.

5. Arthur D. Graeff, "Pennsylvania, The Colonial Melting Pot," in The Pennsylvania Germans, ed. Ralph Wood (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1942; reprint, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1943), 4; Bernard Bailyn, The Peopling of British North America (New York: Alfred A. Knopf, 1986), 34; William T. Parsons, The Pennsylvania Dutch: A Persistent Minority (Boston: Twayne Publishers, 1976), 34.

6. Bailyn, The Peopling, 34; Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1939), 124; Graeff, "Pennsylvania," 4.

7. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 127; Parsons, The Pennsylvania, 35; James T. Lemon, The Best Poor Man's Country: A Geographical Study of Early Southeastern Pennsylvania (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins Press, 1972; New York: W. W. Norton and Company, 1976), 18-22; Gottlieb Mittelberger, Journey to Pennsylvania, ed. and trans. Oscar Handlin and John Clive (Cambridge: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1960), 41; Maurice A. Mook, "The Old Order Amish of Pennsylvania," in The Ethnic Experience in Pennsylvania, ed. John E. Bodnar, with an introduction by John E. Bodnar (Lewisburg, PA: Bucknell University Press, 1973), 74; Walter M. Kollmorgen, "The Pennsylvania German Farmer," in The Pennsylvania Germans, ed. Ralph Wood (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1942; reprint, Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1943), 29.

8. Bailyn, Voyagers, 189-199, 376-378; Leyburn, The Scotch-Irish, 160-161.

9. Graeff, "Pennsylvania," 4, 5; Buck and Buck, The Planting, 125; Parsons, The Pennsylvania, 22, 25-27.

10. Oscar Kuhns, The Germans and Swiss Settlements of Colonial Pennsylvania (New York: Henry Holt and Company, 1901), 3, 4, 6; Jesse Leonard Rosenberger, The Pennsylvania Germans (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1923), 11-12.

11. Bailyn, Voyagers, 374; Graeff, "Pennsylvania," 4-5, 6.

12. Mary Lou Lustig, Robert Hunter, 1666-1734: New York's Augustan Statesman (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1983), 60-61, 85; Barbara A. Chernow, "Robert Morris: Genesee Land Speculator," New York History 58 (1977): 204-205; Paul D. Evans, "The Pulteney Purchase," Quarterly Journal of the New York State Historical Association 20 (1922): 90.

13. R. Eugene Harper, The Transformation of Western Pennsylvania, 1770-1800 (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1991), 6; Forrest McDonald and Ellen Shapiro McDonald, "The Ethnic Origins of the American People, 1790," William and Mary Quarterly 3d ser., 37 (April 1980): 179, 187.

14. 1790 US Census Data, United States Historical Census A Data Browser, Geospatial and Statistical Data Center, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA 4 April 2001, 9 April 2001 <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/census>>.

15. Results of the 1790 census were used to examine the ethnicity of the Upper Ohio River Valley. Although approximately 13.2 percent of the results were missing, 12,264 of a population of 92,674, the available numbers provided a sampling large enough to make generalizations about the region's ethnicity. The prospect of the missing data significantly affecting the conclusions appears highly unlikely because three-fourths of the missing data came from two counties, Maryland's Allegany and Virginia's Ohio, which do not have detailed results about ethnicity available. Although not exact, the extant census data provides approximations for each of the listed nationalities. The following table includes the data used for appendices A and B.

| State | County       | English/Welsh | Scots | Irish | Dutch | French | German | Jewish | Other |
|-------|--------------|---------------|-------|-------|-------|--------|--------|--------|-------|
| MD    | Allegany     | 0             | 0     | 0     | 0     | 0      | 0      | 0      | 12    |
| NY    | Ontario      | 948           | 64    | 16    | 27    | 0      | 0      | 0      | 3     |
| PA    | Allegheny    | 6621          | 2501  | 418   | 11    | 15     | 454    | 6      | 6     |
|       | Bedford      | 9954          | 1064  | 191   | 20    | 24     | 1784   | 15     | 0     |
|       | Fayette      | 9317          | 2110  | 592   | 114   | 99     | 758    | 0      | 0     |
|       | Washington   | 16103         | 5278  | 656   | 76    | 117    | 1374   | 0      | 13    |
|       | Westmoreland | 9301          | 3559  | 616   | 62    | 71     | 2243   | 0      | 0     |
| VA    | Harrison     | 1242          | 156   | 51    | 7     | 14     | 29     | 0      | 8     |
|       | Monongalia   | 2019          | 192   | 91    | 0     | 0      | 0      | 0      | 0     |
|       | Ohio         | 0             | 0     | 0     | 0     | 0      | 0      | 0      | 0     |

16. Unfortunately, the census did not differentiate between the Scots and Scots-Irish who lived in the United States.

17. Similar ethnic distribution resulted in the states' regional populations as well, see Figures 2, 3, 3, Appendix A.

18. 1790 US Census Data, United States Historical Census A Data Browser, Geospatial and Statistical Data Center, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA 4 April 2001, 9 April 2001 <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/census>>.



19. Ibid.

20. The Pennsylvania Gazette 17 April 1782, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 26 May 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>; Mary Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's Journal from Philadelphia to Kentucky, 1787-1788," PMHB 28 (1904): 186; Israel Shreve, "Journal from Jersey to the Monongahala, August 11, 1788," PMHB 52 (1928): 198-199; Lewis Conduct, "Journal of a Trip to Kentucky in 1795," Proceedings of the New Jersey Historical Society new ser., 4 (1919): 113; 9 January 1796, 1 July 1796, Pittsburgh Gazette; 3 June 1795, [1795], Diaries, Box 1, Robert Ayres Papers, Library and Archives Division, Western Pennsylvania Historical Society; Francis Baily, Journal of a Tour in Unsettled Parts of North America in 1796 & 1797, ed. Jack D. L. Holmes, with a foreword by John Francis McDermott, Travels on the Western Waters, ed. John Francis McDermott (Carbondale: Southern Illinois University, 1969), 61; Increase Matthews, "Diary Kept by Dr. Increase Matthews on a Journey to the Ohio Country, 1798," ed. Willis Adams Bailey, New England Historical and Genealogical Register 86 (January 1932): 36, 40.

21. Conduct, "Journal," 116; Max Farrand, ed., A Journey to Ohio in 1810: As Recorded in the Journal of Margaret van Horn Dwight, (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1913), 29, 50, 53.

22. Silas Chesebrough, "Journal of a Journey to the Westward," American Historical Review 37 (October 1931): 75.

23. Copy of Letter Rob Morris, Phila[delphia] to Chas Williamson, Gutano Co. [?], NY, 12 May 1792, Box 7, McCall Family Papers, #222, Department of Manuscripts and University Archives, Cornell University Library; Jn[?] Johnston, Williamsburg, to Chas Williamson, Northumberland, 9 March 1793, Box 7, McCall Family Papers.

24. Nicholas Cresswell, The Journal of Nicholas Cresswell, 1774-1777 (New York: Dial Press, 1924), 64-65, 98; "Extracts from the Journal of Arthur Lee," in Richard Henry Lee, Life of Arthur Lee, vol. 2, Select Bibliographies Reprint Series (1829; reprint, Freeport, NY: Books for Libraries Press, 1969), 385; Dewees, "Mrs. Mary," 187; Matthews, "Diary," 41; Chesebrough, "Journal," 78.

25. Adlum did not attend the debate. He based his comments on the notes taken by a companion (Donald H. Kent and Merle H. Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum on the Allegheny," PMHB 84 [July 1960]: 287).

26. Kent and Deardorff, ed., "John Adlum," 286-287.

27. Conduct, "Journal," 112-113; Baily, Journal, 47; Dewees, "Mrs. Mary Dewees's," 186; Cresswell, The Journal, 100; Farrand, ed., A Journey, 55.

28. Thomas Ashe, Travels in America, Performed in the Year 1806, for the Purpose of Exploring the Rivers Alleghany, Monongahela, Ohio, and Mississippi, and Ascertaining the Produce and Condition of Their Banks and Vicinity (London: for Richard Phillips by B. McMillan, 1809), 20.

29. 1790 US Census Data, United States Historical Census A Data Browser, Geospatial and Statistical Data Center, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA 4 April 2001, 9 April 2001 <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/census>>.

30. Ibid.

31. Ibid.

32. The following tables include the data used for Appendix C.

| <b>State</b> | <b>Total-1790</b> | <b>Slave-1790</b> | <b>Total-1800</b> | <b>Slave-1800</b> | <b>Total-1810</b> | <b>Slave-1810</b> |
|--------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|
| MD           | 319728            | 103036            | 341543            | 105635            | 380546            | 111502            |
| NY           | 340241            | 21193             | 586613            | 20613             | 959049            | 15017             |
| PA           | 433611            | 3707              | 602365            | 1706              | 810019            | 795               |
| VA           | 747550            | 292627            | 885171            | 346671            | 974622            | 392518            |

| <b>State</b> | <b>County</b> | <b>Total-1790</b> | <b>Slave-1790</b> | <b>Total-1800</b> | <b>Slave-1800</b> | <b>Total-1810</b> | <b>Slave-1810</b> |
|--------------|---------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|-------------------|
| MD           | Allegany      | 4809              | 258               | 6303              | 499               | 6909              | 620               |
| NY           | Allegany      | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 1942              | 21                |
|              | Niagara       | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 8971              | 8                 |
|              | Ontario       | 1074              | 10                | 15218             | 57                | 0                 | 0                 |
| PA           | Allegheny     | 10203             | 159               | 15087             | 79                | 25317             | 24                |
|              | Armstrong     | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 6143              | 0                 |
|              | Beaver        | 0                 | 0                 | 5776              | 4                 | 12168             | 8                 |
|              | Bedford       | 13132             | 46                | 12039             | 5                 | 15746             | 1                 |
|              | Butler        | 0                 | 0                 | 3916              | 1                 | 7346              | 0                 |
|              | Cambria       | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 2117              | 6                 |
|              | Crawford      | 0                 | 0                 | 2346              | 5                 | 6178              | 2                 |
|              | Erie          | 0                 | 0                 | 1468              | 2                 | 3758              | 18                |
|              | Fayette       | 13318             | 282               | 20159             | 92                | 24714             | 58                |
|              | Greene        | 0                 | 0                 | 8605              | 22                | 12544             | 10                |
|              | Indiana       | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 0                 | 6214              | 0                 |
|              | Mercer        | 0                 | 0                 | 3228              | 5                 | 8277              | 3                 |
|              | Somerset      | 0                 | 0                 | 10188             | 0                 | 11284             | 0                 |
|              | Venango       | 0                 | 0                 | 1130              | 0                 | 3060              | 0                 |
|              | Warren        | 0                 | 0                 | 230               | 0                 | 827               | 0                 |
|              | Washington    | 23892             | 263               | 28298             | 84                | 36289             | 36                |
|              | Westmoreland  | 16019             | 128               | 22726             | 136               | 26392             | 20                |
| VA           | Brooke        | 0                 | 0                 | 4706              | 288               | 5843              | 332               |
|              | Harrison      | 2080              | 67                | 4848              | 245               | 9958              | 459               |
|              | Monongalia    | 4768              | 154               | 8540              | 163               | 12793             | 351               |
|              | Ohio          | 5212              | 281               | 4740              | 257               | 8175              | 440               |

33. Ibid.

34. Ibid.

35. Ibid.

36. Gary B. Nash and Jean R. Soderlund, Freedom by Degrees: Emancipation in Pennsylvania and Its Aftermath (New York: Oxford University Press, 1991), 9-10, 42, 99, 103, 111, 138; Thomas E. Drake, Quakers and Slavery in America (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1950; reprint, Gloucester, MA: Peter Smith, 1965), 61-67, 72-73, 78-80, 82-84; 1 March 1780, "An Act for the Gradual Abolition of Slavery," in The Statutes at Large of Pennsylvania, from 1682 to 1801, vol. 10, 1779 to 1781, comp. James T. Mitchell and Henry Flanders (n.c.: Wm. Stanley Ray, 1904), 67, 70; 29 March 1788, "An Act to Explain and Amend an Act Entitled 'An Act for the Gradual Abolition of Slavery,'" in The Statutes, vol. 13, 1787 to 1790, comp. James T. Mitchell and Henry Flanders (Harrisburg: Harrisburg Publishing Co., 1908), 52.

37. Samuel S. Forman, Narrative of a Journey Down the Ohio and Mississippi in 1789-1790, ed. Lyman C. Draper, The First American Frontier, ed. Dale Van Every (1888; reprint, Arno Press and New York Times, 1971), 20-22.

38. Edgar J. McManus, A History of Negro Slavery in New York, with a foreword by Richard B. Morris (Syracuse: Syracuse University Press, 1966), 174-175, 178.

39. Other states that Congress organized from the Old Northwest included Indiana, Illinois, Michigan, and Wisconsin.

40. Charles C. Tansill, ed., Documents Illustrative of the Formation of the Union of the American States (Washington, DC: Government Printing Office, 1927; reprint, n.c.: n.p., 1965), 54.

41. Sec[tion] 5, Article VII, Section 1, Sec[tion] 2, Article VIII, Constitution Of the State Of Ohio, 1802, Ohio Fundamental Documents, The Ohio Historical Society, 8 June 2001 <<http://www.ohiohistory.org/online/doc/ohgovernment/constitution/cnst1802.html>>

42. The following table includes the data used for appendices D and E.

| State | County    | 1790 | 1800 | 1810 |
|-------|-----------|------|------|------|
| MD    | Allegany  | 258  | 499  | 620  |
| NY    | Allegany  | 0    | 0    | 21   |
|       | Niagara   | 0    | 0    | 8    |
|       | Ontario   | 10   | 57   | 0    |
| PA    | Allegheny | 159  | 79   | 24   |
|       | Armstrong | 0    | 0    | 0    |
|       | Beaver    | 0    | 4    | 8    |
|       | Bedford   | 46   | 5    | 1    |
|       | Butler    | 0    | 1    | 0    |
|       | Cambria   | 0    | 0    | 6    |
|       | Crawford  | 0    | 5    | 2    |
|       | Erie      | 0    | 2    | 18   |

|    |              |     |     |     |
|----|--------------|-----|-----|-----|
|    | Fayette      | 282 | 92  | 58  |
|    | Greene       | 0   | 22  | 10  |
|    | Indiana      | 0   | 0   | 0   |
|    | Mercer       | 0   | 5   | 3   |
|    | Somerset     | 0   | 0   | 0   |
|    | Venango      | 0   | 0   | 0   |
|    | Warren       | 0   | 0   | 0   |
|    | Washington   | 263 | 84  | 36  |
|    | Westmoreland | 128 | 136 | 20  |
| VA | Brooke       | 0   | 288 | 332 |
|    | Harrison     | 67  | 245 | 459 |
|    | Monongalia   | 154 | 163 | 351 |
|    | Ohio         | 281 | 257 | 440 |
|    | Wood         | 0   | 61  | 450 |

43. 1790 US Census Data, United States Historical Census A Data Browser, Geospatial and Statistical Data Center, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA 4 April 2001, 9 April 2001 <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/census>>.

44. Ibid.

45. Harper, The Transformation, 20-21; David Brion Davis, The Problem of Slavery in the Age of Revolution (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1975), 312-313; McManus, A History, 181-182.

46. McManus, A History, 112-113; 25 March 1797, Pittsburgh Gazette.

47. Nash and Soderlund, Freedom, 138; 14 January 1797, Pittsburgh Gazette; Letter to Col. William McClanahan from Rich[ar]d Woods, 7 February 1807, Re: Purchase of land, Box 5; Letter to Archibald Woods, Wheeling, from Geo[rge] Hancock, [Fincastle], 9 January 1809, Re: Slaves and land, Box 6; Letter to Arch[ibald] Woods, Ohio County, Wheeling, Va., from J<sup>no</sup> Evans, 11 November 1809, Re: "Negroes" for sale, Box 6, Archibald Woods Papers, Manuscripts and Rare Books Department, Swem Library, College of William and Mary.

48. 20 March 1799, A Journal Regarding the Settling Alexander Henderson's Land on the Little Kanawha, 1798-1803, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers, West Virginia and Regional History Collection, West Virginia University Libraries; Letter to Archi[bal]d Woods, Wheeling, from J. Bennet(?), 24 August 1805, Re: Sale of slave, Archibald Woods Papers.

49. McManus, A History, 178; 29 March 1788, "An Act to Explain and Amend an Act Entitled 'An Act for the Gradual Abolition of Slavery,'" in The Statutes, vol. 13, 1787 to 1790, 55-56.

50. Forman, Narrative, 21.

51. Trist Diary; 16 December 1789, Journal of the Rev. Rob<sup>t</sup> Ayres for the year A.D. 1789 Being the first year after his Ordination in the Episcopal Church, Box 1, 28 June 1796, "A Memorandum or Diary for 1796 Commencing from Christma[s]s 1795," Box 1, Robert Ayres Papers, Library and Archives Division, Western Pennsylvania Historical Society; 13 April 1799, 20 April 1799, A Journal, Henderson and Tomlinson [Families] Papers; Letter to Mrs. Ann Woods, Wheeling, from Polly Wilson, Morgan Town, 19 September 1807, Re: "Fever" in area, Box 5, Archibald Woods Papers.

52. The free black population in the Upper Ohio River Valley was small, totaling 185 in 1790. Although thirty-six free blacks, or 19 percent, inhabited Virginia's regional counties, the remainder lived in the northern states of Pennsylvania and New York. Thus, a clear majority of the region's free blacks received these rights (1790 US Census Data, United States Historical Census A Data Browser, Geospatial and Statistical Data Center, University of Virginia Library, Charlottesville, VA 4 April 2001, 9 April 2001 <<http://fisher.lib.virginia.edu/census>>).

53. All freemen of Albany and freemen of New York City, who attained that status before 14 October 1775, also had the right to vote.

54. Charles H. Wesley, "Negro Suffrage in the Period of Constitution-Making, 1787-1865," Journal of Negro History 32 (April 1947): 154-155, 160; Sect[ion] 6, Chapter II, Constitution of Pennsylvania 1776, Pennsylvania Constitution Web Page, Duquesne University Law School, Pittsburgh, PA, 5 June 2001 <<http://www.paconstitution.duq.edu/con76.html>>; Section I, Article III, Constitution of the Commonwealth of Pennsylvania [1790], Pennsylvania Constitution Web Page, Duquesne University Law School, Pittsburgh, PA, 5 June 2001 <<http://www.paconstitution.duq.edu/con90.html>>; VII, XIII, Constitution of New York, 20 April 1777, Major Documents Collection, The Avalon Project, Yale Law School, New Haven, CT, 1 June 2001 <<http://www.yale.edu/lawweb/avalon/states/ny01.htm>>.

55. Section 1, Article IV, Constitution Of the State Of Ohio, 1802, Ohio Fundamental Documents, The Ohio Historical Society, 8 June 2001 <<http://www.ohiohistory.org/onlinedoc/ohgovernment/constitution/cnst1802.html>>.

56. McManus, A History, 178; I, Chapter I, Constitution of Pennsylvania 1776, Pennsylvania Constitution Web Page, Duquesne University Law School, Pittsburgh, PA, 5 June 2001 <<http://www.paconstitution.duq.edu/con76.html>>; Section I, Article IX, Constitution of the Commonwealth of Pennsylvania [1790], Pennsylvania Constitution Web Page, Duquesne University Law School, Pittsburgh, PA, 5 June 2001 <<http://www.paconstitution.duq.edu/con90.html>>; Section 1, Article VIII, Constitution Of the State Of Ohio, 1802, Ohio Fundamental Documents, The Ohio Historical Society, 8 June 2001 <<http://www.ohiohistory.org/onlinedoc/ohgovernment/constitution/cnst1802.html>>; Return of Franklin Township, Greene County Records, 1785-1877, HSWP Archives MSS #97.

57. Nash and Soderlund, Freedom, 12-13; McManus, A History, 178.

58. McManus, A History, 112; “An Act” in The Statutes, vol. 10, 1779 to 1781, 67, 70; Forman, Narrative, 20-21.

59. Nash and Soderlund, Freedom, 167-168, 170, 172, 187-188.

60. Wesley, “Negro,” 155-160.

#### Endnotes for Conclusion

1. Joseph S. Wood, “The Idea of a National Road” in The National Road, ed. Karl Raitz, The Road and American Culture, ed. Drake Hokanson (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996), 109.

2. The Pennsylvania Gazette 25 April 1792, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 9 February 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>> .

3. John Vanmetre and Others, Petition for ferry at Short Creek, 10 July 1788, Box 1, Archibald Woods Papers, Manuscripts and Rare Books Department, Swem Library, College of William and Mary.

4. Pennsylvania carved Butler County from Allegheny County in 1800.

5. Copy of 4 Section of the Act of Congre[s]s pa[s]sed 29 March 1806, Virginia Board of Public Works, Accession BPW 238, Cumberland Road in Virginia, Virginia State Library and Archives, Richmond, VA; Original Road Ordinances, 1804-1812, Box 14, Butler County Records 1800-1861, MSS #49, HSWP Archives, Pittsburgh.

6. 30 [August 1817], Thomas Stewardson Journal, Diaries of Thomas Stewardson, 1817, Call #632B, Historical Society of Pennsylvania, Philadelphia, PA.

7. Buck and Back, The Planting, 321, 323; Silas Chesebrough, “Journal of a Journey to the Westward,” American Historical Review 37 (October 1931): 76.

8. Harper, The Transformation, 89; Thomas Ashe, Travels in America, Performed in the Year 1806, for the Purpose of Exploring the Rivers Alleghany, Monongahela, Ohio, and Mississippi, and Ascertaining the Produce and Condition of Their Banks and Vicinity (London: for Richard Phillips by B. McMillan, 1809), 19; Schultz, Jr., Travels, 125, 136-137.

9. Ashe, Travels, 30, 37; Silas Chesebrough, “Journal of a Journey to the Westward,” American Historical Review 37 (October 1931): 74, 80.

10. 19 January 1793, 1 March 1794, 13 September 1809, Pittsburgh Gazette.

11. Solon J. Buck and Elizabeth Hawthorn Buck, The Planting of Civilization in Western Pennsylvania (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 1939), 372, 388-389, 392-394, 397; 19 January 1793, 4 October 1794, 29 April 1797, Pittsburgh Gazette; Letter to [Archibald] Woods et. al. from W. M. Cleery (?), Morgans Town, 15 February 1788, Box 1, Archibald Woods Papers; The Pennsylvania Gazette 9 July 1800, The Pennsylvania Gazette 1728-1800, Accessible Archives, Penn State Altoona Library, Altoona, PA, 26 April 2001 <<http://accessible.palinet.org/>>.
12. Buck and Buck, The Planting, 437; Schultz, Jr., Travels, 124; Chesebrough, "Journal," 78, 81; 30 [August 1817], Thomas Stewardson Journal, Diaries of Thomas Stewardson.
13. Anthony F. C. Wallace, The Death and Rebirth of the Seneca (New York: Random House, 1969; reprint, New York: Vintage Books, 1972), 184, 193, 199-201, 217-220.
14. Jackson clearly recorded the speech using his own words. Gyantwahia also appeared to use words to create an image that would appeal to Jackson.
15. Anthony F. C. Wallace, ed., "Halliday Jackson's Journal to the Seneca Indians," Pennsylvania History 19 (1952): 128-129.
16. Wallace, ed., "Halliday Jackson's," 128-129.
17. 6 [September 1817], Thomas Stewardson Journal, Diaries of Thomas Stewardson.
18. Brotherton Indians relocated to Oneida territory by the early the 1780s. These tribes included Mohegans, Narragansetts, Mahicans, Wappingers, and Montauks.
19. Stockbridge Indians also relocated and settled near the Oneida. They included Mahicans and Munsee.
20. 20 [September 1817], Thomas Stewardson Journal, Diaries of Thomas Stewardson.
21. Wallace, The Death, 200; Wallace, ed., "Halliday Jackson's," 145; 20 [September 1817], Thomas Stewardson Journal, Diaries of Thomas Stewardson.
22. 20 [September 1817], Thomas Stewardson Journal, Diaries of Thomas Stewardson.